

The History of Greek Philosophy
in
Outline

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Preface.

This short outline of the history of philosophy has been written chiefly to serve as the basis for the lectures on philosophical propaedeutics which, under the new arrangement of the philosophical course for the youngest students, I am to give this year; but it may also be used by those who wish, by private study, to gain a survey of the historical development of philosophy. I have endeavored to leave out everything superfluous to a clear survey, and to include everything that is necessary for one.

I have had to work out this book during a long and dangerous illness, which often left me only little strength, and prevented me from going back to the sources again as often as I could have wished. The conditions under which I have had to work must serve as an excuse for some of the book's shortcomings, to which I myself have not closed my eyes. I hope, however, that the book may be of some use to students, and in particular that it may give them a more reliable guide than Schwegler's compendium, used for many years, easily and attractively written, but in a high degree faulty.

Of the earlier works on the history of philosophy that have helped me in working out this book, I name before all others *Eduard Zeller's* excellent, comprehensive and thorough work on Greek philosophy, which is the fruit of a rare union of comprehensive and reliable learning, acute and sound criticism, and philosophical insight, and has brought light to countless points in the philosophy of antiquity, and advanced its study more than any other earlier or contemporary work. In this part of my book I have followed Zeller in the whole division of the material, if partly with a different motivation, and on many points in the presentation of particulars I have been able to keep close to him.

From my earlier book, *Bidrag til Opfattelsen af Philosophiens historiske Udvikling*, various smaller portions have been taken up into this one, partly unchanged, partly with slight reworking. The two books nevertheless keep an independent position beside one another. The earlier book sought the laws of the historical development of philosophy, illustrated the laws it found by historical examples, and through these gained the material

for a characterization of the main historical forms of philosophy. The present book is to give a perspicuous, connected presentation of the whole development of philosophy, articulated according to the main forms that the earlier book distinguished.

The second part of this book, which contains the history of modern philosophy, will appear toward the end of the year.

Copenhagen, May 30, 1873.

H. Brøchner.

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[1]

Introduction.

1. The Concept of Philosophy; Its Peculiarity as a Science; Its Relation to Consciousness.

Within the common determination of scientific knowledge, philosophy differs from the other sciences by the scope of its object, by the peculiarity of its method, and by its relation of consciousness to its knowledge. Whereas the particular sciences either, like zoology, astronomy and empirical psychology, have as their object a definite, bounded domain of natural or spiritual reality, or, like mathematics, a single abstract determination

of what is, philosophy has as its object the whole concrete reality as a unity, in its determinateness by the principle of existence. It is, according to its concept, *thinking determined by principle, carried through, and coherent*. Therefore it does not, like the other sciences, take up fundamental concepts as presuppositions that are not proved; but in going back to the ultimate ground of existence and letting it show itself as that which is grounded in itself, it thereby grounds the fundamental concepts of the individual sciences, and, in seeing them as unfolding themselves out of the principle, it determines their place in the realm of knowledge, their relations, and the limit of their validity. And whereas the other sciences in their knowing turn, as it were, outward, toward their object, but do not bend thought back upon the very relation between knowledge and object, do not make the possibility of a real and true appropriation in thought of the object, the given, into a problem, and therefore always lay themselves open to an attack from [2] the doubt that denies the possibility of that appropriation, philosophy in its knowing undertakes, as it were, a doubling of consciousness, whereby a consciousness of our consciousness is gained, a knowledge of our knowledge, of its task and its fundamental relation. But this potentiated consciousness, which with one glance sees itself, its object, and its relation to the object, is gained definitively precisely only by going back to that in which our thought and the existent meet, to the principle that unites the fundamental oppositions of existence and is at once the ground of spirit and of nature.

Such a universal knowledge as philosophical knowledge, characterized according to its ideal goal, is grounded in the most original fundamental relation of human consciousness itself, and is present as an unconscious demand in the first elementary movements of the thinking human mind. If we seek the reason why man, as he stands over against the object in the relation of consciousness, is not content with the phenomenon as it is immediately given, does not lose himself, as if staring, in the object, but seeks to convert the given into something determined by reflection, into something conceived, and thus to dissolve it as given, we find the reason in this: that mind, which is consciousness, is so only because it is self-consciousness, and is driven by its unity to set the content of self-consciousness and of consciousness in unity. But this can happen only as the self-conscious mind finds itself again in what is the object of consciousness, and this finding-again in turn becomes possible only as the object is transformed into thought and what exists becomes, in this transformation, the image of mind. And since the unity of mind contains this demand for an abolition of the separation between the object of self-consciousness and that of consciousness, it contains at the same time the demand that the latter in its transformation form a unity, that the fragmentary and scattered, and

the contradiction inseparable from it, be lifted, and that real existence, as explained in thought, close together into a unity, united in the last instance by an all-grounding and thus for the first time truly grounding principle. Only in such a knowledge, in which [3] every object of consciousness is transformed into a determination of self-consciousness and the foreignness of the object is lifted through the knowledge of its essence, is the contradiction removed between the inner infinity of self-consciousness and its limitation by a consciousness of something foreign, between the subjective form and the objective content of consciousness, between the I's knowledge of itself as a transparent unity and as determined by something that is in the I and yet different from the I. The drive of knowledge that stirs in the human mind from the very first can be satisfied only by the annulment of these contradictions, that is: by a *universal* knowing, and this is one with philosophical knowing, determined according to its ideal goal. Philosophical knowledge thus issues with necessity from human nature, from the drive that marks the essential peculiarity of that nature, and it has its goal set by what lies originally in the determinateness of that being.

2. The Historical Development of Philosophy; the Form of the Development.

In man's essence as mind lies the necessity of a historical development, through which mind, as the free mind, acquires by its own activity what was originally laid down in it as a gift, as a natural endowment. Only what is mind's own deed is the real property of the free mind; only through a free development does mind become itself. This holds also of mind as knowing mind. Even if self-consciousness and thought are the fundamental determination in the human, that which is the distinctive mark of essence of the human, man must nevertheless reach self-consciousness and thought through a development, and a series of stages of development must be traversed by mankind before the universal form of thinking that we designate as the philosophical can find its beginning, from which a new, infinite development is then set for it as law. Only when the concept of a unity of existence in its principle comes forward for thought is [4] the condition given for the possibility of philosophy, of universal knowledge. But that concept can come forward only where the human mind has won the consciousness of its freedom. For without this inner liberation of mind, which includes its instinctive confidence in its own power, thought would not be able to set itself the universal task: ideally to master the totality of the phenomenon in its infinitely changing manifoldness by finding its grounding unity, and through the knowledge of this unity to reach that

relation to itself in its object which is precisely a relation of freedom. Only on the presupposition of the freedom of mind, therefore, can a philosophy be conceived; but the freedom of mind first comes to be where its consciousness of being higher than the natural, of being master over it, begins to dawn.

Thus the historical *beginning* of philosophy is conditioned; and already in the determination given above of the peculiarity of philosophy there lies an intimation of the form of its historical *development*. Since philosophical knowledge strives to lead the whole given reality back to its grounding principle, and is philosophical precisely by this striving, philosophy stands from the beginning in a necessary relation to the thought of the *Absolute*, to the thought of the *principle* of the *totality* of existence. But since the principle is the principle of an existence in which essential fundamental oppositions, distinct fundamental forms, appear, it is, according to its concept, a full unity of opposites, and must as such come to be for philosophical consciousness in the course of the latter's deeper and deeper penetration into the knowledge of the essence of existence. But in this advancing knowledge the different positions that the fundamental moments of the unity, which from the beginning of philosophy, at least in the form of a dawning thought, are objects for consciousness, take up toward one another precisely through that very advance, must with necessity condition essentially different conceptions of the principle, [5] the Absolute, and these different conceptions must ground a distinction of main forms of philosophy in its historical development, and determine the fundamental character of these main forms. The sequence of the historical main forms of philosophy must be determined by the essential relation between the forms of existence: spirit and nature, the fundamental moments in the thought of the Absolute, and by what was stated above as the condition for the coming-to-be of philosophy. A lawfulness grounded in essence will thus determine the historical course of development in its great divisions, and within each single main form of philosophy we shall see the same lawfulness govern the development in its particulars. The principle of the main form will show itself as its law, as its inner impelling and moving energy of development, as that which conceals within itself, as its conceptual moments, the principles of the individual systems it comprises. In the principles of the individual systems the principle of the whole unfolds itself; it grows, culminates and dissolves through them, and, while governing them unconsciously to the thinkers, it reveals the more comprehensive by which it is itself determined and which governs its own unfolding and dissolution. Thus the single main division is understood in its articulation from one central thought, which governs the division as a whole in its unfolding, and by the same fundamental thought it is fitted into the law-determined

total development of human knowledge.

3. Survey of the Historical Development of Philosophy.

The historically given forms of philosophy gather essentially into two distinctively formed main divisions: *Greek philosophy and the philosophy of modern times*. Greek philosophy is the beginning of philosophy; for only in the Greek spirit's consciousness of itself as free was the condition given for a knowledge philosophical in the stricter sense, which had been lacking among the older civilized peoples. In this first main form of philosophy thought expressed the principate of the spiritual in the form in which [6] this first had to appear: in the form of the immediate unity of beauty of nature and of the spirit that governs and ensouls nature. Since the dominion of spirit reveals itself to intuition in the harmony of beauty, the unity is still in the form of *nature*, in the *immediacy* of harmony. The intuition of the universe as a world-work of art is the intuition in which spirit finds rest; the universe becomes the cosmos ensouled by ideas, the immediate unity of form and matter. But in this Greek fundamental view there lay hidden an opposition which the Greek spirit could not master, and which had to lead to the dissolution of the first philosophical main form and to the development of a new form of spirit's world-view. In the intuition of the world-work of art the union of the opposites, of form and matter, spirit and nature, was a merely immediate one; but since the union is only the immediate union of what is not posited through one another, i.e. of what is originally distinct in essence, the opposition is not in truth overcome and reconciled, but breaks forth unavoidably as soon as concept-determining thought, in its clear development, distinguishes what for intuition, and for thought still resting in intuition, was unseparated in the unity of the work of art. But when the separation between the fundamental opposites then comes forward in the form of the concept, the thought that has distinguished the opposites cannot unite them again so long as it does not wholly abandon the ground of that world-view; and this it will not be able to do as Greek thought, because as such it has a nature-determined limitation of essence that binds it to that form of unity: to the immediate unity of beauty, which expresses the peculiar determinateness of essence of Greek thought, bound as it is to intuition. It must therefore end in fruitless attempts, once the consciousness of the discord, of the dualism of the opposites, has been awakened, to find a unity again. The goal after which it strives without being able to reach it must become: to assert that among the moments of existence which in the Greek world-view had been conceived as the highest

- [7] and as the true reality, the spiritual, as the only one, as all reality, and thus to develop a spiritualistic view of existence, to which, however, only another spirit of the age could give such carrying-through as is possible at all.

In opposition to the distinctively Greek world-view, which expressed the immediate dominion of spirit over the natural ensouled by it, such a spiritualistic world-view must conceive the spiritual, in its distinction from the natural determined as essenceless, as alone valid. This conception becomes the distinguishing mark of the span of time that follows classical antiquity: of the Christian Middle Ages. But on the basis of this nature-denying world-view, as will be shown more closely later, no independent and distinctively formed philosophy could arise. As nature was given up, thought lost its basis and its incitement to development, that in which it has its confirmation; withdrawing into pure spirituality and denying an essential side of the human, it got only a contentless, merely negative ideality, from which no unfolding of thought could issue. What has been called a Christian philosophy shows itself, in its development among the Church Fathers and the Scholastics, as a dependent and unprincipled external linking-together of a content of thought taken up from the thought of antiquity and belonging to a foreign, natural world-view, and of a Christian content of faith, inaccessible to thought, incomprehensible: two elements which, by virtue of their difference in essence, can never be united into a real unity or a whole of thought. The "Christian philosophy" itself becomes conscious, in Scholasticism, of the inner strife between its heterogeneous constituents and their heterogeneous principles, and through the acknowledgment of their heterogeneity pronounces judgment on itself as philosophy.

- Only at the close of the Middle Ages, when Scholasticism had dissolved itself through its inner contradiction, and when the renewed acquaintance with antiquity had again brought the spirit, prepared for it by historical development, nearer to the world-view that had been peculiar to Greek antiquity, did the development of a new main form of philosophy become possible. The removal from nature had made the thought of the Middle Ages unfruitful; the rehabilitation of nature and of nature-grounded, autonomous human thinking was the condition for the rebirth of philosophy, and the second main form of philosophy, the philosophy of modern times, comes forward independent and freely formed after thinking, through a renewed, intimate attachment to antiquity, had in a transitional time gained strength and content, and developed a wealth of forms which, with all the energetic, youthfully fresh striving that asserts itself through them, were nevertheless still bound by the past, and had not brought to clarity an independently formed principle or been worked through to inner consistency.

The characteristic peculiarity of the *philosophy of modern times* is its striving for a unity of thought, proceeding from the presupposition of the absolute difference between the fundamental forms of existence: nature and spirit. This peculiarity was conditioned by what historically preceded it. By the view of life of the Middle Ages the sharp dualistic separation had been posited between spirit, the one true, and nature, the essenceless and untrue. The systems of the transitional period, the age of the philosophical Renaissance, had fought against this dualism, but, bound as they were to the fundamental form of Greek thinking, and unconsciously influenced by the Middle Ages, they had not been able to overcome it. They left this task unsolved to modern philosophy, and with it the unconscious after-effect of the presuppositions of the Middle Ages. The relation between the fundamental moments could therefore, for modern philosophy, no longer be, as with the Greeks, that of immediate harmony, which conceals the discord present at bottom; the relation is from the beginning that of the opposition between spirit, recognized in its essentiality, and nature, restored in its essentiality. This opposition is to be brought to unity, but the unity can, precisely because of the presupposition lying in the starting [9] point, become only a one-sided unity, one in which one of the sides of the opposition has vanished, and the remaining one, which seems to comprise everything, in reality gets only the determination it had within the opposition. In the very kind of the unity, then, the unreconciled opposition must show its influence. The end point of the development must in this philosophical main form, too, reveal the defect hidden in the starting point. Whether it ends in spiritless nature (materialism) or in natureless spirit (Hegel), the one-sidedness is the same. In both cases thought's striving for unity is influenced and hampered by dualism. There is a striving toward the goal: to unite the two positive fundamental opposites of existence into a true unity, rich in content; but the thought of the unity, of the highest, all-comprehending essentiality, is determined only under the hidden influence of the dualistic presupposition, and the conception of it therefore becomes one-sided and inconsistent. In both cases, therefore, modern philosophy fails in the solution of its task, which was: to overcome dualism; and in leaving this task unsolved it intimates, albeit only in abstract and negative form, the goal for the *philosophy of the future*, which, according to the relations of the concepts, becomes the last possible main form of philosophy, but in its principle includes the condition for an unbounded development in time.

In the first main form of philosophy the relation between the fundamental opposites in existence was determined by immediate unity, in the second by abstract opposition. After both conceptions have proved impracticable, only one relation is still thinkable:

that of the unity of opposition. In order to solve its task, the philosophy of the future must recognize the essential peculiarity of spirit and of nature, of the ideal and of the real, and see their difference of essence as an opposition, but as an opposition that is grounded in, and closed together into unity in, the ideal-real principle determined as [10] absolute subjectivity. — Two main forms of philosophy thus lie before us historically as wholly concluded, and by the fundamental problem they have posed but not solved they point toward a third main form, whose development, which by the abstract formula itself is intimated as conditioned by philosophical thought's appropriating and assimilating to itself the sciences that relate immediately to the real, belongs to the future, the whole future.

Perspicuously, the fundamental relation between the three main forms, in which the completeness of the division lies, can be stated in the following schema, which shows the fundamental conception of the Absolute in the different main forms, and the fundamental relation they posit between the fundamental opposites of existence.

1. **Greek Philosophy.**

The Idea revealed in the cosmic work of art (Kosmos).

(Immediate unity of nature and spirit.)

2. **The Philosophy of Modern Times.**

*Nature = matter =
non-spirit.*

*Spirit (I — absolute spirit) =
non-nature = the non-material.*

(Abstract opposition of nature and spirit.)

3. **The Philosophy of the Future.**

Absolute subjectivity as ideal-real principle of existence.

(Unity-in-opposition of nature and spirit.)

[11]

First Main Division.

Greek Philosophy.

1. The Historical Presuppositions for the Emergence of Philosophy among the Greeks.

When philosophy appears among the Greeks at the boundary between the 7th and the 6th century before Christ, the Greek people had already run through many stages of its history and, in its political and social conditions and in its spiritual productions, had brought about the conditions that were necessary to prepare a philosophical thinking.

Thales, the father of philosophy, is preceded, within the span of the Greek people's history known to us, not only by the time of which we have the ideal image in the Homeric songs, the people's heroic youth, in which myth and history meet, just as gods and men meet in combat and in love; but also by the period of the migrations of the Greek tribes, in which the peoples were mingled, the old patriarchal forms of state were overthrown, and the Greek peoples spread out beyond the borders of Greece proper and came into immediate contact with the older culture of the Orient.

At the beginning of the 6th century we find among the Greeks not only a material development, by which the external conditions of life were secured, and conditions were thereby brought about under which thought could have *otium*; but we find as well, during the transformation of the constitutions, which had already in part led to [12] republican forms of state, an exertion of force and a free development of force in the sphere of civic life which could not but hasten the development of the whole spiritual life; and we find finally, through the change of the tribes' homelands and especially through colonization, a ferment brought about in minds which was bound to become of decisive significance for the life of consciousness. It is not in Greece itself, but in its colonies on the Asiatic coast, that the first philosophical attempts were made. This head start of the colonies was nothing accidental; it was conditioned by the very breaking-away from the accustomed, from what in the homeland had through long habit acquired, as it were, a nimbus of holiness, such as tends to surround what is venerable by age and inherited from the fathers, and by the reflection that was necessarily bound to be awakened by the comparison between the native and the foreign, by the adaptation of the old customs and forms to the new, altered conditions.

And while favorable conditions for the breakthrough of philosophical thinking were thus brought about through the political conditions, it was more directly prepared and supported through the development of the spiritual life of the Greeks, and in particular through definite forms of the expression of spiritual activity which aim in the same

direction as philosophical inquiry proper. As such we single out the oldest cosmological attempts, the religion of the mysteries, and the incipient ethical reflection.

In the oldest cosmological attempts, such as they were made by Hesiodos, Pherekydes, Epimenides, Akusilaos and the Orphics, we find as it were the harbingers of a philosophy of nature, attempts which were bound to determine the direction of thinking and to set it the task of leading the multiplicity of natural existence back to its first ground. And since these attempts, which agree in this comprehensive leading-back, differ from one
 [13] another not only in the details of execution but in the place they give to the most perfect, the highest and the mightiest: as the conclusion of the world's development or as its beginning, they thereby also bring essential problems before comparative thinking.

In the religion of the mysteries there lie incitements for thinking in the doctrine of the unity of the divine, though it is expressed in vague and indeterminate forms, in the views of nature that were laid down in the sacred legends, and in the belief in an immortality, chiefly in the form of the transmigration of souls, which stood in connection with the conception of man's moral vocation.

In the incipient ethical reflection among the Greeks, which meets us already in Homer and Hesiodos, but acquires a more determinate and more developed form in the older lyric poets and in the gnomic poets of the 6th century, contemporary with incipient philosophy, and is concentrated in pregnant sayings in the "Seven Sages," we find not only in general a preparation of thought for a sharp and sound conception of essential relations in human existence, but we find a progressive development, through which a unified view of life more and more begins to work its way forward, and the notion of the divine as moral power is purified, and the thought of an ethical retribution is clarified and refined.

But what thus shows itself as essential preparations and effective incitements for philosophy is nevertheless, on the other hand, still qualitatively distinct from it. Ethical reflection is, even in its clear, sharp form of understanding, still the incipient, fragmentary reflection; despite all its subtle observation, it does not consciously lead its individual sayings back to general principles; still less does it ground them theoretically by going back to the nature of man and to the essence of moral activity in general, or seek to comprehend the ground of the moral. And the moral teachings communicated in the
 [14] mysteries, essentially wrapped in religious forms of notion, have the same defect. As regards the doctrine of the religion of the mysteries concerning the Godhead, and the cosmogony's images of the coming-to-be of the world, identical with the becoming of the gods, these do indeed contain germs of thought and incitements to thought; but thought

is still either only dawning and indeterminate, or it is bound by imagination, governed by its power. In the religion of the mysteries the undeveloped thought of unity only glimmers forth as an indeterminate intimation, surrounded by the motley multiplicity of the forms of imagination; and in the cosmological poems, which let existence in its genesis unroll itself before the eye, it is not the principles of reality determined by thought, real powers of nature, that come forward as working lawfully, but creatures of imagination, which, in magical fusion with reality, borrow name and shape from it; and it is not the essence of things that is sought, not their natural grounds, not a comprehension of the law-determined real, but only a childlike, intuitive notion of the coming-to-be of the all, formed in the shape of narrative, through which thoughts and reflexes of experience may indeed shine, but which essentially, in its uncertain double light, is in the medium of the poetizing imagination, which transforms and shapes arbitrarily according to the demands of the heart, and is for the imagination.

At the moment philosophy appears, seeking beyond the fragmentary toward the whole, the sphere in which the mind, in its direction toward totality, formerly moved is transformed. Philosophy separates out in principle the fantastic, which becomes the organ of poetry and mythology; it is not content with indeterminate intimations of thought, wrapped in the forms of imagination, but moves in the element of clear thought, in which it will take up the real as real. And as, seeking the true nature of the case, it asks about the universal ground of this real, it directs itself toward the natural (real) causes of things, toward the powers of reality. When this question about the natural causes of things, causes valid in reality, is posed in universal form, philosophy has begun. It comes into being when thought is consciously directed toward the whole of what is, in order to explore the natural genesis of things, and so to bring about a coherent, universal [15] knowledge, such a knowledge as can only come into being out of the knowledge of the principle.

2. The Central Thought of Greek Philosophy; Its Division as Conditioned by It.

When we are to seek the thought that is to be determined as the central thought of the Greek spirit, as the thought of Greece, we are led to find it through a reflection that offers itself as if of its own accord. We find among the Greek people, as the form for the intuition of the divine, as the ideal of the human being, and as stamped in all the forms of life, as the fundamental character pervading its whole existence: beauty,

harmony. But what characterizes the spiritual self of an entire people and designates its formative principle, that philosophy, as the people's ideal self-knowledge at its highest stage of development, must become conscious of and seek to express, when the people has undisturbed developed an independent thinking, essentially belonging to this people, and above all when the people has developed as naturally and harmoniously as the Greek people. And what is the formative, governing principle of human existence as grasped by thought, that philosophy must, since the human mind must posit itself as the goal of existence, strive to grasp as the determining principle of all existence. Therefore Greek thinking at its height, in seeking to grasp the whole of existence, had to grasp it from the standpoint of beauty as the *all-embracing world-artwork*, as *cosmos*, and in this highest intuition of the Greek spirit the thought of the *Idea* had to come into view as the thought of the ground of the form of beauty, of the absolutely highest, of what truly is.

[16] In analyzing the intuition that was transferred by the Greeks to the whole of existence in its harmonious being, we are led to the distinction of the fundamental moments whose inner relation it was the task of Greek thinking to determine, and this relation contains what is normative for the development of Greek philosophy and the germ of its dissolution.

If, in seeking to analyze the work of art, we take our point of departure from the conception of it as the individual, limited work of art, and make the intuition still more determinate by thinking of the work of art most characteristic of the art of Greece: a plastic work of art, a statue, e.g. of marble or bronze, then it appears that this work of art is what it is by its *form*, that the matter has been absorbed into the form and is in the work of art only as formed matter, so that it has there no independent validity and being beside the form. It appears that the form, which expresses the ideal significance, is not only what completes, what ensouls and inspirits, but that it is what gives the work of art *being* by giving it the being of *beauty*, i.e. *true* being; for beauty is here truth and reality. But as long as we think merely of the individual limited work of art, the matter nevertheless constantly acquires a being that is relatively independent of the form, because it is relatively independent of the work of art. The marble and the bronze also have a being as unformed material before it is fashioned and formed by the artist, and the same form can find its expression in both materials: the connection is not indissoluble. If, on the other hand, we widen that intuition and exchange the notion of the individual limited work of art for the notion of the all-embracing one, of the world-artwork, of the universe as cosmos, then matter no longer acquires this indifferent being; for the universe, for which the form of beauty is the *essential* form of existence,

eternally comprehends in its unity all matter, and form as totality. Matter in general then becomes, since it can no longer find any place beside the all-embracing form, i.e. the form that embraces and forms all matter, only something that is by virtue of the form, of what ensouls the world-artwork. And this is to say in other words: then the principle of form becomes the principle of being and of reality; matter becomes what, [17] torn loose from form, is a non-being, and acquires being and reality only in unity with form. But form is the incorporeal, the ideal; it is as it were of the kindred of spirit, and by form the intuiting Greek thinking, for which the concept of form and that of the forming went together into unity, understood what modern thinking understands by spirit, while matter becomes the corresponding expression for nature, thought of as matter. In the determination of form as the highest and ruling, the primacy of spirit is thus pronounced, and the connection of form with spirit is stated expressly by Greek philosophy itself. Where Aristotle reaches the concept of the highest form, of form in its matter-free purity, the concluding point of his system, at which Greek thinking as it were for a moment rises above itself: there form changes its name and is called *Noûς* [Mind], and this *Noûς* is determined as the energy of the divine thought that uninterruptedly thinks itself, as the eternal *νόησις τῆς νοήσεως*.

If, then, the world-artwork was the highest intuition of the Greek spirit, then that one of the moments of the work of art which is the principle of being becomes its highest content, and the expression in thought of this moment becomes its highest thought. But the expression in thought of this moment, which was grasped not by an abstract but by an intuiting thinking, was the Idea, the intelligible primal form and ground of reality of sensuous existence, independent of space and time and becoming.

The thought of the *Idea* thus becomes the central thought which must govern the development of Greek philosophy, since, through its relation to its opposite: matter, which in the world-artwork is joined with it into harmonious unity, it determines and characterizes the periods of the development, and through the same relation conditions the insurmountable limit of Greek thinking and makes its dissolution inevitable.

In the intuition of the work of art as the unity of form and matter there is, as already indicated above, given an *immediate* union of two moments, of which neither is posited [18] by the other. Matter could not be determined as posited, produced by form; for such a positing, which, given the determination of the ideal as artistic *form*, could not be seen as an original relation of essence in the Idea, as necessary according to the very concept of the ideal, would have had to be conceived by the Greeks as a creating. But this notion was not only constantly foreign to the Greeks, even to the Neoplatonists, but it had to

be so by the nature of the fundamental intuition, the work of art; for in the work of art matter, i.e. what *is to be* formed, is the *presupposition* for form's being able to come into activity. Form, as the form of the work of art, in its immediate being for intuition, has immediately its matter, which it forms. And when the unity is loosened by thought, and form as Idea separates itself from matter, then it presupposes, — not in the sense of time but in the sense of the concept — in its resting being outside matter, precisely matter as that to which it, as the forming, *is to give* form, even if in this separation matter cannot be held fast by thought as a reality. But if matter thus could not be thought as posited by form, it appears still more readily that form could not be thought as posited by matter. For form is not only the higher and ruling, but according to its concept immediately what is untouched by coming-to-be and becoming, the eternal. The unity of the moments has therefore not issued from the one's being grounded in the other; neither of them is the producing that develops the other out of itself. The unity is the one that is immediately present for intuition, but the immediate unity of what has not shown itself as proceeding from one another is an *immediate unity* of something *originally different*, which for thought must again reveal this difference and be separated in unreconciled opposition. It is true that according to the concept form is the ground of all true being; no being and reality can be thought outside it; but since the form of beauty, in order to be as forming

[19] form, in order to give itself reality as such, needs a presupposed matter, this matter, which in its separateness from form had to be comprehended as a $\mu\eta\ \delta\upsilon\nu$, nevertheless constantly acquires, through this separation unavoidable for thought, a kind of being of its own, of presupposed independence: it becomes the contradictory existing non-being.

Through the stated relation between form and matter the course of development of Greek philosophy is now determined, and at the same time the problem is indicated on which this form of thinking was bound to break.

As Greek thinking seeks to find its distinctive world-view and to know the highest principle of existence, and in this striving is guided by what is its most distinctive essence, it must begin with *matter* as that one of the two moments which in its immediate being must be *presupposed* in order that form can act, and through which the forming must reveal itself, in which it must be sought. It must begin by positing matter, the natural, as the principle, but in such a way that from the beginning the material is as it were transformed and betrays something ideal, and that thought, by the very problems that arise when existence in its concretion is to be explained by the material principle, must be driven forward to discover the other moment: form, the *Idea*, *spirit*. When matter is to be conceived as principle, it acquires the character of a universal, and in this a determination

of ideality lies hidden, since the determinateness, the particularity, that conditions the actual being of matter as this matter must vanish under that conception, and since the notion of a chaos as an existing universal matter — a notion that is insufficient to explain the becoming of the manifold, i.e. of the manifoldly formed — cannot be maintained. Matter separated from all form, intuited as chaos, vanishes into a nothing; it acquires only a semblance of being by being represented as the efflux of the forms, thus still as having a last remnant of form in it. The determination of the principle as matter will therefore unavoidably advance toward more ideal determinations: principles such as water, air, unlimited and indeterminate matter will be succeeded by principles such as number, being ($\tauὸ ὄν$), both conceived as the matter of which things consist, as the substance of bodily existence; and as the problem of the coming-to-be of the manifold from the principle, which is necessarily bound up with the problem of the determination of the principle, comes forward and asserts itself as the essential one, the concept of *becoming* becomes that which, while it appropriates unexplained the domain of the sensible, refines the concept of being, which now seeks another domain, into the Idea. And as soon as the concept of the Idea is found: the concept to which matter itself pointed as to its completion, the Idea is posited as the true, essential reality, and the task of thought becomes: to seek an expression for the unity of the two moments in which this presupposition is held fast. But when this task comes forward, it presupposes that thought has consciously separated the two moments which for intuition are united in the unity of the work of art, and the kind of this unity makes impossible, as was touched on above, a new union by Greek thought, for which the immediacy of harmony was the only form of unity. The immediacy of beauty does not tolerate the separating power of thought; therefore thought brings discord into that on which it rests, and through this discord this form of thought must perish. The moments, which in their separation both compel a determination of being for themselves, stand dualistically against each other, and Greek philosophy must end in the fruitless endeavor, after the consciousness of the essential difference of the moments has been clarified, to find once more a reconciliation. [20]

What has been set forth implies that the development of Greek philosophy must run through three main stages. The *first* will be the stage at which the principle of all was sought in nature, in matter; the *second* the stage at which the concept of the Idea had been found, and the unity in what is was sought from the presupposition that the Idea was the true reality; the *third*, finally, will be the stage where the unity was sought from the clearer or dimmer consciousness of the discord of the moments. If we seek names for these three periods that can designate their relation to the central element that is the [21]

moving power of the development, we can name them *the becoming of the doctrine of Ideas, the unfolding of the doctrine of Ideas, and the dissolution of the doctrine of Ideas.*

Chapter One.

The First Period of Greek Philosophy: The Coming-to-Be of the Doctrine of Ideas.

1. Survey of the First Period.

The first period of Greek philosophy begins with the first question of incipient philosophy, a question grounded in the striving of mind to bring the content of consciousness in its manifoldness under the unity of self-consciousness: with the question, what is that which becomes? It asks about the abiding One in the changing, restless manifold. The answers to this question advance rapidly: when the Ionians name a sensuous matter, a determinate element, or the unlimited, indeterminate material, the Pythagoreans name number, the measure of the material, the Eleatics what is in its unity; and in these determinations, which already bring with them a circle of essential concepts and of decisive problems, they unconsciously intimate the three spheres into which, for developed Greek thinking, existence divides itself.

In the question: *what all is*, lies the second question: *how has this, which is what is in all, become the manifold?* — in other words: *how has all come to be*, how is the [22] manifoldness in existence to be explained? This question comes forward as a secondary question in those oldest philosophical attempts, until the Eleatics determine being in such a way that by their determination they cut off the question of becoming, without, however, being able to banish becoming from sensuous notion, through which it, as it were, again steals for itself a being. But against this being, which cannot annihilate its adversary, Heraclitus then sets becoming itself, the paraphrase of coming-to-be and of change, as the ground of explanation of the manifoldness of existence; and this becoming, intuited immediately as sensuous matter, as fire, becomes not merely the principle by which, but that out of which, all is; it becomes force and matter, and bears within itself, during the “way downward” and the “way upward” of its transformation, as the

only abiding and fixed thing, what the Greek had to demand: the lawful, harmonious order of change. But the ground of becoming was not explained, since becoming was conceived not as what is comprehended by a being, grounded in a being, but as its own presupposition, as the tautological paraphrase of coming-to-be; and just as little were its rule and law explained, because becoming, which is seen only as the becoming of the sensuous, does not explain the indwelling measure, what abides in change. There was therefore set for thought the new task: to demonstrate the ground and the necessity of becoming; and as this task is taken up by philosophers who know the doctrine of the Eleatics, it acquires the more determinate form: to seek the ground of becoming in the underlying itself without the concept of being being given up. And the attempt to solve this task then becomes at the same time an attempt to find a mediation between the fundamental concepts of the Eleatics and of Heraclitus, which leads to a transformation of these. Empedocles, the Atomists, and Anaxagoras form the group of philosophers that takes up this task, and the last of them, in the attempt to solve it, touches on the concept of that which is higher than the material: *Noûς* [Mind], which, however, he cannot yet with clarity distinguish qualitatively from the material, or, while he ascribes to it the order in the universe, maintain a form of activity for it other than the production of mechanical motion. The attempts at mediation failed, since they could neither maintain [23] being nor explain becoming; and they had to fail because the opposed principles were to meet on the same domain of existence: within sensuous existence. And as the attempts at mediation failed, the two principles had again to separate themselves abstractly from one another; and in the carrying through of them in this sharp separation, in which the Eleatics' principle of unity, by making being determinationless, hence equal to nothing, renders a knowledge of it impossible, while Heraclitus's becoming leads to the same result, the annihilation of knowledge, in that it lets all abiding determinateness vanish, the oldest form of Greek philosophy is dissolved and a higher form of development is prepared. This dissolving activity, which prepares indirectly, through the negative, falls to Sophistic, which, as a philosophical phenomenon, represents the dissolution of the older philosophy through the one-sided holding fast and dialectical carrying through of its opposed fundamental concepts.

The many different philosophical attempts within the first period thus gather themselves into four groups: one whose fundamental thought is being; one whose fundamental thought is becoming; one that seeks to mediate between these opposites and to bring them into agreement with one another; and one that, through these fundamental thoughts taken as abstract opposites, lets this stage of the development of philosophy

dissolve itself.

2. The Old Ionians: Thales, Anaximander and Anaximenes.

a. *Thales* of Miletus (born c. 640 B.C.) is, according to the testimony of antiquity, especially of Aristotle, the father of philosophy. He founds philosophical thinking in that, in his striving to find the ground and source of all that is, he seeks it in the world of nature, of reality, not, like the mythologists, in that of the arbitrarily transforming [24] imagination. He posits *water as that out of which all comes to be and to which all returns*. That is all we know with certainty of his philosophy. How he grounded his doctrine, the sources contain nothing certain about; but it sounds probable, and does not go beyond the stage of development of his age, when Aristotle supposes that he ascribed so great a significance to water on account of the importance that it (as the moist) has for the organic in nutrition and generation. It is likewise probable that he, in a childlike, anthropomorphizing manner, intuited his primal matter as living (ensouled) and active. Concerning the manner in which the individual things come to be out of the primal matter he seems to have given no determinations. But by that single proposition about water as the primal matter Thales gave mind another position toward the object of knowledge; he broke the path for the philosophizing thought that acknowledges an independent truth, and this thought now advances swiftly and energetically.

b. *Anaximander of Miletus* (born c. 611 B.C., flourished toward the middle of the 6th century. Writing: *On Nature*). Already in this first successor of Thales the progress of philosophical thinking is conspicuous. When Thales gave water as that out of which all comes to be and to which all goes back, water was thereby described as the element, as the origin and principle of things; but the expression in thought for the relation was first formed when Anaximander found the determination *ἀρχή* and thereby fixed the thought in its own form. And whereas Thales had posited as the underlying a single matter, given to immediate sensation, which keeps its name as this single one although it appears as principle, as what is in the manifold and different, Anaximander determines as the principle matter *as τὸ ἄπειρον*. By this determination is denoted first the boundless, matter being seen as an inexhaustible source of coming-to-be; but to the meaning of the boundless there is then joined, as the element is seen as that which first *is to become* the [25] determinate matters, the meaning of the determinationless, formless. *Τὸ ἄπειρον* thus becomes, as it were, the translation into thought of the mythical chaos. Anaximander determines it as immortal and imperishable, as infinite, as living, i.e. as having the

moving force (an *αἰδῖος κίνησις* [eternal motion]) within itself, as encompassing all and governing all, and as that from which things are *separated out* (*ἐκκρίνεσθαι, ἀποκρίνεσθαι*) in accordance with its constant motion. In the indeterminateness of this expression is mirrored the indeterminateness in the conception of the relation of the unlimited to the determinate (cf. the expressions: *μίγμα* [mixture] in Aristotle, *μία φύσις ἀόριστος* [one indeterminate nature] in Theophrastus, *τὸ παρὰ τὰ στοιχεῖα* [that which is beside the elements] in Simplicius). As the first oppositions separated out are determined the warm and the cold; as their first product the fluid; and from its further transformations is then explained, with bold imagination, the coming-to-be of the universe enclosing manifold forms of existence, and the formation of an infinite series of successive worlds, all of which pay the debt of individual existence by returning, according to the lawfully determined order of time, to that out of which they have come to be.

c. *Anaximenes of Miletus* (lived in the latter half of the 6th century. Writing: On Nature). In Anaximenes we find, in comparison with his predecessor, an apparent step backward, since no longer indeterminate matter in its generality, but once again a single matter, *air*, is posited as the principle. In the difficulty of making intuitable to oneself the manifoldness of the determinate matters as coming to be out of the indeterminate primal matter, and in the vagueness of Anaximander's determination of the relation, the motive could lie for returning to the determinate; and air could then for several reasons seem suited to be principle. It could do so on account of its significance for life as the condition of breathing, since the universe too was conceived as a great living thing^{*)}; on account of its manifold, essential effects, which Anaximander had already [26] emphasized; on account of its constant motion and change, which indicated its inner life; and finally on account of its apparent infinity. The most important of the properties Anaximander ascribed to the unlimited, Anaximenes could find again in air. And out of this determinate element the manifold forms of existence could now be conceived more determinately and more intuitably as coming to be through a condensation (*πύκνωσις*) and a rarefaction (*μάνωσις, ἀραίωσις*)^{*)}, and on the basis of this notion, and with the use of few and meager observations, imagination could then in turn support thought in working out, in a manner similar to that of Anaximander, a whole picture of the world.

d. The various determinations of the principle by the old Ionian philosophers all keep, as the foregoing shows, within the bounds of the purely material. Their world-view is a

^{*)}Cf. οἷον ἡ ψυχὴ ἢ ἡμετέρα ἀήρ οὔσα συγχρατεῖ ἡμᾶς, καὶ ὅλον τὸν κόσμον πνεῦμα καὶ ἀήρ περιέχει [As our soul, being air, holds us together, so breath and air encompass the whole cosmos]. Stob. Ecl. phys. p. 296.

^{*)}By rarefaction air was supposed to be transformed into fire (= the finest air), by condensation successively into wind, clouds, water, earth, and stones.

naïve materialism; but through it there runs, while mind still hides itself from thought and is only instinctively felt, in the very endeavor to find the principle of *unity*, a movement that is opposed to materialism; for in the principle of unity for the sensuous something ideal is unconsciously sought. The next step of philosophy also shows that its direction is moving away from materialism. This next step forward, which gives the principle a freer, purer form, is taken in the Pythagorean philosophy.

3. The Pythagorean Philosophy.

In stating the fundamental features of the Pythagorean doctrine, we speak of the Pythagoreans as a collective unity; for the historical reports are indeed sufficient to assure us of Pythagoras's historical existence, but not to separate the philosophical doctrine [27] that belongs to him from the forms it successively assumed among his successors. Only internal grounds can here lead onto the trail of the probable order of the development, but without definite periods of time being distinguishable.

In the case of the Pythagoreans we again, in accordance with the limitation of our task, take account only of the purely philosophical element, not of the political and moral-religious communal life, ordered in definite, strict forms, through which the Pythagorean league acquired so great an influence, which was the original interest, and which formed, as it were, the home of the theoretical development.

Pythagoras was, according to the most probable traditions, born on Samos about 582 B.C., came toward the middle of the century to Italy, where in Croton he founded his aristocratic political and ethical-religious league, and where he died not long after 510 B.C. He is thus contemporary with Anaximenes. Among the older Pythagoreans are named Simmias and Kebes, Timaeos of Locri, Archytas of Tarentum, the Lucanian Okellos, and Socrates's contemporary Philolaos, the first of the Pythagoreans to set down the school's philosophical doctrine in a writing, of which genuine fragments are preserved, mixed with spurious ones from a later time. The surest source of knowledge of the Pythagoreans is for us Aristotle.

Concerning the relation of the Pythagoreans to the earlier philosophers Aristotle says: *οἱ μὲν πολλοὶ καὶ οἱ πρότεροι τὴν οὐσίαν καὶ τὸ ὄν ὥοντο τὸ σῶμα εἶναι . . . οἱ δὲ ὕστερον καὶ σοφώτεροι τούτων εἶναι δόξαντες τοῦς ἀριθμούς* [The many and the earlier thought that substance and being is body . . . but those who came later and were reputed to be wiser than these, the numbers]. No longer, then, matter as such, but the measure of the material is now posited as the principle of things; but as number is posited as the

principle, it is understood in such a way that it is the very substance (substratum) of things, their essence, not merely a form and determination in them. Things themselves, says Aristotle, they determined as numbers.

To this determination of the principle, which at first glance must seem strange and peculiar to us, but which acquired an essential and lasting significance for the development of Greek philosophy, the Pythagoreans came, as it were, through a presentiment of [28] the idea, of whose concept number is the first, naive, undeveloped expression. Greek thinking, having begun to seek the grounds of existence, fastens, as it were instinctively, on the form of beauty; it then sees in things lawfulness, order, determinateness, abiding relations; it divines in these relations the essential; it seeks an expression for them and finds it most nearly and naturally in number: the measure of the material, the condition of all being in space, of all lawfulness in the phenomena; and this number it then conceives, after the manner of childlike thinking, as the matter of the things in which it is seen, as their substance. Precisely as number, form, too, still adheres, as it were, fast to the material, and cannot yet free itself from it as idea.

We now consider, after having provisionally made clear the significance of the principle of number: 1) the probable development of the principle; 2) its application to the concrete; 3) its relation to the moral and religious teachings of the Pythagoreans.

1) In the reports of the principle of the Pythagoreans it is said sometimes that they determined number as such, sometimes the elements of number (*στοιχεῖα* or *ἀρχαί*), sometimes harmony; and as the elements of number are given partly the odd and the even, partly limit (or the limiting: *τό πέραινον*^{*)}) and the unlimited. These different expressions point to a successive development, which on internal grounds may be assumed to have been the following. The oldest determination of the principle, deriving from Pythagoras himself, was presumably simply *number* as arithmetical number. But the observation of oppositions in nature — and such had already been emphasized by Anaximander, to whom Pythagoras is said to have stood in the relation of a disciple, — had to lead to seeking something corresponding in number, and it lay near at hand to find it in the two kinds of number, the even and the odd, which through a playful reflection were brought into connection with the less perfect and the more perfect. The odd is supposed [29] to correspond to the more perfect, because, unlike the even, it resists division in two, and because it does not change its nature when the even is added to it, whereas it itself, added to the even, changes this into an odd. The odd and the even were no doubt originally conceived as the *kinds* of number, only later as the *elements* of numbers. But as the

^{*)}As synonymous with this, the limited (*τό πεπερασμένον*) is also used, which, however, from another point of view has also been conceived as the product of *τό ἓν* [the one] and *τό ἄπειρον*.

odd and the even were posited as the universal principles, there had to arise, since the determination of number as principle had originally proceeded from the intuition of form, a need to exchange these more symbolic designations for such as pointed directly to the fundamental relation of the formed, such as the concepts of limit (the limiting) and the unlimited. These new determinations were then, if somewhat artificially, combined with the former ones; and as the opposites, in the new formal determinateness, now showed themselves as connected, their union was sought in harmony. For since, in the formed actuality of things, the unlimited could not be thought of, as the even or the odd could, as subsisting by itself alone, it had in each single thing to be posited as connected with limit, and the bond of this connection was precisely harmony: “the unity of the manifold and the agreement of the conflicting.” At this point an attempt could now be made to set up a table of opposites, in which the fundamental opposition between limit and unlimited, the formed and the formless, is mirrored, and such a table is reported in the old sources, without, however, its author being certain. The 10 pairs of opposites are: 1) Limit and Unlimited; 2) Odd and Even; 3) Unity and Plurality; 4) Right and Left; 5) Male and Female; 6) Resting and Moved; 7) Straight and Curved; 8) Light and Darkness; 9) Good and Evil; 10) Square and Rectangle. — This table is characteristic in the kind of opposites it puts together, in the lack of distinction between the mental and the bodily that shows itself in it.

At the same time the significance of number for knowledge could now also be [30] emphasized, and it is expressed in Philolaos’s statement: “All that is known contains number within it, since without number nothing can be thought or known, but all is indistinct and unclear, whereas number, in harmoniously joining things together with the soul, makes it possible that all things can be known and determined according to their mutual relations”; — and: “The nature of number is lawgiving and governing, and is a teacher of all that is disputed and of all that is not known.”

2) The working out of the doctrine of numbers and the application of the principle of number to the concrete had, by the nature of the case, soon to lead to the arbitrary and fantastic. Already in the derivation of the arithmetical numbers from the principles much fantastic speculation asserts itself, as in the determination of the sacred significance and mutual relation of the number four and the number ten. And yet here, as in the derivation of the “geometrical numbers”: of the point as corresponding to unity, of the line as corresponding to the number two, of the plane as corresponding to the number three, and of the solid as corresponding to the number four, one still moves in the domain of abstract determinations. But when the numbers are to be applied to concrete

objects of nature (as when the regular stereometric figures derived from the numbers are brought together with the elements: the cube with earth, the tetrahedron with fire, the octahedron with air, the icosahedron with water, and the dodecahedron with the fifth, all-encompassing element) or to spiritual relations (as when the number four and the number nine, as ἀριθμός ἰσάκις ἴσος, as square numbers, represent justice with its like for like, or the number five, as the first union of an even and an odd number, represents marriage, the union of the female and the male), then the arbitrarily symbolizing comes forward ever more clearly.

More important and more significant than the application of the principle of number to the single concrete thing is the application of the principle in its generality to the whole of the universe, which is intuited as a *Κόσμος* [ordered world] harmoniously formed through numerical relations. The designation of the universe as *Κύσμος* has its origin precisely with the Pythagoreans. They conceived the formation of the world and the world-order in the following manner. First there formed itself in the middle [31] of the world—all a central fire, figuratively designated as the One, the Mother of the Gods, Hestia, the Citadel of Zeus, in which the limiting, which here, as principle of the existence that is coming to be, must step forth from its opposite, is intuited bodily. From it the nearest parts of the unlimited — which at once designates infinite space (infinite extension) and infinite matter — were attracted and, through the attraction, limited, until, by a constantly further spreading of this effect, the structure of the world came to completion. The structure of the world was thought of as spherical, as a *σφαῖρα*; its middle is the central fire, and its outermost limit is formed in turn by a peripheral fire, corresponding to the fire in the middle of the universe. In ten circles the heavenly bodies move about the central fire, among them the earth as the next-to-innermost, and, as the innermost, an ἀντίχθων [counter-earth], invisible to us, which completes the sacred number ten. The central fire is *πρῶτην φύσει* [first by nature], it is *συνοχή* [what holds together] and *μέτρον φύσεως* [measure of nature], and by the latter determinations the Pythagoreans no doubt indicated that a continuing, intervening influence, through an outflow of warmth and life-force (soul), proceeds from it. In the regular ordering of the heavenly bodies the Pythagoreans found the proof of their divine nature. A music of the spheres was, according to the doctrine of some Pythagoreans, supposed to be produced by the distance of the heavenly spheres from one another being precisely such as corresponded to the ratio of length between the strings that give mutually harmonious tones; for from such tones, since the distances of the heavenly bodies from one another correspond exactly to the intervals of the musical octave, a chord was then to be formed

during the revolution of the spheres about the center, even though it is not heard by us, who always live in this harmony of the world-all. — Beyond the peripheral fire, which as the enclosing bond encompasses the world-all, the Pythagoreans set the unlimited (*τὸ ἄπειρον*) or the unlimited air, from which the world-all, as a *ζῶον* [living being], draws its breath, and from which time (the successively infinite) and the void also enter [32] the world. Within the universe so formed, in which a distinction is sometimes drawn between *Ὀλυμπος*, the peripheral fire, *Κόσμος*, the region of the heavenly spheres from the fixed stars to the moon, and *Οὐρανός*, the region below the moon, the Pythagoreans perhaps conceived the various spheres of reality as forming a graded series with respect to perfection.

3) The moral and religious teachings that derive from the Pythagorean society are set in only a vague and abstract connection with the principle of the Pythagorean philosophy. The ethical determinations are either immediately placed alongside the principle, as when it is said: virtue is harmony, or they are, in the arbitrarily symbolizing manner touched on above, paralleled with the individual numbers. A properly philosophical determination of ethical concepts the Pythagoreans do not give. Their ethics is a popular ethics with a religious stamp. Their doctrine of the Godhead is not set in connection with the doctrine of the principles, and in the religious teachings there appears, despite the belief in the gods being purer than in the popular religion, much superstition and much fantasizing, e.g. in the doctrine of the daemons and of the transmigration of souls.

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The philosophy of the Pythagoreans is thus a philosophy of nature which, like that of the Ionians, has as its essential task to find the element of things. By determining number as this, it takes a step forward toward the ideal, yet in such a way that it does not leave the bounds of matter, which also shows itself in the materialistic conception of the psychical (the soul = *τὰ ἐν τῷ ἀέρι ξύσματα* [the motes in the air]; the soul bound in the body by the veins). A step further toward a more ideal conception is now taken by the Eleatics.

4. The Eleatics.

While the Ionians had determined the material, and the Pythagoreans number, as [33] the principle of existence, the Eleatics determine it as what is, which as unity excludes becoming and multiplicity, and which, in being posited as one with thought, intimates the ideal still more determinately than the principle of the Pythagoreans. But since the

Eleatics, like the Pythagoreans, seek being as the essence of the natural, corporeal existent, it is determined for them as the intuited existent, which receives the determination of space, and in the principle, which by its fundamental determination points toward the ideal, we nevertheless obtain only the substance of corporeal existence. Being ($\tau\acute{o}\ \epsilon\acute{\iota}\nu\alpha\iota$), which becomes what is ($\tau\acute{o}\ \epsilon\acute{o}\nu$), is conceived as matter, and since thought is identified with being, thought itself is conceived corporeally.

The philosophy of the Eleatics passes through a threefold stage of development. First the doctrine of unity is founded by *Xenophanes*, still with a theological coloring; then it is developed in its pure conceptual form by *Parmenides*, the real representative of the school; and thereafter the doctrine of being, which in its abstraction permits no development, is defended indirectly by *Zeno* through the dialectical demonstration of the insoluble contradictions of the opposite view, while *Melissus* defends it directly, in connection with what is commonly assumed, but with less acuteness and stringency.

a. *Xenophanes* of Colophon (born c. 569 B.C.; lived in his later years at Elea in Lower Italy, and died c. 477). As *Xenophanes* seeks the ground of existence, he finds it in the one, unbecome, unchangeable, thinking divine power: All is one, and this is the Godhead. This notion of the Godhead is still held, as Aristotle already remarks, in an indeterminateness that leaves it unclear whether by the unity of the divine he has thought of a unity grounded in the concept (as *Parmenides*), or of a unity grounded in the infinite continuity of extension. *Xenophanes* has merely, "in looking at the whole universe," designated as God the unity whose notion took shape in him; but he has not more precisely determined the essence of the divine unity. Nor is the relation between God and the world yet clear in him. On the one hand the Godhead, which as the One [34] becomes the world's immanent ground, merges with the world, so that its determinations can be transferred immediately to the latter, and God and the world stand related to each other; as essence and phenomenon they are inseparable. But the conception of the one existent as Godhead leads, on the other hand, to an involuntary personification and thereby to a distinction. When it is said of the Godhead that it is wholly seeing, wholly thinking, etc., a separation has thereby involuntarily been made between the seeing, thinking, hearing God and what he sees, thinks and hears. Thereby it becomes possible for the manifold and changeable in the phenomenon still to retain a semblance of reality beside the One and unchangeable. Only when the *notion of the Godhead* is replaced by the *concept of being* (in *Parmenides*) can the relation between the One and the many be sharply determined.

Xenophanes becomes of great significance for the position of Greek philosophy to-

ward the Greek popular religion through his sharp polemic against the anthropomorphic and polytheistic notions of the gods which, through the poets, had gained established authority in the common consciousness. Proceeding from the notion of the Godhead as the one, unchangeable, all-governing, which is wholly seeing, wholly thinking, wholly hearing, unlike man in form and thought, and which without toil governs all things by the power of its thinking, he censures the poets because in their tales of the passions and battles of the gods they had ascribed to them everything shameful and unworthy; and he seeks the ground of the anthropomorphisms of popular religion in man's urge to form the gods after his own image, an urge that would show itself in a corresponding form in the animals, if they had man's ability to form images of the gods.

b. Parmenides of Elea (born in the next-to-last decade of the 6th century), who was admired by Greek antiquity for his depth and greatness, gives Xenophanes's doctrine of unity its pure metaphysical form, in that he abandons the theological conception of [35] unity and grounds the unity of all that is on the very concept of being, from which he derives the marks of being (*σήματα*). His starting point is the proposition that only what is can have being, whereas what is not, as the opposite of being, can neither be nor be thought. His charge against the common notion is that, by letting what is not have being, it moves in the contradiction of positing what is and what is not at once as one and as different. From the concept of being, which is thus conceived in sharp distinction from its opposite, is derived first the mark that what is must be unbecome and imperishable. It cannot have come to be, because it would then either have had to come to be from what is not, which precisely as such can produce nothing, or from what is, which is, after all, itself. Nor can it pass away, because what is cannot become something other than itself: if being ever were not, what is would indeed not-be. — Next it is shown that what is must be untouched by differences of time. It cannot be said of it that it has been or will be; for thereby it would be said that it no longer was, or that it was not yet, thus in both cases a not-being that is incompatible with what is. Further, what is is an indivisible unity, since there is nowhere anything different from it that could separate its parts; it is in the same place, i.e. without spatial distinctions, as a pure continuum. It is unchangeable, like itself and immovable. It is limited; for otherwise it would be unfinished and deficient. It is, finally, one with thought; for there is nothing outside what is; all thought is thought of being. What is, then, is the All as unity, without coming-to-be and perishing, without change of place and form, an undivided, homogeneous whole, equally perfect at every point, which Parmenides can therefore designate as a well-rounded sphere.

What must strike us in this derivation of the marks of being, the first properly

dialectical determination of a concept that we meet in the history of philosophy, is the immense boldness with which thought, relying on itself, defies the impression of the multiplicity and change given to sensation, and over against it holds fast to the infinite unity and unchangeableness of being. And this thought, which thus confidently rejects the testimony of sensation, points, in that it affirms the eternal, unchangeable unity of what is, its being untouched by the division of space and time, and its unity with thought, beyond the limit of the material to the region of the idea. The true concept of being, the idea, is as it were on the point of breaking forth. Yet it becomes clear that at this standpoint being is not yet conceived and held fast in an ideal sense and as a purely metaphysical concept, but, despite those determinations reminiscent of ideality, as what is in the sense of the substance of the corporeal. What is is determined by space, is the space-filling (*τὸ πλέον*), and Parmenides as yet has no thought at all of a non-spatial being, and a separation of the corporeal and the incorporeal is foreign to him, indeed even directly incompatible with his whole standpoint. When he posits thought in unity with being, this unity is not to be understood in the spirit of modern idealism, but in such a way that thought falls under being, itself becomes corporeal. [36]

Through Parmenides's answer to the question of the ground of what exists, and his determination of being as excluding all not-being, and with it all multiplicity and all becoming, a stage within the first period of Greek philosophy is concluded, and at its conclusion thought stands facing a problem that cannot be solved from its presuppositions. It is rational thinking (*λόγος*) that pronounces the truth: that only what is, is; the false opinion, that what is not can have being, stems from the deception of the senses, which delude us with the manifold and the changeable: that whose being includes the not-being that lies in difference, and that whose being alternates with not-being. But precisely this existence of what is not in consciousness becomes inexplicable for Parmenides. As existing for consciousness, between whose forms the doctrine of unity can establish no distinction in principle, not-being, which has been driven back as it were to its last entrenchment, asserts for itself the being that was posited as impossible; and since what is not cannot be expelled from the sensuous notion, the question of the multiplicity and becoming inseparable from it must come forward again. Parmenides too, in his didactic poem, after the true doctrine of being is concluded, has a doctrine of the world of appearance follow, which, in hypothetically ascribing validity to it, he explains by two opposed principles: the light and warm and the cold and dark, which in their relation to each other form an analogy to the opposition between being and not-being and by their various mixture are supposed to produce the multiplicity of things. But [37]

from his principle of being the very concept of appearance is inexplicable. The world of appearance emerges, uncomprehended, and asserts a being for itself; and although it is dialectically dissolved by the Eleatics through the demonstration of the contradictions it harbors within it, it constantly returns, as if bewitching their thought.

c. Zeno of Elea (Parmenides's disciple, born c. 485) championed the Eleatic doctrine in a writing composed in dialogue form, in which he shows the contradictions in which the opposite assumption entangles itself, and from its inner contradiction concludes to its impossibility. His attack is directed at the two points in which the common notion's confusion of being and not-being appears most pregnantly: against the notions of *plurality* (multiplicity) and of *motion* (the most general expression of becoming). He uses the concept τὸ ἄπειρον, the infinite, the opposite of the πέρας [limit] that was the determination of the one existent (cf. Parmenides), to bring contradiction into those notions, which point to this ἄπειρον. In its two forms, as the infinite in the direction of increase and as the infinite in the direction of division, τὸ ἄπειρον brings contradiction into those [38] notions by becoming what is incommensurable with the *determinate* magnitude, and thereby what constantly negates this magnitude, which is the condition of the reality of multiplicity and motion. The infinite thus becomes the instrument of *negative* dialectic.

Thus Zeno argues against the concept of *plurality*, saying that what is, if it were a manifold, would have to be at once infinitely small and infinitely large. It would have to be infinitely small; for every plurality consists of units, but the unit is a real unit only as indivisible, and the indivisible is without magnitude, since all magnitude can be divided. Everything that is a unit or consists of units must therefore be magnitudeless, i.e. infinitely small. But equally what is would, as plurality, have to be infinitely large; for in order to be, the manifold would have to have a magnitude, and in order to be as manifold, as plurality, it would have to be separated. But that which separates the manifold also has a magnitude, and so likewise does that which separates these new magnitudes from the earlier ones, and thus we get infinitely many magnitudes and by their summation something infinitely large.

He demonstrates a similar contradiction when *number* is applied to plurality. The manifold must be limited in number; for its number is equal to the number of the many things. But it must also be unlimited, since what separates, and what in turn separates from what separates, etc., is counted in to infinity.

Against the reality of *motion* Zeno sets up 4 proofs. 1) Every motion from one point to another becomes impossible, because the moving thing, in order to reach the goal, would first have to traverse the infinitely many parts of space that the distance includes,

but the infinitely many parts of space cannot be traversed in a finite time. 2) If one assumes motion, the contradiction arises that the faster-moving cannot overtake the slower, which has a head start; for in the time the faster covers the head start, the slower gains a new, smaller head start, and while this in turn is covered by the former, again a smaller one, which can be divided to infinity but never vanishes. 3) The arrow that [39] is imagined to fly is at rest; for in each instant, i.e. in each infinitely small part of time, it is in one space; but what is in one space is at rest. And if it is at rest in each instant, it is always at rest; for time is the sum of the instants. 4) What moves with the same speed would, according as its motion is measured against something at rest or something moving, be able to cover unequal spaces in the same time, the same motion thus being unequal in magnitude to itself (motion thus having in general an infinite relativity).

By his proof against the fundamental determinations of the common notion, Zeno founded the *negative* form of dialectic, which later played so great a role in Greek philosophy. For him, however, this negative dialectic was not, as later, an end, but only a means to uphold a positive conviction. His dialectic is, as Greek dialectic always remained, a dialectic of *distinction*, which holds fast the sharp distinction between the opposites, and precisely thereby seeks to uphold them in their truth. Therefore the infinite, too, is sharply distinguished from the determinate, finite, not seen in that unity with it which is the condition of all real life, all becoming and all motion.

d. Melissus of Samos (flourished about the 84th Olympiad; a writing in prose on what is) conducts *direct* proofs of the doctrine of the unity of being, making use of the points of attachment that are given in the representatives of the common conception. The proofs concern the determinations: eternity, infinity, unity and unchangeableness. For *eternity* the proof is conducted essentially as in Parmenides. *Infinity* is derived from eternity, since that which, as unbecome and imperishable, has neither beginning nor end is the infinite. (For this inference from infinity in time to infinity in space Melissus is censured. The connection of thought in him seems to be this: what has a beginning is not whole all at once; what has no beginning is whole all at once, indivisible, and that [40] is only the infinite). From infinity follows in turn *unity*, since several existents would mutually limit one another. They could also only be thought by means of a void that separated them, but the void is something that is not. From unity follows, finally, the *unchangeableness* and *immobility* of what is. What is is unchangeable, since every change would make it a plurality. It is immovable because there is no void outside it in which it could move, and because as unity it cannot move within itself, which would involve a division. The testimony of the senses to a plurality has no reliability, because they show

us things as changing, thus not as being, but as passing over into not-being or coming to be from not-being. What is, is for Melissus the one continuous substance, and when he designates what is as incorporeal, only the divisibility that attaches to corporeality (*σῶμα, πάχος*) is thereby to be excluded: the determination of extension is not cancelled; it is held fast precisely in the determination: the unlimited, and in this determination Melissus seeks a guarantee of unity, since the unlimited, in his view, excludes division.

The significance of Eleatic philosophy for the development of Greek thought we must, after the foregoing, place partly in its energetic breaking away from the sensuous, whereby a great step is taken toward the idea, as we saw intimated in the determination of the principle of being; partly in the clear and sharp distinction of such fundamental concepts as what is and what is not, in the incipient analysis of the marks of concepts, and in the germs of a dialectic both as positively grounding and as negatively dissolving; partly, finally, in the problems that the representatives of the doctrine of unity, and in particular Zeno, set in motion. We shall see in what follows how essential an influence the Eleatics exercised on the subsequent systems even in the culminating period of

[41] Greek philosophy. With the preceding philosophical attempts Eleatic philosophy shares the character of *natural philosophy*. The dialectical tendency is a *consequence* of the way in which the world-principle is determined; the Eleatics' propositions about true rational knowledge and untrue sensation are *derived* from the metaphysical and physical propositions; *λόγος* and *δόξα* are distinguished by their content and are both traced back (by Parmenides, in the second part of his poem) to the mixture of the kinds of matter without any distinction in principle being able to be made. A theory of dialectic the Eleatics do not give. —

The problem at which the thinking of the Eleatics had to come to a halt has been pointed out above. Since the question of the ground of things has been answered in such a way that the determination of the principle as the One, the existent, excludes becoming, but this becoming, denied in the principle, nevertheless cannot be expelled from the sensuous notion, just as it is not forgotten by the thought that had gone back from the multiplicity of existence to the one existent, becoming asserts its validity as that which cannot be annihilated, and the question of the coming-to-be of what exists now presses forward anew and now becomes the *primary* problem. This turn in thought is represented by Heraclitus.

5. Heraclitus.

Heraclitus of Ephesus (flourished at the close of the 6th century; a writing on nature, obscure in its form, rich in imagery and gnomic, often poetic and grand) fixed his gaze from the very beginning on the current in existence by which everything comes to be and vanishes again. Not resting being, but living production captivates his thought. *Πάντα ῥεῖ* is his point of view on existence. “All is in flux,” i.e. in uninterrupted motion, in unceasing becoming. The older Ionians and the Pythagoreans had also admitted a coming-to-be, but had not let the principle be absorbed into becoming, become one with it; but in Heraclitus the principle is immediately conceived in such a way that it coincides with becoming. [42]

This fundamental thought of the restless flux of existence Heraclitus now sets thetically against the one unchangeable being of the Eleatics; but it forms at the same time an opposition to the view of ordinary notion, which makes room for a relatively abiding and tranquil being and thus ascribes to things a relative unchangedness, whereas according to Heraclitus’s view nothing has subsistence and persistence for a single moment, but everything passes uninterruptedly over into its opposite, comes to be out of everything, becomes everything.

This restless life of existence Heraclitus intuitively as the primal fire, which eternally transforms itself into things and lets things go back into itself. Fire is not, with him, the symbol of a metaphysical concept of becoming; rather, the notion of the process of coming-to-be, of becoming, coincides immediately with the intuition of fire as the living, mobile element that transforms itself and everything else. Fire, which exists only as unceasingly transforming itself, produces all things through the double motion of its transformation, on the way downward, which leads fire (a name that also designates the ethereal air) over into water and earth, and on the way upward, which leads back again to fire, inasmuch as a constant double current takes place: a development and combination of opposites. And in this production fire is itself the power that governs the production and leads what is produced back again to itself. As it unfolds opposites, which is precisely the essence of production (*πόλεμος πάντων πατήρ* [war is the father of all]), it joins these together again into unity, and out of the very transition and separation it calls forth a return, a union, so that the motion of becoming forms a cycle in which one becomes all and all one, and which is governed by harmony. Harmony expresses partly the harmonious joining together of the opposites in what exists (“in separating from itself, the one comes together with itself, like the harmony of the bow and the lyre”; — “from what is at variance comes the most beautiful harmony”), partly the lawful relation [43]

in the transition between them. Harmony is designated by Heraclitus as the divine law, as the world-governing wisdom, as Zeus and as the Godhead, and is conceived in unity with the principle itself. In this principle, which is accessible only to rational knowledge, are thus comprised the world-forming force, matter and law; production, intuited as a *πῦρ ἀείζων* [ever-living fire], becomes not merely the principle through which, but also that out of which, everything is, and at the same time it bears within itself the lawful, harmonious order of change. It is characteristic of Greek thought that even the philosopher who lets existence flow in restless change nevertheless posits a measure, a law-determined relation in becoming, and posits it as the only fixed and abiding thing in eternally moving existence. But this abiding element in existence forms an opposition to the Eleatic existent unity, in that it is a unity in change, and in change the manifold individual acquires significance as a member in a current which just as fully gives it existence as it cancels this existence. As the cycle takes place in the individual according to the world-law of strife, so it takes place in the large. In great periods everything returns to the primal fire, from which a new world-formation then proceeds again. The primal fire is kindled and quenched according to law-determined measures. As in restless play the Godhead builds worlds without end, and lets them return again into itself.

The divine law, which governs existence as the universal order, is to be the law for the individual's thinking and acting. The soul is of the nature of fire (it is a *ξηρὰ ἀναθυμίασις* [dry exhalation]); and it draws its nourishment from the rational fire diffused through the whole world, which streams into it through breathing and the open senses. Man is to follow in his knowledge the universal reason (*λόγος ξυνός=κοινός*), which is apprehended by thought, not his particular opinions (his *ιδία φρόνησις*), which rest on deceptions of the senses and imaginings. And likewise he is to follow in his action the universal law, the law of the state and the law of the universe; he is to flee self-will and willfulness and [44] all *ὑβρις* [insolence]. It is wisdom to obey the law of nature in one's speech and in one's action; in submission to it is reached that contentment of mind (*εὐαρέστησις*) which is the highest aim of life.

It is Heraclitus's merit, in bringing forward the problem of coming-to-be as the primary one, to have held fast the intuition of becoming in its sharpness and to have conceived the process of coming-to-be as the restless production and joining together of opposites, as this outflow which at every moment is at the same time a backflow. The restlessly pulsing life of existence he grasped in a lively intuition. But while Heraclitus does demonstrate becoming as a fact, and asserts an eternal lawfulness in it, he does not explain the ground of becoming or this lawfulness. He cannot do so, because becoming

does not for him become what is comprehended by an ideal being and grounded in such a being, but stands as its own presupposition, its own subject, and, as the becoming of the sensible — for the principle was, after all, a sensible matter — does not explain the abiding measure, the dominion of the transformed element over the transformation. The consequence of this must be, on the one hand, that where the principle is held fast, as in H.'s school, everything abiding must vanish, and a becoming that dissolves itself and all thought, a becoming out of which nothing becomes, must alone remain; — on the other hand, that a new task must present itself to thought: to demonstrate the ground and necessity of becoming; and as this task is taken up by thinkers who know the doctrine of the Eleatics, it acquires, as already indicated above (p. 22), the more determinate form: to seek the source of becoming in the underlying itself, without the concept of what is being lost thereby. The attempt to solve this task is then at the same time to be regarded as a mediation between the fundamental determinations of the Eleatics and of Heraclitus, each insufficient on its own, being and becoming, a mediation in the course of which these are transformed. Being, which is to leave a place open for becoming, can no longer be the one, undivided, unmoved being; plurality and motion must enter into it, but the essence of being must be upheld by each of the originally existent things remaining qualitatively [45] unchanged what it was. And precisely on account of this conception, becoming must be determined otherwise than in Heraclitus. Becoming is no longer a transformation, an inner qualitative change, a transition to an other, to the opposite; it now concerns only the external relation to an other of what is inwardly unchangeable; in other words: it is reduced to a mechanical change of place of unchangeable, ungenerated elements. And for this change of place, for this combining and separating of what originally exists as a plurality, a ground is now sought in the very nature of the principles.

The philosophers who represent this conception form the third group in the oldest period of Greek philosophy; they are: *Empedocles*, the *Atomists* and *Anaxagoras*.

6. Empedocles.

Empedocles of Akragas (lived c. 492—432 B.C.; didactic poem on nature) is the first who distinguishes the moving force from matter, with which it had been joined by the older Ionians, the Pythagoreans and Heraclitus, through childlike anthropomorphizing or through conscious reflection. As the unchangeable primal constituents of what is, he posits the four elements (*ρίζώματα* [roots]): fire, air, water and earth, and as principles of motion, of combination (mixture, *μίξις*) and separation (*διάλλαξις*), two mythical

figures: Friendship (Love) and Strife (Hate): *Φιλότης* and *Νεῖκος*, which, however, he still conceives as mixed in a material way with the elements. That the materials are not to be transformed, but only to change their external relations (*φύσις*, coming-to-be, is an empty name), conditions in Empedocles the distinction of the two kinds of principles (the material and the moving); for in the unchangeable original elements he could not conceive a drive toward a combination or separation that did not touch their essence. Therefore the moving force had to be sought outside them, and it was presumably [46] posited as twofold so that it should not, by combining opposite activities, as it were change its nature and itself prove subject to transformation. More precisely, Empedocles conceived the elements as originally mixed, as being in undifferentiated tranquil unity in the *σφαῖρος* [Sphere], governed by *φιλότης*, until *νεῖκος* penetrated from the periphery and brought about the differentiation, which, having reached complete separation, gave place again to a successively advancing union effected by *φιλότης*, in the course of whose advance the individual forms of existence and the order of the universe come to be, only to cease again when the original unity is completely restored, but then to be called into life anew through the same cycle without end.

In Empedocles's doctrine of the coming-to-be of natural things there are, beside much that is fantastic and fabulous, interesting anticipations of the theories of later times on the successive development of the higher forms of existence from the lower, and on the as it were groping attempts at organic formations, in which the monstrous and the normal arise side by side, but only the latter achieves subsistence, because only it has the capacity to maintain itself. In man the principles are mixed as in the rest of existence; we know the elements of things (the material and the moving) by what corresponds to them in us. "Like is known by like." Effluences from things, as they meet with corresponding ones from the senses or touch corresponding particles of matter in the organs, produce our sensations.

7. The Atomists.

The atomic doctrine is founded by *Leucippus* of Abdera (probably contemporary with Empedocles and Anaxagoras), but finds its proper representative in *Democritus* of Abdera (c. 460–360), author of numerous writings, mostly on natural philosophy, of which his *μέγας διάκοσμος* [Great World-Order] was the most famous, but which, except for a few fragments, are lost. By the many-sidedness of his learning, which he had gathered on

long journeys in the Orient and Egypt, Democritus recalls Aristotle, who mentions him [47] with respect and frequently makes use of him, whereas Plato ignores him.

As principles the Atomists, since their task is to explain the multiplicity and change in the real that is given as *fact*, determine the full and the empty (the atoms and empty space), which become the physical expression for the metaphysical: what is and what is not, to both of which being is equally ascribed. (“*Tò δὲν* [the thing] is no more than *τὸ μὴδὲν* [nothing].” Whereas the Eleatics denied the fact by virtue of the concept, the Atomists deny the consequence of the concept, that non-being cannot be, in favor of the fact.) The full is the primal bodies, which, since a division to infinity would cancel magnitude, are indivisible, atoms. The atoms, as the elements of the infinitely manifold, are infinite in number and, as the expression of what is, ungenerated and imperishable, and insusceptible of inner change. They differ from one another not by qualitative differences, but only by differences in shape (*ιδέα, σχῆμα*) and size and in the weight corresponding to size; and from these differences and from the difference in the order and position of the combined atoms are derived all concrete differences in what exists, which appear to our senses as qualitative differences. The unlimited empty surrounds and separates the atoms and is the condition of motion, and precisely as such a necessary existent. By the eternal motion, which in its original form is a vertical motion of falling, but which, on account of the atoms’ difference in weight and the consequent difference in speed of fall, leads to collisions between the atoms and, through the atoms’ rebounding, to a vortex motion that constantly spreads further, the composition of the atoms into concrete existences is to be explained. Through the vortex motion what is alike in weight and shape is first gathered in the same place by a natural necessity, but along with this, through the shaking together, unlike atoms can then be united into lasting combinations, whereby are formed not merely the individual composite things, but countless coordinate worlds, subject to a constant alternation, all governed by the same *Ἀνάγκη* [Necessity], [48] not steered by a thought and a purpose.

The soul of man consists of the finest, smoothest and roundest atoms, the fire-atoms, which are diffused through the whole body, but in such a way that the different activities of the soul have their seat in different organs. We draw the soul-atoms into ourselves by inhaling and expel them by exhaling. Everywhere in existence there is soul and reason. As atoms stream out from things, forming images and reaching the soul through our senses, sensation arises, which deceives in that it declares qualitative differences (such as warm and cold, sweet and bitter) to exist objectively, whereas in reality only the qualityless atoms and the empty have being. The true, genuine knowledge, the

knowledge of this, is won by thinking, which infers from phenomena to what is hidden and is conditioned by the right temperature in the soul. How this thinking, which cannot be independent of sensuous feeling, obtains its peculiar capacity, Democritus did not reflect on more closely. — As the highest good Democritus posits happiness, which consists not in external goods but in the tranquility and harmony of the soul, and is conditioned by moderation. Not the external action but the disposition determines, in his view, the moral character. For the rest, he does not lead his ethical propositions back to the general principles, although in their character they are determined by his theoretical propositions on the unchangeable order of nature and on the higher worth of what is hidden behind the phenomenon.

In comparison with Empedocles the Atomists have made an essential advance, in that the principles are led back to a more universal determinateness and to a more conceptual opposition, and in that their relation loses the unclarity and arbitrariness it retained so long as the moving forces, though distinguished from the material, were nevertheless represented as mixed with it in a material way, and so long as they were conceived in a mythological, anthropomorphizing form.

[49]

Peculiar to the ancient atomic doctrine, in comparison with atomic theory as it appears in modern science, is its metaphysical character. It is not through experience and through the analysis of the concrete phenomena of nature, but through speculation, that philosophy is originally led to set up the doctrine of atoms. Only the quite general problem, to explain the possibility of becoming and of the multiplicity of existence, was brought forward by the intuition of real existence; but in this general form the problem is solved by way of speculation alone, and precisely the generality of the problem must lead onto this way. The atoms and empty space (the full and the empty) are indeed physically named determinations, and the explanation of the coming-to-be of things by the motion of the atoms rests on a physical intuition: the intuition of space and of what moves in space; but behind the physical names there hide only abstract metaphysical concepts: the concepts on whose relation earlier thinkers had already pondered. It is the concepts of being and non-being that are translated into physical determinations as they are intuited as the atoms and empty space, as the existent full and the existent empty; but in this translation they still retain their earlier content. That the atoms and the empty are the explanatory ground of being for what exists expresses precisely the same as the Atomists' paradox: what is is no more at all than what is not. Existence is explained by the atomic doctrine not physically, but metaphysically; the *concept* of multiplicity (plurality) is explained by the *concept* of atoms, the *concept* of becoming (motion) is

explained by the relation of what is and what is not; and of an exact determination of the phenomena there is no question. The metaphysical stamp that the Greek conception of nature retains throughout, the conception of nature has also in the ancient atomic doctrine, even though this doctrine contains incentives for a later time toward an exactly executed, consistent mechanical theory of nature.

[50]

8. Anaxagoras.

Anaxagoras of Clazomenae (born c. 500, lived long in Athens as the friend of Perikles, until, accused of atheism, he had to leave the city; died at the age of 72; writing *περί φύσεως* [On Nature]) was older than Empedocles and perhaps also than Leucippus, but seems to have come forward as an author later. He seems at least to have known Empedocles's doctrine. As the one who came forward later, and as the one who at least names a higher principle than all the others, he receives his place here as concluding the positive philosophical attempts of the first period.

As principles of being Anaxagoras posits a multiplicity of primal matters infinite in number and kind, which are not, like the atoms, merely quantitatively different, but are qualitatively distinct from one another and are the seeds of the concrete existent, whose smallest parts they are. He calls them *σπέρματα*, as that from which things come to be, or simply *χρήματα* [things]. The later designation, the homoeomeries, derives from the Aristotelian terminology, according to which *τὰ ὁμοιομερῆ* designate such things as have homogeneous parts (the examples given are gold, silver, bone, flesh, marrow, blood), and at the same time the parts themselves, since these are represented as consisting in turn of homogeneous parts. In the beginning all these *σπέρματα* were chaotically mixed together, so that the quality of no matter was visible; but after they had been in this resting mixture for an infinite span of time, a separating-out began through a vortex motion, which spread from a single point and first separated the elementary opposites, fire and air, water and earth, each of which is a mixture of many heterogeneous parts, and then, as the separation advanced, separated out from the elements the homogeneous small parts, through whose combination the concrete things, consisting essentially of like parts, arose. Yet there is not yet a complete separation in things, but in all of them, with the exception of Mind, constituents of all other things are mixed in, if only in small measure. The origin of that motion by which the combination and the separation in which

[51] coming-to-be and perishing consist are effected, Anaxagoras cannot seek in the sensibly existent itself, to which motion is indifferent, nor in the empty, whose existence he finds contradictory and therefore denies; and still less can he seek there the ground of the order and beauty in what has come to be. He is therefore compelled to seek it outside the sensible, in the world-moving and world-ordering divine *Noûs* [Mind], and by positing *Noûs* as what governs the world he names the fundamental thought of Greek philosophy, and gives expression to the Greek thought of the sovereignty of mind. *Noûs* has power and knowledge and is, in its unmixed purity, distinct from things and independent of them. But despite these predicates, which Anaxagoras ascribes to it, and which make it clear that he strives to hold it fast as distinct from the material, as incorporeal, he is nevertheless able to separate its essence from matter only in a quantitative way. It is “the finest and purest of all things” (the purest, in that it is unmixed, whereas all things are relatively mixed). But these determinations, by which for Anaxagoras its independence, power and knowledge are conditioned, indicate precisely only a quantitative difference. And when Anaxagoras is to determine Mind’s form of activity, he ascribes to it only the production of a mechanical motion, of the vortex motion, the intuition of which is taken from the revolution of the vault of heaven; and in the explanation of the particular in existence he lets it again recede behind the mechanical causes, which Democritus alone holds fast, in that he consistently denies *Noûs*.

Like so many of the philosophers mentioned earlier, Anaxagoras must declare the senses insufficient to know what is in its truth; they are not fine enough to distinguish the constituents of things. It is the *Noûs* in us, which is of like kind with the divine, that knows the truth, and the knowledge of the truth is man’s highest task. “Man exists in order to contemplate the heavens and the order that reigns in the whole universe.”

[52] None of the various philosophical attempts that we have considered as mediating between the Eleatic and the Heraclitean fundamental determination has succeeded in solving the task they set themselves: in reality they have been able neither to explain becoming nor to uphold being. Becoming, which is now reduced to motion and change of place, is not made comprehensible by the being that is posited, but comes forward by a postulate. In Empedocles and Anaxagoras it is derived not from the principles that represent being, but from those which in reality are only a paraphrase of motion itself, and which at the same time, as they involuntarily assume the shape of material being, thereby point beyond themselves anew in order that the origin of motion may be explained. In the Atomists motion is posited as that which, as something without

beginning, has no *διὰ τί* [wherefore], any more than the being of the atoms and their properties. Empty space, non-being physically intuited, is named as the condition of motion; but even if all motion, as change, is conditioned by a non-being, this non-being must stand in an inner relation to being, not be what is absolutely excluded from being; but empty space, the intuited non-existent, has precisely no such relation to what is: the atoms. The Atomists represent the atoms as originally falling in empty space, but this notion of a falling presupposes that the falling atoms are in a place other than that toward which they strive by their nature, that they have been carried away from their “natural place”; that is, a motion prior to motion is presupposed, which thus remains unexplained. — And while motion thus stands unexplained, being is not upheld. The Atomists, in positing what is not as the existent empty, join the determination of non-being together with that of being. All the thinkers named assert a plurality, in part an infinite plurality, in being; but thereby the non-being of difference enters into the existents, each of which is what it is only by not being what is different. And as change is recognized as motion, [53] the non-being of change maintains itself in motion.

These defects in the attempts at mediation were unavoidable, because the opposed principles were to meet within the same domain of existence: within *sensible* existence, where being, when it cannot keep itself free of non-being — (which is impossible, because being, if all non-being were to be excluded from it, would itself, as indeterminate, become a non-being) — cannot maintain itself through it, and where becoming, which by its non-being disturbs being, for that very reason cannot find a grounding in such a vanishing being, any more than it could find one in a being that separated all non-being from itself. But as the attempts at mediation fail, the principles must again separate abstractly from one another, and the carrying-through of this sharp separation had to lead, as was shown above in the survey of this period, to the dissolution of the oldest Greek philosophy. This process of dissolution is completed by the Sophists.

9. The Sophists.

In using the name Sophistic as a common designation for a philosophical phenomenon, we do not thereby designate a closed and fully formed philosophical school, but a tendency marked by the same essential peculiarity, which, from the middle of the 5th century to somewhat into the 4th, asserts itself where philosophical endeavors come forward as a moment within a phase of spiritual development that comprises all the spheres of spiritual life and therefore has a general significance for the history of culture.

In order to characterize Sophistic as a philosophical phenomenon, and in particular to determine the relation between the philosophical element in Sophistic and the general element belonging to the history of culture, we shall proceed from what is reported [54] about the most significant individual Sophists, so as then to seek what is common and pervasive.

Gorgias of Leontini (born c. 483, died c. 375, famous as a rhetor), in his work *περὶ φύσεως ἢ τοῦ μὴ ὄντος* [On Nature, or On What Is Not], relying on the dialectical arguments of the Eleatics, gives proofs 1) that nothing can be; 2) that even if something were, it still could not be known; and 3) that even if it were and could be known, it still could not, by being uttered, be communicated to others. For the first thesis the proof is conducted thus: it is shown that just as little as what is not can be, since this immediately contains a contradiction, just so little can what is be, because all the opposed predicates, as leading to contradictions, must be denied of it, so that its being cannot be held fast, since it becomes devoid of determination, but being devoid of determination is equal to nothing, to not-being. What is cannot be ungenerated; for then, as having no beginning, it would have to be infinite, but the infinite cannot be anywhere, neither in another, since then it would not be infinite, nor in itself, since it cannot enclose itself; but what is nowhere is not. Nor can it have come to be; for, as the Eleatics already showed, it can have come to be neither from what is not nor from what is. Likewise what is cannot be one; for real unity would have to be without magnitude, but what is without magnitude is a nothing. Nor can it be a plurality; for plurality is thinkable only as a plurality of unities, but these are not. And what holds of these opposed predicates holds also of predicates such as moved and unmoved, etc. — The second thesis *Gorgias* proves by this: that if what is were identical with what is thought, then everything we think would have to have actuality, and there could be no false notion, i.e. notion of something that is not as actual. But if what is and what is thought are two different things, then the former is not thought, i.e. not known. — For the third thesis, finally, he conducts the proof [55] thus: even if there were knowledge, it could not be communicated, because the sign is different from what is signified, so that the word, e.g. the one that designates color, cannot therefore produce the intuition of color. Nor is it possible that the hearer can think the same thing by the words as the speaker, since the same cannot be in different persons. And even if it were, it would still have to appear to them as different, since they are different persons and in different places. (By the last thesis *Gorgias* thus cancels all *universally* valid knowledge, just as by the preceding one he cancels all *objectively* valid knowledge.)

Protagoras of Abdera (c. 490 — c. 415, teacher of the art of speaking and grammarian, the first who came forward as a Sophist, author of various writings, among them *τέχνη ἐριστικῶν* [Art of Eristics], and *ἀντιλογία* [Contradictions]) takes his point of departure from the Heraclitean view of the constant change of things and the opposed streaming of motions, and in applying it to the apprehending subject he comes to deny a universally valid truth, and to let the expression for the momentary relation between the thing and the sensing subject be the only truth. According to Plato's presentation (in the *Theætetos*) he reaches this result in the following way. Everything is in constant motion. The motions can, in their infinite multiplicity, all be traced back to two main classes: acting and suffering, (active and passive motion); but both of these express a relation, and the properties of things, which arise through motion, are therefore something relative and something merely becoming. This holds also of our notions of things (*τὸ αἰσθητόν* [the perceived] and *αἴσθησις* [perception] arise simultaneously), which express only the momentary sensory feelings produced by the momentary contact between things as acting and our sense organs as suffering. What is represented is only in relation to us, determined by our changing determinateness, our changing state. "Man is the measure of things"^{*)}, and this means, since man is here understood only as that which senses: [56] there is no objective, universally valid truth, but only a subjective semblance of truth, the individual, momentary opinion. As something seems to someone, so it is for him; there is no other truth.

The somewhat later Sophist *Euthydemus* uses both Eleatic and Heraclitean points of departure, and from both arrives at consequences that equally cancel all objective truth and all knowledge. From the thought of a becoming that ceaselessly transforms all being he arrives at the proposition: *πάντα πᾶσιν ὁμοίως εἶναι καὶ ἀεί* [all things belong to all alike and always]; from the Eleatics' doctrine of the unity of thought with being, at the proposition: *ψευδῆ λέγειν οὐκ ἔστιν οὐδὲ δοξάζειν* [it is not possible to say or to believe what is false].

When objective truth and the possibility of objective knowledge are thus denied, the task that remains for thought can only be, partly, the negating activity itself, by which, through a merely dissolving dialectic, it annihilates at every moment everything objective, partly the activity by which the individual, for whom only the vanishing semblance of truth remains, seeks, in the interest of egoistic ends, to give this semblance momentary validity for others. In the Sophists, therefore, *eristic* and *rhetoric* take the place of the knowledge of truth.

^{*)} *πάντων χρημάτων μέτρον ἄνθρωπος. τῶν μὲν ὄντων ὥς ἔστι, τῶν δὲ οὐκ ὄντων ὥς οὐκ ἔστιν* [of the things that are, that they are; of the things that are not, that they are not].

Most of the Sophists came forward as rhetors and as teachers of the art of speaking. This is the Sophists' proper outward distinguishing mark. They come forward as teachers of youth through imparting skill in speaking, eloquence, and the art of the word in debate and discussion. In their own speeches the epideictic is strongly prominent, and they display their virtuosity in extemporized lectures on all subjects, in which their polymathy stands them in good stead, but in which also a superficial reasoning and a hair-splitting arguing for and against everything becomes the prominent thing. Rhetoric becomes in their hands an art of persuasion resting on a calculation of the prejudices and passions of the listeners, whose task is: to contrive for others the semblance of truth and right [57] that serves the individual's contingent aim. In popular opinion the Sophist stood as the one who understood τὸν ἥττω λόγον κρείττω ποιεῖν [to make the weaker argument the stronger].

The character of eristic as a dialectical art of disputation is designated by Protagoras's proposition: δύο λόγους εἶναι περὶ παντὸς πράγματος ἀντικειμένους ἀλλήλοις [that there are two arguments about every matter, opposed to one another]. As a dialectical art it becomes a formal virtuosity of argumentation, which has its strength in the hair-splitting and the ambiguous, its aim in semblance, its law in the individual. Its general means are the absolute distinction between opposites (as when someone who says that he knows something is forced to the admission that he must then know everything, because, when he knows something, he is a knower, but the knower cannot in any respect be a non-knower), and the use of the ambiguity of grammatical expression (e.g. in the inference in Plato's Euthydemus: you have a dog and the dog has puppies, οὐκοῦν πατήρ ὦν σὸς ἐστίν, ὥστε σὸς πατήρ γίγνεται [so, being a father, he is yours, so that he becomes your father]).

In the domain of the practical the theoretical negativity was bound to have a far-reaching effect, but the consequences develop here only gradually, as Plato clearly lets appear in his portrayals of the Sophists. Originally the Sophists came forward as teachers of virtue, and the concept of virtue (ἀρετή, ἀνθρωπίνη καὶ πολιτική [human and political]) they understood in accordance with the old usage of speech, which included in it at once all practically useful skills and the capability and uprightness of character. Neither Protagoras, Gorgias nor Prodikos, the most eminent in the older generation of Sophists, placed themselves in principled opposition to the people's ethical view of life, or made the distinction, which later became common, between natural and positive right. But in the very existence of Sophistic lies a breaking loose from the ethical tradition. In that a separate instruction in virtue is given, the influence of the political public spirit

and of attachment to the eminent men in the state is posited as insufficient; theoretical education for civic life is demanded instead of a merely practical upbringing, and a consciousness is demanded of what virtue consists in, what is right and wrong and why [58] it is so; and thereby the old relation of piety is broken.

Now when the theoretical result is applied to the domain of the practical, there can be no universally valid law in it, but the consequence must be that everyone must be said to have a natural right to follow his arbitrary opinion, and, when he has the power for it, to free himself from the unjustified compulsion of positive law. The determining factor, the measure of things, must in the practical domain too become the individual, but the individual in its contingency, as arbitrary, egoistic and sensuous, and the good can be understood only as what is useful, i.e. satisfying, to this individual, not as something universally binding and universally valid. Hippias of Elis, a younger contemporary of Protagoras, is the first to state, with regard to what is practically valid, the opposition between natural and positive right, and he disputes the binding character of the laws, because they change so frequently and are so different in the different states, whereas only what is universally accepted could hold as divine or natural right. This principle is now soon stated generally. The laws are regarded as arbitrary determinations that aim only at the advantage of those in power. Natural right is the right of the stronger, and he who has strength need not let himself be bound by those laws. Among the arbitrary legal determinations were counted also the religious doctrines. The Godhead can least of all be an object of knowledge; its worship is due either to a statesmanlike calculation of what can call forth obedience in the citizens (Kritias), or to the deification of what is useful in nature, such as bread, wine and fire (Prodikos). Protagoras was already condemned as an "atheist."

From the foregoing we shall be able to extract the fuller determination of what in general characterizes Sophistic in a philosophical respect. Sophistic has shown itself, from the different points of departure, constantly to arrive at the same negative, destructive result. It gives thinking a new direction, away from the knowledge of nature, which is [59] made uncertain by thought, toward the subject, powerful through its thought, and its interests. Not speculation on the objective in the world of things, but reflection on the human, and in particular on the practical interests of life, steps into the foreground. The subject, with the consciousness of its mental power, demands to test everything, and to grant it validity only when it has stood this test before reflection. It is the right of subjectivity over against the objectively given that asserts itself here. But the subjective consciousness that would test everything given is the still abstract and formal one, which,

in turning reflectively toward itself, has not yet found in itself the point where thought, as it were, meets the universal, conceptually determined essence of things, and thereby again acquires objective validity. The sophistic consciousness can therefore, in its relation to the given, assert its superiority not by putting a higher content of knowledge in its place, but only by a breaking loose from the given in the sphere of thought and of life, by a destructive reasoning that dissolves the earlier content of knowledge, and by then, starting from formal and abstract subjectivity, arbitrarily positing its own determinations. These are then maintained by the subjective facility of thought, which now comes to serve not the power of truth but the interests of the individual. Plato draws a parallel between the relation of sophistic and rhetoric to statesmanship and justice and the relation of the art of adornment and the art of cookery to gymnastics and medicine.

How the philosophical element in Sophistic relates to the general foundation in the history of culture will now also become evident. Philosophy is for the Sophists not a primitive interest, but only a means for an aim proceeding from a more general movement. None of the Sophists is in the stricter sense a disciple of the older schools; they take up, [60] partly eclectically,^{*)} motifs from them, and use them in the interest of practical-egoistic ends. The philosophical element is in Sophistic only something secondary. The Sophists use the philosophical partly to give reasoning a greater semblance of thoroughness by procuring for it a more general foundation, partly, through the negative, to make room for the arbitrary determining of subjectivity. Nor can the peculiarity of Sophistic in a philosophical respect be understood from its philosophical presuppositions alone; it points back to a more comprehensive movement that first properly explains it in its completeness. From the philosophical presuppositions alone one would thus arrive only at a skepticism with respect to the knowledge of the objective, not at that assertion of contingent, egoistic subjectivity which characterizes Sophistic. If, on the other hand, one seeks in the more comprehensive movement the explanation of the assertion of subjectivity, and that as still abstract subjectivity, and lets this become the point of departure, then it is easily understood that this stage will use the consequences of the earlier philosophical development that lead to a dissolution of philosophical knowledge and of objective knowledge in general. For everything that would establish itself as law can then be made ineffective by the destructive dialectic, and by it room can be made for the arbitrariness of subjectivity. — Just as little does the change in the direction of thought that takes place in Sophistic, as it turns essentially from the contemplation of nature toward the sphere of the human, find its sufficient explanation in the earlier

^{*)}Thus, e.g., Gorgias uses Empedocles's propositions about effluences from things that bring about the sensations.

philosophy alone. That the consciousness of mind as the highest became clearer and clearer does not explain it; for we see in Anaxagoras, who precisely recognizes as the highest the *Noûs* [Mind] that is essential in the Godhead and in man, that man's task is nevertheless determined as this: to contemplate the universe and understand its eternal order. And the Sophists' denial of a true knowledge contains by itself alone no ground of explanation either, but would, since it would definitively apply just as much to the human being and human affairs as to external nature, consistently have to lead to thought's [61] concerning itself equally little with both spheres and giving up all philosophizing. But here too the given phenomenon becomes explicable when account is taken of the more comprehensive spiritual movement.

The general spiritual movement of which Sophistic, as a philosophical phenomenon, is a peculiar expression, we can characterize in general as the breakthrough of reflection into the common consciousness. This breakthrough signifies that among *that* Greek people with whom Greek philosophy, in finding its fundamental thought, gets its proper home, the first main stage of the life of the state has been left behind and a new one has begun. The stage has been passed at which consciousness rested with secure immediacy in what was handed down, in inherited mores and customs, opinions and convictions, and spirit has now followed the impulse, originally lying in the essence of self-consciousness, to make all this content of consciousness transparent, to seek grounds for what previously asserted itself immediately by authority, and by the grounding to justify it before the self as something in accord with it. Such a reflection must come to light in every cultured people at a definite stage of development, with the same necessity with which it had previously to awaken in individual persons. But in its first appearance reflection is not able to penetrate to the essence and deepest ground of things; it moves around its object, as if attacking it at many points, seeking, not the ground of the matter, but grounds for and against, and in this seeking finding the final decision in the not yet clarified subject with its interests, opinions, desires and passions, in the subject that now feels itself the measure of things, and, in the absence of anything universally valid and universally binding, makes its opinion truth, its will law. It is thus this reflection that forms the general foundation of the sophistic form of thinking, and its development was, in the time immediately preceding the appearance of the Sophists, prepared in the common [62] consciousness by the historical events and the political conditions influenced by them, in particular the development of democracy with the striving for individual freedom and power that it awakened, by the rising level of education, and by the influence of art and poetry on the spirit of the age. The earlier philosophy itself made a contribution to such

a development by the separation it made between nature and convention, between the knowledge of reason and the semblance of sense, by its polemic against popular belief, by the development of the skill of thinking, and by its early begun, if unclear, striving to posit the thinking mind as the highest. And while the earlier philosophy thereby supplied a moment to the general movement in the direction of the freedom of subjective thought, it prepared, as touched on above, the negative character of Sophistic through the seeds of dissolution that lay in the old philosophy of nature's one-sided limitation to the domain of the sensuous, in the incompatibility of its fundamental concepts, and in its lack of a consistent, principled separation of sensation and thinking.

When, after what has been developed, we are to pass judgment on the significance and justification of Sophistic, the judgment will be essentially nuanced according as our point of view is that of the history of culture or that of philosophy. In respect of the history of culture Sophistic has exercised an essential, forward-driving influence on the development of spiritual life. It has spread education and enlightenment, made science common property, and spread a wealth of learning. It has striven to raise the practical activity of life from the quasi-instinctive to the clearly conscious. It has, in developing reflection, given it the courage to try itself on everything. Finally, it has contributed to forming the Greek language into a pliant and supple instrument for thought. These merits of Sophistic must not be forgotten over its defects: over the superficiality and boastfulness of so many Sophists, over the empty facility of reasoning that so frequently [63] took the place of a more serious search, and over the egoism and self-will that in the practical and political domain became the consequence of the theoretical presuppositions. — In a philosophical respect Sophistic has a lesser, almost merely negative and preparatory significance. It does indeed assert the higher right of subjectivity, but in an imperfect and superficial form, since the subject is still understood by the Sophists only as sensuously determined in its knowing and willing. It prepares a higher form of philosophy essentially indirectly and negatively, by, as it were, making free room for the new thought through its dissolution of the earlier thought. Only in particulars, through contributions it has made to the theory of knowledge (Protagoras) and to dialectic, and through its investigations of language, has it influenced the development of thought more directly; but here too it retains a stamp of the superficial.

The standpoint of Sophistic must be transcended, because in its principle of subjectivity it does indeed express the higher principle of a new age, but only in an untrue form; because the subjectivity that it asserts is one that in its thinking is formal and abstractly destructive, and that, when it is to posit a positive content, must fetch this from the

sensuous side of the subject, from the isolated individual subject, sensuous and egoistic as such, in its contingency. It is transcended by there being found, in thinking itself, whose power in Sophistic showed itself through the dissolution of earlier conviction, a deeper, universally valid foundation for science and ethical life. To this source of a new content of knowledge, higher than that which the oldest Greek philosophy possessed, *Socrates* points back, and in doing so he opens a new possibility to the philosophy that had been dissolved in doubt.

10. The Character of the First Period in General.

If we look back on all the philosophical attempts of a positive character that we have come to know in the foregoing, then it appears that they all had in common the [64] fundamental peculiarity that they sought the principle of what is in matter, in nature. In this fundamental peculiarity the essential distinguishing marks of this oldest philosophy lie enclosed. It had essentially to confine itself to being philosophy of nature, physics, and the ethical and dialectical determinations we come across could come forward only as consequences of the physical theory or as unworked and isolated material taken up from notion. Next, although an endeavor to secure for thought a higher dignity early revealed itself, no sharp distinction could be made in this period between the mental and the bodily, the non-sensuous and the sensuous, and even where, at the close of the period, the concept of mind began to clarify itself out of matter, the world-forming mind could be understood only as a mechanically moving natural force and depicted half-sensuously as the finest and purest matter. Finally, thought, precisely because it had not yet distinguished itself with determinateness from matter, could not turn reflectively toward itself in order to know the conditions of knowledge; but it turned immediately toward the object without doubting the truth of rational knowledge, and the statements about the nature of knowledge that prepare the later philosophy of concepts are consequences of the investigations into the objective constitution of things, not the foundation for this investigation.

But although the oldest Greek philosophy thus, as it were, stops at the boundary of the world of mind, we have nevertheless designated it as *the becoming of the doctrine of Ideas*, because what is the goal of the development within Greek philosophy asserts itself, unconsciously, in the first attempts of the still undeveloped thinking, and because it is pointed to through their fundamental concepts and problems, and through the kind and peculiar character of the thinking. The determinations given above of the principles of

being among the old Ionians, among the Pythagoreans and among the Eleatics form an analogy to what Plato distinguishes as the spheres of the material, of the mathematical [65] and of the Ideas. The two fundamental concepts, being and becoming, which govern the old philosophy and around which its movement of thought turns, are, in a deeper conception, precisely the fundamental concepts of the developed doctrine of Ideas. The endeavor to bring them into harmony is the same that repeats itself in a higher form in the doctrine of Ideas, and repeats itself with the same lack of result. The principle of subjectivity that in Sophistic acted as dissolving the older forms of thought is, in its imperfect form, the preparation for the more developed one that is the condition for the thought of the Idea being able to become clear, for the Idea being posited as the essence of existence, and for a philosophy determined by this fundamental thought developing. Finally, the kind and basic stamp of the thinking and the form of the dialectic as a dialectic of distinction accord with the one conditioned by the intuition of the principle of being as the hypostatized ideal archetype, as the form from which negation is excluded.

Chapter Two.

Socrates.

Socrates, son of the sculptor Sophroniscus and the midwife Phaenarete, was born in Athens about 470, and died, condemned for the introduction of new divinities and the corruption of the youth, in 399. From the sculptor's work, which he practiced in his youth, he turned in his maturer years to the work he regarded as his divine calling: to awaken his fellow citizens, especially the young, to self-knowledge and to ethical action, by preventing them, through his dialectic, from settling into repose in an imagined knowledge and in self-deception. Of his mental development Plato gives in his *Phædon* a picture that is, in its main features, no doubt historical. From an occupation with the [66] writings of the older natural philosophers Socrates, unsatisfied, had turned to the study of Anaxagoras's treatise, in which he hoped to find an explanation of things from the point of view of purposiveness and by a divine reason. But here too he found in the concrete only mechanical natural causes, which did not satisfy his teleological-religious outlook, and he now abandoned the consideration of natural things, which elude our knowledge, in order to turn to the consideration of what lies nearest to us: the human, and to ethical action. Of the older philosophers Socrates no doubt came into personal

contact with Parmenides, perhaps also with Anaxagoras. Of the Sophists he was in contact with many, and his ethical standpoint, which has the general basis of subjectivity in common with sophistry, developed in its peculiarity precisely through its opposition to sophistry.

When we assign Socrates a special place, and refer him neither to the first nor to the second period of Greek philosophy, although it was he who positively prepared the development in the second period, by demonstrating, in thought, which in sophistry had been only destructive, the deeper foundation of science and morality, we do so because he used his dialectic only as a serving moment for the ethical and because his thought ends in the negation of knowledge, in ignorance. Socrates places himself outside speculation; he becomes essentially an ethical-religious personality, not a philosopher, because he *will not* be one. But he gets a place here because by his method, by his demand for knowledge and by his conception of this knowledge he has occasioned a speculative philosophy and has become the incitement for the whole later philosophical development among the Greeks.

In seeking to determine what is peculiar to Socrates, we at once come upon a difficulty that might seem insuperable. Just as a multitude of schools attached themselves to Socrates, all of which would express the Socratic, and yet went in the most diverse directions, so, in the reports of Socrates's "doctrine", the accounts diverge strongly, [67] and comprise standpoints ranging from that of the right-thinking Sophist to that of the speculative philosopher proclaiming the doctrine of Ideas. But in the divergent, incomplete, trivializing or idealizing conceptions of Socrates there are certain points in which the conceptions touch one another, and from which it becomes possible to bring forth the figure of the real historical Socrates, to clarify his standpoint, and to find the coherence in the ethical view that corresponds to it, and that on closer consideration shows itself in its peculiarly Greek character.

It is reported of Socrates that, in as it were bringing philosophy down from heaven to earth, that is, leading it back from the speculation on nature to self-knowledge, he occupied himself exclusively with the ethical. It is reported that he determined virtue as knowledge. It is reported that he was the first who, through induction from the particular, brought forth the universal concepts, which were fixed in definition. And it is reported, finally, that he declared himself ignorant.

These statements are as it were the sum of what provisionally emerges, from the points of contact of the various reports, as a foothold for the conception; but it is characteristic that what the various reports essentially agree on, taken immediately, is

something inconsistent in itself, something contradictory. The contradiction shows itself at once when one puts the statements together, but precisely through the resolution of the contradiction we arrive at the conception of Socrates and at the understanding of the misunderstandings.

For if we first put together the two statements about Socrates's method of induction and about his exclusive occupation with the ethical, a contradiction at once comes in; for when Socrates, as Xenophon puts it, constantly investigated with those around him *τί ἕκαστον εἴη τῶν ὄντων* [what each of the things that are might be], the interest becomes a logical, not an ethical one. But on closer investigation of how matters stand [68] with the result of Socrates's search for the concept of things and with his definitions, it turns out that his inductive method — more precisely: his method of concept-forming abstraction, — either leads straightforwardly to a negative result, since the attempted universal determinations of the matter are overturned again by contradicting cases, or that it only apparently leads to a positive one, namely to one that has already been shown untenable by the preceding dialectical investigations (e.g. where the good is determined as the useful, cf. the investigation in Plato's *Laches*). And precisely this seems to indicate that Socrates's induction and definition, in general his logical activity of thought, must be conceived not as an end, but as something that in one way or another serves as an instrument for something else, and this something else would then most naturally be sought in the ethical, as that on which Socrates's interest is, after all, constantly said to have essentially rested.

That the definitive conceptual result of Socrates's inductions was always negative, and that therefore the *final* goal of the thought that ceaselessly returned to the same movement could not be the logical one, a goal of knowledge, finds its confirmation in what has been handed down: that Socrates declared himself ignorant. For when, as tradition says, he posited the concept (*τί ἐστί*) as the true expression of the essential, and would give the determination of the concept in definition, then, had he really arrived at a positive result, he could not, however much he "saw the concept in its relation to the subjective life", without self-contradiction call himself ignorant; for the content of the definition would precisely be a real knowledge.

But if we now wish to hold fast to the indication that Socrates's logical interest served the ethical, a difficulty again comes forward, since he, the ignorant one, determined virtue as knowledge. That virtue for Socrates must have been an actuality, no one will deny; for the opposite would not only presuppose a wholly different standpoint from the Greek, [69] but conflict with all the reports of his personal life. But if virtue was an actuality, its

synonymous determination, knowledge, must be so too. Knowledge must be a reality, but it becomes so only as knowledge of something, and whence should Socrates's knowledge, which was only negative, a knowledge of being ignorant, get this something? Of what is virtue a knowledge? If the answer is: of the good, but the good as the ethically good can in turn be determined only by knowledge, then we move in a circle that we cannot get out of. But Socrates, if he was an ethicist, had to get out of it; for in order that action may be reached, knowledge must have a content; its object must have determinateness: form, as a Greek would say. Now the historical records have Socrates determine the content of the good as what accords with the laws (just as he demands that one worship the gods νόμῳ πόλεως [by the law of the city]), and in Xenophon he is represented as determining the good by the useful, hence eudaemonistically. But the dialectic in the useful at once asserts itself: the concept shows its relativity, and the question, what is the useful? cannot be answered in positive form by him whose knowledge is ignorance, and an answer in this form is necessary if there is to be action, and life is not to be absorbed in asceticism. If anything certain is to remain in the determination, an intermediate determination that supports it is at any rate required. The same is the case when the good is determined as what accords with the laws; for the opposition between the laws among themselves, and between the laws and a knowledge which, in negative form in man, in positive form in the divine, was higher than the laws, stood clearly before Socrates. Above the contradictory laws of the states stand νόμοι ἄγραφοι [unwritten laws], but who is to read their unwritten script?

The difficulties and contradictions that have appeared can hardly be removed by any other way than by conceiving Socrates as an *ethical-religious* personality, and by seeing in the ethical-religious the object to which his interest was consciously confined, and which his dialectic, which must be conceived as purely negative, served.

It was touched on above that the logical interest was not what in him was ultimately the impelling force in his dialectic. Although he was the first who, as Aristotle puts it, brought forth τούς τ' ἐπακτικούς λόγους καὶ τὸ ὀρίζεσθαι καθόλου (method of induction and definition), yet his interest was not the logical in the method as such, in the way that, e.g. Plato and still more Aristotle make it the object of investigation; nor was it a positive result of the method: the determination of the concept; for we have seen that such a result was illusory, and Socrates was, as will appear, conscious that it *had to be* so. But if dialectic in Socrates could not definitively be an end, because the final goal must always be something positive, and even in the Skeptics is the undisturbed repose of the individual in himself; if instead, in its peculiarity, it had to be a serving means, then

[70]

we must conceive it as the power that, through the dissolution of everything sensuous and finite, brings forth something infinite, and this infinite, which Socrates would bring to breakthrough, was the as yet provisionally negative infinity of the self, the point of departure for the ethical, for self-determination by virtue of freedom and by virtue of thought. Precisely through the consciousness of ignorance the individual is to be led to the ethical, and dialectic, in which the thinking subject asserts its infinity in the form of negativity, constantly keeps that consciousness awake, at the same time as it keeps the energy of infinity alive in the self. But if the negative, dissolving dialectic could as it were clear the way back to that point of departure of the ethical, then — as will be established below — a new moment was required at this standpoint: the religious relation, in order to come out again from this invisible point, where thinking self-consciousness closes together with itself in freeing itself from all finitude, in using its negative infinity for this liberation, and in order to give this self-consciousness, which had as yet only [71] reached the infinity of negativity, a content of knowledge again. Socrates could not, by the way of thought, by thought itself, give the abstract infinity of self-consciousness concrete determinateness. He had to seek the filling of this infinity through something other than his subjective thought. This other is the divine thought, which for Socrates bore witness to itself in the purposiveness of existence, and is conceived by him as the *φρόνησις* [wisdom] that is *τὸν ὅλον κόσμον συντάττουσα καὶ συνέχουσα* [ordering and holding together the whole cosmos]. This divine thought is in unity with the human, is its essence, but in this unity it nevertheless becomes, although something ideal in the subject, as the object of an inner intuition, something separated from the subject's thought and personality, and speaks as a divine oracle placed in the subject's interior. And since Socrates, through the religious relation to the divine, can intuit the given as that in which there is a divine order (cf. his teleological conception), he has, when the oracle in his interior, the demonic voice (*τὸ δαιμόνιον*), speaks in the negative form of infinity, in its negative, warning pronouncement a corrective in the relation to this given. Where the demonic voice does not speak, he confidently follows the law as something divinely sanctioned. Unless the religious relation becomes an intermediate determination, it is incomprehensible that Socrates, despite his dissolving dialectic, can again set up as the norm for personal action the lawful, which in its particularity had already been made to waver by dialectic, and the useful, which had been subjected to a consuming skepticism. Only when the relation to the divine is drawn in can the law, as something divinely ordained, again acquire firmness, and the useful, positively determined, acquire a security in the midst of insecurity, become an object of certainty

in the midst of ignorance. For under the determination of the useful Socrates can then bring in the relations that the general ethical consciousness sanctions, and which he can conceive from the same point of view as the lawful, namely as ordained by the Godhead. The concept of the useful then acquires a more concrete content than it had so long as it comprised only the consciousness of ignorance, ethical self-knowledge, as the negative [72] condition for ethical action, and autarky, the negative expression of ethical freedom, together with whatever can fall under the point of view of means to its acquisition. As the expression of this negative the useful is known by knowledge, just as ignorance is known, and just as the fundamental relation conditioning ignorance (see below) is known in its negative determinateness.

To that intermediate determination by the divine the historical sources everywhere have Socrates point back when he speaks of his life's task and of what definitively determines his work. —

The essence and significance of the Socratic standpoint, thus determined in its fundamental features, will become clearer through a comparison with two of its historical presuppositions: with the Sophists and Anaxagoras.

With the Sophists Socrates has this in common, that for him too the essential interest of thought becomes not nature but the human, and that he, like them, asserts the principle of subjectivity. But a decisive difference separates him from them, and this difference, beside which the likeness recedes, is grounded in the fundamental difference in the determination of subjectivity, and in the kind of thinking through which the energy of subjectivity expresses itself. In the Sophists subjectivity had asserted its negativity through the dissolving dialectic, but for them the contingent individuality in its finitude had still become the decisive thing: the measure of things; their dialectic turned dissolving and destructive against the whole of objectivity, but not infinitizing and liberating against thought and the subject itself. The Sophists were not too much dialecticians, but too little: they stopped at something finite, at something positive which had only the illusory sanction of opinion and desire, and did not bring to light the infinity from which something universally valid, truly positive, was to be grounded. Precisely this is Socrates's task. His dialectic, which has the infinite negativity of irony as its background, disturbs everything finite, all finite positivity, even that posited by the individual himself, and reveals in this thoroughgoing dissolving the inner infinity of self-consciousness. The goal of dialectic is for him not to destroy and dissolve: through the dissolution of the finite determinations, through the confounding of the content of opinion, of imagined knowledge, he lets thought seek something fixed and abiding: the [73]

universal essence of things, expressed in the concept, which is as it were the formed infinite. In striving toward this goal, it uses that method which was indicated above: the method of induction, which takes its point of departure from the particular in order, through a testing comparison of it, to find and determine the pervading universal, the essence of the matter independent of the alternation of particulars and of the contingent individual's conception. But when the concept that is sought, and sought with the consciousness that thought would in it grasp the essence of things, "that which they are", flees from thought, which possesses only the infinity of the negative, without being able from this, by itself, to win a new content: a conceptual content, then the thinker, who cannot come to rest in the finite and contingent, is forced over into the knowledge of his ignorance, and from this again over into the ethical-religious. Here the subject, with the consciousness of ignorance as its presupposition, finds a new content for its knowledge, secured by trust in the divine, and by the corrective that the demonic voice applies within. This voice, which for Socrates sounds as a divine oracle, is, psychologically seen, an expression of the ethical tact of the subject purified and freed through the negative infinity of irony, of the involuntary reaction, unconscious in its coming-to-be, of ethical feeling against the particular untrue and unethical (inharmonious) action.

But that Socrates, although knowledge for him ends in ignorance, can nevertheless set a knowledge of the concept of things as the goal of thought and determine virtue as knowledge, becomes explicable through the other historical presupposition mentioned [74] above: Anaxagoras's doctrine, and ultimately through a regard to the Greek fundamental view.

In the Socratic determination of virtue as knowledge we must be reminded of the Anaxagorean philosophy's doctrine of *Noûs*, whose significance for Socrates is not diminished by his having found himself unsatisfied with the Anaxagorean theory in its execution. For Anaxagoras *Noûs*, the divine thought, was the highest power of reality; for Socrates likewise, although this view is not stated directly, nor becomes the point of departure for a dogmatic doctrine, the ordering and governing principle is the divine thought (reason, *φρόνησις*, *γνώμη*), which in man, according to his essential determination, is as knowledge, i.e. as a knowing of what is abiding and universal in things, and this conception forms as it were the translucent background of his whole view. That this is so is easily shown. When Socrates determines virtue as knowledge, there lies herein first, since virtue according to the Greek conception, which we see consciously carried through in Plato, is the working of a being according to its peculiar, undisturbed nature, that knowledge is man's essence. But the knowing thought, which

is man's essence, becomes at the same time the essence of the objective, and, as divine thought, what rules in existence. This shows itself partly in that thought in Socrates is not a thought torn loose from objectivity, but a thought that posits the objective as its object in order to express its essence in the concept formed by thought; partly it shows itself through those statements of Socrates about the gods which, even if they are not to be taken in a strictly dogmatic sense, nevertheless indicate a relation of God to the world like that of the soul to the body, while there is a likeness of essence between the human soul and the divine (Mem. IV, 3; cf. I, 4). Now indeed the knowledge eternally actual in the Godhead becomes for man, in uncertainty, ignorance, but there is nevertheless in Socrates no skepticism about the reality of knowledge in and for itself, about its essential relation to human nature; it is intimated (cf. with the passages in Plato, especially in the Phædon, the words that in the Kyropædie VIII, 7, 20 are put into the mouth of the dying [75] Cyrus) that in death it again becomes actual through recollection, which is no longer hampered by anything obscuring, and through the religious it again acquires a positive relation to objectivity. It is, then, when knowledge in and for itself has reality, but as human knowledge becomes ignorance, existence with its relativity and opposition that prevents thought from penetrating reality masteringly, and precisely thereby leads the existing one from speculation to action; but essentially thought is knowledge, one with its object, which is to be grasped in the concept. Knowledge is in Socrates, in personal form, the same as the Idea is in Plato.

Thus Socratic ignorance, while it is the object of knowledge, has a background of knowledge, which nevertheless never gains shape in a comprehension of the concrete. The apparent contradiction in such a knowledge is removed when we go back to what became, for Greek thought, the fundamental relation in existence: the relation between the moments of the world's work of art, matter and form (cf. above p. 16 f.), and through this the whole Socratic standpoint at the same time receives its definitive explanation. For in that fundamental relation there is enclosed a twofold consequence with regard to human thought. When that relation on the one side shows itself to us in such a way that form, which realizes *itself* in matter, is the true and sole existent, then from this point of view form is seen as what rules unconditionally, as that which alone determines the essence of what is formed, and therein lies, by virtue of the kinship of form with *Noûς*, the consequence that thought (the concept) is the essence of what is, and with regard to human thought, that this, as what rules in the human being and determines the human being, has, by virtue of its unity with the divine *Noûς*, the possibility of penetrating, as knowing, objectivity, whose essence is thought itself. — But when the

relation on the other side shows itself in such a way that matter is seen, as it were in a
 [76] different light, as the condition, *not* posited by form, for the realization of form; then matter acquires a kind of independence of form, a kind of independent working. And this relation of independence then leads, within the sphere of the relative (cf. Plato's and Aristotle's physics) — in the totality, namely, the relation is undisturbed and the divine knowledge therefore an undisturbed knowledge (cf. Xenoph. Mem. I, 1, 8; IV, 6, 7; Plat. Apol. 20, 23) — to a negative relation, to a relation of opposition between matter and form, and the human mind is seen, by virtue of this, although it is by form essentially determined as knowledge, since it does not freely master the heterogeneous matter but is obscured by it, as that whose essential knowledge during the existence of the individual, i.e. during the conjunction of form with what is heterogeneous, takes on the form of ignorance. Precisely in the difference between these two consequences is the difference given between Socrates on the one side, and Plato and the whole of Greek speculation on the other. Socrates, who in his individuality as it were symbolically expresses the disharmony between mind and the material, stops at ignorance, gives up speculation; but since the ideal, form, has the significance of reality for him as essential determination and goal, he does not lose himself in a theoretical skepticism, but strives to actualize the ideal through action, and the ethical-religious becomes his definitive interest. Plato holds fast, even if the other relation also comes to light in him, as also in Aristotle, though only to be easily dismissed, to the essential determination knowledge as a determination of reality, and knowledge becomes for him speculative knowledge, whose object is the Idea; his interest becomes philosophy.

Socrates, and he alone, represents wholly and consistently a standpoint of mind that lies as a consequence in the Greek fundamental view and is completely explained by it. Therefore the Greek background shines through everywhere in him, even where he seems to depart most decisively from his time and his people, and where he touches the fundamental ethical thought of a distant future. A skeptical standpoint he avoids
 [77] by the fact that the ideal, form, has not vanished for his consciousness in ignorance, but has validity and actuality for it; so that the essential knowledge, the disposition for knowledge, remains in the midst of ignorance. But form, which from his point of view shows itself to thought in its original being *beside* the presupposed matter (cf. p. 18 f.) — thus it must here be seen that the two factors, despite the preponderance of form, are equally original — becomes negatively infinite, since in the separation it is that which forms nothing, the formlessly infinite form. The knowledge that remains, despite ignorance, thus becomes a knowledge of a *formal* relation; but a knowledge which,

owing to the determinateness of this relation, *cannot* be filled out in the knowledge of the actual, and, when it turns toward this, gets only ignorance as its sure content.

With the Socratic fundamental view of knowledge in its relation to existence set forth here (which finds an analogy in Greek poets: in the conception of death as reconciling), the essential determinations of the Socratic ethics can be placed in close connection.

Since knowledge is the expression of essence, knowledge is according to its concept what rules (cf. Plato's Protagoras, 352, C f.), over which passion and sensuousness have no power. Knowledge and action are inseparable; no one is voluntarily evil. Sin is ignorance; but ignorance, whose *first* possibility becomes a riddle that Socrates does not pursue, is like a jesting mask, vanishing with existence, which, as what is personally unmerited, takes the impersonal guilt with it. The mind becomes free of guilt in being loosened from what obscures. — As knowledge, virtue is furthermore one: there arises neither a separation between the different forms of manifestation of virtue, nor between the virtues of the different individuals; for that which should give virtue diversity, the natural, whether it is posited as the object of action or as the natural determinateness of the individual, is what is separated from form (the ideal), which knowledge represents, and is, over against knowledge, in its concept something subordinate, which cannot [78] bring separation into what has unity as its essence. — Since the individual is essentially knowing, it is essentially complete, and a twofold demand arises upon it. Over against the natural it is to be *αὐτάρκης* [self-sufficient], to realize its ethical independence in freedom from dependence on everything external, not in an ascetic manner, but by mental freedom in being able to enjoy and to do without, so that this autarky becomes the expression, corresponding to the conditions of existence, of the positive: that the knower is what rules, since the principle of knowledge, rational thought, is the essence of all. Being the ruler is expressed in existence by not letting oneself be ruled by anything else^{*)}. — Over against other individuals the individual is to be itself independent and to acknowledge them as independent. This consequence is necessary whether the individuals are conceived as ignorant or as essentially knowing. In the first case the one cannot teach the other anything because he himself knows nothing; in the latter he cannot because the other essentially knows everything. The task of the one individual in relation to the other can only be to give it occasion for self-reflection, to *awaken* it to ethical self-knowledge. It is to *help* the other individual to the consciousness of its

^{*)}Through passion and sensuousness we become unfree (*ἀνδραποδῶδεις*), and lose, together with the right, clear insight, that which is the most essential condition of happiness, and which in the midst of privation preserves good fortune in preserving the freedom of the soul. Moderation and self-mastery are an unconditional demand; they are *ἀρετῆς κρηπίς* [the foundation of virtue], that which gives it firmness, that without which the insight won is obscured again in the individual.

ignorance, but in eliciting this consciousness it is presupposed that the other individual has in itself what furnishes the standard for ignorance, and therefore essentially comes to consciousness by itself. That awakening takes place as the imagined knowledge, which is ironically acknowledged by him who confesses his own ignorance, is, by being tested, by being forced to give an account of itself, brought to waver through dialectic, [79] as the individual wrapped in illusions is as it were stripped, until it finds itself naked before itself, and now stands where the leap can be made, recollecting, to take itself back into the Idea, into the essential relation, unless this recollection, as by Socrates himself, is ethically broken off by action through the consciousness of the conditions and claims of existence. That bringing to self-knowledge, which for Socrates was a life's task, is what he, with a playful reminder of his mother's work, calls his maieutic, his midwife's art. It is the help to give birth to *oneself*: the rebirth that Greece knew. The relation between the individuals who have already attained ethical consciousness becomes friendship, which, in Socrates's conception, presupposes the autarky of the friends and their equality in being good, and whose essential form of manifestation is the mutual, continued prompting to self-knowledge and self-development through the dialectic of the ethically awakening "conversation".

The mutual independence and the essential completeness of individuals lead to the same consequence as the fact that knowledge in every single existing individual turns into ignorance, namely to this: that virtue *cannot* be taught, that is, taught *by others*. Socrates says expressly that no teacher of virtue could be found, just as he himself declares that he has not been anyone's teacher (Plato, Apol. 33, A f.), and how indeed should a teacher be found among the ignorant? When it is said in some reports about Socrates that he taught the opposite, this is partly only a false inference from the Socratic statement that virtue is *ἐπιστήμη (σοφία)*^{*)}, partly a confusion of learning from oneself through self-reflection ("recollection") and practice with learning from others. If, then, virtue is to come to be in the individual, the individual, who is posited as essentially knowing, is referred to himself, to call the essential knowledge to life through self-reflection in the negative [80] and formal shape in which it can be had, and in which it can be the foundation for the negative form of the ethical, in order then, as it turns into ignorance in relation to the concrete, to seek a knowledge that corresponds to the positively ethical, through the religious. That self-reflection is in Socrates the counterpart of the Platonic recollection, through which knowledge comes to be as positive knowledge of the Idea.

^{*)}In Aristotle, being communicable by teaching is synonymous with being capable of being grounded. For him, then, it is necessity and universal validity that make something teachable (cf. Plato's Timæos 51, E).

These are the general, essentially formal, determinations of the Socratic ethics. If the ethical consciousness was to have a concrete content, this could not, according to what was developed above about the fundamental relation of thought, come about through an unfolding of *thought*, and thought could find the way only inward, toward the infinity of self-consciousness, the point of departure of the ethical, but not outward, from infinity to the unfolding of the ethical in action: in this movement knowledge became ignorance for the existing individual. The infinity of the ideal (cf. p. 76 f.) could reveal itself to the mind only in its negative working as moving power in the dialectic that consumed the finite content of opinion, or in ecstasy, in which the self loses itself intuiting in the projected infinity, which, captivating, spellbinds consciousness into immobility (cf. the accounts in Plato's Symposium of Socrates's ecstatic states), but does not gain shape and unfold itself. In the intuition of the infinite, finite knowledge is negated; the infinite becomes the shapeless, unfolded mighty. In order to arrive at action full of content, ethical action, the religious relation therefore became indispensable at this standpoint, and through it we saw the good acquire concretion for Socrates.

In Socrates, then, we have the supplement to the speculative direction of Greek philosophy. In his "ignorance," which is yet only as it were an inhibited knowledge, a decisive consequence of the Greek fundamental view comes forth, and it unfolds itself in a circle of ethical determinations. From Socrates a new and higher philosophical [81] development takes its point of departure, and the impulse he has given (cf. p. 66) works through Plato and the imperfect Socratics right down to the close of Greek philosophy. The most typical expression of Greek philosophy, the Platonic philosophy, attaches itself immediately to Socrates. When the Greek spirit, which by its nature could not permanently content itself with making the movement of irony toward ignorance, in the urge to hold fast also the harmony of finite human thought with what is, a harmony that had been broken by the Socratic conception, once more, proceeding from the intuition of the immediate unity, postulated the likeness of *reality* to *essence*, the Socratic essential knowledge cast off the form of ignorance and came forth as the existing thinker's knowledge of the Idea. The concept, which in Socrates was posited as the unattained goal of thought and was sought as a regulator for the life of the individual, is now, while it is seen as the essence and truth of thought and as the norm of all human life, conceived as the essence of the objective world *accessible to thought* and as *reality being in and for itself*. Thus the Platonic doctrine of Ideas emerges from the Socratic attempted formation

of concepts; the ethical standpoint is transformed into a speculative one, and this knows in the standpoint from which it has emerged what is akin to it in essence.

Chapter Three.

The Second Period of Greek Philosophy: The Unfolding of the Doctrine of Ideas.

1. Survey of the Second Period.

To the second period of Greek philosophy we reckon the so-called *imperfect* or *one-sided Socratics*: the philosophers of the *Cynic*, *Megarian* and *Cyrenaic* school, together with the two philosophers who in union represent Greek thinking in its highest unfolding, *Plato* and *Aristotle*, and *their schools*, the Academic and the Peripatetic, in their first generations.

The imperfect Socratics retain from their master the interest in the ethical and the determination of virtue as knowledge (insight), and this Socratic element they all seek to fuse with one of the main directions of the older philosophy. In this attempt there appears the impossibility of calling forth a fruitful development by a one-sided combination of the new principle of knowledge with one of the fundamental concepts of the earlier philosophy, and the necessity, in order that such a development might take place, of granting each of the fundamental thoughts of the older philosophy its place. The task of finding a new fruitful principle for philosophy, and of forming a system that comprehends in itself the essential content of the whole earlier philosophy and in its richer world-view assigns both of that philosophy's opposed principles their domain, is first solved by Plato. He is the one who actualizes the new higher form of thinking and carries out what Socrates had intimated and prepared, and his edifice of thought finds its necessary supplement in the Aristotelian.

If we characterize the second period by its main phenomena, its opposition to the first shows itself in this, that the principle of being and of reality is no longer sought in the world of matter, but in that of thought, of spirit, in the concept that expresses the essence of things and is in and for itself: in the Idea, the form. The principate of

spirit which the older philosophy divined, which the words of Anaxagoras, only half understood by himself, pronounced, which the Sophists asserted negatively, Socrates positively but outside the domain of philosophy, is now, within that domain, pronounced as the solution of the riddle of existence. Thought, which has turned from nature to spirit, from the contemplation of what objectively is to the contemplation of its knowledge of it, now investigates the conditions of knowledge, and as this investigation leads to positing [83] the content of the concept, the Idea, true reality, as the sole object of real knowledge, and to keeping, in a conceptual distinction, the eternal essence of the Idea, of the spiritual, of what in truth is, clearly apart from the sensible and changeable, new philosophical sciences, conditioned by the knowledge of the Idea, can take shape: dialectic and ethics, and these gain precedence over physics, which is transformed by its relation to the Idea.

It is Plato and Aristotle who create this culminating form of Greek thinking; they essentially fill the second period, and beside them the one-sided Socratics, who make only powerless attempts, step into the shadow, and gain new significance only in the span of time after Aristotle, by giving impulses to Stoicism, Epicureanism and Skepticism. Plato and Aristotle supplement each other, in that their principles express two sides of one and the same thought, the fundamental thought of Greek philosophy, and in that the two formulas they set up for the relation between the fundamental moments of existence point back, in their difference, to the same fundamental view, of which they are the only fully Greek expressions, and which together enclose the whole essential content of Greek philosophy.

In the genesis of the concept of the Idea lies the motive for the twofold determination of the essence of the Idea and of its relation to matter. As thought, which finds the Idea, finds itself again in the Idea, and now, giving up matter as principle, determines the Idea as what truly is, as that which gives existence being, as the eternal that is not touched by becoming, there remains at this stage, at this first revelation of the Idea, no other determination for the moment distinct from the Idea than the non-existent. The Idea separates itself sharply from this in essence, and a gaping chasm divides the spiritual, the non-sensible object of knowledge, from the material and, as such, unknowable. But this material element, which is the foundation of the sensible world, thought cannot, even if, as it were through a subtraction of the being that the sensible world owes to the Idea from the sensible world's being, it determines it as a non-existent, yet hold [84] fast in this determination; it cannot press outside being. When finite existence is to be comprehended, the material element asserts its place as a co-determining factor in it, and now the contradiction comes forth that the non-existent nevertheless receives

a kind of being and activity, and that an unexplained world of phenomena, with an imperfect being which yet cannot be denied the character of being, comes, seen in its sensuous determinateness, to separate itself from the world of Ideas with its perfect and complete being; while in the intuition of the cosmos the whole of real existence is seen in harmonious unity with the world of Ideas. These difficulties are the ones at which Plato stops, and they lead Aristotle to set up another formula for the relation, one that lets both the Idea and its opposite, both form and matter, as he names them, be conceived under the determination of being, but within this concept makes a distinction between a being according to actuality (*ἐνεργεία*) and a being according to potentiality (*δυνάμει*). Thereby the original connection of essence is designated. Matter is the potentiality for that which in the form has become unfolded, true actuality, and matter desires the form, strives toward it as toward its essence, while conversely the form is the indwelling form which as entelechy works in matter, as principle of development leads it to actuality, and in the whole of the world's existence works as the divine principle of unity of the harmonious universe. But in Aristotle too the system cannot be concluded, the ultimate ground of energy cannot be determined, without the form in its purity, as divine *Noûς* [mind] (and as active *Noûς* in man), separating itself from all matter and from all motion, and through this separation, at the point where essence appears most purely, dualism again gains dominion.

Through these two conceptions of the Idea in its relation to the material the doctrine of Ideas unfolds itself, and only these two conceptions become possible where the relation of the opposites is to be determined from the standpoint of *Κόσμος*, of the harmonious [85] unity of the equally original moments of existence under the principate of the Idea. Either, from this standpoint, the ideal becomes the only thing that gives existence reality and truth, or it becomes that which alone is an existent in the highest sense, but by its nature stands in a necessary relation to matter, as to what is different in form of existence, alike in kinship of essence. But whereas the first conception, through its absolute opposition between the existent, the Idea, and the non-existent, matter, had to lead to the existence of the sensible world becoming inexplicable and the being of matter contradictory, the second, which, by conceiving both opposites under the determination of being, avoids the inner contradiction of the former, and, by seeking the ideal in external reality itself, can acknowledge this reality in its essentiality, shows a twofold defect grounded in the very essence of Greek thinking: that the activity of form in matter, by which the unity was to reveal itself and the concretion of existence to be explained in its coming-to-be, nevertheless remains uncomprehended, and that with this the unity of principle,

energetically striven for and as it were touched, dissolves again into dualism. But since the Aristotelian conception of the relation of the principles, which would unite the opposites separated from one another in a unity of thought under the concept of being, and thereby marks the highest striving of Greek philosophy, is the last many-sidedly Greek one, because it is the only genuinely Greek one beside Plato's, the philosophy that arises after Aristotle, and that with clearer or dimmer consciousness of the rupture strives after a unity which sacrifices one of the opposites, and therefore does not in truth reconcile the opposites, becomes the period of dissolution of Greek philosophy.

2. The One-sided Socratics.

What is common to these has been stated above. It was the interest in the ethical, the determination of virtue as knowledge (insight), and the endeavor to fuse this Socratic [86] element with one of the main directions of the older philosophy. Their difference is grounded in this, that while the *Cyrenaic* philosophy takes up an element from the *Heraclitean* direction, in the shape in which it had been prepared by *Protagoras*, the two others take up an *Eleatic* one, but in such a way that in the *Megarian* school the main weight falls on the dialectical, in the *Cynic* on the practical. The former accentuates the *knowledge* that in itself is virtue, the latter the *virtue* that, one in essence with knowledge, expresses itself in *action*. — We now consider the individual schools briefly.

a) The Megarian School.

The *Megarian* school had its name from its founder *Euclid's* native city, *Megara*. Euclid had as a young man become acquainted with the *Eleatic* doctrine; later he became one of *Socrates's* most devoted disciples, and tradition tells of him that when, during a war with *Megara*, the *Megarians* had been forbidden on pain of death to come to *Athens*, he stole into the city disguised, by night, merely to hear *Socrates*. He was present at *Socrates's* death, and after this catastrophe several of *Socrates's* disciples fled to his home in *Megara*, among them *Plato*, on whom *Euclid* had no small influence. *Euclid* seems to have lived and presided over the school he founded for some 20 years after *Socrates's* death. Of his writings none are preserved.

Among the philosophers of this school the best known are *Eubulides*, *Diodoros Kronos* and *Alexinus*. *Menedemos*, who came out of the *Elia*n school founded by *Socrates's* disciple *Phædon* of *Elis*, which essentially agreed with the *Megarian* in dialectical character, fused the doctrine of the two schools in that of the *Eretrian*, while the *Megarian* direction

had, in *Stilpon* (teacher of the Stoic Zeno; he appeared in Athens c. 320), united itself with Cynicism. For the rest, the reports we have of the history of the Megarian school [87] are few and disconnected. Since Euclid combines the Socratic determination of the good as the highest object of knowledge with the Eleatics' doctrine of the one being known by reason, he determines the good as that which is one, even though it is named with many names, and as that which is unchangeably like itself, and he acknowledges only one virtue: knowledge of the good, inasmuch as what are designated as different virtues are only different names for the same virtue. In him the concept of the good is transformed from an ethical concept into a metaphysical one, and coincides with being. What is opposed to the good thus becomes a non-existent (*τὰ ἀντικείμενα τῷ ἀγαθῷ ἀνήρπει μὴ εἶναι φάσκων*). But the same lack of content and development that became the stumbling block for the Eleatic doctrine had now to become so for the Megarian as well. The one did, it is true, apparently receive closer determinations through the statement that the good was named in many ways, was called now insight (*φρόνησις*), now deity, now reason, etc.; but precisely because the difference was determined only as a difference of names, the content vanished again. It does not seem, however, that the first generation of the Megarians strictly held fast to the exclusive unity; at least in one place in Plato's "Sophist," where the Megarians are doubtless meant, there is talk of *νοητὰ ἅττα καὶ ἀσώματα εἶδη* [certain intelligible and incorporeal forms] in the plural, and these must then presumably be thought of as standing in the same relation to the one as the plurality of thought concepts to the unity of thought. Yet the connection of this determination with the original point of departure is not clear.

Since the Megarians brought the concept of the good into connection with the Eleatic being, the ethical *could* not unfold itself; for the good in its unity was without determination, and the possibility of a determinateness was excluded by the fact that the manifold, here ethically conceived as that which is opposed to the one good, was posited as a non-existent. Here we see again the significance of Socrates's being an ethical-religious personality. He could, through the religious, lead knowledge back into action; among the Megarians knowledge was determined only, so to speak, retrogradely; [88] it ended in abstraction. The ethical interest must therefore soon be exhausted and give place to the dialectical. It is also essentially dialectical determinations that have been handed down to us as stemming from the Megarians. It is already a dialectical determination that the opposite of the good, of the one, is posited as a non-existent. From the conception of the fundamental concept there follows as a consequence the denial of a connection between the existent and the non-existent, of anything merely

possible (i.e. of an existent that includes a non-being). Only what is necessary is actual, and only the actual is possible. But with the concept of possibility motion is eo ipso abolished, although it was attacked on particular grounds by the later Megarians, notably by Diodoros Kronos, who determined the Eleatic polemic against it more closely with regard to the doctrine of the Atomists. — On the abstraction in the conception of the existent there also rests the protest against asserting predicates of the subject, and against applying the universal concept to the individual things designated by it. The abstraction of the Megarian dialectic soon had to lead over into the eristic. Various captious arguments are enumerated, which are attributed especially to Eubulides and Alexinus. Among these the best known are “the Concealed,” “the Liar,” “the Horned,” “Sorites” and “the Bald.” They can be traced back partly to a verbal subtlety (e.g. the Horned: What you have not lost, you have. You have not lost horns. Therefore you have horns); partly to the opposition between thought and sensation, λόγος and αἴσθησις, (e.g. the Veiled, or Elektra: Does Elektra know Orest, who stands before her? Yes! he is, after all, her brother. But in his disguise she does not recognize him. Therefore she both knows and does not know him at the same time); partly to the dialectic in the quantitative (e.g. Sorites: One grain makes no heap [σῶρος], nor do two or three, etc., but at last, by the addition of one grain, a heap does come to be; and in the same way a man becomes bald by losing one hair). — In Stilpon the abstraction in the Megarian philosophy receives a [89] peculiar practical expression, as he posits pure apathy, insensibility to pleasure and pain, as the ethical end.

b) *The Cynic School.*

The founder of this school is *Antisthenes* (born c. 444), who, after having earlier heard Gorgias, joined Socrates at an already riper age, attached himself to him with the greatest inwardness, and was present at his death. He seems to have lived about 30 years more after Socrates’s death. The name of the school which he founded after his master’s death derives from its meeting place, the gymnasium Kynosarges; perhaps, however, the school’s name also contains an allusion to the way of life of its adherents. Of Antisthenes’s writings nothing is preserved. — Of the later Cynics, *Diogenes* of *Sinope* and *Krates* of Thebes, who was also the teacher of the Stoic Zeno, are the best known. After having been absorbed into Stoicism, which gives it a nobler form, Cynicism reappears in the first century after Christ, but without acquiring philosophical significance.

Antisthenes holds fast to the Socratic determination: that virtue is knowledge (insight, φρόνησις), and that it is a unity, and he conceives virtue, which alone is our property, not merely as the highest, but as the only good, as necessarily bringing happiness with it,

and as inalienable once it has been acquired. His statement that virtue is something that can be taught (is a διδακτόν) seems to be understood thus, that what can be taught is the negative: τὰ κακὰ ἀπομαθεῖν [to unlearn what is bad], and Antisthenes hardly made any sharper distinction between learning from others and teaching oneself by practice. — When he is to determine the content of virtuous action, the contentlessness of the knowledge identified with virtue, which he does not remove in the Socratic manner but precisely sharpens by his Eleatic-sophistic dialectic, compels him to determine virtue [90] negatively. It becomes independence, autarky, a sensuousness-negating self-mastery. For the agent who cannot give his action concrete content can assert himself through action only in an abstract way, i.e. only by making himself count in his negative independence. Cynic autarky becomes essentially different from the Socratic. Socrates could, in the midst of his autarky, enjoy; the Cynic could not: he feared enjoyment; the only interest for him became the purely abstract virtue, and this virtue, which alone sufficed for happiness, was, even though it be brought into the closest relation to insight (knowledge), not to need many concepts (λόγοι) or items of learning, but above all Socratic strength of soul. Here too the divergence between the Megarians and the Cynics shows itself. The former turn off in the direction of thought, the latter in the direction of action, but both remain in the abstract.

Since being virtuous is determined negatively, as independence, this determination is applied most immediately to the relation to the sensuous desires and the sensuous needs. Pleasure must then, when it becomes an aim, be determined as an evil, because it holds us fast in the unfreedom of desire and need. “Rather mad than feel pleasure,” says Antisthenes. But if pleasure is an evil, toil, exertion (πόνος), is a good, because it strengthens ethical self-mastery. What does not fall under the determination of the good and the evil is an *Adiaphoron*, an indifferent thing. But this concept of the indifferent acquires a wide extension, and with it the significance of autarky is widened and modified. Among the adiaphora the Cynics had consistently to count all the objective, concrete forms of family life and the life of the state, which precisely on account of their concretion could not be brought into connection with the abstract principle of virtue. Not the laws of the state, but those of virtue, were to be the norm. And while the Cynics freed themselves from the laws of the state, they also freed themselves from popular belief. Not the many popular gods, but only the one Godhead has truth; only virtue is true worship of God; [91] the wise man is to be independent of those notions. The wise man, i.e. he who has attained autarky, becomes the ethical norm for himself. But since the decision in the last instance in all individual cases is to proceed from the individual who, precisely by

one-sidedly throwing all the weight on action, cut himself off from the moral purification that knowledge and scientific culture give, it is after all once more the contingency of individuality that becomes decisive, and it depends entirely on it whether the ethical is not to be transformed into its opposite. This in reality became the case with the later Cynics. From the polemic against pleasure they came to an opposition against what, as the concern of tact and of the sense of beauty, occupies so large a place in Greek morality, and while independence of the laws of the state led to a contesting of them and to the preaching of a hazy cosmopolitanism, the concept of the indifferent was widened in such a way that for the independent wise man it even factually took in pleasure itself, and that in its most unbeautiful form, stripped of modesty and restraint. The wise man's independence at last turns over into dependence on that which was to be subdued, and on the opinions of others, his virtue into egoism, vanity, and coarseness. — Cynicism ends, in practice, in the individualism which, as a principle, had from the beginning been the distinctive feature of the Cyrenaic school.

The logical determinations and dialectical propositions that are traced back to Antisthenes all seem to aim at showing, in the interest of action, the impossibility of theory. He does indeed determine the essence of definition as stating the concept of things, what they are or were (*τὸ τί ἦν ἢ ἔστιν*), and defines knowledge as correct opinion accompanied by a conceptual account (*δόξα ἀληθὴς μετὰ λόγου*). But since he, in the manner of the Sophists, one-sidedly holds fast to the unity of what is with itself, he denies the validity of every judgment that determines the subject by a predicate different from it, so that only tautological judgments, e.g. Man is man, the good is good, remain. Thereby, however, a genuine definition is made impossible, and Antisthenes also denies the possibility of one [92] with respect to the simple, which can only be named and compared with something else, while he admits, with respect to the composite, an explanation through an enumeration of its constituents according to their real connection. Of the simple, the elements of the composite, there is only a correct notion, no knowledge. — From the determination of the relation of the thing to its proper designation follows as a consequence Antisthenes's paradox that contradiction is impossible. For when the selfsame thing is spoken of, then, since it can have only one proper designation, only the same can be said of it; if, on the other hand, different things are spoken of, then opposite statements contain no contradiction. Against Plato's doctrine of Ideas Antisthenes polemicized without the motive emerging clearly from what has been handed down. His endeavor to lead the individual from theory to action may in any case have been a contributing factor.

In philosophical respect the Cynic school acquires only slight significance. Its essen-

tial significance lies in the influence which, through a strict ethical demand and through a merciless combating of follies and vices, it has exerted on its effeminate contemporaries, for whose moral misery the Cynics, despite all their proud self-enclosure, nourished a deep compassion. But the ethical life the Cynics could awaken in others could still not acquire a different character from the one it had in themselves, and in referring the individual to himself, to self-enclosure in autarky, they abandoned him to the same consequences from whose power they themselves had not been able to escape.

c) *The Cyrenaic School.*

Aristippus of Cyrene (according to doubtful reports born 435, died after 356) founded this school, in which the Socratic principle of knowledge seeks the filling-out that Socrates gave it through the religious, through the sensuous determination in us, through the [93] pleasure which knowledge, insight, is to shape harmoniously. *Aristippus* seems for a long series of years to have belonged to Socrates's circle, but already earlier to have occupied himself with Protagoras's doctrine, through which he was influenced by Heracliteanism. After Socrates's death he seems to have appeared in various places as a teacher for pay. Aristotle calls him a sophist. — Of the members of the Cyrenaic school we name, besides *Aristippus's* daughter *Arete* and her son *Aristippus the Younger*, the three men in whom the consequences of hedonism develop: *Theodoros*, *Hegesias Peisithanatos*, and *Annikeris*.

As the goal of man's striving *Aristippus* determines — seizing the eudaemonistic element that in Socrates could find a place in the reflection on the ethical, — *pleasure* (ἡδονή), as *positive* pleasure, not as freedom from pain, as the *particular* pleasure^{*)}, the pleasure of the present moment, not as a general condition of life: happiness (εὐδαιμονία), and as *bodily* pleasure. Pleasure *as such* is a good, and between the different pleasures there is only a difference of degree. That pleasure must become the goal of life is supported by a reasoning that is much reminiscent of Protagoras. All our experience is only a consciousness of our affections; it restricts itself to these, without our being able to state anything about the affecting object and its properties and without our being able to decide whether our individual being-affected by it agrees with that of other individuals. Only in our individual feeling can we therefore seek the norm for our action. The goal must be the feeling that appeals to us most, and that is the feeling of pleasure. Pleasure is the feeling of a gentle motion of the soul (λεία κίνησις), unpleasure the affection that arises from an uneven and violent motion (τραχεῖα κίνησις). The complete rest of the soul is neither pleasure nor unpleasure.

^{*)} — εἶναι τε τὴν μερικὴν ἡδονὴν δι' αὐτὴν αἰρετήν· τὴν δ' εὐδαιμονίαν οὐ δι' αὐτήν, ἀλλὰ διὰ τὰς κατὰ μέρος ἡδονάς. [and that particular pleasure is choiceworthy for its own sake, but happiness not for its own sake, but for the sake of the particular pleasures.]

But when Aristippus determines the goal by pleasure, and seeks in the stated manner [94] to ground this doctrine, he demands, for the realization of this goal of pleasure, and for the determining of the form of enjoyment, what points back to the Socratic: *insight*. Insight is to extract from every relation of life the pleasure it contains; it is to be able, through consciousness of the consequences of pleasure, to choose rightly among the different pleasures, equal in and for themselves, that offer themselves; it is to free from false notions, from prejudices and fancies; it is to remove longing for what has vanished and desire for what is to come; it is to procure freedom in enjoyment itself (*ἔχω οὐκ ἔχομαι* [I possess, I am not possessed]) and that independence of consciousness which in every situation gives us contentment in the present. It is, in a word, to make possible an *art of enjoyment*, which makes it possible for us, with the freedom and security of consciousness, to give ourselves over to the enjoyment of the moment, and thus to extract the greatest possible pleasure from life. Pleasure as the goal and insight as the essential condition are thus placed in the closest connection, and philosophy is designated as the way that leads to the truly human life: the life of the wise man, which includes the greatest possible pleasure. But the relation of pleasure and insight nonetheless at once becomes uncertain as soon as one recalls that pleasure is expressly posited as the pleasure of the moment, because only the present belongs to us, and because pleasure, as the “gentle motion” that takes place in the one who feels, as sensuously determined, is in its arising something vanishing, which must be seized in the moment, and can indeed be preserved as a “pleasure of the soul,” but then only as a fainter recollection, as an echo of the proper, i.e. bodily, pleasure. For when pleasure, the goal of life, is a matter of the moment, the one who enjoys, who relates himself to this goal, must also live in the moment, concentrate himself in it; and precisely herein lies the difficulty for the determination of the relation of insight to pleasure. Insight would not, at this standpoint, be able to procure pleasure in a positive way, for then one would have to go beyond life in the moment, and the standpoint would be abandoned. The task would then most nearly become that of warding off what disturbs, and then letting the pleasure that the course [95] of life brings with it fill the moment unhindered. Under this point of view the function of insight, as it was stated above, would then have to be understood. But here too insoluble difficulties arise. It cannot be made clear how insight, whose content could *only* be the consciousness of pleasure as the goal of life, and as being in the moment, should be able to give consciousness independence of the contingent filling of the moment, which can also be a filling merely with pain. Pain must be disturbing to happiness, since consciousness may not abstract from the moment and does not have a higher content of

life present in itself. And precisely because consciousness does not have a content that is higher than enjoyment, neither can it be made clear how insight should be able to give a freedom in the enjoyment that is to fill the human mind bound to the moment. Nor can it become clear how insight can choose between the pleasures according to regard for their consequences; for on the one hand every pleasure as pleasure is a good; there is no difference of kind between them, and even the difference of degree vanishes when life's dissolution into discrete moments takes away the standard of comparison; on the other hand regard for the consequences points beyond the moment, which conflicts with the presuppositions. There then remained only this: to push aside everything that, in the shape of disturbing notions, envy, longing, and desire, intruded upon the enjoyment of the moment, and to let insight bring it about that the concentration in the moment became complete, that past and future ceased to be for the consciousness of the one who enjoys. But this most extreme consequence, which would make the cultivation of insight impossible, since no room would be left for such cultivation in the life destined for enjoyment, would directly contradict the essence of insight as consciousness; for consciousness contains the universal, it cannot be bound to the moment and to the pleasure of the moment, but its essence constantly points out beyond it. That demand [96] for a joining of pleasure in Aristippus's conception and insight thus proves indeed to be a demand that cannot be avoided, because the one who enjoys is a man, but at the same time a demand that cannot be fulfilled. The two moments, which in their essence are heterogeneous, must again separate from one another, and the standpoint must run through a development in which the inner contradiction reveals itself, and that mind asserts itself from which this ethical standpoint, which would seize man in the midst of existence, as sensuous, and as consciously enjoying this sensuousness, and as freed in it by insight, has emerged as a one-sided and yet relatively justified form.

For Aristippus the individual stands, as a living work of art, in the midst of the world of sensuousness, in its motion and flux, and its task is what Aristippus, to whom it was given *χλανίδα φορεῖν καὶ ῥάκος* [to wear both the fine cloak and the rag], attempted in his own life with brilliant virtuosity: artistically to enjoy the pleasure-filled moment. But we saw that in his task the contradiction showed itself that thought was to hold fast the moment, concentrate itself in the moment, while its nature is precisely not to be in the moment, and, precisely as it consciously sinks itself into it, to reach out beyond it. And the content of the moment always remains the contingent, what is foreign to thought. But thought is the mightiest, the norm of the human mind; it must therefore, when the demanded unity of pleasure and insight is dissolved, assert its power by displacing

the other element. This, of which we already could seek an intimation in the demand for freedom of mind in enjoyment, since this demand indirectly posits enjoyment as subordinate to the life of the mind, we see happen with the later representatives of the Cyrenaic school, on whom Plato's and Aristotle's polemic against the principle of pleasure has no doubt exerted its influence.

Theodoros (Atheos), with the consciousness of the impossibility of bringing insight into a positive relation to the particular pleasure, posits pleasure and toil (ἡδονή and πόνος) as indifferent (μέσα): significance for him belongs only to χαρά [joy] and λύπη [grief], which arise from φρόνησις and ἀφροσύνη [folly], and χαρά, which designates [97] the wise man's goal, designates an abiding state, not something momentary. But the content of φρόνησις can be nothing other than the consciousness of the indifference of pleasure and unpleasure, and the content of χαρά becomes the wise man's empty, but precisely therefore unlimited, self-feeling in the independence this consciousness gives. The wise man is αὐτάρκης [self-sufficient]; all objective relations lose their significance for him, and *Theodoros*'s statements about the independent wise man sometimes meet with those of Cynicism. In *Hegesias* the conviction of the contingency and relativity of all pleasure, and of the impossibility of realizing *Aristippus*'s principle even in the form *Theodoros* gave it (because the soul suffers with the sufferings of the body, is constantly in motion and exposed to chance, and because the calculation of insight is unreliable), leads to positing painlessness as the goal and determining the negative: escaping evils, as the only thing in which the wise man has the advantage; and despair of giving life a content of enjoyment leads him to posit life as the indifferent, death as something alluring. Through indifference toward life itself the wise man becomes αὐτάρκης.

It was only apparently a return to the original form when *Annikeris* made the positive and particular pleasure the goal; for this pleasure he tied to the quality of an action or of a disposition, let it spring from it, and he taught that one should sacrifice the greater pleasure when it came into collision with goodwill, gratitude, friendship, or love of the fatherland. Here in reality, even though the sympathetic pleasure is once more sought to be led back to the idiopathic, the content of pleasure is sought in a foreign domain, that of the moral, and the original principle is abandoned. *Annikeris* concludes the Cyrenaic school in time; its ideal conclusion had already been given in *Hegesias*.

This Cyrenaic doctrine of pleasure proves, in its appearance and development, to be a peculiarly Greek phenomenon. It is the *morality of beauty* that *Aristippus* proclaims, in that he, from the standpoint of sensuous beauty, sees the life of the individual as the sum [98] of the harmonious moments, in each of which sensuousness is harmoniously mirrored

in the ideality of consciousness. The aesthetic, which in Plato and still in Aristotle is a moment in ethical action, is here everything, and the world of reality is by an illusion transformed into the timeless world of beauty, which becomes the individual's stage until the oppositions of time and reality cause the illusion to burst. And as a norm for life is now sought, the development moves hastily away from that starting point in pleasure, and ends in its sharpest contrast: in death. Plato too demanded a dying-away, but through the Idea he rescued thought out of the world of the changeable and let the soul die away from this only in order to find its life again in the eternal existent. The Cyrenaic, who would keep himself within the becoming of the world of sense, is forced by its dialectic out into death, and into the death that is not the beginning of the Idea, but the cessation of what becomes. The doctrine whose principle is enjoyment ends by speaking so seductively of what stands in mysterious connection with enjoyment, of death, that those who heard it chose it voluntarily, and Hegesias, the Cyrenaic school's proper concluser, received the name Peisithanatos.

From the brief outline we have given of the lesser Socratic schools it has become evident that the philosophical element in them was weak, and quickly exhausted. None of them has been able to create a fruitful development. Their philosophical significance lies most nearly in this, that by carrying through with vigorous one-sidedness the individual sides of the Socratic, they place the problems that lie in it in a sharper light; that they preserve the forms of thought of an older time for the consciousness of a later time; and that they prepare such phenomena as we, after the culmination of Greek philosophy in Aristotle, see appear in Stoicism, Epicureanism, and Skepticism. To seize the thought that [99] lay hidden in Socrates's seeking, and that was the central thought of Greek consciousness, was granted among Socrates's hearers only to *Plato*.

3. Plato.

a. *Plato's Life and Writings.* — *Plato* was, according to the most reliable reports, born in Athens in 428 or 427 before our era. His father Ariston was descended from Kodros; his mother Periktione was related to Solon. As a boy and youth he was instructed in the knowledge and skills that belonged to the education of a freeborn Athenian: in grammar, gymnastics, and music; he took part in the Isthmian Games and, after his eighteenth year, perhaps in some minor campaigns. At the same time he occupied himself with poetry;

but he abandoned this occupation when, through his association with Socrates, he had come to the conviction that philosophy was the most excellent of the arts of the Muses. But the poetic gift in him, which he consciously subordinated to what was for him the higher, has left its stamp on his writings; beauty became the form of his thinking, his prose became a work of art. Already as a young man Plato became acquainted through Kratylos with Heraclitus's doctrine, and perhaps through private study with others of the older philosophers; but when, at twenty years of age, he joined Socrates's circle, Socrates became the one who, by his dialectical art and his ethical view of life, gave him the impulse decisive for his whole life as a thinker; and Plato in turn became the one who not only attached himself faithfully to his master with personal devotion, but who, alone of all the Socratics, was able to find in what Socrates had intimated the fruitful thought that was to transform Greek philosophy; and, always mindful of the impulse from the master who by his death was lifted up into a sphere of ideality, he carried back in his writings his whole rich and distinctive life of thought to Socrates, whose image he draws for us with poetic truth.

After Socrates's execution he stayed for a time, together with several Socratics, with Euclid in Megara. From Megara Plato is said to have begun his first great journey, [100] which is said to have taken him to Cyrene, to the mathematician Theodoros, and from there to Egypt. Having finished it, he is said to have lived again for a time in Athens until, about 389, he undertook his journey to Magna Graecia and to Sicily. In Magna Graecia he presumably sought chiefly, through personal contact with the school's most important representatives — Archytas, Timæos, and others are named — to come to know Pythagoreanism from its theoretical and practical side. In Sicily he formed a friendship with the young Dion; but he tried in vain to influence the tyrant Dionysios the Elder, with whom the relationship at last became so hostile that Dionysios had him treated as a prisoner of war, handed over to the Spartan envoy, and sold as a slave on Aegina, where one Annikeris of Cyrene ransomed him. When he had returned to Athens (c. 387), he founded his philosophical school, which had its seat first in the grove by the Academy, later in a garden close by the hill of Colonus. Here he taught, surrounded by numerous disciples; but he twice more left his native city to visit Sicily: the first time, c. 367, in the illusory hope of winning the younger Dionysios for philosophy, for a moral life, and for a lawfully ordered sole rule; the second time, c. 361, to bring about a reconciliation between Dionysios the Younger and Dion, which failed so completely that the attempt even put Plato's life in danger. After his return home from this last journey he taught undisturbed until his death, which is said to have overtaken him at a feast in

his eighty-first year, 348–347. From the political life of Athens, which agreed so little with his conception of the true life of the state, he kept aloof, like Socrates. And like his master he placed his highest political task in this: himself to find, and to impart to his disciples, the true philosophical knowledge from which alone, in his conviction, a true life of the state could proceed.

[101] As soon as Plato was dead, legend twined itself luxuriantly about his figure, and the admiration, whose object none of the thinkers of antiquity has been in such a degree as he, gave the legend growth through the centuries. Already in the first generation after Plato, legend made Apollon, the knowing god, his father. His countrymen and strangers honored him after his death with statues and monuments; the most imperishable monument he has raised to himself in his writings, and time, which has ravaged so mercilessly among the most glorious written works of Greek antiquity, has reverently spared what Plato wrote.

Together with Plato's genuine writings, various others have been handed down to us under his name, which were partly designated as spurious already in antiquity, partly have been separated out as such by modern criticism. They are all minor and less significant writings. About the genuineness of the writings on which our acquaintance with the Platonic doctrine essentially rests there prevails no doubt; only a smaller group of importance, the dialogues *Parmenides*, the *Sophist*, and the *Statesman*, has been attacked in the most recent times, yet not on sufficiently convincing grounds.

[102] Plato's writings are all, with the exception of the *Apology*, composed in dialogue form. They mark a progression in his development from the Socratic to the distinctively Platonic^{*)}. In one group of dialogues (*Laches*, *Charmides*, *Euthyphron*, and *Protagoras*) Plato does not yet go beyond the Socratic, of which he presents the negative-dialectical side and the general ethical principle. In these dialogues the conclusion is either negative, that is, not merely without a positive result, but such that one is cut off, or one arrives only at the abstract formal determination of virtue as knowledge and as one. In the dialogue *Lysis* (on friendship), on the other hand, traces, if faint, of the distinctively Platonic come forth. This now becomes clear through the remaining dialogues: partly through the development of the general fundamental presuppositions of philosophy, as in *Phædros*; – partly through a thoroughgoing grounding of the distinctive standpoint of the Platonic

^{*)}In the foregoing the relation has been elucidated between the Platonic speculative knowledge and the Socratic ignorance, between Plato's doctrine of Ideas and Socrates's attempted formation of concepts. As distinctive of Plato we further emphasize here, provisionally, the transformation of the Socratic *φιλία* [friendship] into the concept *ἔρως* [love]; the conception of recollection; the whole view of nature conditioned by the doctrine of Ideas; and, in the domain of the ethical, the articulation of the one virtue into the four cardinal virtues.

philosophy, either dialectically searching, as in Parmenides, or polemical-critical, as in Theætetos, the Sophist, and the Statesman; — partly through the treatment of a single fundamental philosophical problem, as in Menon, and in part in the Symposium and Phædon; — partly through the development of the fundamental ethical principle, as in Gorgias, or of the metaphysical foundation of the ethical, as in Philebos; — partly through a coherent constructive presentation of the application of the doctrine of Ideas to the state and to the philosophy of nature, as in the unfinished trilogy: the Republic, Timæos, and Kritias. In the Laws, which were published only after Plato's death and were no doubt heavily revised by one of his disciples, Plato has depicted a form of state, the nearest to the ideal one, but adapted to the given conditions. Of the remaining writings not yet named, the little dialogue Kriton belongs to the purely Socratic dialogues and attaches itself by its content to the Apology of Socrates; Hippias major and Kratylos treat more isolated problems (the beautiful and language); Euthydemus gives a lively picture of sophistry in its degeneration into empty eristic and dialectic of word-play, and illuminates it by the contrast with philosophy, the true educator of youth. Menexenos, whose genuineness is very doubtful, is an occasional piece: a speech over fallen Athenians.

With regard to the time at which the various writings came into being, one has very few reliable points of support to hold to. In the ancient authors only little information is found, and the allusions to definite historical events which some have sought to use to determine the date of composition of individual dialogues (e.g. the Symposium's) are not certain, since Plato is said to have constantly worked over and altered his writings. The [103] inner development gives guidance only in broad outline. Only a few of the dialogues have been placed by Plato himself in such a relation to one another that their relative chronological order is clear. Moreover, provided only that the writings in which Plato is still dependent are separated from those in which his distinctive standpoint appears, the question does not have the importance that the enormous literature heaped up over it, especially in Germany, might lead one to suppose.

In antiquity there were still preserved notes of Plato's oral lectures on the Ideas and the Good, i.e. the Good in and for itself, the Idea of the Good. Such notes had been made by Aristotle, Herakleides Pontikos, and Hestiasos. They contained a completion of Plato's doctrine of Ideas, in which he had taken up strong elements from the Pythagorean doctrine of number. These notes are lost except for fragments, which are preserved in Joh. Philoponos and Simplicios, and have been collected and published by Brandis. But these *ἀγραφα δόγματα* [unwritten doctrines] signify not a higher stage of development of Plato's doctrine, but a decline of his dialectical power, for which a substitute is then sought

in something inferior. These fragments are therefore without essential significance for the presentation of Plato's doctrine.

The form of the dialogue is not an accident in Plato's writings; it is closely conditioned by Plato's conception of knowledge. In Plato's doctrine of the soul, of its ideal pre-existence, and in his concept of recollection, which makes all teaching merely a calling forth of what is in us, it lay as a consequence that the Socratic conception, which made the individual essentially his own teacher, must also become Plato's. For him too all communication had to become an awakening of independent activity of thought through an awakening of recollection, and the learner had to be conceived as essentially learning from himself. When, therefore, Plato wished to communicate himself through writing (which he regards as the more imperfect means in comparison with the living and ensouled speech of the one who knows, of which writing is only a faint copy, unable to [104] defend itself and liable to produce a sham knowledge), he had to seek a form by which the recipient becomes essentially self-active and, as recipient, must constantly be not merely reproducing but independently judging. It is this that Plato means to achieve by the dialogue form and by the artistic presentation of thought. Already in the dialogue form there lies an annulment of directly instructive communication. Since the reader is compelled by it to follow attack and defense, often through many and subtle windings and through apparent digressions, self-activity is awakened; and this holds especially of the form of the dialogue found in Plato's earlier writings; for in some of the later ones (the constructive ones) the dialogue assumes a different character and then essentially presupposes the independent development already. But in Plato it is not merely the conversational form that awakens independent productivity; it is just as much, or even more, the artistic manner in which the result is frequently hidden, so that now only single hints of it remain, now the whole investigation ends in contradictions, to whose solution, however, guidance is again found in the dialogue itself, but not directly. In order that the reader may be able to understand the dialogue, it is therefore demanded of him that he independently gather all these scattered hints, that he grasp the real center of the investigation, set everything episodic in the right relation to it, and then judge independently. Nothing is given immediately; everything must be won by self-activity.

b. *The Genesis of the Platonic Philosophy and Its Relation to Earlier Thought.* — As those among Plato's predecessors who exercised the strongest influence on him while his distinctive thoughts were taking form, we must name, besides Socrates, Parmenides and Heraclitus. Early on Plato had become familiar with Heraclitus's doctrine of the

flux of all things. To this doctrine he grants validity for the domain which it originally [105] concerned: the domain of the world of sense. Plato too makes everything sensible subject to becoming, and he therefore determines it as an intermediate between being and non-being, and as that of which there can be no knowledge, but only an uncertain opinion. But instead of stopping here, Plato, being led by Socrates to seek something abiding and unchangeable in the universal essence of things expressed in the concept, points to this as something other than the sensible, as something that is higher than the world of sense and not subject to the power of becoming, and which can therefore be the object of a true and real knowledge. This new world, the world of the eternal and supersensible, is the world of the Idea.

It was already shown above (p. 81) how Plato in the concept of the Idea grasped what constantly fled from Socrates's thought, and how he made the content of true, *real knowledge*, of conceptual knowledge, become the *objectively real object*, that which is in and for itself, so that this in-and-for-itself existent, the supersensible, the Idea, is at once that which alone possesses true being and alone can be the object of true knowledge.

By this concept of something in and for itself existent, true and abiding, independent of the change of the world of sense, Plato also touches on Parmenides's doctrine, and Plato acknowledges the great Eleatic as his predecessor. He meets the doctrine of the Eleatics in the determination of abiding, unchangeable being, apprehended by thought, as the true reality. But whereas the Eleatics, although so many of their determinations negated space, could not raise the determination of the existent above the spatially existent, Plato gives the existent purely ideal determinations. Whereas the Eleatics held fast to the unity of being so unconditionally that being became devoid of determination, Plato shows that, so conceived, it would become equal to nothing and no longer be an object of knowledge; and he therefore lets the unity of the Idea unfold itself into a circle of Ideas, of which each has the determination of the true existent, but at the same time a [106] concrete content, by which it becomes a member of an organized unity. And whereas, finally, the being of the Eleatics became immovable, Plato seeks to vindicate for the Idea activity, motion, life, and reason.

But if Plato received his strongest impulses from the thinkers named, he has nevertheless, while standing in living interaction with the contemporary Socratics, taken up and assimilated essential elements from *all* the earlier philosophical attempts. This holds first and foremost of the doctrine of the Pythagoreans, but it holds also of that of Anaxagoras, and, if in a lesser degree, of those of Empedocles, the Atomists, and the older Ionians. Plato is as it were the personified memory of Greek philosophy, and as he

expresses in the Idea the thought of Greece, he sums up, in the doctrine he builds on this thought, the principles that governed the thinking of the past, and the essential content of Greek philosophy.

c. *Polemical-dialectical grounding of the doctrine of Ideas.* — Polemically, Plato grounds his standpoint through a demonstration of those defects of ordinary consciousness and of sophistry by which these standpoints of consciousness prove insufficient to lead to true knowledge and true action.

With respect to the standpoint of ordinary consciousness in its theoretical aspect, Plato shows that, as confined to the domain of sensation and opinion, it does not attain to a true and actual knowledge. It lies in the nature of sensation that it presents one and the same thing to us in the most contradictory manner, and the sense-image in general expresses only the form under which things appear to the subject (thus something subjective, a *φαντασία*), not the matter in its objective validity. And opinion (*δόξα*), in which the soul as it were busies itself within itself with what is (*αὐτὴ καθ' αὐτήν* [107] *πραγματεύεται περὶ τὰ ὄντα*), and is to that extent independent of the external and more independent than in immediate sensation, is not, either, even if it is right opinion (*ὀρθὴ δόξα*), the goal of knowledge. Since there is a false opinion (*ψευδὴς δόξα*), it becomes evident that opinion does not by its nature exclude the untrue, which knowledge, on the other hand, does. What right opinion still lacks is insight into the necessity of the matter. It states what is right, but does not comprehend its ground. It therefore does not exclude the possibility of being altered by persuasive specious reasons; it is wavering and uncertain, an unreliable possession. The goal of knowledge must be a knowledge unshakable by appearance, secured by the knowledge of the ground of the matter (*αἰτίας λογισμῷ*).

To the fundamental character of ordinary consciousness in theoretical respect corresponds its peculiarity in practical respect. It does not reach beyond the contingent and contradictory determinations of the good given by opinion; it does not comprehend the good in its unity and universal validity. For, in accordance with its peculiar character, opinion conceives virtue as a multiplicity of single activities not brought back to one concept, which in part come into conflict with one another; and it mixes the good with the evil when it teaches that one should do good to one's friends and evil to one's enemies, and when it makes the good an aim not for its own sake, but for the sake of pleasure and advantage, and thus lets the good be done from base motives, be loved for the sake of its opposite. The virtue that is attained at this standpoint comes into being through habit, as

it were instinctively; it therefore, since it does not rest on a real insight, has no security in itself; it can cease through chance and circumstances, and all who content themselves with it stand on the same level as soothsayers and poets. Only through true insight is virtue grasped according to its truth, and only through it is it freed from contingency. For the right knowledge of the good and the true moral will are inseparable; no one is voluntarily evil; no one does with consciousness and intent what he has recognized to be harmful to himself. For the defects and contradictions of ordinary consciousness [108] sophistry now has its eyes open, and it uses its dialectic to confuse the former; but what it puts in the place of what it overthrows is only the contingently subjective, which in the theoretical field finds its consistent expression in Protagoras's proposition: Man is the measure of all things, and in the practical field in the doctrine that posits pleasure as one with the good.

With respect to that theoretical proposition, whose significance was developed above (p. 55 f.), Plato shows that, since it makes everything, even the opposite, true, it destroys itself by giving its own opposite the same validity as itself, and that it is likewise cancelled when its presupposition, restless becoming, is carried through, since then all sensation and every statement about it would become impossible. Under this presupposition, namely, the sense-impression would have to change in every smallest part of time, and one would have to deny and affirm simultaneously every determination of the thing and thereby destroy every statement about it. Sophistry, taken as a whole, Plato leads back in theoretical respect to the very same basis in sensation on which the ordinary consciousness that it confuses rests, and he therefore posits knowledge of the essence of things (*οὐσία*), true knowledge of what in truth is, as inaccessible to it.

In the ethics of the Sophists Plato sees only a conscious expression of a principle that is the tacit presupposition of the ordinary way of acting. Pleasure is posited by the Sophists as the end of action, thus as the good. Against this identification Plato directs his attack. Pleasure and the good relate in unlike ways to their opposites: the good excludes its opposite, evil; whereas pleasure and its opposite, pain, presuppose each other and pass over into each other; pleasure and pain belong equally to the good man and the bad, but good and evil do not. — The adherents of the doctrine of pleasure themselves admit that there are also bad and shameful pleasures; but thereby they themselves deny the unity of pleasure with the good. — Finally, pleasure is not, as the good must be, [109] something existent in and for itself and essential, but belongs to the field of becoming and falls under the determination of *τὸ ἄπειρον* [the unlimited]. If pleasure is posited as the end of action, this leads, since pleasure is something merely subjective, individual,

to the sublation of the morally universally valid, in the same way as the subjectivity of opinion led to the sublation of a universally valid knowledge. — Sophistry thus becomes, in Plato's conception, both in the theoretical and in the practical field a displacement of essence by appearance; it replaces true knowledge by a sham knowledge, moral action by an untrue, egoistic action issuing from an untrue notion of the good. It is not philosophy, but an art of appearance, or rather, since even the name of art is too noble, a juggling knack that flatters and deceives the ignorant.

We can, with conceptual determinations from the older philosophy, but which Plato takes up, briefly characterize the defect of both standpoints, that of ordinary consciousness and that of sophistry, by saying that they mix not-being and being and make the mixture into being proper. From the theoretical side both forms of consciousness rest on sensation, and it is the $\mu\eta\ \delta\upsilon\nu$ contained in the becoming and plurality of the sensible that makes them uncertain. For the uncertainty of opinion, too, is grounded in its relation to the sensible, from which it draws its elements. In the practical field the good, as the determination and end of action, since it is conceived as a plurality and is not kept apart from its opposite, and since it is identified with pleasure, is constantly conceived as a being mixed with not-being.

The lack, in ordinary and in sophistic consciousness, of a really reliable and secured knowledge now calls forth, once the insufficiency of these standpoints has been shown, the demand for a higher kind of knowledge, which must then be sought in *philosophy*, whose task, in contrast to those standpoints that hold only to the subjective, to appearance, has already with Socrates been indicated as this: to find the objective essence of the matter and to find it through the concept.

As the means for the solution of such a task the *dialectical method* is determined. Its goal is precisely the concept in its purity, separated from the sensuously individual phenomenon, freed from all sensuous shape and presupposition, and as the truly existent. The dialectical method becomes, in other words, the organ for what lies beyond the sphere of the changeable sensible (dialectic is $\eta\ \pi\epsilon\rho\iota\ \tau\acute{o}\ \delta\upsilon\nu\ \kappa\alpha\iota\ \tau\acute{o}\ \delta\upsilon\nu\tau\omega\varsigma\ \kappa\alpha\iota\ \tau\acute{o}\ \pi\epsilon\rho\iota\ \tau\alpha\upsilon\tau\acute{o}\nu\ \acute{\alpha}\epsilon\iota\ \pi\epsilon\phi\upsilon\kappa\acute{o}\varsigma\ \acute{\epsilon}\pi\iota\sigma\tau\acute{\eta}\mu\eta$ [the science concerned with being, with what really is, and with what is by nature always the same]). More precisely, the functions of the method are to be determined thus: on the one hand it is to gather the concept out of the manifoldness of the existing (*συναγωγή*), on the other hand, through organic division, to lead the concept through the whole graded series of its subordinate species right down to the limit of the individual (*διαίρεσις*). The first function is thus that of concept-formation, the second that of conceptual division. Through *concept-formation* the What of the thing

(αὐτὸ ὃ ἔστιν ἕκαστον) is to be determined, the distinguishing marks stated by which it differs from others; the essential is to be brought out, for only with this does science have to do. But this essential is the universal, what is common to the individuals akin in species, that which is the presupposition of these individuals, without which they cannot be understood. The correctness of the conceptual determination is to be tested not by single, arbitrarily chosen cases and examples, but by testing every determination put forward, positively and negatively, in all its consequences, inquiring what follows both from the assumption of this determination and from that of its opposite; and only after such a testing is what was provisionally put forward to be held fast, when it does not lead to contradictions and when it agrees with and is required by what is given and by what is already acknowledged as true. This hypothetical dialectical procedure is to lead to an all-sided determination of the concepts, in order then, when the path of analysis has been traversed, to give place to the direct development of thought and the synthetic procedure. Here the second main function of the dialectical method, *division*, [111] now gains its significance. It is to state the differences through which a genus-concept divides itself into species, its natural and complete articulation, and the division is to be carried through from the highest to the lowest concepts, to the point where the regular articulation of the concept ceases and the indeterminate manifoldness of the phenomenon begins. Division thus serves to determine the mutual relations of the concepts to one another, their compatibility or incompatibility. (In that the ground of division is determined, the articulation of what had been combined through induction into a unity is *grounded*, and the passage from the universal to the individual becomes more than a merely repeated retracing, in the opposite direction, of the path from the individual to the universal.)

Inasmuch as the dialectical (philosophical) activity of mind is seen as leading to a real knowledge, it must in the first place be determined as the highest theoretical activity of mind, for which the subordinate stages of development in knowledge, including mathematical knowledge, become preparatory and serving. Even mathematical knowledge has an object that is not yet detached from the sensible, and it still proceeds from presuppositions for which it gives no account; only philosophical knowledge obtains an object freed from the sensible, only it goes back to an ἀρχὴ ἀνυπόθετος [unhypothetical first principle] (τὸ ἰκανόν [what is sufficient]), and as it were rests in itself. But as leading to a *knowledge* of the true, dialectic cannot have merely theoretical significance; for since action is determined by knowledge, true knowledge must gain significance also for human action, thus for human life as a whole. Philosophy must thus comprise all

ideal human existence; it must, through true knowledge, be the consummation of the whole of human life, the “royal art”, which unites producing and insight into the use [112] of what is produced. This higher standpoint of knowledge, this knowledge of what in truth is, nevertheless stands here still only as a demand. The task in its generality is determined, and with it the object of the higher kind of knowledge in general. But for the *reality* of this object, by which for Plato the *reality* of the higher knowledge is immediately secured, the definitive proof has not yet been given. This takes place in Plato through a consideration of the nature of what is, while the reflection on the relation of knowledge to sensation makes precise the determinations that must be ascribed to the higher existent in contrast to the sensible.

We consider first the consequences of the concept of knowledge. If there is to be a knowledge different from insufficient sensation and opinion, its object must be *another* than that of sensation, and in such a way that the object of knowledge, of true and actual cognition, must be *what is in truth real*. That is: it must be *an unmixed existent*, and not, like the object of sensation and opinion, stand midway between being and not-being. It must next be an *unchangeable existent in and for itself*, not, like the object of sensation, something determined merely by our contingent and changing individual apprehension. And as the non-sensible, eternal and unchangeable essentiality it must finally be something accessible *only* to the beholding of the mind, something *apprehensible only through reason*. All these determinations can be summed up in the determination: *the Idea*, the objective concept existing in and for itself.

The reality of this Idea, more closely determined through knowledge, is definitively established through the consideration of *the nature of what is*. Everything sensible, says Plato, is something becoming, but the end of all becoming is being. — Everything sensible is a separated plurality, whose essence must be what is common to the manifold, which makes the manifold things what they are, and this essential must, as what is common to [113] all the manifold individual things, be separated as archetype from these as copies. — No individual thing presents its essence purely (therefore the notion of the common cannot be derived from the individual things either), but always only as mixed with its opposite; it therefore stands midway between being and not-being; but imperfect being can be thought only on the presupposition of a perfect being and reality, of a being equal to itself, freed from all opposition. From the becoming, divided and imperfect existence one is thus pointed to what in truth is and is real, to the Idea in its non-sensible, unchangeable unity, as something demanded with necessity. And in order also directly, by definite facts, to establish the reality of such a non-sensible, Plato appeals to mental states and

activities that cannot be conceived as anything corporeal, e.g. reason (*φρόνησις*) and justice, and to the nature of the soul.

The doctrine of Ideas thus finds its final security in the nature of what is, but through the comprehending thought that knows what is. Only in the reality of the Idea does Plato see the possibility of maintaining a true being and a true knowledge. To the changeable, contradiction-filled sense-world, the world of ignorance, true reality could not belong; but by the very imperfect being of the sense-world one was pointed to a true and eternal being, to an object for the actual knowledge demanded by the human mind and striven after through the philosophical *Eros*, for the perfect knowledge to which the imperfect pointed by its defects; and this higher being, the object of knowledge, was the Idea.

d. *The Idea and the world of Ideas.* — Through the foregoing developments the essential moments are given that are enclosed in the concept of the Idea. *The Idea* (*ἰδέα, εἶδος*) is in the first place determined as *the true existent*, which is *the intelligible object of the concept*. But the object of the concept, the essential *universal*, inasmuch as it is separated out from the many individual things that have in it the pure (ideal) expression [114] of their being, is *intuited* by the mind as *archetype* (*παράδειγμα*) and thereby acquires the typical individual existence of the ideal. In relation to the archetype the sense-things then become copies, which participate in it or imitate it, while it has a community (*κοινωνία*) with them. As archetype the Idea separates itself, as substance existing for itself, from the world of the phenomenon in *essence*, as the eternal, non-sensible, unchangeable, always equal to itself, unmixed with oppositions, and it separates itself from that world in *being*, in that it is *χωρίς* [apart], in the intelligible space (*τόπος νοητός*). The Idea is thus the expression of the common essence of individual things of like kind, in its freedom from the limits of space and time, from the obscuring and admixture of matter, as lifted up into a sphere of eternity, and as set apart as an independent, in-and-for-itself existent, unchangeable and perfect unity, which is the model of the imperfect being that is its copy.

It has already been shown above (p. 105) how Plato, in contrast to the abstract unity of the Eleatics, conceives the unity of the Idea as a concrete unity, full of content, as a unity, that is, in which plurality gets its place as bound by unity. Therefore the Idea determines itself for him into a plurality of Ideas, enclosed by the unity of a world of Ideas, and the single Idea, as concrete, in turn unites in itself the determination of unity and of plurality.

As regards the first point, we find that Plato almost never speaks of the Idea in the singular, but in by far the most passages of the Ideas. And we then see him apply the designation Idea not only to what we call something ideal, such as the good, the beautiful, justice, life, and to the organic beings of nature, such as man and animal; but to all kinds of natural objects, e.g. the Idea of fire, the Idea of water, indeed even the Idea of dirt; to artificial products, e.g. the Idea of the bed, the Idea of the table; to properties and relations, activities and states; to mathematical figures and grammatical forms; indeed Plato speaks [115] even of Ideas of the negative: the Idea of what is not, the Idea of badness. Since the Ideas were the hypostatized universal concepts, he had to posit as many Ideas as there are concepts of genus and species, and since the Idea is the real by which everything is what it is, nothing can be or be conceived of which there is no Idea. As far as something universal can be traced, the domain of the Idea must reach; only where the trace of the universal is lost in the conceptless manifoldness and unrest of becoming is the limit of the world of Ideas, and there the domain of the sensible begins. This whole manifoldness of Ideas Plato then strives to conceive as forming a whole, a comprehensive unity, a *world of Ideas*. He seeks to conceive the Ideas as a graded series which, from a highest Idea that is the source of the being of all the subordinate ones, descends successively to the lowest, which no longer have Ideas but only sensible individual things beneath them, and he sets it as the task of science: by an exhaustive enumeration, comparison and ordering of all concepts to comprehend the whole world of Ideas. As that highest, mightiest Idea Plato posits *the Idea of the good* (the Idea of the highest *end*), which is determined as the source of being and knowledge, and as standing above both; and with it the concept of the highest divine merges for him. But to show the branching of the Ideas out from this Idea, Plato has done but little, and, by the nature of the matter, could only do little. Since in the Idea the content of the concept is intuited as archetype, it is hypostatized: the Idea becomes a resting shape, the manifoldness of the Ideas a manifoldness of essentialities subsisting for themselves, and a dialectical development proceeding with inner necessity out of the highest Idea, an unfolding of concepts, becomes impossible^{*)}. The unity of the concepts takes only the form of community, participation; there is no question of a proper development of concepts, but only of an ordering of the concepts by means [116] of induction, and of a dialectic that proceeds from given concepts as presuppositions. Perhaps it is the feeling of this defect that brought Plato, in his advanced age, to attempt to lead the Ideas back to numbers.

^{*)}Cf. Plato's statement about the Idea: οὔτε εἰς ἑαυτὸ εἰσδεχόμενον ἄλλο ἄλλοθεν [neither receiving into itself anything else from elsewhere], οὔτε αὐτὸ εἰς ἄλλο ποιῶν [nor itself going anywhere into anything else].

With regard to the single Ideas, the union of unity and plurality in them shows itself when one reflects on the mutual relation of the Ideas. A connection of the different Ideas is necessary if what is is to be capable at all of being determined and known, and not merely intuited in abstract, contentless equality with itself. Every statement about being, even the simplest, already includes subject and predicate, and therein connection and plurality. And on closer consideration of the mutual relation of the Ideas it also turns out that there are indeed concepts that as it were repel one another, but that on the other hand there are such as agree and even presuppose one another. With the concept of being, e.g. all those concepts agree that express a determinateness of being, even if they mutually exclude each other, and as determinations of being they presuppose the concept of being. Insofar now as concepts agree, and thus allow themselves to be connected, they are one, i.e. the being of the one is also the being of the other. Insofar as they repel each other, and thus do not allow themselves to be connected, they are different, i.e. the being of the one is the not-being of the other. But since each of the derived concepts can be connected with many others and excludes connection with many, being belongs to each concept in many respects, but in many respects also not-being, i.e. *relative* not-being, the other-being of *difference*. What truly is, then, is a manifoldly determined concrete being, and each of the Ideas contains in itself, despite its unity, a plurality, governed by the unity, of positive and negative determinations and relations, and stands in the most manifold relations of identity and difference, and only on this presupposition can the explanation of the manifoldness of existence be sought in the world of Ideas. —

Through the determination that Plato gives of the highest Idea as *cause* of all being and knowing, a new moment is brought out in the Idea, which supplements those [117] indicated earlier. Just as the highest Idea is the cause of all being, so, according to Plato, the Idea in general, in its relation to sense-things, is to be conceived as the *active cause* (*αἰτία*) of their being, and as *power* (*δύναμις*). And just as *reason* must belong to the highest cause, because it is the cause of knowledge and of the purposive arrangement of the world, so reason belongs also to the Idea, the perfect existent, in general, and reason presupposes *life, soul and motion*. But Plato's striving to claim these determinations for the Idea remains only a striving, which is hampered by the nature of the Idea as the plastic, resting archetype, as the self-enclosed *objective* existent. Over against the determination of the Idea as the unchangeably existing archetype the determination of activity must recede, and its lack in the Idea is as a rule replaced by a *mythical* or *symbolic* element. And since in the Idea the determination of objective being is essentially accentuated, the determinations *νοῦς* and *φρόνησις* can be carried through just as little

as the determination of activity. The Idea becomes the object of thought, of the nature of thought, the intelligible archetype; the determination of it as thinking, intelligent, recedes into the shadow.

e. *Natural existence as the world of sense and as cosmos.* — Since the Idea is determined as the archetype by participation in which — a participation that gives it, as it were, a presence (a *παρουσία*) — the sensible things, the Idea's copies, have the being they possess, the Idea is thereby placed in a causal relation to the existence that is not the Idea, but in its more imperfect being has a relation to the Idea. This is *the world of the sensible*. Whereas the world of Ideas was something eternally like itself, something that has not come to be and is imperishable, not to be apprehended by sight or the other senses, only an object for the knowledge of reason, the sensible, which is named after the Idea and [118] has a likeness to it, is something perceptible by the senses, something that has come to be, something that becomes and again passes away in space, an object for opinion, which rests on sensation. The sensible is an *intermediate between being and non-being*; its fundamental determination is *becoming*. It does not present the Ideas in their purity, but always only as joined with their opposites. It does not present them in a unity, but in a dispersed plurality of individual beings. To the determination of becoming are thus added the determinations: *relative being and dividedness*. But these determinations of the sensible, since by them it is designated as an imperfect *being*, do indeed point to the Idea, the existent; but the *imperfection* of being cannot be explained by the perfect being of the Idea; it points to another factor, which, in order to explain what in the sensible conflicts with the Idea, must be something essentially different from the Idea. In order that absolute being may become relative, likeness with itself become becoming and change, unity become dividedness, there is required — so Plato concludes — a principle that has as its determinations non-being, absolute changeability and multiplicity without unity; and these determinations characterize the formless *ἄπειρον* [the unlimited], which Plato describes as *ἡ δεξαμένη* [the receptacle], as the place of all coming-to-be, as the common element that underlies all bodily elements and determinate formations of matter, and in their unceasing becoming moves through them all as the common substrate, as the mass out of which all sensible things are formed, but which itself, precisely because it is the possibility of all forms, must be without any determinate form and property, an invisible and formless nature (*φύσις, εἶδος*), and which he finally posits as equivalent to space. As the formless, this *ἄπειρον*, in its complete lack of being, can be an object neither of sensation nor of thinking; it is, in Plato's expression, apprehensible only by a

kind of “spurious thinking,” and hard to arrive at clarity about (μεθ’ ἀναισθησίας ἀπτόν λογισμῷ τινι νόθῳ, μὲν γὰρ πιστόν). In the world of sense, which by its essence points to a [119] twofold principle, two opposites thus meet, and as opposites they both assert themselves; not only is the Idea active, but matter as such becomes, despite the determination of non-being, active in opposition to the activity of the Idea; that is to say: as limiting and hindering the Idea. But while this hindering activity is brought forward where sensible existence is viewed from its sensuous side, that is, in the parceling out of the sensible, it recedes when the world of sense is viewed as a totality. The opposition then, for intuition, passes under the harmonious unity; the hindering activity of matter becomes as it were hidden under the reflected radiance of the Idea, and the world of sense is seen in another light, as the living whole formed and ensouled by the Idea, as the divine world-work of art, as cosmos. Seen as cosmos, the world of sense is apprehended as that in which the truly existent, the Idea, which bears within itself as form measure and limit, is the ruling element; and through the Idea, which through matter reveals *itself*, it is something divine, imperishable, harmoniously complete in itself, living, ensouled, endowed with reason. Cosmos is, according to Plato, the perfect living being, formed in the likeness of the Idea of the living (αὐτοζῶον), after the image of the Godhead; it encloses in its body the whole of the corporeal; it is by its soul in possession of a life of its own, i.e. belonging to itself, and of divine reason; it is never touched by age or destruction; it is not only the perfect copy of the eternal and invisible Godhead, but itself a blessed god, the only one of its kind (μονογενής), sufficient to itself and needing nothing else.

To the fact that cosmos exists through the Idea Plato gives, in his *Timaeus*, a *mythical* expression, depicting the formation of cosmos by the world-builder (the Demiurge). Being good, the world-builder wished to make the totality of the visible as perfect as possible, and therefore he wished to form, after the Idea of the living being (αὐτοζῶον), a copy that had all the perfections of the archetype, so far as was possible. First, therefore, [120] he formed the world-soul, the condition of the reason of the universe, out of a mixture of the substance of the Idea and of the non-existent, to which were added τὰυτόν [the same] and the ἄτερον [the other], which is hard to unite with it (the condition of uniform and of changing motion, and of the knowledge of the identical and of the different); and this mixture was divided, formed and spread out according to the harmonic numerical ratios, and into its frame, whose form the equator and the ecliptic indicate, was fitted the chaotically surging material, after it had been brought by the ordering Godhead into the mathematically determined spatial boundaries of the physical elements (earth corresponds to the cube, fire to the pyramid, water to the icosahedron, air to the

octahedron; but all these stereometric figures are thought of as formed from triangles). Thus arose the system of star-bearing celestial spheres that enclose the earth as the resting center. In the various regions of heaven the Demiurge placed the living and ensouled heavenly bodies, the immortal “gods that have come to be.” Lastly he let all kinds of living beings come to be, so that the world might enclose the same wealth of life as the Idea of the living. Of these, however, the world-builder himself forms only the immortal and divine part of human souls, but leaves it to the gods that have come to be to form the rest.

In the more fully executed depiction of the ordering of the universe, which, according to Plato, owing to the sensible nature of the object, belongs not to the domain of certain knowledge but to that of probable opinions, the conceptually determined opposition between the activity of the Idea and that of matter everywhere comes forward. In the coming-to-be of the universe as in its being, the ideal causes, the final causes, which everywhere strive to realize the Idea of the good, become the proper causes. The material, mechanical causes, which are traced back to natural necessity (*Ἀνάγκη*), become merely contributory causes (*ξυμβαίτια*), conditions for the activity of the proper causes; they can indeed, as we saw above, owing to their origin, limit and hinder in particulars the [121] complete activity of reason; but their hindering activity has vanished in the universe as a totality, so that cosmos stands as the completed work of art, resting in its divine life.

But with this Platonic determination of the world of sense, difficulties arise that Plato cannot resolve, and that mark the rock on which Greek thought as a whole must strike. The world of sense was not deduced from an ideal element essentially determined as *active* alone; rather, the Idea and matter were posited as the factors of the world of sense. And these factors were to be opposites fixed *absolutely* for intuition: the Idea the purely existent, matter the non-existent. The character of this opposition is not cancelled by what was developed above (p. 116), that Plato posits a non-being in the Ideas too; for the non-being of the Ideas was only the relative non-being of difference, more precisely: the non-being posited only by a comparing reflection, which does not get its place as a determination of essence in what merely positively is, which excludes all inner negativity, and becomes the different that is indifferent to this being-other. This non-being is thus itself being; it is precisely the non-being of an other as the being of this determinate thing. The non-being of matter, by contrast, is the absolute non-being foreign to the Idea, a non-being in and for itself. But such a non-being, which cannot be explained from the Idea, nor derived from its being, cannot be thought of as of itself coming together into a unity with the being of the Idea; and yet the world of sense was supposed precisely to express

the unity. Plato must, since the opposites stand for him as given presuppositions, seek to explain the being of the world of sense by finding a third that joins and connects them; but this attempt proves, by the nature of the case, impossible to carry through. Plato seeks the joining element partly as an active connecting agent, which finds its expression in the world-artist (the Demiurge), partly as a conceptual mediating element, which is represented by the world-soul. The notion of the *Demiurge* is, however, only the mythical expression for the determination of motion and activity that was required by Plato in the Idea but not conceptually secured, and which is therefore intuited outside the Idea (after which the world-artist forms) and personified, but without the essence and being of the world-forming Godhead being able, after all, to be any other than precisely those of the Idea; and that personification therefore cannot explain what was not explicable by the concept of the Idea. The explanation of the connection of the Idea and matter would then have to be sought in the *world-soul*. The world-soul, whose formation has been described above, becomes, according to Plato, that which, as enclosing all the harmonic numerical ratios, is the cause of the order prevailing in the universe; that which, as moving itself, moves the world; and that which, as possessing life, consciousness and thought, becomes the principle of life, of consciousness and of knowledge. All these determinations point to the Idea as their source, but at the same time they point to the active pervasion of the sensible, whose nature is a moment in the essence of the world-soul. The world-soul is designated as an intermediate being in that it is determined as enclosing the numerical ratios. For the mathematical element, for Plato, forms an intermediate sphere between the Idea that is for itself and the corporeal, but nevertheless stands nearer the former than the latter, since, although existing in the sensible and attached to it and to its multiplicity and its being in space, it nevertheless, like the Idea, expresses something eternal and unchangeable. [122]

But the middle term which was to explain the connection between the opposites in the universe itself comes to be, according to Plato, only through the connection it was to explain: through the mixture of the Idea and matter; and just as the opposites are hypostatized each by itself, so it too is hypostatized and comes to stand as something separate *beside* the Idea and matter. Whereas it encloses in itself only something of the whole of the Idea and something of the whole of matter, and therefore becomes only the frame of the world of sense, it becomes a distinct member, which in its essence contains, as it were, added-together elements of the essence of both opposites, but falls outside them both. Yet by its fundamental determinations it stands so near the Idea that it becomes difficult to maintain its separation from the latter; it becomes in reality an [123]

expression for the Idea (for that which has measure and form in itself), seen from the side on which the Idea stands in relation to the phenomenon and, as determining the phenomenon according to the mathematical numerical ratios, appears as the abiding measure, as the forming and ordering element in corporeal existence. What was to distinguish the world-soul from the Idea would have to be, most nearly, that the former is represented as spread out through space, while the latter is without relation to space. But the extension of the world-soul in space becomes really only an image. Since it invisibly, as a unity, pervades the world, its relation of dependence on space is essentially cancelled, and this becomes still more explicit when the world-soul is determined as incorporeal and thinking. The world-soul is the harmony of the existent as hypostatized and separated from what harmoniously exists, but as harmony it is independent of space.

The connecting links, then, that in Plato were to connect Idea and matter prove insufficient. The mythical figure of the world-builder could gain power and significance only for the imagination. The activity that remained unconceived in the Idea hypostatized into an archetype remains unconceived in him; and unconceived, even if the activity is presupposed, remains its power to connect what is separated by an abstract opposition. Here the conceptual middle term, the world-soul, was to fill the gap. But this middle term did not explain the connection, because it was itself only explained by the connection; and the incompatibility of the opposites showed itself in this, that its postulated determinations could not after all keep it apart from one of the opposites: the world-soul became the universal *form* of the universe. What is absolutely different in essence can have no true middle term: every attempt to maintain such a one must lead over to one of the sides.

[124] When, then, the problem of the possibility of the world of sense cannot be solved along the path attempted, a new difficulty comes forward, in that the world of sense, which forces itself upon us as something given, which Plato neither can nor will deny, comes, as the relatively existent, to claim a place *beside* the absolutely existent: the Idea. If the concept of the Idea were held strictly in the form of thought, the world of Ideas and the world of sense could not be posited as *two* real worlds standing beside each other. All reality belongs to the Idea; the sensible, therefore, insofar as being is ascribed to it, could only be posited as existing in unity with the Idea. From this standpoint spatial relations would not become separating (cf. Parmenides), the Idea and the phenomenon would not be placed side by side, the being-for-itself of the archetype would not become different from its being as indwelling in the copy. In cosmos we would then have this unity; in it all existence would be intuited as an all-embracing living work of art, existing

through the Idea and ensouled by the indwelling Idea. And this unity would, by virtue of the necessary relation between the factors of the work of art, be an eternal unity. But since, in the conception of the Idea, intuition determines the form of thought and transforms the universal essence with its *παρουσία* into the hypostatized archetype, the world of Ideas becomes a *χωριστόν* [something separate], and as it separates itself from the world of the phenomenon, it comes, as it were, to share reality with the latter, which, as the product of the originally juxtaposed opposites, is represented as having come to be. Despite the fact that Plato has, as it were, gathered in the concept of cosmos all the determinations that express the unity of existence, he cannot after all maintain this unity, and what prevents him from doing so is the peculiarity of Greek thought, conditioned by the character of the Greek fundamental intuition.

In the fundamental tendency of the Greek spirit, to apprehend existence in the form of beauty, lies an impulse that must constantly draw the opposites toward each other in order to connect them in the intuition of cosmos, and that must drive thought to give the intuited unity its form, to express it through the concept. But in order to apprehend the unity as a unity of concept, thought must first give the moments of the unity the form of the concept, which it can do only by loosening them from their immediate connection, [125] given for intuition. But in virtue of the moment of *artistic intuition* which the thought of a spirit resting in beauty, in the immediacy of harmony, must constantly bear within itself, and by which its form is determined, the concepts of the separated moments must fix themselves in the separation as resting opposites in the form of immediacy, which thought is not able to set in motion and to lead back to unity, however much it tries. The relation must become double and ambiguous, the activity of thought divided between unification and separation, but in such a way that separation becomes dominant, that thought, whose motion is bound in the resting immediacy of artistic intuition, is not able to realize its striving for unity in the form of the concept, but ends in dualism.

It is this peculiarity of Greek thought that in the Idea pushes back the determination of activity and gives the Idea as archetype the form of resting being, just as it was this peculiarity that prevented the world of Ideas in its ordered multiplicity from being seen as proceeding from the highest Idea, and that made the world of Ideas a world of resting Ideas whose ordering remained unconceived.

It is the same peculiarity that, when the opposite of the Idea comes forward with the determination of non-being, brings it about that this non-being is hypostatized and, as the opposite of the intuited existent, becomes the *intuited* non-existent, which, precisely as such, is fixed in *absolute* opposition to the Idea, and stands as an underived,

ever-present existence which, as it were by force, asserts itself to intuiting thought as an objectively existing and active non-existent, whose connection with the Idea becomes incomprehensible.

It is, finally, this peculiarity that, even at the point where, in the intuition of cosmos, the unity in existence found its fullest, as it were definitive, irrevocable expression, [126] where thought sought rest in the intuition of the harmonious unity of the whole of existence, nevertheless keeps the Idea separated from this its harmonious revelation, and removes it into a higher sphere of existence, into an intelligible space filled with non-sensuous archetypes, whereby the reality of the world again becomes incomprehensible for thought, since all real being is enclosed in the world of Ideas, which is posited as a *χωριστόν*. And through this involuntary separation the dualism in principle of the fundamental opposites again betrays itself.

f. *The Human*. — α. *Anthropology*. — The cosmic principles of the Platonic physics are mirrored in anthropology, which is the conclusion of the special physics and the foundation of ethics.

The human soul is, according to its eternal essence, of one essence with the world-soul. Its immortal, divine part is namely formed (according to the *Timaeus*) of the same constituents as the latter, though in lesser purity. It is, without itself being an Idea, so closely bound up with the Idea, in particular with the Idea of life, that it cannot be thought without it. For its determinations it therefore has self-motion, eternal life, simplicity, likeness with itself. *Noûς* [mind] is implanted in it. But to the divine and immortal part of the soul there has been added, through the union with the body — a union which Plato now determines as necessary, hence as essential, now as conditioned by a fall in pre-existence — a mortal part, and through this union the purity of the immortal soul and its intuition of the Idea are obscured and disturbed, and can only be regained successively through the contemplation of the harmony of the universe, and through thinking, as the mind, awakened to Eros by sensuous beauty, the imprint of the Idea, *recollects* the Idea beheld in the soul's pre-existence, and through philosophy is led back to the life in it.

The obscuring of the soul in its union with the body is caused by sensuousness and [127] passion, by the mortal soul, bound to the body and perishable with the body, which, through the union of the rational and immortal soul with the body, as it were grows fast to it and affects it. The mortal soul in turn has two parts in it: a nobler one, *θυμὸς* (*τὸ θυμοειδές*), which, though lacking rational insight, strives as if by instinct toward the true

and the good, and, when it has not been made refractory by bad habit, assists the rational soul, — and a less noble one, τὸ ἐπιθυμητικὸν (τὸ φιλοχρήματον [the money-loving]). The first, “the spirited,” is the expression of the more vigorous, nobler passions (such as anger, indignation), the second, “the desiring,” of the lower sensuous drives. They each have their own particular seat: θυμός in the breast, ἐπιθυμία in the abdomen; while the thinking, cognizing soul (τὸ λογιστικόν) has its seat in the head. These parts of the soul, of which the lowest is also found in the plant and the lower animals, the middle one in the nobler animals, Plato determines as different stages of life, of which the higher, in order to *exist*, always presupposes the lower; but under this conception, which suggests an inner unity, he nevertheless retains them, in agreement with the notion of their origin and their seats in the body, as real *parts*. The question of the *unity of the soul's life* within the tripartition Plato has not answered. The concept of personality did not yet exist at all for the Greeks in its sharpness: they viewed the life of the soul more as spread out through the plastically formed body than as concentrated in ideal unity. Connected with this, too, is the fact that the problem of the *freedom of the will* comes forward only late and is answered only unsatisfactorily. In Plato the problem is in reality only pushed back to the state of pre-existence, but not solved.

The immortality of the soul is for Plato an immediate consequence of its relation to the Idea of life. In an earlier writing (the Phaedrus) he lets the whole soul have pre-existence and immortality, but in a later one (the Timaeus) only the thinking soul, which is more consistent and agrees with his conception of the relation of the ideal to the material. In depicting the soul's life after death, its wanderings and purifications, its punishments [128] and its blessed life, Plato, in the consciousness that the domain of clear knowledge is here overstepped, makes use of the poetic form of *myth*, which for him becomes an indispensable supplement to the properly philosophical exposition.

β. *Ethics and Politics*. — The fundamental character of the Platonic ethics is immediately determined by his metaphysical fundamental view; its more detailed working-out is closely conditioned by his anthropology, inasmuch as ethical action becomes the expression of the human being, determined according to its true peculiarity, in its activity.

The fundamental concept of ethics is the concept of the highest goal of human striving: *the highest good*, which is synonymous with *happiness*. This highest goal becomes for Plato the realization of the Idea in man, either — which corresponds to the conception of the Idea as what alone is real in its separateness — through complete liberation from the sensuous; or — which corresponds to the conception of the Idea as principle of a harmonious being, i.e. of an ideal reality, in the sensuous — through the harmoniously

beautiful development of man's whole sensuous-mental existence, in which the nobler pleasure too finds its place. To realize the Idea is in Plato synonymous with becoming like the Godhead (*ὁμοιωθῆναι θεῶ*).

The means by which alone the highest good can be attained is virtue. *Virtue* Plato conceives as the normal harmonious activity of the parts of the soul, appearing in a plurality of essentially connected forms. He is thereby led to set up 4 cardinal virtues. The virtue of the rational part of the soul is wisdom (*σοφία*), the clear knowledge of the true and the good that guides the life of the soul. The virtue of the passionate part of the soul is courage (*ἀνδρία*), whose essence is, in the face of the promptings of pleasure and pain, to uphold the pronouncement of reason about what ought to be feared and what not. The virtue of the desiring part of the soul is moderation (*σωφροσύνη*), which [129] consists in the subordination of the lower in the soul to the higher and more rational. But to the soul as a whole there also corresponds a virtue: justice (*δικαιοσύνη*), which expresses the normal state of the total life of the soul through the right mutual relation of the individual parts of the soul, and thus becomes, as it were, the universal virtue. These virtues, which are thus distinguished, work together in perfected virtue, which through true knowledge develops out of ordinary ethical life, resting on practice and tradition; and in all virtue *knowledge*, which, as pointing toward the Idea, expresses man's essential determination, becomes the proper foundation and the properly hegemonic element.

The virtue of the single individual presupposes for its realization the *state*, which, in itself realizing the ethical on a larger scale, educates individuals to it and secures its dominion. The essential aim of the state is not external goods and external security, but to make its citizens good and thereby happy; and this it can do only when it itself expresses and realizes virtue, and in particular the all-embracing virtue, justice, whose distinguishing mark is: *τὰ ἑαυτοῦ πράττειν* [to do one's own]. Now since Plato, in his peculiar manner, views the fundamental activities of society as particular *parts* of the state, corresponding to the parts of the soul, this leads him to let the *estates* of the state (*τὰ γένη*), which represent those fundamental activities, sharply separate themselves from one another, each with its particular work, and each represent a single virtue. While the acquiring estate (artisans, farmers and traders), which corresponds to *τὸ ἐπιθυμητικόν* (*φιλοχρήματον*), the desiring part of the soul, has moderation for its virtue, the estate of the warriors, which corresponds to *τὸ θυμοειδές*, has courage for its virtue, and the estate of the rulers, which corresponds to *τὸ λογιστικόν*, has wisdom for its own. And the ethical life of the *whole* state, its *justice* and its happiness, is posited as conditioned by the distinct estates, each attending to the work that is determined by its concept,

standing in the right harmonious relation to one another. The rulers, who represent reason, the Idea, must for this reason have power exclusively, power of which they must [130] make themselves worthy through the possession of the highest insight and cultivation. Only the dominion of true philosophy can make the state answer to its task, and free the human race from unhappiness. The estate of the warriors, which is comprehended together with that of the rulers under the common designation of guardians of the state (*φύλακες*), and comes to stand nearer to the rulers than *θυμὸς* stood to *τὸ λογιστικὸν* in the anthropology, is to live solely for the defense of the state at home and abroad. The third estate is to live solely for acquisition, for the provision of all necessities of life, in strict and compulsory subordination to the others. In the estate that rules without restriction, representing the dominion of the Idea, the idea of the state has a *separate* existence, and it is therefore consistent that the individual can be a member of this estate only by giving up individual interests for the universal. For the ruling estate private property and family life cease, and the same law holds for its “helpers”: the warriors. The authority of the state regulates sexual unions, fixes the number of children that may live, and selects that number from among those born, takes complete possession of the children from birth onward, determines, according to the aptitudes they show, their station in life, and directs the strictly ordered upbringing and education of those selected as guardians of the state. (The first two to three years of life are appointed for the children’s bodily care; from the 3rd to the 6th they are educated through the telling of myths; from the 7th to the 10th they are exercised in gymnastics; from the 10th to the 13th in reading and writing; from the 14th to the 16th in acquaintance with poetry and in music; the 16th to the 18th is devoted to the mathematical sciences; the 18th to the 20th to military exercises. With this the instruction of those destined to be warriors is concluded. Those who show scientific aptitude, on the other hand, receive from the 20th to the 30th year a more rigorous scientific instruction. The most excellent among them are then singled out and occupy themselves, while the others pass over to a practical activity, from the 30th to the 35th year with the study of dialectic. From the 35th to [131] the 50th year those so educated take over posts of command and office. After the 50th year they attain to the contemplation of the highest object of knowledge: the Idea of the good; they are received among the rulers, and hold in rotation the highest offices of state, with which the supervision of the whole state’s government is connected; yet most of their time is devoted to philosophical contemplation, in comparison with which life in the state is the subordinate thing.) The women of the two estates are brought up in the same manner as the men and take the same part in affairs of state and in

war. The difference of sex acquires no significance over against the universally human. The material maintenance of the two higher estates is provided by the acquiring estate. Of this estate Plato speaks only little, and from a strictly aristocratic standpoint. The educative influence of the state upon it seems to have to be limited to this: that the example and power of the higher estates hold back the sensuous desires of the third estate, and that the state's care to remove an effeminate music and an unethical poetry from its domain must also acquire significance for this estate.

Plato has formed his peculiar doctrine of the ideal state, although he takes up motives from Doric political conditions and from the Pythagorean league, in an independent manner *from the fundamental concept of his philosophy*, and in it, through what he posits as unconditionally ruling over the striving of all individuals, and through the ideal goal to which the whole life of the state is subordinated, he has idealized the principle of Greek substantial ethical life; and he has intimated much that only in a distant future, from other points of departure, has come to reality, and much that stands as the task of a still more distant future.

g. *The Significance and Defects of the Platonic Philosophy.* — The abiding and imperishable significance of Plato's philosophy lies in this: that through dialectic he discovers [132] the *Idea*, the fundamental thought of Greece; that, by giving thought, in the Idea, a true and eternal, ideally existent object, he gives rebirth to the dissolved philosophy as a new universal science, which, as it were through a recollection, preserves within itself the essential content of the past, and which through the ideality of its principle receives throughout the stamp of ideality; and that he lets the Idea, revealed to knowledge, rule the whole of human existence and shape it into artistic unity. By being the first to proclaim, energetically and with enthusiasm, the reality of the Idea and its accessibility to thought, and by determining it as what rules in all existence and is essential in it, Plato has become a representative of all ideal striving in life and science, and has given the human mind an impulse that has carried it far beyond the bounds of his system, and has worked to awaken and inspire in all ages.

But beside the abiding and comprehensive significance of the Platonic philosophy, there appears in it an essential defect, already indicated above, which is connected with the peculiarity of Greek thought, *typically* pronounced in Plato. We saw above how the Idea and its opposite, as both were hypostatized for intuition, became fixed as abstract opposites, whose fundamental determinations placed them in a merely negative relation to each other, so that the Idea became the purely existent, matter the purely

non-existent. And as the determination of non-being, of negation, was thus excluded from the Idea, the Idea had to lose the determination of activity, which could only have been maintained had negation, the incitement of motion, been posited in the essence, in the Idea; it had to become the resting, substantial existent, the tranquil archetype. From this, in turn, essential consequences spring. When the incitement of motion, of dialectical unfolding, is lacking in the Idea, then the concrete content of the world of Ideas cannot be reached by a deduction from the highest Idea, but can only be won through an abstraction from the sensible world; and this sensible world, given for intuition, can be comprehended neither according to its concrete content nor according to its existence from the self-subsistent, resting, inactive, negationless Idea. To explain the sensible [133] world, matter was called in to help; but since this new factor was the Idea's abstract opposite and as such what is incompatible with the Idea, the explanation of the sensible world nevertheless became impossible, and the sensible world remained standing as a riddle, with a contradictory existence, as a relative being beside the absolute, which is a *χωριστόν* [something separate], and as a combination of that whose essence excludes combination. And as contradictory as its existence becomes that of the Idea's opposite, whose validity constantly asserts itself anew through the fact of the sensible world: it becomes an existent and active non-existent and stands as such over against the absolute being of the Idea.

Through the defects and contradictions that remain in the Platonic philosophy, the task is set for philosophy: to find a new formula for the relation of the fundamental opposites, one that sets these in a positive relation, in a relation of essential unity, to each other, and to comprehend the ideal, form, as the active force, and as that which, indwelling in matter, forms matter. It is by taking up this task that *Aristotle* carries Greek philosophy forward, while *Plato's school* loses itself in fruitless speculation.

4. The Older Academy.

The school that attached itself to Plato followed in the course of time essentially different directions, which have led to a distinction between what has been called the older, the middle and the newer Academy. The last two stages of the school's development belong to the 3rd period; the first we discuss here in brief.

It is represented essentially by *Speusippus* (Plato's sister's son and head of the Academy after him), *Xenocrates*, *Heraclides Ponticus*, *Philip* of Opus, *Polemo*, *Crantor* and *Crates*. Of these, after *Speusippus*, *Xenocrates*, *Polemo* and *Crates* were scholarchs.

[134] The philosophical activity of *the older Academy* is of subordinate value. The Pythagoreanizing form which Plato's doctrine of Ideas had assumed in his old age is held fast here, and in its first generations the school loses itself in obscure speculations on the relation of the Ideas to the numbers, on the elements of the numbers and on the origin of the numbers from the elements and of things from the numbers. The Platonic doctrine of Ideas in its original and pure shape disappears, and Pythagorean mathematical-religious mysticism takes its place; dogmatism replaces dialectic. Weight is laid on encyclopedic learning, and as interest in the abstruse speculations gradually fades, the main interest turns from the theoretical to the practical, in which domain there then appears a shyness of exaggeration and one-sidedness, a striving to give external goods a place beside the essential ones: the mental. This turn toward an ethics that preserves a popular form is represented by *Polemo* and *Crantor*. Polemo sets the practical above the theoretical, teaching that one should cultivate oneself by action, not by dialectic. — After Crates the Platonic school assumes another shape. The cast of thought of the middle Academy is essentially skeptical.

5. Aristotle.

a. *Aristotle's Life and Writings*. — *Aristotle*, son of Nicomachus, was born at Stagira in Thrace in 384 B.C. His father belonged to a family of physicians who derived their descent from Machaon, son of Asclepius. At eighteen years of age Aristotle came to Athens to hear Plato, and for 20 years he was his pupil, though at the same time he appears to have come forward as a teacher of eloquence in rivalry with Isocrates. Of Aristotle's personal relation to Plato only unreliable reports are available. When Plato had died, he left Athens and betook himself, together with his former fellow-disciple under Plato, Xenocrates, to the tyrant Hermias in Atarneus in Mysia, with whom he stayed until

[135] 344. After Hermias had been captured through treachery and executed by the Persians, Aristotle stayed for a short time on Mitylene, and went from there to Macedonia, where King Philip made him tutor to his son Alexander. When Alexander, after his father's death, was preparing his expedition to Asia, Aristotle returned to Athens, where he founded a philosophical school in the Lyceum, which he directed for 12–13 years. With Alexander he maintained a friendly connection, which cooled only in the king's last years, and Alexander is said to have richly supported him with resources for his studies in natural science and for the collecting of a library. Alexander's death gave the party in Athens hostile to him the courage to raise an accusation against Aristotle for ἀσέβεια

[impiety]. He then left Athens, “so as not to let the Athenians sin a second time against philosophy” and died soon after at Chalcis on Euboea, in the year 322 B.C.

Of Aristotle’s writings, the popular ones, composed in dialogue form, are lost; the more strictly scientific (acroamatic) ones are very incompletely preserved, in part handed down in an imperfect form and mixed with spurious components. The genuine Aristotelian writings do not give us a picture of the development of his peculiar philosophy as the Platonic ones do, but all show the same already fully clarified fundamental view, and were probably all composed during Aristotle’s second stay in Athens. We do not have in these writings the Aristotelian philosophy lying before us as a closed system, equally worked out and carried through in all its parts, whose individual sciences are also joined in an external manner into an articulated unity. The writings form, according to the diversity of their content, a plurality of more or less complete groups, which indeed show themselves as belonging together both through the unity of the pervading thought and through mutual references, but which are nevertheless not joined into the architectonic unity of a system. There are 4 main groups: a logical, a metaphysical, a physical and an ethical-political. The *logical*, which seems to have been the earliest composed, includes the writings: On the Categories (the fundamental forms of statements about what is); [136] *περὶ ἑρμηνείας* (which treats of the proposition and the judgment); the two Analytics (on inference, proof, definition, division and the knowledge of principles); the Topics (on dialectical inferences from the probable), and the writing on sophistical fallacies (*περὶ σοφιστικῶν ἐλέγχων*). The collection of the logical writings was later designated as a whole as *Ὀργανον* [instrument]. — The *metaphysical* group is represented in our collection of Aristotle’s works by one writing, which bears the later name: the Metaphysics (*τὰ μετὰ τὰ φυσικὰ*); but this writing contains a plurality of independent drafts, more and less worked out, which are put together in a not felicitous manner and in part mixed with spurious components. The treatises that belong to the fundamental science are probably the last composed of Aristotle’s writings, and they are the ones that lie before us in the least completed and finished form. — The *physical* group comprises the main physical work, *φυσικὴ ἀκρόασις* [Physics] in 8 books; the writings *περὶ οὐρανοῦ* [On the Heavens] and *περὶ γενέσεως καὶ φθορᾶς* [On Coming-to-be and Passing Away]; the Meteorology; the extensive natural history of animals (*περὶ τὰ ζῶα ἱστορίαι*): a comparative physiology; the writing on the parts of animals; the writing, important in philosophical respect, on the generation of animals; and some lesser physical treatises; in addition, the main psychological work *περὶ ψυχῆς* [On the Soul] and a number of lesser psychological writings that attach themselves to it (*περὶ μνήμης καὶ ἀναμνήσεως* [On Memory and

Recollection], *περὶ αἰσθήσεως καὶ αἰσθητῶν* [On Sense and Sensibles], *περὶ ὕπνου καὶ ἐγρηγόρσεως* [On Sleep and Waking], *περὶ ἐνυπνίων* [On Dreams], *περὶ μαντικῆς τῆς ἐν τοῖς ὕπνοις* [On Divination in Sleep], *περὶ μακροβιότητος καὶ βραχυβιότητος* [On Length and Shortness of Life], *περὶ ζωῆς καὶ θανάτου* [On Life and Death]). — To the *ethical-political* group belong the main ethical work, the *Nicomachean Ethics* in 10 books, the writing on the state, the *Politics* (in 8 books), and perhaps the 1st book of the *Economics* (the 2nd is spurious). — The Aristotelian *Rhetoric* occupies a somewhat indeterminate position, since from one point of view it belongs to the logical, from another to the ethical-political group. — The unfinished *Poetics* (the theory of poetry) stands isolated, [137] since it alone, among the writings preserved to us, belongs to the domain that Aristotle, in distinction from that of the theoretical and that of the practical, designates as that of the poietic (see below: the division of Aristotle's philosophy). Among the lost writings of Aristotle, his writing on animal anatomy (*ἀνατομαί*) and his *πολιτεῖαι*, a description of the constitutions of over 150 states and cities, have surely been the most important.

b. *The historical position of the Aristotelian philosophy, and its distinctive character.* — In the survey of the second period the historical position of the Aristotelian philosophy has been briefly indicated; we here determine it more closely, partly in relation to the Platonic, partly in relation to Greek philosophy in general.

With Plato Aristotle shares the conception of form, the ideal, as what truly is and as the source of all actuality; but since in Plato's conception of this ideal as the archetype, separated from things and resting in itself, he could find no explanation of the being of things and of their coming-to-be, and in the conception of matter as the abstract *μη ὄν* [what is not] saw a source of contradictions, he determines the formula for the relation of the opposites differently from Plato. Form becomes for him, as already indicated earlier, the immanent form, the forming principle active in matter, and form's opposite, matter, is brought under the same determination as form: under that determination of being which in Plato involuntarily comprised what is not as well. Aristotle thus wants to find the ideal in concrete real existence itself, not through a flight from it or an annihilation of it, and he seeks a unity of the opposites in that he sees the ideal as realizing itself in matter, which is akin to it in essence, differs from it only in the mode of its existence, and has its goal in form.

Under the opposition to Plato, under the polemic against the particular form in which the ideal principle was conceived by him, the fundamental character of the Aristotelian philosophy is therefore the same as that of the Platonic. The difference is only this, that

whereas the power of the ideal principle over thought shows itself in Plato in the striving [138] to let the being of the finite be dissolved through dialectic so that the world of the Idea might raise itself up above it and reveal itself in its purity and independence, in Aristotle it shows itself in his striving to see the Idea, the form, in the sensible, in concrete natural existence, as the immanent cause of its being, as the source of its life, as actively realizing itself in the material. There is in the two, Greece's greatest thinkers, as it were a double current of thought: back to the Idea and out from the Idea, and in this circulation pulses Idea-animated Greek thought. Aristotle is Plato's supplement: together they comprise the whole essential content of Greek philosophy. As representatives of Greek thought in its culmination they both are, and both must be, idealists, and Aristotle is so even in a higher sense than Plato, insofar as he has the assurance of that power of the ideal which preserves its being even in the midst of the world of phenomena, in the connection with its opposite.

In the determination of Aristotle's relation to Plato lies the determination of his relation to Greek philosophy in general. *Aristotle is the ideal conclusion of Greek philosophy.* What Greek thought strove for as its highest goal, to express in the form of the *concept* that *unity of existence* which is immediately present to intuition in the work of art that is the world, Aristotle has attempted to realize with a greater energy of thought than any other Greek thinker; and through the determination of form as immanent and of matter as what is according to potentiality, the principles are set in such a relation to one another that that striving has a real foundation. And while Aristotle energetically strives for the unity of principle, his philosophy embraces and appropriates—precisely as a consequence of his conception of the relation of the fundamental opposites—real actuality in as rich a measure as any Greek system, while at the same time it most surely and most definitely [139] conceives the task of science in relation to the various domains of existence, and most sharply and most completely clarifies the forms of thought. Precisely as the completion of Greek thought, the Aristotelian philosophy becomes the form through which the latter exerts its influence through the Middle Ages.

But since Aristotle's philosophical system stands as the ideal conclusion of an entire historical main form of philosophy, it lies in the relation between the principle, and the distinctiveness determined by that principle, of the individual philosophical main form and the universal essence of philosophy working through this distinctiveness, that this system, which as the ideally concluding one fully reveals the character of the main form to which it belongs, must point beyond the limits of that form and intimate concepts from the forms of thinking which develop out of it with inner necessity. For this main

form of philosophy has its distinctive life only as a member in an organic development, and must therefore in its completion reveal its inner connection with the supplementary forms. Intimations of the thoughts of the future appear, too, as will be developed more closely below, both in the organic conception of existence conditioned by Aristotle's determination of the fundamental relation of the principles, and in his conception of the fundamental forms of knowledge. But wherever what is thus intimated is to be fully realized, we see it hampered and pushed back by the general fundamental peculiarity of Greek thought, which as an insurmountable barrier halts the attempt to reach beyond the limits of the Greek spirit.

The distinctive movement of thinking in Aristotle is conditioned by the determination of the relation of the principles. According to Aristotle's view, it is in the phenomenon that we are to seek the ideal, whose first form of appearance for us the phenomenon is; only from the object of experience, what is "more certain for us," is the mind to be able to attain consciousness of the form, the concept, the universal, what is "more certain in [140] and for itself"; and the task of thought, when it has found the universal, is to be precisely this: starting from the universal, to descend knowingly to the individual, the concrete, and to explain it. Therefore Aristotle attributes to *experience*, the form of knowledge that relates to the individual real, a different significance than Plato does; for him it becomes an essential and indispensable form of knowledge, without which a conception of the natural in its actuality becomes impossible. And since natural existence has form immanent in it, it gains value in its *whole* extent for knowledge, which even in the most insignificant and lowliest finds a task and a yield. The limits of philosophy therefore become far wider in Aristotle than in Plato. In Plato philosophy properly had as its object only the ideal in its eternity and immutability; the knowledge of nature, whose object is something becoming, fell outside the stricter philosophical knowledge and became merely a matter of fitting recreation. Aristotle does indeed let the knowledge which, through its relation to the eternal, to what truly is, has the form of necessity and universality, be the *τέλος* [end] of knowledge and the form for the highest science of philosophy: the science of the ultimate grounds of things; but his interest in the actuality in which the ideal reveals itself in its activity leads him to give the concept of knowledge and of philosophy such an extension that it comprises not merely the strictly necessary and universally valid, but also the probable and the customary, and thus to draw under science that material, too, which can only become the object of an incomplete knowing.

c. *The division of philosophy in Aristotle.* — Aristotle gives, in various places in his

writings, various more or less elaborated divisions of the domain of philosophy. The one that affords the easiest survey of his system in its distinctive articulation is the division of philosophy into *theoretical* philosophy, with the subdivisions: first philosophy (meta- [141] physics), mathematics, and physics; *practical* philosophy, with the subdivisions: ethics and politics; and *poietic* philosophy. While all philosophy as such aims at knowledge, for theoretical philosophy the final end is the knowledge of what is, for practical philosophy action, for poietic philosophy what is technically or artistically produced. The theoretical sciences have the highest rank; among them, again, metaphysics, whose object is what is as such, and preeminently what is in the highest sense: form, which in its purity is the matter-free divine form. After metaphysics there follows in rank mathematics, whose object is the unmoved in the corporeal, the determinations of magnitude and number, which by an abstracting thinking are conceived as separated from physical bodies; and after mathematics, again, physics, whose object is what is moved and corporeal. When Aristotle in the subdivision omits mathematics, which he has treated only little, physics as *φιλοσοφία δευτέρα* [second philosophy] receives its place immediately after metaphysics as *πρώτη φιλοσοφία*. In practical philosophy the name of politics is used partly in a wider sense, as comprising the ethical and the political, partly in a narrower sense, as designating a separate science beside ethics. Economics is conceived as an auxiliary science; rhetoric occupies, as already indicated above, partly a similar position, partly it attaches itself to the logical writings. Of poietic philosophy, of which Aristotle has only begun the execution in the doctrine of poetry, he has given no subdivision.

In the division cited no place is assigned to what we sum up in one word under the designation *logic*, a designation that comprises what Aristotle distinguishes as dialectic and analytic. The reason is that he regards these disciplines as *preparatory* in relation to the study of the system of philosophy, as a *propaedeutic doctrine of method*, with which he who wishes to occupy himself with the study of philosophy must be familiar *before* [142] he proceeds to the philosophical sciences proper.

d. *Dialectic and analytic*. — The concept of *dialectic* Aristotle applies in a far more limited meaning than Plato, for whom it was synonymous with the concept of philosophy in general. Aristotle conceives dialectic as a preparatory exercise in the development of thought and as an aid toward clarifying, on the basis of experience and the probable (*τὰ ἔνδοξα*, i.e. what seems true to the multitude, or to the wise, or at any rate to some eminent individuals), concepts and scientific principles. For this purpose it is to take its starting point from the current views, which are conceived as the expression of a

comprehensive experience, from the results of the earlier philosophical attempts, and from linguistic expression and linguistic designations; and as the various points of view that have asserted themselves through these are now set against one another in order to be tested, it brings forth aporias, through whose provisional solution by reasoning from probability it seeks a foundation for the scientific development. Dialectic teaches *ἐξετάζειν καὶ ὑπέχειν λόγον* [to examine and to submit to examination]; by its character it becomes *πειραστική* [tentative], whereas philosophy is *γνωστική* [cognitive]. That dialectic can lead by the path indicated to science proper presupposes the self-activity of the mind, which uses the given only as starting point and occasion, and has in it only a means by which it is led to the independent production of the concept, which is present in the mind as a disposition.

From dialectic *analytic* is distinguished as the doctrine of the method of *science*. Through his analytic Aristotle founded the science that later received the name of *logic* and gradually took on the character of a *formal* logic. He has not yet given a complete and evenly balanced development of the whole activity of thinking, but, with particular [143] regard to the demands of scientific grounding and exposition, has elaborated in detail the doctrine of inference and proof, while the doctrine of judgment and of the concept is treated by him only briefly, and in his chief logical work only in dependence on the doctrine of inference. Since the doctrine of grounding through inference and proof points back to the ultimate grounds, it leads to the point where analytic meets the fundamental philosophical science, metaphysics, and to this it stands in relation throughout, since Aristotle, even though he separates the logical investigations from the metaphysical ones and gives the former a separate place as preparatory to the other philosophical sciences, nevertheless does not, like the later formal logic, conceive the forms and laws of thought in abstraction from actuality, but develops them in relation to real actuality, whose principles and fundamental relations metaphysics determines.

Aristotle's chief logical work is the two *Analytics*, which bear this name because they give an exposition of the elementary forms of scientific thinking (*ἀναλύειν* = to lead something given back to its constituents), and to these are joined the writings on the categories and *περὶ ἑρμηνείας* (on propositions as the expression of judgment), yet in such a way that the writing on the categories stands at least as near to metaphysics as to logic.

By *categories* (*κατηγορίαι τοῦ ὄντος, γένη τῶν κατηγοριῶν* [predications of what is, kinds of predications]) Aristotle understands the statements about what is that express the main kinds of its formal determinations. In the writing on the categories he enumerates

10: οὐσία, ποσὸν, ποιὸν, πρὸς τι, πού, ποτέ, κεῖσθαι, ἔχειν, ποιεῖν and πάσχειν [substance, quantity, quality, relation, where, when, position, having, acting, and being acted upon]; in later writings κεῖσθαι and ἔχειν drop out, because they can be subsumed under others of the categories. Οὐσία, as the expression of the independent and substantial, forms an opposite to the other categories, which express determinations of οὐσία (συμβεβηκότα [attributes]). Between the categories and the grammatical parts of speech there is a certain correspondence, which, however, is not definitely brought out by Aristotle and is not consistent throughout either.

Of the *fundamental logical forms* the *concept* (λόγος) is determined as the expression ^[144] of the *real essence of the object* (it is λόγος τῆς οὐσίας [account of the essence]). To the οὐσία of things there attaches τὸ συμβεβηκός, which is either a necessary consequence of the οὐσία (as the properties of the triangle are of the essence of the triangle) and is therefore called συμβεβηκός καθ' αὐτό [attribute in itself], or something purely accidental that cannot be deduced from the essence. The definition (ὁρισμός) states the essence of things by stating the proximate generic concept as determined by the distinctive specific difference (εἰδοποιὸς διαφορά).

Judgment arises through a combination of notions; its expression is the declarative sentence (ἀπόφανσις), which may be affirmative (κατάφασις) or negative (ἀπόφασις). Only with the statement does there arise any question of truth or untruth, not with the still uncombined elements. The truth or untruth of the judgment depends on whether or not it combines what is combined in reality and separates what is separated in reality (τῷ γὰρ εἶναι τὸ πρᾶγμα ἢ μὴ ἀληθὲς ὁ λόγος ἢ ψευδὲς λέγεται [for it is by the thing's being or not being that the statement is said to be true or false]).

Inference is the derivation of one statement (one judgment) from others. It proceeds either from the universal down to the individual, and is then *sylogism* (in the narrower sense), or from the individual by summation up to the more universal, and is then *induction*. The syllogism Aristotle treats with great thoroughness, and he is the first to have given its theory. He treats the *categorical* inference with its 3 figures (σχήματα), which are distinguished by the place of the middle term in the premises, and states the conditions for correct inference in the various figures. Inference is placed in relation to the real in that it is required that the middle term express the cause (τὸ γὰρ αἷτιον τὸ μέσον).

Proof is the scientific (knowledge-producing) inference from true and certain premises, either such as, being the highest (uppermost), are certain in themselves, or such as follow with necessity from these. Proof thus stands above the dialectical inference, which rests

[145] on τὰ ἔνδοξα, and above the rhetorical, which proceeds from εἰκότα ἢ σημεῖα [likelihoods or signs] and is only meant to persuade.

Induction (ἐπαγωγή or ὁ ἐξ ἐπαγωγῆς συλλογισμὸς [the syllogism from induction]) concludes from the fact that a predicate belongs to all (or many) individuals that it belongs to the specific concept of these individuals. Only complete induction does Aristotle acknowledge as strictly scientific. The inductive inference, which proceeds from the individual that is “more certain for us,” has “for us” a greater distinctness and clarity than the syllogism; but the latter, because it proceeds from the universal that is more certain in and for itself, is in and for itself the more excellent and the more convincing kind of inference.

In both kinds of inference we have as a limit something that has certainty *immediately*. In induction it is the sensible individual, which appears with immediate distinctness; in the syllogism it is the most universal: the “principles” (ἀρχαί), which give the derived premises their certainty but cannot themselves be proved, since there is no more universal ground of proof (τὰ πρῶτα ὀρίσμοι ἔσονται ἀναπόδεικτοι [the first definitions will be indemonstrable]). Without something thus immediately certain we would be led into an infinity, and all proof would be abolished. The immediately certain ἀρχαί are the object of νοῦς [mind], the highest form of knowledge.

As the highest logical (and at the same time metaphysical) *principles*, which condition all certain knowledge and all demonstration, Aristotle posits those which formal logic designates as the *principle of contradiction* and the *principium exclusi tertii*. The principle of contradiction as a logical principle states that of two statements, of which the one affirms and the other denies the same thing, the one must always be false, the other true; the principium exclusi tertii (medii) expresses the same thing thus, that nothing lies midway between the two contradictory statements, but that the one of them must necessarily be affirmed, the other denied, of every subject. Since these logical principles [146] are the highest, no direct proof can be given of them, but only the indirect one, which lies in the fact that no one who thinks can deny them.

e. *Metaphysics*. — What, with a designation accidental in its origin, we call metaphysics (τὰ μετὰ τὰ φυσικά [the things after the physics]), is called by Aristotle, as indicated above, πρώτη φιλοσοφία [first philosophy], or else simply φιλοσοφία, or σοφία [wisdom], or θεολογία [theology]. It is the fundamental philosophical science which, while the other sciences each treat their own, peculiarly determined, domain of what is, considers what is as what is (τὸ ὄν ἢ ὅν), and, since what is is comprehended through

its grounds, goes back to the highest and ultimate grounds, since only these can be the grounds of all being. In these, then, metaphysics has its essential object. But the unconditionally highest ground of being it finds in the concept of the pure, matter-free form, the divine *Noûs* [Mind], which is the supreme source of all actuality and is itself the highest actuality. As *φιλοσοφία* it thus becomes at the same time *θεολογία*. And while it thus considers the highest and most universal grounds of being, the principles, it at the same time demonstrates, by the indirect way indicated above, the validity of the most universal scientific axioms: the principle of contradiction^{*)} and the principle of the excluded middle, which have logical and metaphysical validity for all that is.

The solution of the fundamental metaphysical problem, *to determine the concept of what is, the concept οὐσία*, Aristotle prepares through a critique of his predecessors' determinations of what truly is, and in particular through his critique of the Platonic doctrine of Ideas, which was the first to put forward the principle of form, even if it did not determine it in the right way. He appropriates the Platonic determination of what truly is as something eternal and essential, as well as the conception of the universal essence of things as the condition of knowledge and its adequate object; but the critique is directed against the separation by which Plato places the universal, hypostatized as Idea, outside the world of phenomena, and does so in such a way that precisely this separation is to become the condition of its true actuality. [147]

If we sum up the objections that Aristotle makes against the doctrine of Ideas in various places in his writings, so that only the essential points of his critique are brought out, they are the following:

1) The assumption of Ideas — an assumption which rests altogether on an unjustified substitution of a *ἐν κατὰ πολλῶν* [one over many] for a *ἐν παρὰ τὰ πολλά* [one beside the many] — is of no use for the knowledge of concrete actuality, since the content of the Ideas is nothing but a superfluous repetition of the content of that actuality. The content of sensible things is carried over uncomprehended into the Idea, merely with the added determination of eternity, of being-in-and-for-itself, so that the Ideas of things, e.g. the Idea of man, the Idea of the horse, become eternal sensible things (*αἰσθητὰ αἰδία*) and come to resemble the anthropomorphic gods of the popular religion, which are nothing but *ἄνθρωποι αἰδίοι* [eternal men]. Instead of a knowledge of the essence of things one learns only what explains nothing, that beside things there exist still other substances. And while no relief is gained for knowledge by this doubling of the content, this content moreover acquires in the Idea, by taking on the form of an archetype existing for itself,

^{*)}Its *metaphysical* form is: *τὸ αὐτὸ ὅμα ὑπάρχειν τε καὶ μὴ ὑπάρχειν ἀδύνατον τῷ αὐτῷ καὶ κατὰ τὸ αὐτό* [the same cannot at the same time both belong and not belong to the same thing and in the same respect].

a determination of singularity which would have to withdraw it from knowledge.

2) In placing the universal altogether, in its separateness from the individual, as Idea, i.e. as something substantial, Plato entangles himself in a multitude of absurdities. For since, to be consistent, he must posit Ideas for everything in which something common can be shown, he must in the first place obtain Ideas also of the accidental, of mere concepts of relation, indeed of negations.

[148] He must next obtain Ideas of subordinate Ideas, which latter would thus be at once archetypes and copies. He will have to posit several Ideas for a single being, inasmuch as there are several common concepts in the determination of this being, e.g. in the concept of man the concept of the living being, of the two-footed, etc., and must therefore compose the Idea of this being out of several Ideas. Finally, since the Ideas are posited as *χωριστά* [separate], so that the archetype and the copy come to stand side by side, he will again have to seek a higher common concept for the Ideas and the things, for the Idea of man, e.g., and the sensible man a *τρίτος ἄνθρωπος* [third man], and so on to infinity.

3) The doctrine of Ideas does not explain the existence of things; for when the Idea is posited as separate from things, it does not become a constituent of their essence, and so does not contribute to their being. In that Platonic separation it has been overlooked that it is a contradiction not to place the Idea, i.e. the substance, in that whose substance it is, not to place the concept of the thing in unity with that whose essential determination it expresses; and it has likewise been overlooked that in natural objects matter and becoming belong to their essence, so that an incorporeal essentiality subsisting for itself, such as the Idea, cannot express this essence. Once the separation has been made, the relation of things to the Ideas can only be determined by empty, figurative expressions such as imitation, participation; and the latter determination in turn leads to the contradiction that the Idea, as being in something other, different from it, namely in that which is posited as participating in it, would become something accidental.

4) As little as the being of things, is their coming-to-be (first coming-to-be and subsequent development) explained by the Ideas, since the principle of motion, of activity, is sought in these, which are only resting archetypes and would rather have to be a principle of standstill and rest than of activity. Here too Plato has been able to give only figurative, mythical determinations of the relation, but has not made it truly comprehensible.

[149] When account is taken, not of what Plato aimed at in determining the concept of the Idea, but of what he was actually able to carry through by way of thought, and when the involuntary influence of the moment of intuition, which turns the conceptual

separation of the Ideas and things into an actual separation of externality, is taken into consideration, these objections against Plato's doctrine of Ideas strike its essential defects, as these were brought out above in the critique of his philosophy. Aristotle himself lays the greatest stress on the two objections: that Plato has separated the essence (the substance) from that whose essence it is, and that he has not been able to give the Ideas the determination of activity. Since, therefore, he is himself to develop the fundamental concepts, his endeavor must first and foremost be directed toward avoiding these defects.

This shows itself also in the conception of the concept which metaphysics, as the science of what is as such, has as its immediate task to determine: the concept *οὐσία*. In opposition to the Platonic separation of the universal from the individual, and to the conception of this separated universal as what truly is, Aristotle determines the individual, in which the universal is inherent (*ἐνυπάρχον*), as that which is something that is, an *οὐσία* in the original sense, the substantial, which bears all other determinations of being. The individual, the concrete single being, is *πρώτη οὐσία* [first substance]; the species and genera of these single beings are *δευτέρα οὐσία*, i.e. substance in a derived sense; the remaining universal determinations are not substantial. The individual essentiality is constituted by the union of form and matter (it is a *σύνολον* of *εἶδος* and *τὸ ὑποκείμενον*), in such a way that in this union the primacy belongs to the form, which, in its determinateness as the generic concept stamped by the specific difference (*εἰδοποιὸς διαφορά*), is what is properly constitutive; for which reason the definition too, which states the generic concept so determined, expresses the essence of the thing.

The determination of *οὐσία* as the unity of form and matter leads us immediately to the principles of Aristotelian metaphysics. As the fundamental causes (*ἀρχαὶ*) of all that is, [150] Aristotle names four: 1) matter, *ὑλὴ (αἴτιον ἐξ οὗ, τὸ ὑποκείμενον* [the cause out of which, the substrate]); 2) form, *εἶδος (μορφή, τὸ τί ἐστὶ, τὸ τί ἦν εἶναι* [shape, the what-it-is, the what-it-was-to-be], i.e. the essence of the thing expressed by the pure concept of form, in abstraction from matter^{*)}, *λόγος τοῦ τί ἦν εἶναι, λόγος τῆς οὐσίας, οὐσία* [the account of the what-it-was-to-be, the account of the substance, substance]); 3) the principle of motion, *ἀρχὴ τῆς κινήσεως (αἴτιον ὑφ' οὗ, τὸ κινεῖν, ἀρχὴ τῆς μεταβολῆς, τὸ ὅθεν ἢ ἀρχὴ τῆς κινήσεως* [the cause by which, the mover, the principle of change, that from which the beginning of motion comes]); 4) the end, *τὸ οὗ ἕνεκα (τὸ τέλος)*. But these 4 principles are reduced, even if the distinction acquires its relative validity in certain relations and within certain spheres, e.g. in mechanical production, essentially to the

^{*)}Cf. *Metaph.* VII, 7: *λέγω δὲ οὐσίαν ἄνευ ὑλῆς τὸ τί ἦν εἶναι* [by substance without matter I mean the what-it-was-to-be]. The abstract concept states *τὸ τί ἦν εἶναι*; the definition gives the content of the concept.

two mentioned above, since the principle of form in the domain of the organic — and the organic is for Aristotle the standpoint for natural existence as a whole — includes in its concept the principle of motion and the end, since the form is what is active and what has as the goal of its activity its own realization. The fundamental difference among the principles thus becomes the difference between *form* and *matter*, a difference which, as already indicated earlier, falls within being as the difference between τὸ ἐνεργείᾳ, ὄν and τὸ δυνάμει ὄν, between the developed, fully actualized, active being and the mere disposition, the potentiality, between the actual and the potential.

More precisely determined, *form* for Aristotle becomes equal to the conceptual, ideal essence of things, which is the object of knowledge, and which, as thought, is ideally separated (by a conceptual separation, not, like the Platonic Idea, by a separation of intuition) from the material element that conditions sensible individual existence. It expresses the objective unity in the manifold things of like kind. As the ideal essential it is eternal and free of becoming, so that even where, as forming principle, it determines [151] the development of something that becomes, it is not touched by becoming. It is akin to thought, whose name it takes where it comes forth in the Godhead in its highest purity, as the matter-free form.

The more precise determination of the concept of *matter*, of material stuff, Aristotle gains through an analysis of the conditions of becoming. The possibility of becoming cannot be explained by what is alone or by what is not alone, but only by something that unites being and not-being in itself, which is thus in a certain sense existent, in a certain sense non-existent. But such a thing is what is according to potentiality, i.e. that whose being is a being not yet existent; but this determination is precisely that of matter. Every becoming presupposes a substrate in which a transition takes place from one state to another, from one property to another, and this basis, which can receive the different determinations, is, as basis, precisely only the potentiality for both, and has neither of them actualized in itself. And what holds with regard to becoming in the individual case holds with regard to becoming in general: it requires a substrate which is nothing, but can become everything, which is everything according to potentiality and nothing according to actuality. This is *the first matter*, πρώτη ὕλη, which, as the condition of all becoming, cannot itself have come to be, and which, as the opposite of form, from which all determinations come, is *the absolutely indeterminate*: τὸ ἄπειρον in the qualitative sense. As this ἄπειρον it cannot at any point of time exist by itself alone; for in such detachment from the relation to form it would become the absolutely non-actual. As the indeterminate separated from all form, matter could not become an

object of knowledge either (ἡ ὕλη ἄγνωστος καθ' αὐτήν); only in connection with form is it apprehended through sensation; its universal essence is thought only through an inference by analogy from the individual material thing.

It is thus by *the relation to form* that matter has the determination that goes beyond the merely negative, namely the determination of *potentiality*, and by this it comes, in Aristotle, under the concept of being, becomes in a certain sense οὐσία (οὐσία πως, [152] whereas στέρησις, the negation of formal determinateness, is οὐδαμῶς [in no way] such), so that it becomes a *non-existent* only in a *relative* sense, whereas in Plato it was so in an *absolute* sense. But it is not only by this conception of matter as what is according to potentiality, by which it is drawn under the determination of being that holds also for form, that Aristotle sublates the abstract separation between matter and form; he moves the principles still closer to each other by giving the concept of matter, in its application, an elasticity by which it can comprise everything that stands in a relation to something other analogous to the fundamental relation between matter as the passive, potential, undeveloped, and form as the active, actual, completed. Thus, e.g., the female in relation to the male, the lower spheres of the cosmic structure in relation to the higher, the soul in relation to Νοῦς, the more abstract generic concept in relation to the more concrete specific determinateness, are conceived as matter in relation to form, and one and the same thing is, in its different relations, seen now from the standpoint of matter, now from that of form. Thus the soul becomes matter in relation to Νοῦς, form in relation to the body, and in the successive formation of matter each single stage is form in relation to a preceding one, matter in relation to a succeeding one. By the inner mobility thus given to the concept of matter, it can, since the whole of existence is seen as a graded series of formations of matter, be applied to everything determined by form, right up to the point where the highest matter-free form reveals itself in its purity as divine Νοῦς and as active Νοῦς in man. But in all this approximation of matter to form, which leads Aristotle to speak not only of a ὕλη αἰσθητή [sensible matter] but of a ὕλη νοητή [intelligible matter], matter nevertheless retains in its essence, for him, the original difference from form which it has as a coordinate ἀρχή. Matter becomes, as indifferent toward the determinate form, the principle of contingency, mutability and imperfection; it becomes, as the external condition of the realization of form, the principle of natural [153] necessity; it becomes, as equally original with form, συναιτία τῇ μορφῇ τῶν γιγνομένων [joint cause, with the form, of the things that come to be], a co-determining factor in everything natural, where the differences of individuality derive from it.

Since form and matter are determined by actuality and potentiality, they stand

through this determination in a *necessary* relation, and point to each other. Matter, as the potential, strives toward form, i.e. toward that for which it is potentiality, and which is itself the actuality of the potential; but this striving toward form is awakened only by form and obtains actualization only through it, which in this relation determines itself as the principle of activity, as *entelechy*, i.e. as the inherent, actively forming, which has the goal of its activity in itself. As entelechy, form shows itself from the side of being that which leads matter from potentiality to actuality. This transition from potentiality to actuality is *motion*: the activity (the entelechy) of the potential *as* potential.

Motion, which in its universal concept comprises all change and becoming, thus designates that transition: the intermediate stage between potentiality, as relative or absolute, and actuality; it is the combination of being and not-being which strives toward being, an *ἐνέργεια ἀτελής* [incomplete actuality], whose limit is complete actualization. It presupposes something moving and something movable, an actual and a potential being; it cannot be explained merely by the potential or merely by the actual, but only by an action of the latter upon the former. The actual must, as moving cause, have a priority in relation to motion, even in the case where motion seems to proceed from the potential, e.g. where an organic individual comes to be from the seed. Wherever an actual being meets with a potential one and no external hindrances act to impede, motion arises with necessity in the potential as a joint effect of the *ποιήσις* [acting] of the mover and the *πάθησις* [being acted upon] of the moved. The action of the former upon the [154] latter Aristotle posits as conditioned by a contact (*θτξις*), which he even lets take place in the case of the purely immaterial, though in such a way that the immaterial unmoved, which moves the world, is indeed to touch what is moved, but not to be touched by it.

In motion the original relation of form and matter is expressed; motion must therefore be *eternal*, like the terms of the relation. Every motion also requires, as the condition of its coming-to-be and its ceasing, another motion, whereby motion in its totality shows itself to be necessarily without beginning and end. But in order that the *actuality* of motion can be thought at all, the series of moving causes must be limited; one must not go on to infinity, but a *first eternal actual starting point* must be posited, a *first mover*, which itself, as the presupposition of all motion, must be unmoved, not only in the sense that it is not moved by another, but also in the sense that it does not move itself. While matter is something that is only moved without itself moving, something merely potential, and while nature is something that is both moved and moves, that unites potentiality and actuality, the first mover, the Godhead, is thus something that only moves but is not moved, and it is pure actuality.

In the concept of *the Godhead*, as the first unmoved originator of motion, Aristotelian metaphysics is concluded, and in it the principle of form is united with the principle of motion and the end. And this concept of the Godhead receives in Aristotle more precise determinations, which reveal the proper essence of form, its kinship with mind, with absolute subjectivity. From the fact that motion, as eternal, must be continuous (*συνεχής*) and as such one, it follows, since the unity of motion presupposes the unity both of the mover and of the moved, that the first eternal mover must be *one*. As the source of the continuous and single motion it must next be unchangeable, being with absolute necessity what it is. As unchangeable it must be absolutely immaterial, indivisible and free of space, and as immaterial, again, without passivity, absolute actuality, matter-free form, pure energy, *τὸ τι ἦν εἶναι τὸ πρῶτον* [the first what-it-was-to-be]. But this highest energetic form is *Noûs*; for only thought in its purity is absolutely free of the material, absolute energy; only it is something divine, because it does not have its *τέλος* [end] outside itself. The divine thinking is an *uninterrupted, unchangeable activity of thinking*, and precisely as determined by this absolute energy of thinking is the Godhead the absolutely living (that which has an *immortal life*: *ἡ γὰρ νοῦ ἐνέργεια ζωὴ* [for the actuality of mind is life]), and is the primal source of all life. The object of the divine thinking can only be the highest; but this highest is the Godhead itself, the divine thought. *Noûs* is thus eternally one with its object; it is an *eternal νόησις τῆς νοήσεως* [thinking of thinking]. This self-enclosed energy of thought is the undisturbed *blessedness* of the Godhead, and only the blessedness of theory is divine blessedness. [155]

Since the Godhead, whose unity conditions the unity of the universe and its harmonious coherence, is conceived as this self-enclosed eternal thought, whose object is only thought itself, and since motion and all outward-going activity (all practical and poietic activity, both of which presuppose a need for something, an end outside the agent) are excluded from its concept, its moving influence on the world can only be conceived in such a way that it *awakens the desire of matter*, and through this calls forth its motion. It moves, therefore, in the same way as the good and the beautiful, which are desired, as the thinkable, which is thought. The highest form, which has shown itself to be the highest moving cause, shows itself by this determination also to be the highest *τέλος*, toward which there is striving. What the Godhead immediately calls forth in matter is motion in space: the original form of motion, and more precisely a circular motion, the only absolutely continuous and uniform motion in space; and this it calls forth by, touching the universe, setting it in motion from its circumference. This calling forth of a uniform, unchangeable circular motion corresponds to the uniform, unchangeable relation of the [156]

divine thought to itself; but it is not sufficient to explain the multiplicity of determinate motions in space in the universe, still less to explain the manifold concrete formations of matter. This defect Aristotle, in the writings that have been preserved to us, has sought to make good only insofar as, in order to explain a plurality of circular motions with different directions, and a general mutability conditioned thereby in the sphere of the elements, he posits separate eternal principles of motion for the celestial spheres beside the first mover; but he has not clearly determined the relation of these principles to the first mover, and just as little the relation between the highest form, the divine *Noûs*, and the separate forms, the essentialities of individual things, by which alone a becoming of the concrete could be made comprehensible. Aristotle does indeed let the *transcendent Noûs* act as *φύσις* [nature], as *immanent* in existence^{*)}, as its entelechy (see below); but thereby the question of the grounding of the many forms in the one form is not answered.

What at once shows itself as the essential thing in this brief presentation of the fundamental concepts of the Aristotelian metaphysics is the endeavor, while the primacy of the ideal is maintained, to see the ideal, the form, in essential unity with matter, and to explain the life and development of existence, the becoming of the concrete multiplicity, from the essence and relation of these principles. That essential unity is sought by bringing both form and matter under the concept of being, and by that conception of the relative, successive stages of development in existence which, in seeing them as [157] stages of the self-actualization of the form, the ideal principle of activity, through the potentiality that itself gains actuality through the realization of the form, lets them appear as a unity of potentiality and actuality. Through the concept of *development*, which Aristotle so strongly accentuates, the unity of form and matter is most definitely pointed to. The principle of actuality is, at the beginning of the development, present in the disposition: nothing becomes actual that was not in this, and no actualization can take place without the ideal pre-existence of what is to have actuality. But what is the goal of the actualization, its *τέλος*, exists in the disposition only under the form of potentiality, in unity with the potentiality, which, as the potentiality of the form, of actuality, becomes living potentiality, a germ of unfolding. And at every stage of the unfolding that lies prior to the goal, what is to actualize itself is only relatively actualized; it still has a remnant of potentiality in it, or rather: it is still throughout potentiality for

^{*)}The good (*τὸ ἀγαθὸν καὶ τὸ ἄριστον*) is, on Aristotle's conception, present in the universe as its order and formal determinateness, but exists still more perfectly outside it in *Noûs*, through whom the order is.

a higher form of actuality. Only where the goal is reached is the potentiality exhausted, but only because it is unfolded into unity with actuality. — As regards the explanation of the becoming of the concrete and of the living development of existence, Aristotle, who, conscious of the decisive significance of the concept of becoming, energetically maintains it against those who denied it, and with it the concept of potentiality and of development, has, as it were, given all the premises for it in his determination of the concept and the conditions of motion. But both his striving to hold fast the essential unity of the fundamental opposites and his striving to comprehend the becoming that becomes possible only through that essential unity are checked, as if by force, at the decisive point by the barriers that bound Greek thought in general, and the determinations of the Aristotelian metaphysics are definitively forced back to the point where Plato stopped.

This first shows itself when we consider more closely the explanation Aristotle gives of *becoming*. His explanation can be summed up in the words: *Through the form (the active) there is motion, becoming in the material (the passive), and what becomes is the* [158] *composite of matter and form, which in the motion has the form in itself as entelechy. But now the further determinations are added that, while the form calls forth motion, the motion is to be only in the passive, not in the active, and that, when the development has reached its goal and the form is realized, it shall be possible to say of the form only that it is, not that it has become. What is the principle of becoming thus falls outside becoming, as untouched by it; but by the same token becoming itself is left unexplained, when what is to bring it about has no place for it in itself. Aristotle has not explained, and cannot explain, how the incomplete realization of the form during the development, which is as it were a partialness of the form, a partial negation, is to be thought, when the form itself is held outside becoming, and how the form can then become entelechy. But precisely the process of the inner principle of motion must first be explained before the determinations Aristotle gives about the realization of motion in the one existent through another actually existent can gain significance. And just as little as becoming in the individual is explained by the individual form is the universal ground of becoming explained by the universal principles: matter or the highest εἶδος [form]. Matter is the determinationless, the passive, in which no activity whatsoever, not even such as lies in a striving, a “desire,” can be thought. And if we seek the origin of motion in the divine Νοῦς [mind], we come up against insoluble difficulties. We are to think of Νοῦς as the original source of motion and becoming, although it is a χωριστόν [something separate] that relates only to itself; we are to think of it as touching the world although it is absolutely immaterial, and as calling forth motion from the circumference of the*

world although it has no relation to space; we are to think of it as effecting motion by awakening the desire of the absolutely determinationless; and we are finally to think of it as the first and, as such, universal principle of motion, although several particular [159] eternal principles of motion stand underived beside it. On no point, then, do we find in Aristotle a real solution of the problem of becoming, and such a solution is cut off outright by the statements that exclude motion from the active form and let the form in its completion be not something that has become, but only something that is. For in this way we again get in the form something that is, something actual, outside which negation falls, and which therefore remains without inner mobility; and by the same token potentiality is transformed into an *empty* potentiality, a *potentiality for nothing*, a *non-being*. The Platonic, conscious, absolute opposition between being and non-being comes back involuntarily in Aristotle. Matter, as this potentiality whose principle of development has been annihilated, becomes not the being that is not yet, but what is not, whose non-being is abiding.

Since the task of explaining coming-to-be and becoming miscarried for Aristotle, and miscarried although he already stated the conceptual determinations by which it was to be solved, the lack of its solution implies that the task of explaining *the concretion of real existence* must also miscarry for him; and it points back to the fact that *dualism*, which he sought to remove by his determination of the fundamental moments, is not in reality removed, and must come to view again in the development of the system.

As regards the explanation of the concretion of real existence, it was demanded by Aristotle's whole striving to embrace with thought all the wealth of existence and to take it up into knowledge, and in the concept of development and of the principle of development he seemed to possess the condition for it. But that his striving must miscarry on this point too, we shall see by a consideration of the fundamental opposites.

The concrete multiplicity of existence can be explained from matter neither by a direct positive working nor by an indirect working through a passive resistance. A positive working would conflict with the general determination of matter as the passive, and with Aristotle's statement that the becoming by which the determinate, concrete thing comes [160] to be always presupposes a determinate opposite as an already existing property or state in matter, hence an already form-determined matter. A negative working of matter through a passive resistance, which, as the realization of the form in existence is checked by matter, lets the form in its unity divide itself, in the successive overcoming of this check, into a graded series of forms, is indeed assumed by Aristotle, but without his being able to make it comprehensible. For the resistance can be comprehended only when

a determinateness is already presupposed, which could be due only to a determinate form, not to the absolutely determinationless matter. As the absolutely determinationless potentiality, matter would have to be absorbed without resistance into the pure form, without being able to call forth a multiplicity of forms of existence. Of this, too, Aristotle has a feeling, and he is thereby led to let matter, as it were, appear from the very outset with a determinateness; but this determinateness, the determinateness through the first elementary opposites, is already a determinateness of form, which stands unexplained.

Since, then, neither a positive nor a negative working of matter could explain the concretion of existence, this concretion could be explained only from the form. As a reality, something actually existent, it would indeed have to have its ground in what is being in the proper sense; and Aristotle's statements about the conditions for the existence of the qualitatively determinate also point back to the form. The explanation through the form would then more precisely be an explanation through the *highest* form as unity; for the multiplicity of existence would, if the multiplicity of forms that conditions it were not led back to unity, stand as an uncomprehended given. But what makes the explanation impossible here too is that the highest form, since, as shown above, negation falls outside form in general, cannot become dialectical, cannot get the possibility of inner unfolding in itself. Aristotle's striving does indeed aim at conceiving it as activity; but this striving is checked not only by that conception of the form's relation to becoming, [161] but already by the fundamental peculiarity of Greek thought, for which form could not become mobile for the reason that it is originally the form of the work of art, and as such resting form: a relation that also shows through in Aristotle when εἶδος, which as the determination of the Godhead became Νοῦς and νόησις τῆς νοήσεως [thinking of thinking], so that the determinations of mind and of subjectivity are stated, gets, as the εἶδος of nature, the determination μορφή [shape] as its synonym. And even when Aristotle conceives the pure Νοῦς as pure, uninterrupted energy, it is nonetheless resting insofar as in its relation to itself it lacks otherness, opposition, and therefore eternally, unchangeably thinks only itself, produces only its own undifferentiated reflection. A possibility of solving the problem of the unfolding of the one form into the many forms might seem to show itself if we presupposed — what we are nonetheless not entitled to assert on the historical evidence, even if certain hints and analogies point toward it — that the view had hovered before Aristotle that the divine thought's, the pure form's, thinking of itself was to be a thinking that embraced all the intelligible as a unity in which the whole teleologically coherent content of the world's reality was concentrated. The divine thought's thinking of itself would then become a full unity, in which everything

that appears in the world separated in multiplicity was joined inseparably; and the world would therefore, since the individual forms realized in it would become determinations in the one divine form, not become something detached from the Godhead, nor God's thinking of it a thinking of an other. But this possibility would nevertheless vanish again, since Aristotle would not be able to remove the difficulties which, in consequence of his conception of the Godhead's separation from the world and of the form's relation to negation, as well as of his paralleling of the relation of universal concepts to particular ones with the relation between *δύναμις* [potentiality] and *ἐνέργεια* [actuality], must [162] stand in the way of that development and carrying-through of that thought which would be necessary for a solution of the problem.

In Aristotle's conception of the concept that expresses absolute actuality there thus appears most clearly the fundamental defect of the Aristotelian metaphysics, and of Greek thought in general: the lack of power to make what is living and moved through negation. By letting the concept of form become that of the divine thought, by positing this thought as pure energy and as the *νόησις τῆς νοήσεως* independent of external conditions, by determining the human *Νοῦς*, identical with the divine, as *εἶδος εἰδῶν* [form of forms], as embracing in its unity the lower forms of soul, and as thinking itself in its object, Aristotle had come as far toward a conception that could give the principle of form inner motion, and a fullness proceeding from it, and lead to seeing the concretion of existence develop out of the principle, as was possible for Greek thought. But at this decisive point the striving of his thought is checked as by an invisible power: absolute being, which separates negation from itself, becomes merely positive being; the eternal *νόησις τῆς νοήσεως* becomes only as it were a staring of thought at itself in its uniformity; reflection sinks back into the immediacy of rest, and the wealth of the world's reality stands unexplained beside the principle.

When the failure of the solution of the problem of becoming for Aristotle inevitably entailed that the solution of the problem of the concretion of existence must fail, this points back to the fact that *dualism* has not been removed; for it was precisely the involuntary abstract separation of the fundamental moments that made becoming incomprehensible, since becoming is the first abstract expression of a connection of the determination of non-being, of negation, with being, and thereby represents in general the unity of opposites. Aristotle had, by the determination of the conceptual relation between form and matter, and especially by the conception of form as principle of development, decisively pointed toward the unity in principle; but dualism nevertheless [163] breaks forth again and separates what was apparently united. The separation shows

itself on the side of the form chiefly in this, that in its highest completion it becomes the form separated from all matter, and that in general, even where it is seen in relation to development, it separates itself from the becoming of the material; — on the side of matter chiefly in this, that a power of resistance is ascribed to it that can occasion what deviates from the form, hence an independent working, through which a fundamental opposition to the form betrays itself. In this fundamental opposition matter and form stand as equally original; their connection for intuition becomes the immediate connection of what is different, their unity for thought only a postulate. This also lies in Aristotle's statement that the two principles, form and matter, can be led back neither to each other nor to the same generic concept (for the determination of being, which becomes common to them, Aristotle does not conceive as a generic concept, any more than the concept of unity).

In a conspicuous manner the dualism Aristotle combated breaks forth in his doubling of existence into *Noûs* and the universe. Although his striving tends toward a penetration of matter by form which, consistently carried out, would lead to seeing them as inseparable, so that the highest form would be the one that most completely penetrated and mastered matter; to seeing the eternal as eternal in what is determined by time and motion, and what is independent of space as being in space in a spaceless manner, as unity; yet this striving is checked by the original separateness of the principles. For Aristotle the whole of the world's reality takes shape for intuition as the cosmos, the all-embracing, living work of art ensouled by the form. This formed universe, whose matter is the potentiality of what forms it, and which is eternally moved through its relation to its divine mover, includes in itself a complete graded series of forms, which rises from the lowest to the active *Noûs*, identical with the divine thought, in man, and in [164] this completeness expresses the essence of form wholly. Aristotle here comes as close as possible to letting form, as divine *Noûs*, have its place *within* the world's reality. Nature in *its wholeness* is seen as ensouled, form is posited as the world's inner moving entelechy, and this form, which unfolds itself teleologically in the series of particular forms, shows, through the culmination of the series in man's *Noûs*, its unity with the divine. In man, therefore, the divine *Noûs* as such has a being in the world; and since, by reason of the relation of its immaterial essence to spatial determinateness, its spatial separation from the universe cannot be held fast by thought, there seems to be no obstacle to thinking of the divine *Noûs* in general as *immanent* in the world (cf. also the development of the doctrine in the Peripatetic school), and all the less so as Aristotle indeed also thinks of the eternal movers of the heavenly spheres as unmoved in the moved spheres, the soul

as unmoved in the moved body, form as unmoved and eternal in changeable and moved matter, and the active *Noûs* in mankind as without partition and becoming.

But Aristotle nevertheless does not carry the unity through to this last point. The cosmos does not become the whole of existence, nor does the divine *Noûs*, which yet in its essence includes all actuality, become the sole existent; but actuality is doubled into the pure, matterless *Noûs* and the world's reality, in which matter, which could not be pushed aside by thought, gets its place: the world in its fullness comes to stand as an actuality beside the actuality that according to its concept is all-embracing; the cosmos, in which actuality is eternally reproduced from potentiality, asserts itself beside the pure energy in which all potentiality has vanished.

This doubling of actuality is an unavoidable consequence of the fundamental determinations. At the same moment as dualism seems to have vanished in the world's reality, since this reality is apprehended by intuition as the harmonious unity of the cosmos, [165] it must break forth in the doubling, since thought again separates out the form in its purity, and intuition fixes it in its separation from the cosmos by involuntarily making this a spatial separation. Dualism must do so because the moments immediately united in the intuition of the cosmos, which were what was originally different, at once betray their dualistic separation as soon as thought determines them by its forms.

f. *Physics*. — We have in the foregoing stressed the great difference there is between Plato and Aristotle in their relation to the physical. Plato hastens away from natural reality in order to lose himself in the eternal Ideas, the only adequate object of philosophy; Aristotle is constantly drawn toward the reality through which form reveals itself, and which precisely for that reason everywhere has something divine and admirable about it and holds within itself an inexhaustible wealth for knowledge; and he does not deny this natural-scientific knowledge the name of philosophy, even if it leads only to the probable, the possible and the relatively universal, and even if it must stop before it has completely mastered its object. Aristotle is at once philosopher and natural scientist: he is a master in the observation of facts; by his striving to explain them from their peculiar physical grounds he stands highest in his period; and he has not merely appropriated all the knowledge of his age concerning all the domains of nature, but has himself in many directions given it greater scope and depth.

Aristotle's physical writings have been named earlier. They treat partly the most general principles and conditions of natural existence, the order of the structure of the world, the heavenly bodies, the elements and their relations, and the meteorological

phenomena, partly the organic; and the writings that have the organic for their object are either descriptive, like the Zoology, or investigative, like the books on the soul and [166] various treatises of physiological and psychological content.

In this presentation we separate psychology, which with Aristotle forms the concluding portion of physics, from the other parts of physics, and indicate briefly the fundamental features of the Aristotelian conception of nature.

The fundamental philosophical science, metaphysics, had for its object what is as such, and preeminently that which was in the highest sense something that is: the unmoved and incorporeal form. Physics has for its object the existent that is moved and corporeal. Everything that is to be called a natural being (*φυσική οὐσία*) must either be a body, or have a body (e.g. man), or be the principle of something that has a body (e.g. the soul), so that form is considered by physics only in this relation. It must, as distinct from the object of mathematics, which is the unmoved in the corporeal, be something moved. It must finally, as distinct from the products of art, which have the ground of their motion outside themselves, have it within itself. Nature (*φύσις*) Aristotle therefore defines as the cause of motion in that to which motion belongs originally and not merely *κατὰ συμβεβηκός* [accidentally], and the natural thing (*τὸ φύσιν ἔχον*) as that which has such a principle of motion within itself.

Aristotle's definition of nature implies that, despite the significance that matter and motion acquire for the natural, yet, in consequence of the relation of both to form, form, as the principle of motion and of actuality, must become the proper essence of the natural; and when in the natural a distinction is made between two kinds of causes, final causes and material (mechanical) causes, the former, which express the activity of form, must be posited as the proper causes, the latter only as conditions, albeit as indispensable conditions, for the realization of the end. Aristotle therefore also designates nature as *οὐσία* [substance], he posits *μορφή* [shape] as equal to *φύσις*, while *γένεσις* [coming-to-be] becomes a *ὁδὸς εἰς φύσιν* [way to nature]. The relation between the active form that [167] is immanent in nature, unfolded in a graded series and constituting the essence of nature, and the completed actuality of form in the divine *Noῦς* [mind], we can determine thus: that natural form, which is the proper *φύσις*, relates to the Godhead as the immanent entelechy to the fully realized energy, or as in the human the soul relates to *Noῦς*. God and nature can be used as synonyms when the talk is of the activity of nature.

This conception of the relation of nature to form makes Aristotle's conception of nature dynamic. Nature is not a composition of unchangeable, merely quantitatively different atoms; its motion is not the contingently-necessary mechanical motion of such

atoms; but nature has qualitative differences and qualitative change (transition) within itself; it is, as moved, animated in its totality by a forming force, and motion is the immortal life of nature.

As determined and governed by form, natural existence has its *τέλος* [end] within itself, and as *τέλειος* [complete] it is bounded, artistically rounded off in itself. The unlimited, the quantitatively infinite, would be the formless and as such the imperfect. Infinity is present in the universe only potentially: in space as the possibility of infinite division, in motion and in time (“the number of motion with respect to the earlier and later”) as the possibility of infinite continuability, in number as the possibility of infinite increasability. Infinity is thus in nature always only becoming.

The unity of form and end entails that the form active in the individual natural thing and in nature as a whole is seen as acting teleologically. The teleology of nature is, as grounded in the immanent principle, an immanent teleology, an inner purposive activity, and more precisely it is to be determined as an unconscious activity, in analogy with unreflective artistic production. Nature is in its teleological activity *δαιμονία* [daemonic], not *θεία* [divine].

[168] The purposive activity of form cannot, however, since it is conditioned by matter, everywhere in the particular reach its goal unhindered. Because matter, which is the source of contingency and of blind natural necessity, is a factor in natural existence, nature frequently produces something beside the goal, something for which no end can be stated, and frequently it realizes the end only incompletely; and the disturbance that is thereby brought into the purposive working of nature is precisely what prevents natural science from reaching strict universality. In accordance with its peculiar being, matter can exert a resistance against form, and this resistance Aristotle conceives not merely as the cause of the abnormal phenomena, which are as it were a distortion of the end, and have their ground in this, that form does not have a matter of the right quantitative and qualitative determinateness to form, so that the form-moment of nature (*ἡ κατὰ τὸ εἶδος φύσις*) does not gain mastery over its material side (*τὴν κατὰ τὴν ὕλην φύσιν*), whereby the abnormal must come to be; but he also points to it as the cause of the lower stages of nature in general, of the successiveness in the realization of form in the series of natural things. But in this graded series of existence the resistance of matter is precisely overcome successively by form, which as it were gains strength by exercise and reveals itself ever more clearly. From the inorganic, which nevertheless already has a degree of life, albeit the lowest, there is an advance through the species of the organic, which in an unbroken sequence rise from the less perfect to the more perfect, until at

last form attains its pure revelation in the human mind.

The totality of the natural, the universe (*Κόσμος* or *Οὐρανός*), whose unity was for Aristotle given by the unity of the highest principle, and whose eternity follows from the eternity of motion, he conceives as spherical, as resting as a whole, in motion only with respect to its parts, and as comprising all matter, the whole mass of the elements, which is ordered according to the naturally determined place of the elements in such a way that the four elements that are changeable and opposed to one another by their fundamental qualities and motion, earth, water, air and fire, have their spheres nearest the center, while the higher spheres are filled solely by the ether, which is without opposition and [169] unchangeable, the divine in the material, and which properly, even if it is named *πρῶτον στοιχεῖον* [first element], is not in the strict sense an element, but “another kind of body, and more divine than the so-called elements.” The earth, as a resting, spherical body, occupies the center of the universe. Water, whose natural place is nearest the earth, fills the depressions of the earth’s surface, so that the surface of the sea also lies in the circumference of a sphere. Air and fire surround the two first-named elements in concentric circles. The region of the ether, which encloses the sphere of fire, is according to Aristotle divided into a larger number of concentric spheres (56 in all), of which some carry the spherical heavenly bodies that are fixed in them, while the others serve only, by their peculiar motion, to produce the path the planets describe. The higher circles relate to the lower as form to matter, as the active to the passive, as the mover to the moved. Each individual ether-sphere has its own peculiar principle of motion, and these principles of motion, which are the origin of an eternal motion, must themselves be eternal and unmoved.

In the universe there appears a distinctly marked opposition between the sphere of the four elements on the one side and that of the ether on the other, between the terrestrial and the celestial region. The region of the elements is the domain of the various mutually opposed motions and of changeability; that of the ether is the domain of the eternal, opposition-free circular motion and of unchangeability. Within the region of the ether a distinction again appears between the uppermost sphere, *πρῶτος οὐρανός*, the heaven of the fixed stars, and the other spheres, the spheres in the region of the planets. The former is nearest the first mover, is not in space (which Aristotle conceives as the limit of the enclosing body against the enclosed), but encloses everything without being enclosed, communicates its motion to all the lower spheres, and contains a multitude of heavenly bodies, which it carries, in an undisturbed, uniform circular line, in the [170] most perfect direction, from right to left, i.e. from east to west. The other ether-spheres

contain, as stated above, either none or only one heavenly body, and this heavenly body, the peculiar motion of whose sphere goes in the direction opposite to that of the heaven of the fixed stars, from left to right, has, on account of the influence of the higher spheres on the lower, a compound motion deviating from the pure circular line. But the planetary spheres are, despite their difference from the uppermost heaven, like it free from change and from being acted upon in the strict sense: they are animate and, by their divine principles of motion, of a far higher nature than man. The deviation of the planetary orbits from the uniformity of the orbits of the fixed stars, and in particular the inclination of the sun's orbit, acquires, according to Aristotle, the greatest significance for the sublunary region. While the motion of the ether-spheres, in particular that of the sun's sphere, calls forth an alternation of heat and cold in the atmosphere, and thereby the transition between the elements and their uninterrupted mixture, the direction of the orbits, in particular the inclination of the sun's orbit, calls forth a law-governed alternation of coming-to-be and passing away in the region below the moon, and thereby *the endless cycle of becoming*. Endless becoming is for the perishable a substitute for the infinity of imperishable being; through it the perishable takes part in its own way in the perfection of what eternally is, and through it the completeness of the universe is preserved. —

Both by his whole view of nature and by the demands he makes on the knowledge of nature, Aristotle points beyond what is peculiarly Greek; but here too, as with the fundamental metaphysical determinations, his striving is not carried through, but is forced back, as it were by violence, within the bounds of the Greek spirit.

It has already been shown earlier how Aristotle's conception of form as the immanent form, which gives itself actuality in concrete, real existence, had to lead to an essential [171] emphasis being laid on this existence. The substantial existent, *οὐσία*, in the proper sense, was determined by Aristotle as a *τόδε τι*, as the individual subject, natural individuality in its concretion; and this concrete individual had, as essential and substantial, to become an essential object of knowledge, just as the form of knowledge that takes up this individual, *experience*, had to claim an essential significance. And since the immanent form was seen as a graded series of forms extending through the whole of natural existence, this existence acquired, in its whole extent, value for knowledge, and it acquired this value *as* natural existence, i.e. as the existence for whose completeness matter, in which form is immanent, as well as motion, are necessary, and which is therefore known in its actuality only when it is known as the unity of form and matter. Despite all the weight, therefore, that Aristotle, in accordance with his idealistic fundamental view, must lay

on the formal principle of natural things, his striving to see the ideal as essentially one with the material and as immanent in it nevertheless leads him to lay an accent on the sensible phenomenon, from which alone knowledge of nature can be reached by the way of observation and experience, and to demand for this knowledge everywhere an investigation of the peculiar physical grounds and concrete conditions of natural things (*φυσικῶς σκοπεῖν*), in opposition to an abstract-universal conceptual reasoning (*λογικῶς σκοπεῖν*). Aristotle's determinations intimate a striving toward the knowledge of nature which only a more recent age carries through, toward the knowledge of nature through experience demanded in principle. But the realization of this striving is hampered already by Aristotle's metaphysical determinations, and in the last instance by the general character of the Greek conception of nature.

When Aristotle in his *Metaphysics* determines the individual as *πρώτη οὐσία* [first substance], and lets the individual being be constituted by the union of form and matter into a *σύνολον* [composite whole], he posits form in this union as the essential and properly constitutive element. But in the *εἶδος* [form] which thus constitutes the essence, [172] the element of universality asserts itself (cf. the *Metaphysics*), and since only the universal becomes the proper object of knowledge, while sensible things as such are not objects of knowledge, one can indeed with knowledge descend to the most concrete concept of species, to the lowest concept, to use the expression of formal logic, but cannot go further without coming outside the limit of knowledge; and this will mean, in accordance with the relation between knowledge and being that Aristotle too maintains, that the universal after all claims for itself the proper essentiality. Aristotle thereby comes to designate form as *πρότερον* [prior] and *μᾶλλον ὄν* [more truly being] than the individual thing in which it is immanent; indeed, he even uses outright of form the designation *πρώτη οὐσία*.

The fundamental determinations of his metaphysics made it impossible for him to carry through the precedence of the individual being to the determination *οὐσία*. For this to be able to happen, a positive more would have had to be shown in individuality, which could distinguish it from the species; but such a thing Aristotle cannot claim for it. Since form is posited as the universal, that plus would have had to be sought in matter, which Aristotle conceives as the ground of individuality. But since matter is the absolutely indeterminate and what is in itself absolutely devoid of actuality, it cannot be thought to determine form in such a way that the individual could acquire a content of actuality peculiar to it, and the individual substantiality of the individual being thus becomes something inexplicable. Aristotle must maintain it according to the

peculiar direction of his thinking; but by the kind of thinking that bears and encompasses his individual thinking, and which lets form, the ideal universal, *immediately* master its opposite, so that this opposite vanishes, as mere potentiality, in form, and form cannot gain concretion through its relation to it, he must be led to give determinations concerning the factors constituting individual existence that cancel what was maintained and make its possibility incomprehensible. And as the individual being again recedes into [173] the shadow of the universal, experiential knowledge must step back before a speculative conception of nature through abstract concepts.

What has shown itself as immediately connected with the determinations of the Aristotelian metaphysics will now also show itself as more deeply grounded in the general character of the Greek world-view and of the thinking determined by it. Since the Greeks intuited existence as an immediate unity of spirit and nature under the primacy of the spiritual, the natural had, by reason of the immediacy of the unity, to be seen immediately as determined by the spiritual, as mirroring it. Nature was seen immediately in the light of the human mind, was anthropomorphized, acquired a human character, a human being. Therefore, in the conception of nature, *experience* does not come into its own. Experience, in the pregnant sense in which a modern natural science takes the concept, presupposes a deeper separation between thought and its natural object than the Greeks knew; it presupposes that the natural, the material, has as it were been liberated to a relative independence, that it has been able to make its own laws valid, and thereby has asserted itself as a peculiar source of knowledge for the mind. But with the Greeks matter is only the non-existent in relation to thought, and therefore it, and that in which it is the characteristic determination, cannot win for itself such an independence and such a significance. The Greek regards nature, as a whole and in the particular, essentially not with the eye of the observing natural scientist, but with the *artist's* eye. Just as the totality of nature was intuited as a cosmic work of art, so the particular was intuited in analogy with the singularity of the artistic ideal, which immediately reveals the idea and lets the contingencies of finitude vanish; the singularity of concrete natural reality, natural individuality, is transformed into the distinctiveness of beautiful individuality, and intuition, in its immediate unity with thought, becomes an intuition that relates [174] itself to the distinctive, not to the individually singular natural. Through intuition so determined, thought determines nature: the conception of the physical becomes, where thinking comes to clarity about the principles, determined by these *prior to experience*: *the conception of nature becomes metaphysical, not physical*. Greek philosophy therefore did not know the art of questioning nature through experiment either; for by such

questioning nature would precisely be recognized in its relative independence. Only late and to a small extent does the experiment come forward among the Greeks, and then outside philosophy.

This kind of knowledge of nature we now recognize also in Aristotle, despite his striving for a knowledge from experience, and despite his extensive knowledge, to which his natural-scientific writings bear witness. Of his knowledge of nature too it holds that it essentially acquires a metaphysical, not a physical, character. The fundamental metaphysical concepts, form and matter, are applied everywhere in physics as metaphysical concepts, without being made more concrete by the relation to the physical; the intuition of the universe as a whole is determined immediately by them, not by a summing-up of the conceptually grasped real; the nature of the fundamental forms of the material, the elements, is determined not through observation but through an a priori deduction; and thought is involuntarily drawn toward those domains of nature where the fundamental metaphysical relation finds the easiest attachment, toward the domain of the organic, and the lower spheres of nature are seen as it were only in a light reflected from the organic, while in the organic itself the mechanical causes are indeed stressed, but without their claiming a conceptually determined positive significance in relation to the teleological. And that the Aristotelian knowledge of nature acquires this character may in part be conditioned by his age's lack of the numerous technical and scientific aids to observation and calculation which the natural research of a more recent age commands, and by its fragmentary acquaintance with the phenomena of nature; but it has, as all the main determinations of the Aristotelian philosophy indirectly show, its last and most essential ground in the general character of the Greek conception of nature, which itself becomes a co-condition of those deficiencies. — [175]

What holds of the Aristotelian *knowledge of nature* in relation to the general Greek knowledge of nature holds also of his *general view of nature*, namely, that while it strives beyond the bounds of the Greek view of nature, it is nevertheless not able actually to overstep them, so that its categorial determinateness becomes the same as that of the Greek view. The Aristotelian view of nature is the expression of the Greek view of nature in its highest development and at the same time in its *transition* to a new and higher form. The *beauty-view* of the universe, the intuition of real existence as a cosmic work of art, as cosmos, is preserved in Aristotle, and form, although in its ideality it has no spatial determinateness, nevertheless becomes spatial form in nature. But on the foundation of the beauty-view a richer, deeper, more living conception is in the process of working its way forward: *the idea of life* is in the process of replacing *the idea of beauty* as the

idea that determines everything for real existence. Nature, which Aristotle determines as animate in its totality, and that not merely by an involuntary anthropomorphizing but in accordance with the conceptual relation to the immanent active form, is by this conception brought under the point of view of the organic, and the concepts of form as the principle of development and of the inner teleology in the particular and in the whole of nature point toward the organic. The *organic* conception of nature, which, consistently carried through in the form of thought, in accordance with the essential relation between the side of ideality and the side of reality in the living, includes the positive significance of the latter and therewith the significance of knowledge of the real, is present in Aristotle in a living intuition, and the conception of a modern age is touched upon. But the previously demonstrated deficiencies of the Aristotelian philosophy make themselves felt as soon as the development determined by form is to be made clear to thought, and as soon as form, the merely ideal and eternal, which as such lacks the determination of reality, is to be seen as natural energy. Just as the determination of [176] the energetic activity of form could not be held fast, but involuntarily went back to the conception of form as the eternally finished *resting* form, untouched by becoming, which did not essentially differ from the Platonic archetype with its postulated *δύναμις* [power], so the intuition of *the living, organic universe*, when the principle of development is annihilated by thought, must again go back to the intuition of *the artistically formed cosmos resting in the immediacy of beauty*. And to this cosmos corresponds that *knowledge of nature*, which immediately lets matter be shone through by form and be absorbed into the unity of beauty with it: the *aesthetic-metaphysical* knowledge of nature.

g. *Psychology*. — The doctrine of the soul, which Aristotle was the first to treat separately and in scientific connection, forms with him the concluding part of the Physics and, at its own close, bends back into the Metaphysics through the concept of the active *Noûς* [mind]. The domain of psychology is, on Aristotle's conception, the organic, the living, as a whole. Everything living has soul, and the soul is what distinguishes the living from the lifeless. The soul is the body's form, principle of motion and end, and the ensouled body, whose parts are disposed toward the end and serve as instruments (*ὄργανα*) for a determinate activity, is precisely thereby an organic body. The soul can therefore be defined as the first entelechy of a natural organic body, i.e. the entelechy comprising the activities of all the organs. Its relation to the body, and more particularly to this determinate, peculiar body, has the same necessity as the relation of form to

matter in general (for this reason Aristotle rejects the notion of a transmigration of souls).

The soul, which as form is an immaterial unity and has for its nearest substrate the vital heat ($\piνεῦμα$), an ether-like matter, effects as the body's entelechy the combination of its material constituents into a whole; it determines the body's peculiar constitution, [177] governs its nourishment and the development of its organs. And the vital activity of the soul shows itself, within the domain of the organic, in a constantly advancing unfolding to higher forms, and in such a way that, through the imperceptible transitions of quantitative differences, qualitative main distinctions assert themselves, which constitute essentially different stages of the life of the soul. Of such main stages Aristotle distinguishes three: that of the plant, that of the animal and that of man. The plant has only a *nutritive* soul, i.e. a soul whose activity is limited to the nourishment of the individual and the propagation of the species. In the animal the soul becomes a *sentient* soul, with feeling of pleasure and pain and of desire, and in most animals the soul also produces the capacity for free motion in space. In man, finally, the soul becomes *rational and thinking*. These forms of the life of the soul stand in relation to one another as lower and higher stages of development, of which the lower can exist without the higher, but the latter not without the former, since they have them as their necessary foundation and include them within themselves as their moments^{*)}. Between all the domains of organic nature there is thus an inner connection: one life unfolds itself through them all to ever higher perfection, until it attains to unity with the divine itself. And the organic as a whole we have in turn seen as the goal (the end) of the inorganic, which, in striving toward the living, itself shows the first intimations of the universal life of nature. Motion, which is a determination of everything natural and has form as its source, becomes for Aristotle the immortal life of nature, and in a certain sense he would call everything ensouled; yet life and ensoulment, when ascribed to the inorganic, become only analogues of the life and ensoulment of the organic, i.e. of life and ensoulment in the proper and strict sense. As the terminal [178] point in the series of stages of the organic, *man* is the most perfect living being in bodily and psychical respects. His bodily perfection Aristotle places in his having the highest degree of vital heat, the purest and, in relation to the size of the body, the most blood, the relatively largest brain, the most harmonious shape, an upright gait, the most perfect sense organs, organs for articulate speech, and in his hand an instrument of instruments. But these bodily advantages man has only because he has the highest and most perfect

^{*)}In being taken up into the higher, the lower is modified. Thus in man free motion becomes determined by purpose and deliberation, and sensation and notion become accompanied by a certainty (holding-for-true, conviction).

form of soul: the rational soul (*Noûs*), which comprises within itself the lower forms of soul. The peculiar function of the rational soul is essentially thinking, in particular that thinking which immediately, without error, relates itself cognitively to the highest principles. But this activity of thinking is conditioned in the individual by a development in time, in which the mind, self-active according to its essence, unfolds the endowment of the human through the relation to objects. The human soul, as *εἶδος εἰδῶν* [form of forms], carries within itself potentially the whole content of knowledge: the forms of the sensible and of the intelligible; it is in a way all things (*ἡ ψυχὴ τὰ ὄντα πῶς ἐστὶ πάντα*); but its potential knowledge attains actuality only through a progressive cognitive activity proceeding from the relation to the sensible.

The first form of knowledge is *sensation*, whose nearest and immediate object is the singular, but which through the singular relates itself mediately to the universal that is present in it. For what exists for sense-consciousness is not the singular being as such, but determinate properties (determinations of form) of it, which already relate to it as something universal to the singular, and which, although in being sensed they are always intuited only in the singular and individual, nevertheless by their essence retain the character of something universal (*αἰσθάνεται τὸ καθ' ἕκαστον, ἡ δὲ αἴσθησις τοῦ καθόλου ἐστίν*), so that the thought of the universal can develop from the sensuous [179] observation of them. The first step thereto is that, in sensation itself, through the activity of the *common sense*, the sensible properties are distinguished from one another in their relative generality; the next, that with the help of *imagination and memory*, as what is uniform and constant in the sense-feelings is involuntarily or voluntarily retained, a *general image* is formed, matter for an *experience*; and from this stage one now advances further, as a plurality of experiences is combined, to an ever more and more general and comprehensive knowledge, in which *thinking* relates itself to the universal forms and *causes*, and in the highest instance to the *most general principles*. Aristotle has thought itself accompanied by a notion-image, a *φάντασμα*, which relates to the thought as the mathematical diagram does to what is proved. Throughout the whole development the soul is at no point merely suffering, receptive; even the sensation of the object is not a passive reception of it, but a self-activity which is only called forth by it, an actualizing of what was already potentially present in the subject; and still more decidedly thinking appears as energy, activity, since, as relating itself to the immaterial, the pure form, it has not an external object, but an object that is identical with itself.

With the concept of a development in time of what is peculiar to the human soul, of human knowledge and thinking, an opposition is posited within the concept *Noûs*,

which Aristotle expresses by the distinction between νοῦς παθητικός [passive mind] and νοῦς ποιητικός [productive mind]. The relation between the two forms of Νοῦς becomes clear from what was developed above, under the Metaphysics, about form as the principle that step by step determines the development and yet at the close of the development stands untouched by becoming, and from what was likewise stated there and in the Physics regarding the relation of the divine Νοῦς to the series of stages of forms. Just as Aristotle, in the advance of the life of the soul, constantly sees the lower forms as taken up into the unity of the higher, so too, in the case of the human [180] soul, he lets the designation for what is its peculiar essence become the designation for all the lower forms as taken up into the unity of the rational soul. Νοῦς παθητικός designates with Aristotle precisely the sum total of those stages of development of the human soul that have not yet reached the final goal, the completed realization, and it comprises not only all the lower forms of life and consciousness that become moments in the unity of the rational soul, but also the reflective, mediate thinking that rests on sensation and experience (διάνοια as distinct from νοῦς; the immediate intuition of the principles). Through all the lower stages of development there runs the unity of one essence: the form that at the close of the development reveals itself as Νοῦς, as intuitive mind; they therefore all participate in its essence and fall under its determination; but since, as stages in the development of the not yet fully realized entelechy, they still have potentiality and becoming in them, and thereby come into contact with the material, they are Νοῦς only as that which is in development and becoming, as παθητικός, i.e. as that which is realized by something actually operative. This actually operative thing, which distinguishes itself from Νοῦς in that determination, is then Νοῦς as ποιητικός, as pure energy. Νοῦς ποιητικός is man's εἶδος [form]; it is the goal toward which the whole development strives, and, as the goal, the operative, actualizing principle. It relates to what is comprised under the determination νοῦς παθητικός as energy does to the not yet fully realized entelechy. Νοῦς ποιητικός is thus the form independent of becoming; in accordance with its relation to the series of stages of the forms of nature, as the one that concludes it, it is in its essence one with the divine Νοῦς, which it expresses in the form of human existence; it is simple and unmixed, in uninterrupted energy a thinking of itself in its thinking of the intelligible object; it is independent of the body, a peculiar, separable principle, immortal, but not in the form of individuality, whereas Νοῦς παθητικός, which [181] is conditioned by the body, is perishable with the bodily.

As the peculiar principle in the human being, Νοῦς becomes, according to its concept, what is determining in the *practical* as in the theoretical. Already in the animal soul,

the sentient soul, the presupposition for *desire* is given through the feeling of pleasure and pain connected with sense-feeling; desire is a seeking or fleeing, called forth by the notion of the pleasant (here the expression for the practically good), by which a motion is effected in the bodily organs. This desire, which is the presupposition of the life of the will, develops in the human soul into *will*, inasmuch as the notion through which it is determined by *Noûs* bears the stamp of the rational, and desire is thus directed toward what is truly good. Reason, which enters into relation to desire as determining it, as setting ends and choosing means, is in this function *practical reason* (*νοῦς πρακτικός*). Subordination to reason is the normal relation of desire: the relation that makes its operation ethical, and through this subordination desire itself becomes a participant in reason. Just as, however, the material had the possibility of withdrawing from the dominion of form, so desire can oppose itself to the determining of reason and operate in contradiction with it. Man has the possibility of acting rationally or irrationally, well or badly; how he acts is a voluntary matter; man is therefore himself responsible for the direction of his action. —

In the Aristotelian psychology we see the striving for unity that characterizes his whole philosophy come forth in the most energetic manner. The soul, as the body's entelechy, is in its individuality indissolubly bound to a corresponding bodily thing, which, in the unity of essence with the ideal, is subject to its dominion. The various stages of life do not become, as with Plato, separate parts of the soul, but connected members in a teleological development, whose higher stage takes up the lower into its unity as a moment and determines it in this taking-up. Thus in man *Noûs* becomes the expression of unity for all the psychical functions that the human being contains, and Aristotle, in designating *Noûs* as that which we, as men, properly are, points to something central in the human being, intimates a unity of the personality. But yet in this domain too, where the richer content of intuition as it were compels the decisive determinations of thought, that striving for unity is not carried through. As *Noûs* as *ποιητικός*, as something eternal, untouched by becoming, distinguishes itself from the development and its stages, the unity is broken. *Noûs*, which was to be the full expression of unity for the human being, separates itself dualistically from the bodily and from all the psychical forms conditioned by the bodily, which it was to comprise within itself, and stands as that which is untouched by development, the impersonal, the abstract. Through this separation the development itself and the connection of the stages remain unexplained, and the concept of the unity of the self, of the personality, escapes Aristotle. The unity in the forms of development of the life of the soul becomes at any rate the

unity of harmony in the diverse, and that which was to express the true, living, inner unity dissolves into an indeterminate fusion with the divine, in which no explanatory ground for individuality lies.

With the lack of a concept of the self in its inner unity and concentration there is connected, in Aristotle, the lack of a sharper conception of the *concept of will*. With respect to this concept too Aristotle strives to get further than his predecessors, and seeks in particular to secure for the will a relative independence in relation to knowledge by accentuating the element of desire and the peculiarity of the practical. But yet the concept of will remains only hovering and uncertain. When the will is conceived as a *desire determined by reason*, then, since according to Aristotelian presuppositions all desire can come to be only as it is called forth by form, and a determinate limit therefore cannot be drawn between mere desire and will, it must remain unclear what scope the life of the will acquires within the human, and what in the activity of the will is the [183] properly decisive thing: desire, the basis of the will, or the influence that reason exerts on desire through the notion-image, and by which desire is first to become will. Likewise it remains unclear how man's determinateness toward the rational or the irrational, the good or the bad, can, as Aristotle would have it, become a voluntary matter, and how the freely choosing subject is to be determined. Thus only a start has been made toward determining the concept of will in its peculiarity, and while the question of the freedom of the will in the choice between good and evil is not penetratingly treated, but the voluntariness of action is in reality only postulated in order to save the concepts of imputability and responsibility, the question of the freedom of the will in its relation to the divine, from which the determination of the will is excluded, and to the operation of nature, is passed over.

h. *Practical philosophy*. — *Practical philosophy*, which has action as its ultimate aim and as its domain that which, as dependent on the human *will*, lacks the character of necessary being that the object of metaphysics had, acquires, in accordance with this nature of its object, a lesser degree of stringency, but nevertheless falls under the concept of philosophy in its comprehensive meaning. It divides into the doctrine of the moral activity of the individual: ethics, and the doctrine of the state, the moral community: politics; but since ethics as it were issues into politics, the name of the latter can become the common designation for the whole domain.

α) *Ethics*. Aristotle's ethics stands, like Plato's, in the closest connection with his anthropology, and through it with metaphysics. The distinctive character of its fundamental

concepts is determined by this relation, its deficiencies conditioned by it.

- [184] When the *ultimate* end of human action, i.e. the end striven for for *its own sake* (τὸ πάντων ἀκρότατον τῶν πρακτῶν ἀγαθῶν), is to be determined, it can, according to what was developed in the metaphysics, only be the *energy* in which the distinctive character of the human being comes fully to actuality, and in which man must therefore find the highest satisfaction: *happiness*, the highest *πρακτὸν ἀγαθόν* [practicable good]. Now, the energy in which the distinctively human asserts itself was the energy of *reason*, which in turn can be either the pure energy of reason, the energy in *νοῦς* as such, the highest and most perfect activity of mind, that by which the human mind lives a divine life, and which is therefore the most excellent, properly superhuman constituent of happiness; or the energy of the will determined by reason, the properly ethical activity, the activity of reason which man *alone* possesses.

By this determination of energy the *essential* content of happiness (of the highest good) is stated; for the completion of the concept of happiness, however, further determinations are required. The energy must comprise *a whole and complete life*, i.e. one that has not been broken off at an imperfect stage of development. As a *condition*, happiness requires a certain measure of *external goods* (health, beauty, prosperity, friends, etc.), which become aids, as it were a *χορηγία* [furnishing of means], to the realization of moral activity, and which, owing to the individual's place within the relations of existence, cannot be entirely dispensed with, even though the truly moral man needs the external only in small measure and can never become entirely unhappy. Finally, to full happiness belongs *pleasure*, not as something that is an aim for its own sake, but as something that, as a natural completion, supervenes upon the unhindered energy that reaches its goal, is inseparable from normal activity as health and beauty are from the normal constitution of the body, and is determined in value by the activity, which comes to intensive self-feeling in it.

- [185] When the concept of happiness is determined as *ψυχῆς ἐνὲρ γεια κατ' ἀρετὴν τὴν ἀρίστην καὶ τελειοτάτην ἐν βίῳ τελείῳ* [activity of the soul in accordance with the best and most complete virtue in a complete life], then in this definition the concept of energy, which constituted the essential and original content of happiness, is set in unity with the concept of *virtue*, and the development of the latter attaches itself immediately to the development of the concept: the highest good. Virtue is in general excellence, the undisturbed activity of a being and its self-assertion through this activity; but the virtue that ethics is to investigate is *human* virtue: the *normal energy* of the *rational* soul, or, as Aristotle expresses it: the activity by which man performs his *distinctive* work

well. Virtue, as the expression of the distinctively human in normal operation, then becomes, according to what was touched on above, either *dianoetic* virtue, i.e. the normal operation of the rational life of the soul as such (in and for itself or as determining the lower psychical activities), or *ethical* virtue: the operation of the appetitive part, which is in and for itself irrational but, as a moment in the human soul, receptive to reason, in its lasting harmonious determinateness by rational insight. *Ethical* virtue, the specifically human virtue in comparison with the human-divine dianoetic virtue, becomes the proper central concept of the Aristotelian ethics (ἡ ἠθικὴ ἐστὶ περὶ πάθη καὶ πράξεις [ethical virtue is concerned with passions and actions]).

According to Aristotle, it has as its presuppositions certain natural conditions and natural dispositions, which are already present in the child, and to which analogues are found even in animals, but which first become virtues in the proper sense when rational insight comes to the natural drive and forms it. The boundary of the ethical is thus not reached so long as we are within mere natural disposition, within the natural determinateness that is something given, which is not in our power, not, like virtue, something self-produced. We do not even reach it through such inclinations and moods as, like compassion, abstemiousness, modesty and the like, already touch on the moral. The moral is first reached when rational insight, which represents the formal principle, [186] comes to that matter of the moral, consciously forming it and determining the content of the will. But ethical virtue as such is nevertheless not identical with insight: its concept comprises both moments: φύσις [nature] and λόγος [reason]. The Socratic definition of virtue as knowledge overlooks, according to Aristotle, the pathological moment, the significance of desire for action, and the necessity of moral self-control (ἐγκράτεια) for the congruence of insight and action, just as Socrates's conception of knowledge as immediately determining action overlooks that the fact that knowledge can be merely potential, or that the application of universal knowledge to the single concrete case can fail to occur, also makes it possible to act against knowledge. More precisely, virtue must be determined, not as something momentary or transient, but as an abiding disposition (ἔξις) in the will that acts according to purpose (conscious principles), as a habit acquired through free activity: morality becomes actual through custom; virtue is not innate, nor yet imparted through instruction, but acquired through practice, which lets what was originally the affair of a single free decision become fixed as determinateness of character, as an abiding cast of mind. Morality would be complete where free virtuous action had become as it were a natural necessity for the individual. Practice also becomes the condition for knowledge of the moral; for in order to know it one must *have* acted

in a moral way (in accordance with the moral), since knowledge of it must proceed from τὸ ὅτι [the that] and become real in the same way as theoretical knowledge of the universal became real by means of the sensation of the particular. The moments in the ethical are thus φύσις, λόγος and ἔθος, and Aristotle's complete definition of ethical virtue determines it as the abiding disposition of the will acting according to purpose, which keeps to the mean that is right for us (determined with respect to us), as this is [187] determined by reason, by the man of insight (ἐξίς προαιρετικὴ ἐν μεσότητι οὐσα τῇ πρὸς ἡμᾶς, ὠρισμένη λόγῳ καὶ ὡς ἂν ὁ φρόνιμος ὀρίσειεν).

In the concept μεσότης, which Aristotle employs in the definition of ethical virtue, and which some have wished to take as a purely external and empirical determination, there appears a reflection of the metaphysical determination of the relation of the principles and of the Greek idealistic fundamental view. For Aristotle conceives the relation in the irrational but reason-receptive part of the soul (the sentient soul) thus: that the affect and desire bound up with the feeling of pleasure and pain, and the action called forth by them, must, owing to their being affected by the sensuous, and in general owing to their connection with the domain of the material, of what is in itself indeterminate, lack the secure norm and the right determinateness until they are subjected to the conscious forming influence of reason, and that therefore it is reason that first brings measure and harmonious determinateness, i.e. a μεσότης, into affect and desire, and through them into action, and thus ethicizes them. In this relation νοῦς works as practical insight, as φρόνησις. Just as, according to the Aristotelian theory of knowledge, νοῦς immediately grasps the highest theoretical principles, the presuppositions of all knowledge, so in the domain of the ethical φρόνησις is to grasp, by an immediate tact, a kind of αἴσθησις [perception], the good and right in this entirely concrete case, and that by an operation of νοῦς, which as the highest energy must be what is operative in all functions of reason. Since action is determined by the regulation of affect and desire by insight (ὁρεξίς διανοητική, ὁρεξίς ὀρθή), and itself falls under the determination μεσότης, it gives, insofar as it appears in the external, to μεσότης the shape of a middle way, and therefore the concept μεσότης can be carried over to domains where it does not belong according to its proper meaning. When the concept is applied in the determination of ethical virtue, what is thus expressed by it is the harmonious determinateness of the operation of man's [188] sensuous nature by form, the rational, (its lawfulness: ὁ γὰρ νόμος τὸ μέσον [for the law is the mean]) — not the immediate natural determinateness, the immediately given natural disposition, but the immediate, as it were aesthetic, determinateness through insight. Μεσότης expresses, with this more precise determination of a relation of consciousness,

the same thing that Plato in some of his later dialogues called τὸ μέτριον and τὸ μέσον, i.e. that which lies midway between “the more and the less,” the determinations of the material, and in Aristotle too these concepts alternate with the concept μεσότης. From this meaning of the concept it then also follows that in Aristotle it can have validity only for the ethical virtues, not for the dianoetic; for in the latter there is no relation to something material that is to be limited; therefore in their case there can be no question of excess or deficiency. —

Aristotle does not deduce the *particular* ethical virtues, as Plato had done, but enumerates them (in such a way that in their order some regard is had to the value of the functions and drives to which they relate), and determines them individually with clear, sharp, characteristic traits in their relation to the extremes. They are: ἀνδρεία [courage], σωφροσύνη [temperance], ἐλευθεριότης [liberality], μεγαλοπρέπεια [magnificence], μεγαλοψυχία [magnanimity], φιλοτιμία [ambition], πραότης [gentleness], ἀληθεια [truthfulness], εὐτραπέλεια [wittiness], φιλία [friendship] and δικαιοσύνη [justice]. Justice receives in Aristotle a more definite delimitation than in Plato. Even when it is taken in the widest sense, it is indeed τῆς ὅλης ἀρετῆς χρήσις [the exercise of whole virtue], but: πρὸς ἄλλον [toward another]. It is thus indeed ἀρετὴ τελεία [complete virtue], but not ἀπλῶς [without qualification], but πρὸς ἕτερον [in relation to another]. In the narrower sense it relates to τὸ ἴσον καὶ τὸ ἄνισον [the equal and the unequal] and is partly the *distributive* justice (according to a geometric proportion): τὸ ἐν ταῖς διανομαῖς δίκαιον, partly the *equalizing* justice (according to an arithmetic proportion): τὸ ἐν τοῖς συναλλάγμασι δίκαιον. The *equitable* (τὸ ἐπιεικὲς) supplements the just where the latter, owing to the generality of the provisions of law, becomes insufficient in the face of the concrete case.

With respect to the distinctive character of virtue in different individuals, it is characteristic of Aristotle that, while he determines perfect virtue as one in its essence, and [189] with moral insight (φρόνησις) lets all ethical virtues be given, he nevertheless, because the natural basis of virtue differs in different persons, maintains that the moral task must necessarily become different, since different directions of virtue must develop with a certain one-sidedness in different persons, and different stages in virtue become the limit of the individual's striving. Only the man, and the man as freeborn, can fully realize ethical virtue.

The *dianoetic* virtues Aristotle treats briefly, and chiefly only in order to determine, through a distinction of concepts, what φρόνησις is. Distinguishing between two kinds of conscious activity of reason: that which relates to the necessary and unchangeable, and

that which relates to what we can influence at will (*τό ἐπιστημονικόν* and *τό λογιστικόν*), he assigns, of the dianoetic virtues, to the former *ἐπιστήμη*, *νοῦς* and *σοφία*, to the latter *φρόνησις* and *τέχνη*. They all aim at truth, either at truth in and for itself, or at the truth that comes forth in right execution. *Ἐπιστήμη* is the mediate knowledge of the necessary; *νοῦς* the immediate knowing of the highest and most universal principles; *σοφία* unites both kinds of knowledge, and thus acquires in Aristotle a position with respect to the two preceding virtues similar to the one justice had in Plato with respect to the other cardinal virtues. *Τέχνη* relates to production, the poietic activity, whose aim is the external work; *φρόνησις*, finally, relates to practical activity, whose essential aim is the energy of the action itself, the moral in the subject, and its operation is the above-stated, immediate expression of a moral artistic tact, which with the sureness of genius grasps the universal in the entirely concretely determined case. —

In order for virtue and morality to be realized in the individual, an insight existing in accordance with energy, i.e. actual, moral insight is required, — just as in general for [190] Aristotle energy was the condition for the realization of possibility — but this actual insight exists in the *state*, which through upbringing, instruction and laws calls forth insight and morality in the individual. Ethics thus leads over into politics: the doctrine of the moral community.

β) Politics. — The state is, according to Aristotle, in its moral action greater and more divine than the individual. It is the distinctive end of human life, since man by his nature is a *ζῶον πολιτικόν*, i.e. a being disposed to a communal life. It is, by its nature as the moral whole, the conceptual presupposition of its parts, of the individual and the family, which with respect to time precede it as its conditions.

The aim of the state is not merely, and not even chiefly, to provide the material conditions of life and security for its members, but essentially to make its citizens virtuous and thereby to realize the highest human happiness. It is a community in moral activity for the realization of a perfect and independent human life.

The attainment of the aim of the state is conditioned partly by the constitution, partly by the insight at work in statecraft. The *constitution* expresses the form of the state as a concrete organic whole; it conditions the distinctive character of the laws, and while, precisely as the form of the living whole of the state, it must constantly be adapted to the concrete circumstances and the given conditions, so that one and the same ideal form of state cannot be imposed on all states, it acquires a difference in value according to the value of those into whose hands it places power. The true and legitimate forms of state: monarchy, aristocracy and politeia (i.e. the state in which

all who are fit to bear arms have equal rights, and the well-to-do middle class has the preponderance), are distinguished from the perverted ones: democracy, oligarchy and tyranny, by the fact that the former all have the common good, the latter the advantage of one individual or of a few individuals as their aim. The perverted forms of state, the transgressions (*parekbases*), are the caricatures of the true ones, and they are worse [191] in the same proportion as what they distort is more perfect. The absolutely best form of state is an aristocracy of those most excellent in intellectual and moral respects, or, where the case arises that there is a single individual who towers beyond all comparison over all others, his sole rule. — *Statecraft* has as its most excellent task the upbringing of the citizens. The state is, by laws on marriage and on the begetting of children, to secure for itself the right number of new individuals of normal constitution; it is then to bear care without interruption, through childhood and youth, for their physical and mental development, and even among the older it is to exercise supervision over morals. But the state is nevertheless not to abolish family life or the individual's right to individual property. In Plato's conception of these relations Aristotle sees a danger to morality and concord, and a fetter on free helpfulness; he wants unity in the state brought about, not by an abolition of individual interests and of family life, but by unity of disposition among the citizens. The unity of the state is to be precisely a unity that binds together what is different. The virtue to which the state is to educate the citizens is primarily civic virtue; but while in the imperfect states this may still be incongruent with true ethical virtue, in the perfect state it must coincide with it: the laws of the state are there moral laws. Since theoretical virtue is the highest, it is not training for warlike activity but for the right use of peace that becomes the most important task. For Aristotle too the scientific life stands as the highest goal of life. —

Where Aristotle in his social doctrine develops the *relation between master and slave*, it is of interest to see how the concept of *humanity*, the recognition of man's right and dignity *as man*, begins to come forth, in the distinction between what is incumbent on the master in relation to the slave as slave, i.e. as living property, and to the slave as man. But these intimations of the humane could nevertheless not be maintained [192] in the face of the fundamental view that sees slavery as something necessary, and as something legitimate in accordance with the original natural difference between peoples and individuals. The contingency of natural determinateness becomes, precisely owing to the view of the immediate unity of the spiritual and the natural, an unremoved barrier for spirit, and makes freedom of spirit, man's essential determination, into something particular and contingent. —

The Aristotelian ethics has, in comparison with the Platonic, an advantage in the sharper distinction and more exact determination of concepts, in the endeavor to secure for the life of the will an independence in its distinctive character, and in the greater regard that, in accordance with the whole character of Aristotle's philosophy, is paid to the natural moment in the human being. But it nevertheless preserves the general character of Greek ethics, and is unable to overstep its bounds, and the reason for this lies in what was shown above in connection with the anthropology: that the concept of the unity of personality concentrated in its inner infinity was lacking, and that the concept of will was only uncertainly and vaguely determined. Ethical action, then, can not be conceived as proceeding from the ethical decision of a personality that is in itself infinitely transparent, clarified in exhaustive reflection, fully conscious of *ethical obligation*, but must be conceived as coming to be as it were suddenly, in an artistic-genial way, through a concretion of the universal law of reason, through the immediate operation of *Noûς*, which withdraws from conscious reflection and is only the object of an *αἴσθησις*. The moral life therefore becomes a series of such moments of immediacy: in each of them the moral individuality stands, in its immediate determinateness by the universal, as an individual work of art, closed in itself; but continuity for consciousness is lacking; ethical development is transformed into the successive revelation, governed by beauty and appearing harmoniously in a series of discrete moments, of undisturbed [193] human nature. Ethical action becomes an occurrence, an event, and the ethical good must, in principle, be drawn toward the metaphysical. The character of the Aristotelian ethics thus becomes, like that of Greek ethics in general, *aesthetic-metaphysical*.

What gives the Aristotelian philosophy its historical significance, and what its deficiencies are, has already become clear through the exposition of its main parts. We have everywhere seen it strive beyond the bounds of Greek thought, but everywhere be forced back within them. What was the fundamental deficiency of Greek thought: the lack of ability to reconcile the dualism that hid beneath the intuited harmony of the work of art, was also the pervasive deficiency in the Aristotelian philosophy, and since through the latter the dualism is brought precisely and clearly before consciousness, the task and character of the subsequent philosophy are thereby conditioned.

6. The Peripatetic School.

Aristotle's school has, like Plato's, only a subordinate significance for the further development of philosophy. Metaphysical investigations recede before empirical knowledge and before a popular ethics. Only at certain points are consequences drawn from the Aristotelian doctrines that touch on essential problems and mainly go in the naturalistic direction that post-Aristotelian philosophy follows in its first form. The later Peripatetics earned merit by editing and interpreting the Aristotelian writings.

In the first generations after Aristotle the school is represented essentially by Theophrastus and Strato. *Theophrastus* of Lesbos (c. 373–288) was Aristotle's successor as head of the school; he is significant especially for his natural-historical writings on plants and on stones. In metaphysics he departs from Aristotle in his conception of motion, [194] which he seeks to bring into a closer relation to energy and to make a determination of the immaterial as well. From the not entirely clear reports on this point it seems as though the difficulty pointed out above in Aristotle of conceiving form as principle of motion and yet as untouched by becoming led Theophrastus to this approximation of the concepts, which also brought him to maintain that at every point in the development of the possible an energy is realized. In psychology there is in Theophrastus an endeavor, although νοῦς is in a certain sense conceived as χωριστός [separable], to maintain it as σύμφυτος [congenital] with the human, though without the relation really becoming clear. To the activity of thinking he applies the concept of motion, but not in the sense of spatial motion. In ethics greater weight is laid on the external aids of virtue than in Aristotle.

Strato of Lampsacus was Theophrastus's successor as head of the school. He cancels the doubling that occurs in Aristotle of form as divine Νοῦς χωριστός and as indwelling form (φύσις), and carries through a standpoint of immanence, from which all activity and all life in the world is conceived as deriving from the force originally indwelling in matter and working with unconscious necessity: nature, which is the divine. Correspondingly he denies in man a νοῦς χωριστός, maintains the unity of the life of the soul as rational and sensuous, gives reason, the universal fundamental power of the soul, whose particular expressions the activities of sense are, a bodily organ, and lets the soul as a whole be dissolved with the body. The activities of the soul are conceived as motions; *all* living beings are posited as partaking of reason.

Besides Theophrastus and Strato, among the Peripatetics of the first generations may be named *Eudemus*, *Aristoxenus* and *Dicaearchus*, of whom the latter two essentially stand on the same standpoint as Strato in their conception of the psychical.

[195]

Chapter Four.

The Third Period of Greek Philosophy: The Dissolution of the Doctrine of Ideas.

1. Survey of the Third Period

The peculiarity of the third period was earlier stated thus: that, with a clearer or dimmer consciousness of dualism, it strives after a unity that sacrifices one of the opposites and therefore cannot lead to their reconciliation.

In this striving after unity in principle, post-Aristotelian philosophy develops from a materialism, through a dualism expressed in principle as a short-lived transitional link, to a spiritualistic doctrine of unity, which strives powerlessly beyond the limits of the Greek spirit and ends in fantastic scholasticism.

In the general relation between the fundamental concepts of Greek thought, and in the direction toward the real that philosophy had taken in Aristotle, lay the reason why that striving after unity had to begin from *materialism*. Materialism is expressed dogmatically, in essentially different forms, in Stoicism and Epicureanism, and it shines through beneath Skepticism. This materialism, in whose dogmatic representatives dualism had proved unovercome: in the Stoics already in the very determination of the principle, in the Epicureans in anthropology, where the opposition that could be kept hidden in the superficially treated general part of the system broke forth through the more concrete determinations, is replaced at the beginning of the Christian era by *the dualism of principle*, which through the opposition between the transcendent spiritual [196] God and matter^{*)} prepares the spiritualistic doctrine of unity. The dualism expressed in principle, whose most essential representatives were the Neopythagoreans and Philo, was, precisely because it was dualism, of only lesser duration. It had in turn to give way to a monistic philosophy, which now, after the other possibilities had been tried,

^{*)}When the evil world-soul is posited as the opposite of the divine, it is as it were the personification of the hindering and disturbing power lying in matter, by whose separation matter becomes something indifferent. But in other conceptions matter itself becomes the properly negative. Its determination as a *μη ὄν* [non-being] then acquires a significance that goes beyond the Platonic: matter becomes not merely the negative, but the negating.

had to be of a *spiritualistic* kind, and which was completed in Neoplatonism, in which Greek thought, influenced by the spirit of the Orient, strove to derive all that is, and matter itself, from the purely spiritual Godhead, transcendent over thinking and being, to whose undifferentiated unity man sought to return in order to be deified in ecstatic surrender. In the struggle against Christianity, which carries out more consistently what Neoplatonism strove for, Neoplatonism concludes Greek philosophy, now fully unfolded according to its whole disposition.

2. The General Character of the Third Period.

In the second period, the culminating age of Greek philosophy, the essential interest of philosophy had been the knowledge of the ideal objectivity that is true and actual in and for itself. Theory was posited as the highest; the possibility of knowledge was not doubted; no domain of existence was excluded from thought, but philosophy unfolded into a system embracing all reality. The ethical received the stamp of ideality, and the thought of a universally human morality worked its way forward; but there was no detachment of the individual from nature and the state. The Greek spirit has here reached its richest and most complete unfolding, and it strove with energy after the solution of the task: to bring the oppositions of existence under a unity of thought. But as this striving [197] failed and dualism proved insuperable, the process of dissolution in Greek philosophy begins, and the third period is the span of time in which this process is consummated.

The endeavor, after the consciousness of dualism had been awakened, to restore unity by bringing both opposites under the determination of one of them, then becomes the *fundamental tendency* in this period, the one that gives it its peculiar stamp. But beside this striving, and in inner connection with it, other characteristic peculiarities come forward, by which the third period as a whole distinguishes itself from the preceding one.

Whereas the essential interest of the second period had been the very knowledge of the true, objective existent in the sphere of nature and of spirit, the essential interest of the third period becomes the effect of that knowledge on the subject, so that knowledge of the objective definitively becomes a means of procuring the subject's virtue and happiness. The center of gravity in the systems is thus shifted from the object to the subject, and more precisely to the subject conceived from the standpoint of the practical.

But as man is essentially conceived from the standpoint of the practical, and the ethical problems, man's moral task and the conditions for its realization, thus come

forward, an essential difference from the earlier philosophy again shows itself. What Aristotle had intimated, the breaking through of the barriers that prevent the human from coming forward as such, is carried further here. Man is now seen, in the infinity of his self-consciousness, essentially *as man*; the concept of humanity, in opposition to that of citizenship and nationality, begins to become clear. The boundaries of human society reach beyond those of the state to the boundaries of the cosmos. But while the ethical acquires a stamp of universality, it acquires at the same time a stamp of the abstract and negative. In the infinity of its consciousness the subject knows itself independent of [198] everything, but by the same token everything external, including that in which the Greek formerly found the substantial content of his life, family life and the life of the state, becomes alien and indifferent to it. The subject becomes as it were its own world: apathy and ataraxia in relation to the external world become its task. It does not set itself the goal of realizing the moral ideas in the world, but that of winning through philosophy autarky, independence of the world. Subjectivity, to which everything returns, becomes the abstract subjectivity that asserts itself, in its separation from nature and human society, as the unconditionally highest, and in this autarky knows itself perfectly free and satisfied.

As a phenomenon that accompanies the receding of the theoretical in comparison with the practical, we see that all positive, dogmatic systems in the third period attach themselves in a dependent manner to older philosophical forms, especially in the domain of physics and metaphysics, while in the domain of the ethical there is greater independence. The productive power of thought proves to be in the process of being exhausted, and its mistrust of itself comes forward indirectly in the investigations concerning the criterion, while *skepsis* directly declares man's lack of capacity for knowledge of the truth.

A last peculiarity of this period, which is connected partly with the exhaustion of theory, partly with the preponderance of the practical, is the greater influence of the positively religious on thought. Plato and Aristotle had stood freely over against popular belief and had reshaped it according to their philosophical fundamental thoughts, in which their minds found undisturbed rest; post-Aristotelian philosophy is in many ways dependent on the religious form of notion, either as defending it or as combating it: it occupies itself to a great extent with the problems of natural theology and ascribes essential significance to them for the moral; and in its later forms it seeks in the religious [199] revelations a source of truth higher than human knowledge. Among the Neoplatonists philosophy finally becomes a scholastic theology.

For this great change in the whole physiognomy of Greek philosophy the reason must, in the nature of the case, be sought first of all in the development of the earlier philosophy. In that development the greatest significance then belongs to the dualism that comes forward in both Plato and Aristotle, by which mind, as pure form existing for itself, distinguishes itself from the sensible, and in this distinction becomes the essential and absolutely real. By this dualism, as will be shown below, the peculiarities of the period can be explained. But beside the influence from what we may call the main current of the earlier philosophy, account must also be taken of the personal influence that the founders of the first post-Aristotelian systems received from the imperfect Socratics. Stoicism and Epicureanism stand in immediate connection with Cynicism and Cyrenaicism, in which the practical was the essential interest. But even if this connection can explain the direction toward the practical in Zeno and Epicurus, and even if their schools' continuation of this direction can be explained by their dependent attachment to the founders of the schools, the reason why the *whole* philosophy of the post-Aristotelian age takes this direction is nevertheless to be sought in something more general, and the connection with this we shall strive to demonstrate in what follows.

By the external political conditions under which philosophy developed in the third period, the change in its character was also bound to be favored. For as the individual was no longer borne up by a vigorous, free common spirit, and no longer had in a free political life a stage for its activity, the classical ground was as it were drawn away from under it; the development of a free and many-sided theoretical world-view, corresponding to that free and full social life, was made impossible, and the subject was as it were thrown back into itself, and confined to itself as the last firm point of support. The classical Greek spirit begins its period of dissolution from the fourth century, and on its dissolution as a [200] thinking spirit the mingling of the Greek with foreign elements, Roman and Oriental, then has its effect. In particular the contact with the Orient becomes significant for the last phases of Greek philosophy, in which an attempt is made to carry through an abstractly spiritualistic view of life.

When we have stressed above the dualism coming forward in the early philosophy as the ground of explanation for the peculiar stamp of the third period, this is to be substantiated more closely as follows. The most immediate consequence of the consciousness of dualism becomes the striving, emphasized above, after a unity in principle, which characterizes the period taken as a whole, and which we have already come to know in Aristotle's school. But in this striving it was the presupposition, even where mind was determined materialistically, that the mental, which in both Plato and Aristotle

distinguished itself, in its being-for-itself, from the material as the only perfect reality, was the highest. The next consequence of dualism was therefore that the rational being, man, in his being-for-itself, drew the main interest to himself. And as now, after the fundamental thought of the Greek spirit has been found and carried through, the theoretical power of the spirit is exhausted, so that the later systems must attach themselves dependently to older, theoretically productive ones, the interest of the thinkers turns preferably to the practical, and the human is conceived essentially from the side of the practical. And as, further, the dualism present in concealment even in the monistic systems — which also has its effect on the investigations concerning a criterion of truth — makes the conception of the human abstract, just as the thought separated from matter became abstract, man's practical goal is conceived essentially as a resting in the infinity of an abstract self-consciousness, whether this is now determined from the standpoint of the single individual, or from that of the immanent universal reason, or from that [201] of the abstractly transcendent. The widening of the ethical standpoint, the negative character of ethics, and the more determinate emergence of subjectivity in the posing of the ethical problems are a simple consequence of this, just as the greater significance that the positively religious forces for itself is a consequence partly of the exhaustion of theory, partly of the heightened interest that comes to rest on subjectivity.

3. Stoicism.

a. *History of the School.* — Zeno of Citium in Cyprus (c. 350—c. 258) was the founder of the school which, after the place where he taught, the *στόα ποικίλη* [Painted Stoa], was called the Stoic. He first heard the Cynic Crates, in whom he thought he had found the man who in his own time most resembled Socrates; later he heard the Megarian Stilpo and the Platonists Xenocrates and Polemo. About 310 he came forward as a teacher and worked as such until his death, honored by the Athenian people for his *ἀρετή* [virtue] and *σωφροσύνη* [temperance]. Of his writings, of which the earlier stood closer to Cynicism, none are preserved. Among his disciples the most significant were Aristo of Chios, Herillus of Carthage, and Cleanthes, who became head of the school after Zeno. Of Cleanthes a hymn to Zeus is preserved. A greater name than these was won by Chrysippus (282—209), who led the school after Cleanthes. He first gave the Stoic doctrine its systematic working-out and dialectical grounding, so that he became as it were the second founder of the school. He displayed an enormous activity as an author, but his numerous writings — according to ancient reports over 700 — are lost. After

Chrysippus, Zeno of Tarsus and Diogenes of Babylon directed the school. With Panaetius of Rhodes (c. 180—111) eclecticism begins to make its way into the Stoa. His disciple Posidonius, who taught at Rhodes, shared this eclectic tendency with his teacher. Among the Romans Stoic philosophy found considerable diffusion in a popular and eclectic form; its most significant representatives there are L. Annaeus Seneca (3—65 p. Chr.), C. Musonius Rufus, the slave Epictetus (from Phrygia) and the Emperor Marcus Aurelius. Of [202] Seneca, Epictetus and Marcus Aurelius we have writings preserved, of the last two in the Greek language. For several centuries after its rise Stoic philosophy becomes the proper chief leader of philosophical development, and the school maintains itself until Neoplatonism absorbs all the earlier systems.

b. *The Stoics' Division of Philosophy.* — The Stoics as a rule divide philosophy into logic, physics and ethics, logic with them, as the science of λόγοι, i.e. of thought and speech, comprising theory of knowledge and logic as well as rhetoric; physics, the doctrine of principles, thus what in Aristotle had its place in metaphysics. In fact the two first-named sciences are subordinated to ethics (since the whole of philosophy becomes an ἀσκησις τῆς ἀρετῆς [exercise of virtue], and since physics too becomes a means to the knowledge of good and evil), although most Stoics, when they pronounce on the mutual relation of the sciences, assign precedence to physics because it treats of the grounds of things and of the divine. Logic becomes the instrument for the other parts of philosophy.

c. *Logic.* — As the Stoics divide logic into dialectic and rhetoric, dialectic comes to comprise theory of knowledge and logic (in the narrower sense), as well as grammar, with which the Stoics busied themselves a great deal. The Stoic logic rests on the Aristotelian, which it supplements especially in the doctrine of hypothetical and disjunctive syllogisms. The Aristotelian doctrine of categories is transformed by the Stoics, the 10 (or 8) Aristotelian categories being reduced to 4: τὸ ὑποκείμενον (matter), τὸ ποιὸν (the essential form), τὸ πῶς ἔχον (the accidental property, which is predicated of the subject without relation to another), and τὸ πρὸς τί πῶς ἔχον (the accidental determinations that [203] express a relation). Of these, each succeeding one is conceived as a determination of the preceding, so that τὸ ποιὸν fully expressed would read ὑποκείμενον ποιὸν; τὸ πῶς ἔχον: ὑποκείμενον ποιὸν πῶς ἔχον; τὸ πρὸς τί πῶς ἔχον: ὑποκείμενον ποιὸν πρὸς τί πῶς

ἔχον. The Stoics call these concepts τὰ γενικώτατα (highest generic concepts under τὸ τι [something] or τὸ ὄν [being]).

In the Stoics' *theory of knowledge* the greatest significance attaches to their doctrine of the significance of sensation for knowledge and of the criterion of truth.

All our knowledge proceeds from sensation, inasmuch as the soul, which is originally like an unwritten sheet, is filled with notions through the action of the external objects, which as it were leave an impression in the soul, so that the notion becomes a πάθος [affection] of the soul (a τύπωσις ἐν ψυχῇ [impression in the soul] or an ἑτεροίωσις τῆς ψυχῆς [alteration of the soul]). Sensation leaves behind a memory; through the combination of like memories an experience is formed (ἐμπειρία = τὸ τῶν ὁμοειδῶν μνημῶν πλῆθος [the multitude of memories of like kind]). From sensations, which also relate to our inner states, the general concepts come to be, including those that lead beyond the immediately observable and are reached by inferences from experiences, inferences that rest partly on likeness, partly on analogy, partly on combination. Concepts are partly those formed spontaneously, as by a working of nature, κοινὰ ἔννοιαι [common notions] and προλήψεις [preconceptions], partly the concepts formed consciously and methodically (ἔννοιαι, καταλήψεις [apprehensions]). As general, concepts express only a subjective abstraction, since only the individual has real existence. Through the artful formation of concepts, for which dialectic gives the rules, science arises, which is a system of certain and irrefutable concepts that stand in harmony with those naturally formed.

[204] The Stoics' theory of knowledge stands in close connection with their materialistic and pantheistic doctrine of principles, which will be developed under physics. The question of the *criterion*, i.e. of the distinguishing mark of the truth of our notions, the Stoics answer thus: that notion is true which by its clarity (ἐνάργεια) shows itself as it were to seize (take in) the object, the real (τὸ υπάρχον). Such a notion is called φαντασία καταληπτική [apprehending presentation]. By what is clear and evident in it, it is supposed as it were involuntarily to wring from us our assent (συγκατάθεσις). The mere images of imagination, which do not derive from an actual object, are not supposed to have this clarity. Since, however, it could not be denied that in certain cases the merely subjective notion can have the same sensuous force as the one deriving from a real object, later Stoics, in the controversy with Academics and Skeptics, were compelled to add the determination that the true notion was only that φαντασία καταληπτική against which there was no counter-proof (μηδὲν ἔνστημα ἔχουσα). It is chiefly in the interest of the practical that the Stoics fought for this doctrine, and they held fast that only the

possibility of a knowledge of the truth could secure for action a clear goal, and for moral conviction a firm foundation.

d. *Physics*. — The physics of the Stoics attaches itself closely to Heraclitus's world-view, yet in such a way that acquaintance with the concepts of Aristotelian physics shows itself everywhere. The fundamental endeavor aims at leading everything back to one principle, which is at once the element of things and their forming force. An immaterial form-principle, as in Aristotle, the Stoics do not recognize: everything that has reality (being) must in their conception be something corporeal, because only such a thing can act and be acted upon (suffer), which are the distinguishing marks of reality. What Aristotle determined as immaterial form, the Stoics determine as an active corporeal thing, which permeates the passive substrate and gives it its properties.

When it is said that the Stoics set up two principles (*ἀρχαί*): the active and the passive (*τό ποιοῦν* and *τό πάσχον*), these are not to be conceived as originally separated principles; they are posited not merely as inseparable, but as expressions of the same fundamental unity. This fundamental unity (*στοιχειῖόν*), which is at once the primal force not yet unfolded into determinate forms and the material germ of things, is the divine primal fire (*πῦρ τεχνικόν* [artistic fire]). From this everything in existence develops according to an inner law, with the same necessity as the plant develops from the seed. The primal fire transforms itself first into air (airy vapor), then into water; of the water, then, one part becomes earth, one part remains as water, one part evaporates into air, from which in turn the elemental fire is kindled. From the mixture of the elements the world is formed. The primal unity the Stoics conceive as transformed *τὴν πᾶσαν οὐσίαν* [in its whole substance] through air into water, but it is nevertheless to remain behind in the moist, just as the *σπέρμα* [seed] is enclosed by the *γονή* [generative fluid], as *σπερματικὸς λόγος* [seminal reason], and thereby to make matter fit for further forming. Only with the coming-to-be of the elements does an opposition emerge between the active and the passive principle: the world's soul and body, between the Godhead (*θεός*) and matter (*ὑλη*). The active principle is the primal fire as such, which remains as something inwardly active and forming; the passive is the substrate for the forming activity, which is stamped into the elements, among which fire and air stand nearer to the active principle, water and earth to the passive.

The Godhead (*θεός*), the immanent creative force, the forming principle, which in the Stoics' conception cannot be thought of as immaterial, is designated at once as *πνεῦμα* [breath], ether, *πῦρ τεχνικόν* (in contrast to the elemental fire), *πῦρ διήκον* [pervading

fire], and as soul, reason (νοῦς and λόγος), as εἰμαρμένη [fate] and πρόνοια [providence] and as the universal world-law. The more spiritual expressions too designate something corporeal, the warm fluid that permeates everything. Heat is the ground of life, but the vital heat of the universe must be mind and reason, since the world is purposively arranged; and since there are already in the parts of the world, notably in man, feeling [206] and reason, the universe, which is more perfect than its parts, must have an infinite reason for its forming force. The excellence of this reason is grounded in the purity and mobility of the fire-substance.

Since the world is the product of the unity of primal matter and primal force, it is itself *one*, but in its unity it comprises the richest multiplicity of forms. It is perfect through its beauty and thoroughgoing purposiveness, which point back to a rational originator. It is bounded, spherical in form, with concentric circles. Around it spreads the infinite, empty space.

All that happens in unfolded existence happens according to a necessary and unalterable connection of causes and effects, according to the nature and law of the whole: εἰμαρμένη, which is the expression of the primal being itself, the world-reason, and therefore equal to πρόνοια and λόγος. Providence designates the primal being as the interior of the world; it permeates the universe as the warm breath spread everywhere (πνεῦμα), as the forming, rational soul-principle, as the λόγος σπερματικός that in its unity encloses the λόγοι σπερματικοί of individual things, (= ποιότητες [qualities]), their rational germinal forms, their productive forces (δυνάμεις γόνιμοι). The inner form of things is something abiding amid the change of the material parts, and by the active principle the identity of the universe is preserved. The existence of the universe is subject to a periodicity. The universe that has proceeded from the primal fire according to a law-determined order returns into it, when a world-period is concluded, by the same steps by which the unfolding took place. There then takes place a world-conflagration (ἐκπύρωσις), and the divine primal fire then exists alone, but only in order to bring forth anew, according to the eternal world-law, a new universe, in which the forms and fates of the previous one repeat themselves. —

In the Stoics' doctrine of principles, despite their striving after a unity of principle, dualism nevertheless breaks through at once. When the primal ground is separated into [207] an active and a passive principle, this becomes, despite all striving after unity, more than a conceptual distinction: involuntarily the passive moment separates itself as οὐσία [substance] (ὑποκειμενον [substrate]) from the active, which permeates and determines it, and precisely in this relation, despite the inseparability, stands over against it as an

other. The possibility of the real unity of the active and the passive is not comprehended; neither of them is derived from the other. And when the primal fire is conceived as developing itself into the determinate forms of existence, in which it remains as active Logos, the same thing repeats itself here; the coming-to-be of the passive through the active is not explained, and there remains a duality whose consequences can be traced in the Stoics' theodicy and in their ethics. That the opposites are constantly posited as inseparably bound together does not prevent the moments of the principle of unity from in reality becoming two principles dualistically separated in their essence. —

Against the Stoics' doctrine of the world's perfection as the effect of the rational primal principle that embraces all being, physical and moral evil, which seem to point to the activity of an opposite principle, stood as an objection. The Stoics therefore occupied themselves very eagerly with the problem of *theodicy*. Physical evil they did not recognize as a real evil, but only as a naturally necessary and unavoidable consequence of purposive arrangements, and they pointed to the useful effects of many physical evils. Moral evil caused them greater difficulties. They could not in the last instance shift it onto man, although they refer to man's intention and free will; but they had partly to appeal to the fact that not even the Godhead was able to keep human nature completely free from fault, since the individual in existence is necessarily limited and imperfect; — partly they had to stress that evil, as the opposite of the good, was necessary for the good itself, which can exist and come to consciousness and activity only in this opposition; — partly they had to urge that evil is guided by the Godhead in its effects toward the good, so that its disharmony is ordered into the harmony of the universe. Yet they sometimes [208] make concessions with regard to particulars in existence that cannot be reconciled with their fundamental view.

In the treatment of this problem the closer attachment to the popular religion's conception of the divine comes forward, which on the whole becomes characteristic of the Stoics. This attachment had a motive partly in respect for what is generally assumed according to *φυσικαὶ ἔννοιαι* [natural notions], partly in regard for the moral usefulness of popular religion for the multitude. The principle of the Stoic system had consistently to lead to a strict monotheism, and the name of Godhead in the highest sense they also ascribed only to the one primal being; but in a derived sense they used the name Godhead of everything in which the power of the divine world-soul expressed itself in a special way. Thus the stars, the elements, and everything that by its usefulness particularly shows the indwelling divine power (e.g. corn and wine), as also the benefactors of the human race, the heroes and the daemons, were designated by the name of god. But

all these deities are only forms of appearance of the highest god, Zeus, from whom they have proceeded, and to whom they return in the world-conflagration. In order to mediate between their philosophical views and the notions of popular religion the Stoics employed an *allegorical interpretation* of the myths, and they distinguished between what is said in these *κατὰ δόξαν* [according to opinion] and *κατ' ἀλήθειαν* [according to truth]. But although they sought in this way to rationalize popular religion, they did not avoid its having an obscuring effect on their philosophical view. In the validity they ascribe, e.g. to divination, there betrays itself, despite all striving to maintain a rational and natural connection between the sign and what is foretold, the influence of the irrational and superstitious in popular belief.

[209] The *psychology* of the Stoics forms essentially a part of their physics, although some portions of it used to be treated under ethics. The human soul is conceived as a part (*μέρος*, *ἀπόσπασμα*) or an emanation (*ἀπόρροια*) of the Godhead, with which it is constantly in reciprocal action. It is, like the Godhead, an ethereal substance, a warm breath (*πνεῦμα*), which is spread through the body as the Godhead is through the world, and holds the body together. As *πνεῦμα* it is corporeal: something incorporeal could not suffer with the body or act upon the body. The human soul (or, according to some Stoics, only the soul of the wise man) survives the body, but returns at the end of the world-period to the Godhead. Its *parts* are the five senses, the faculty of speech, the generative power and the governing faculty: reason (*τὸ ἡγεμονικόν*, *τὸ διανοητικόν*, *τὸ λογιστικόν*). The ruling faculty, whose seat most Stoics place in the breast because speech, the expression of thought, comes from there, is the source of our notions and thoughts, our desires and resolutions. In the last instance it is the fundamental force from which all the powers of the soul are derived, and it is the expression of the distinctively human. By it we know things and are able to lead a rational and moral life. The human soul cannot, in virtue of its relation to the world-soul, withdraw itself from the necessity of the world. What are regarded as arbitrary and accidental effects proceed with necessity from hidden causes. Yet man's own activity does not become dispensable; it too is taken up as an intermediate cause into the nexus of fate. Imputability is maintained, inasmuch as fate is posited only as the occasioning cause, man's own will and moral constitution as the definitive cause. Freedom, however, is so determined that it becomes an inner, necessary self-determination. The Stoics strongly emphasized the community among men, because they are of one race and partake of the same rational nature. Man, as a *ζῷον λογικόν* [rational animal], is at the same time a *ζῷον κοινωνικόν* [social animal] and *φιλάλληλον* [loving one another].

e. *Ethics*. In the Stoic ethics the influence of Cynicism is strongly prominent; yet with the Stoics, since they demand as the condition of true morality a comprehensive scientific knowledge of the world and of the self, the moral subject gains a wider horizon and a truer liberation. [210]

The highest principle of Stoic ethics is conditioned by the fundamental view of existence. If existence forms a whole animated and governed by the divine world-law, by which the individual existences are enclosed as parts and members that are subordinated to the universal law, then the ethical task for man can only be consciously and voluntarily to fulfill this subordination under the law of reason, and to express this subordination in his action. The task becomes *ὁμολογουμένως τῇ φύσει ζῆν* [to live in agreement with nature], and its meaning remains essentially the same whether by *φύσις* one thinks of universal, reason-determined nature, or of human nature, which, as rational, is of one essence with the divine principle of existence. The fulfillment of this moral task also becomes one with the satisfaction of the fundamental drive in us: the drive of self-preservation; for its aim must essentially be what is essential in man: reason, which is a part of the universal world-reason. To live according to the law of nature is one with living according to that of reason.

The life that is lived in agreement with the law of reason in existence and in ourselves is the virtuous life, a living *κατ' ἀρετήν*. Virtue is the highest good (*τέλειον ἀγαθόν*), and that in such a way that its concept covers the concept *ἀγαθόν*. Virtue as such is happiness, not merely an element, albeit the most important, in happiness. *Only* virtue is a good in the proper sense of the word; only its opposite, vice, is an evil. Everything that does not fall under one of these two concepts is indifferent with regard to happiness or unhappiness (an *ἀδιάφορον*). Such things as health, wealth, noble birth and the like can just as well be misused as used in the right way; sickness, poverty and lowliness can just as well become a spur to moral strength as a hindrance. Yet the Stoics, because the drive of self-preservation and the practical relation to external things demanded it, made within the wide concept of the indifferent a distinction between what was to be preferred (*τὸ προηγμένον*), what was to be rejected (*τὸ ἀποπροηγμένον*), and what was unconditionally indifferent. A *προηγμένον*, something valuable, are certain mental and bodily qualities (e.g. good endowments, health, strength), and the so-called external goods, because they have a relative value (*ἀξία*) as aids (as *εὐχρηστα*), and because they are more in agreement with our nature (*κατὰ φύσιν*), objects of natural drives. An *ἀποπροηγμένον* is the opposite of this, which has an *ἀπαξία* [disvalue] as rather disturbing and hindering [211]

(as *δύσχρηστον*) and as being *παρὰ φύσιν* [contrary to nature]. Absolutely indifferent is that which exerts no influence whatever on our mental and our bodily condition.

With regard to *pleasure* the Stoics denied that it could be a good, let alone the highest good. As a passive state of the soul (*πάθος*), pleasure is a disturbance of the equilibrium of rational consciousness. Cleanthes therefore determines pleasure in general as something not in accordance with nature; and when other Stoics make a distinction and allow value to that pleasure which proceeds (as an *ἐπιγέννημα* [by-product]) from moral action in harmony with nature, and which they distinguish as *χαρά* [joy], *εὐφροσύνη* [cheerfulness] and *ἀλυπία* [freedom from pain] from ordinary *ἡδονή*, they would nevertheless not make it the *τέλος* [end] or a part of the highest good.

Virtue the Stoics determine in the Socratic manner as an *ἐπιστήμη* [science]. But knowledge becomes an aim for them only as the *immediate* source of action: not theory, cognition as such, is the goal, but the unity of insight and moral action, the obedient following of the known law of nature, the strength of will that rests on right insight. A life merely for theory the Stoics regarded only as a finer kind of enjoyment. Virtue is in its essence a unity: it can appear in several forms, but in each single virtuous activity all [212] virtues are present: he who has one virtue has them all; therefore all virtues are equal. As the main forms of virtue are determined *φρόνησις*, *ἀνδρεία*, *σωφροσύνη* [prudence, courage, temperance] and *δικαιοσύνη* [justice], which all become forms of *ἐπιστήμη* (or of *φρόνησις*). Since virtuous action is the *conscious* and *free* subordination under the world-law, and insight and disposition become essential moments in its concept, only that action by which the right, i.e. what is in agreement with the law of our nature, is done in the right way, i.e. with the right disposition, is moral action in the proper sense of the word: *κατόρθωμα* (recte factum), whose opposite is *ἀμάρτημα* [error]. What in its content agrees with the moral law, what therefore it behooves us to do as duty, is *τὸ καθήκον*. This in turn can be something that by its nature ought always to be done (*καθήκοντα τέλεια* — *ἄνευ περιστάσεως* [perfect duties — without regard to circumstances]) e.g. *τὸ φρονεῖν*, *τὸ δικαιοπραγεῖν* [being prudent, acting justly] (which is only the expression of virtuous, rational action itself) — or something that *can* be duty in certain cases (*καθήκοντα μέσα* — *περιστατικά* [intermediate duties — dependent on circumstances]) e.g. to marry, to take up an office. The action by which this latter kind of *τὸ καθήκον* is performed without perfect insight and the disposition thereby conditioned, the merely legal action, is a *μέση πράξις* [intermediate action], neither *κατόρθωμα* nor *ἀμάρτημα*. It first becomes moral, virtuous action by being carried out in the right way.

He who realizes the moral demand through insight and strength of will is *the wise man*.

Only he can act morally in the proper sense of the word. Since there is no intermediate between virtue and vice, any more than between straight and crooked, the wise man, as the virtuous man, comes to stand in abstract opposition to all those who have not yet reached the right moral insight and the firm willing of the good. He too who approaches insight and virtue is still outside virtue, just as fully as the vicious man, and falls under the concept *φᾰῦλος* [base] (or *μῶρος* [fool]). Every action of the wise man is good, every action of the unwise man bad. The image of the wise man is raised by the Stoics to a paradoxical ideality. The wise man is first and foremost, as is in general the condition of virtue, completely free from passions, affects (such as fear, desire etc.), because [213] these always proceed from a false judgment about good and evil, and, as diseases of the soul, hinder the moral and are something contrary to reason. Yet his *apathy* is not insensibility, but the effect of a moral force that prevents the passive state from calling forth an emotion or influencing action. He alone therefore possesses freedom; he alone is independent of every external fate. He knows in all circumstances the right and the good and understands how to carry it out; he unites in himself all perfections; he alone is the true poet, orator, philosopher, priest, general, king, rich man, benefactor. He alone is happy, and in inner dignity he does not stand behind Zeus. He has the moral law within himself, and is therefore not bound by external laws, but everything that he does according to his higher insight is good. He has the right, when life becomes unbearable to him through external circumstances independent of him, to assert his freedom by a voluntary death (a *εὐλογος ἐξαγωγή τοῦ βίου* [reasonable departure from life])^{*)}. Despite the wise man's independence he nevertheless stands in community with all other rational beings, since man by his nature is ordered into the community of reason that embraces gods and men. With the Stoics the concept of *cosmopolitanism* gains a content through the conception of human society as an organized rational whole, in which the individual becomes an integral member. Yet a wavering constantly enters here, inasmuch as on the one hand the conception of the individual as part of a whole leads to the demand for a union, but on the other hand the abstract conception of the wise man makes him *αὐτάρκης* [self-sufficient] and lets the union lose its significance. The life of the state had, for the Stoics, even if the earlier of them grant the wise man the right to take part in it [214] in the states advancing toward the ideal, to lose its proper significance. The incongruity of the state with the ideal had to lead to collisions between reason and the law of the

^{*)}Suicide becomes the highest confirmation of moral freedom in relation to everything external. The individual negatively asserts his independence by casting away life, which is an adiaphoron. Here there comes forward the abstract relation of moral self-consciousness to what gives moral action concrete determination.

state. And inasmuch as the relation of community was widened to the universe, but cosmopolitan activity does not find its place within the single, limited and imperfect state, cosmopolitanism leads to individualism.

Since the Stoics had forced the ideal of the wise man up to that paradoxical height, they were compelled to concede that this ideal had not been realized by anyone. The highest that had in fact been reached by the most excellent, such as Socrates, Antisthenes and the like, was only an approximation, a constant advance toward the ideal (α προκοπή). But if the sharp distinction between the wise man and the fool was maintained, even the most excellent would still be fools, virtue would not be realized among men, and philosophy would thereby lose its significance. This consequence leads the later Stoics to concede differences of degree in good and evil, and to move the state of progress so near to real virtue that it can receive all its essential determinations, — and from there, in despair of human strength, which was hampered by the dualism between the rational and the irrational in the human being, to seek outside the human the source of the virtue that man could not realize by himself.

4. Epicureanism.

a. *History of the School.* — The founder of the school, *Epicurus*, was born in 342 in Attica or on Samos, whither his father went with an Athenian colony. As a young man he heard on Samos Democritus's follower Nausicrates, and took over, with an insignificant transformation, his atomic doctrine, which he combined with a hedonism for which the Cyrenaic doctrine was the foundation, but which nevertheless has a greater [215] independence than his physics. After having worked for some years as a teacher in other places, he founded about 306 a school in Athens, of which he remained the head until his death (270). Of his extraordinarily numerous but carelessly composed writings, individual fragments, notably larger portions of the work on nature, are preserved in the Herculanean manuscripts, in which several works of the other Epicureans have also been found, especially of *Philodemus*: Diogenes Laërtius gives (in the 10th book) a detailed account of Epicurus's doctrine.

Epicurus's school displays an extremely slight philosophical productivity. The scientific interest recedes so strongly behind the practical that they content themselves with repeating the master's doctrine, which he himself had brought into compendious form, in which it was learned by heart by his disciples. Precisely because of this lack of independence the school held together more closely, while the other schools gave

eclecticism entry. It still flourished in the Christian era and found numerous adherents in the Roman empire. The members of the school lived, in a close league of friendship, a life devoted to cheerful enjoyment, but to an enjoyment ennobled by humanity and culture. Epicurus himself is praised for his moderation and his pure morals, and for the strength of soul and the cheerful courage with which in the last years of his life he bore bodily sufferings.

Among the Epicureans may be named Epicurus's favorite disciple *Metrodorus*, *Zeno* of Sidon (c. 150 B.C.) and his disciple *Philodemus*, Cicero's contemporary *Phaedrus*, and the gifted Roman poet T. *Lucretius Carus* (95–52 B.C.).

b. *The Division of Philosophy*. — Epicurus divides philosophy into Canonic (doctrine of the norms of knowledge), physics and ethics. But since philosophy is conceived purely practically as an activity that produces a happy life by means of conceptual knowledge and deliberations, the first two sciences are taken entirely into the service of ethics as auxiliary sciences. Every scientific occupation that has no practical use is rejected. [216] Therefore Epicurus censures occupation with dialectic, and even physics is declared to be such as would be useless if it did not free us from superstitious and false notions and from the fear these instill in us.

c. *The Canonic*, which with Epicurus takes the place of logic, treats essentially the question of *the criterion of truth*. This Epicurus seeks, as regards the theoretical, first of all in sensation, next in the notion (*πρόληψις*), and as regards the practical, in the feeling of pleasure and pain (*πάθος*), which shows what is to be striven for and what avoided.

Every sensation is true; even our dreams and the sense-images of the insane have truth; for they set the soul in motion, which what is not cannot do. Not our senses, but our judgment about the relation of sensation (of our being affected) to the object, deceives us: the senses always speak the truth, and their statements have an immediate certainty (*ἐνάργεια*). Sensation is also by its nature irrefutable; for it can be refuted neither by another sensation, since this has no greater validity and does not refer to the same thing, nor by reason, which itself develops out of sensation. If we did not put our trust in sensation, we should fall into an unconditional doubt, which would be self-contradictory (as a knowledge that we could know nothing), and would cancel the possibility of action. How the true images of the object are to be distinguished from the false, Epicurus cannot decide.

From the sensations arise the notions, the concepts (*προλήψεις*), in that several similar sensations are gathered in memory into a general image (*καθολικὴ νόησις*). This image has its expression in the name (*ὄνομα*) and is called up for memory by it. The
 [217] notional images have truth as products of earlier sensations. Opinion (*δόξα, ὑπόληψις*) forms itself through after-effects of the impression of objects, with the cooperation of reflection (*συμβαλλομένου τι καὶ τοῦ λογισμοῦ*). It goes beyond the given and relates itself to something future and to what cannot be immediately observed. It can be true or untrue; it is true when it is confirmed by sensation, or when no sensations testify against it. The logical processes by which one passes from what is sensed to what lies beyond sensation Epicurus treats carelessly, although his theory rests on what cannot be sensed (the atoms). A detailed doctrine of the logical functions he holds to be superfluous. Later Epicureans, notably *Philodemus*, do, however, occupy themselves with inference by analogy and by induction as inferences that lead from the phenomena to *τὰ ἀφανῆ* (*τὰ ἄδηλα*) [the non-apparent (the unclear)]. They also reckoned among the criteria the intuitive apprehensions of the understanding.

d. *Physics*. — In accordance with the practical conception of the aim of physics, the main task for Epicurus becomes to set up a world-view that removes supernatural causes and leads everything back to natural grounds. A thoroughgoing natural-scientific knowledge of concrete phenomena is not his concern; it is enough for him when, with respect to the particular, various natural explanations can be put forward hypothetically; to decide which of these is the one possible explanation is in his opinion impracticable in most cases, and the attempt to do so leads to arbitrariness.

Only in a few points does Epicurus in his physics depart from Democritus's atomic doctrine. The atoms and space become for him too the principles, at which he arrives by starting from the given phenomena. The corporeal, the only substantial thing, is partly a composite, partly the individual, indivisible and unchangeable elements of this composite. To the assumption of these elements one must necessarily come, since one
 [218] would otherwise have to hold that the division of the composite would at last lead to something that is not, which is unthinkable, since nothing comes from what is not or is dissolved into what is not. Empty space, the only incorporeal thing, is, as the condition of the motion of the atoms, necessary in order to explain the phenomena. The atoms are by their nature uncreated and imperishable; they differ from one another by the general properties of the corporeal: size, shape and weight; the properties of concrete things, e.g. color, smell, do not belong to them. They are invisible, since, despite the difference

in their size, this size is nevertheless always so small that it cannot become an object of immediate sensation. They are infinite in number; therefore space and the world must be unlimited. Originally they move, in accordance with their weight, downward in empty space and with equal speed, not, as Democritus assumed, with a speed differing according to size. In order to explain the combination among them, Epicurus assumes — as it were placing in the atoms the arbitrary self-determination he wishes to preserve for the human individual — that the atoms deviate slightly from the perpendicular line. This gives rise to contacts, aggregations and vortical motions, by which the worlds are formed. Of worlds Epicurus, like Democritus, assumes a simultaneous infinite multitude, which are separated by the intermundia and are as individual divisions of τὸ ἄπειρον [the infinite]. Our world comprises our earth and all the heavenly bodies visible to us. The worlds, of which some may by chance be like one another, are perishable, just as they have come to be: the process of world-formation continues to infinity. From the coming-to-be of the world and the formation of particular things everything teleological is excluded: what is apparently purposive, e.g. in the organic, is a purely accidental result of effects that are necessary by nature. Among the natural forms that were formed in a mechanical way, some were able to continue life and to develop into higher forms (e.g. man), while the others soon perished again. The ensoulment and divine nature of the heavenly bodies Epicurus denies; their motions and the celestial phenomena have purely [219] mechanical causes. The existence of the gods Epicurus does not reject, since the belief in them is grounded in a πρόληψις that derives from appearances of gods to men, but he rejects the notions of them in popular religion, sprung from ignorance and fear, as impious and as the source of the greatest evils for the human race. He ascribes to the gods human shape because in theophanies they show themselves in such a shape, and because it is the most beautiful. They must be thought of as imperishable and blessed, and therefore a body of the finest atoms is ascribed to them, and they are given a place outside the perishable worlds, in the intermundia, where they live without concerning themselves about the world, without labor, sorrows and passions, and enjoy blessedness in the contemplation of their perfection. They are the object of a free and pure worship, not for egoistic reasons, but for the sake of their excellence. —

In *anthropology* the fundamental thought of physics is carried through. The soul of man is, as standing in reciprocal action with the body, itself corporeal. It is formed of the smoothest and roundest atoms, and is described as a fiery or airy matter that is spread through the whole body. The rational part, however, has its seat in the breast. Its functions are sensation, notion, the movements of the will and of the feelings; in the last

instance life too depends on it. Although it makes up one being with the irrational part, they can be affected in different ways, and parts of the irrational soul can be lost without the rational soul being disturbed. When the organism is wholly dissolved, however, the light atoms of the soul are scattered at once, and the soul does not survive the body.

In the conception of the relation between the rational and irrational part of the soul, the dualism between the mental and the sensuous comes to light, even though both are brought under the point of view of matter.

Sensation Epicurus conceives as coming about in that corporeal images (*εἰδωλα* — [220] *τύποι*) detach themselves from the surface of things and through the separating medium reach our senses. The notions to which no real object corresponds arise partly through after-effects of images, partly through the *εἰδωλα* being mixed or disturbed before they reach us. Despite his materialistic view, Epicurus holds firmly to *the freedom of the will*, because without it accountability would be canceled and man subjected to a lamentable necessity. A fate (*εἰμαρμένη*) there is as little as a providence. A deeper inquiry into the essence of will and freedom Epicurus did not, however, undertake; he contents himself with the indeterminate notion of an accidental action, which in any case has its prototype in the accidental motion of the atoms.

e. *Ethics*. — Epicurus's ethics is a hedonism in which Aristippus's doctrine comes forth in a modified and more reflective shape. The highest good, *happiness*, consists according to Epicurus in *pleasure*, toward which every being's natural desire is directed, and which is the aim of every action; but pleasure he conceives in a different way from Aristippus. For the latter the goal was pleasure as the individual pleasure, as positive pleasure (pleasure *κατὰ κίνησιν*, i.e. that which arises through a motion), and as bodily pleasure; for Epicurus the goal is pleasure as a total state, as restful pleasure (*καταστηματική ἡδονή*), as freedom from pain, and mental pleasure is higher than bodily. Positive pleasure we need only when its absence would cause us pain. Mental pleasure, which Aristippus had conceived as a weaker echo of the bodily, Epicurus conceives as the higher, because, even though in the last instance it always stems from something bodily, it is not, like the bodily, restricted to the present moment, but through memory and hope relates itself also to the past and the future, whereby the enjoyment of the moment is intensified. It also has the power to bring momentary bodily displeasure into [221] oblivion, as Epicurus tells of himself that his bodily pain was outweighed by the pleasure that the memory of his philosophical discoveries afforded him. — Since pleasure as a lasting state is the goal, the task becomes to make a choice among the pleasures, which

in and for themselves are equally justified as natural, according to the consideration of their consequences. A pleasure must be given up that will have greater displeasure as its consequence; a displeasure is to be chosen that can bring about a greater pleasure or remove greater pains. There takes place, therefore, in the individual case a measuring (*συμμέτρησης*) of the immediate and mediate pleasure against the immediate and mediate pain, and according to the result of this measuring the decision is to be taken. As the condition of a lasting and fresh enjoyment Epicurus sets frugality and limitation of the desires. Only the natural (*φυσικαί*), not the empty (*κεναί*) desires are to be satisfied. What is essential is the soundness of the body and the undisturbedness of the soul (*ἡ τοῦ σώματος ὑγίεια καὶ ἡ τῆς ψυχῆς ἀταραξία*). In being able to make the right choice among the pleasures, insight (*φρόνησις*) manifests itself, which is the highest virtue and the source of all other virtues. Without it a happy life cannot be led, but when it is present, such a life will necessarily follow along with it: the wise man, i.e. he who understands how to strive after pleasure in the right way, has, through rational insight, in every circumstance of life tranquillity and contentment, since it frees him from fear and prejudices, gives him the strength to moderate the desires and the affects, and raises him above the contingencies of life. Virtue is thus the sure way, the sure *means* to the highest aim: happiness. The wise man's possession of insight is an inalienable property; he can never become unwise. Whether his life lasts a short or a long time makes no difference to the degree of his happiness.

By Epicurus's conception of pleasure, which has its counterpart among the later Cyrenaics, enjoyment is thus spiritualized, and so drawn out of dependence on the external, that in reality only the name of pleasure has remained. What is striven toward is the painless undisturbedness of the individual life in the cultivated mind's consciousness [222] of independence of the external. The sensuous content of enjoyment is pushed back; the real accent falls on the mental determination: the rest in itself of infinite free self-consciousness. Not sensuous enjoyment but mental consciousness, not the given but the acquired, becomes the highest.

Since with Epicurus the individual stands as a mental atom, resting in its abstract self-consciousness, it becomes estranged from and indifferent to the forms of community in which the Greek had formerly found the substantial content of his life: family life and the life of the state. In the place of these forms of community there enters the *community of friendship*, grounded on a free choice. Friendship is conceived in principle in an egoistic way, as a means of securing the enjoyment of life; but the nobler conception of friendship as a disinterested goodwill and as a natural league among the wise asserts

itself in the Epicureans' practice. In the Epicurean school there developed, through the relation of friendship that bound its members together, a spirit of humanity, by which a counterweight was formed against the craving for enjoyment and the egoism that could not be separated from the school's ethical principle. —

Between the Stoic and the Epicurean ethics the opposition strikes the eye at once, since the former conceives man from the side of his universal reason and places the ethical task in unconditional subordination to the rational world-law, while the latter conceives man from the side of individuality, and places the ethical task in the individual's satisfaction in painless undisturbedness by the external. But beneath this opposition there nevertheless shows itself an essential likeness, not only in the way in which the practical interest steps into the foreground, but in the definitive determination of the ethical ideal. Both systems seek the happiness of the subject, which is the final goal of philosophy, in self-consciousness's rest in itself and independence of the external, acquired through insight; and in both systems, despite the unlike point of departure, this [223] self-consciousness freed by knowledge acquires an abstract universality, in which there lies a point of attachment for an ethical universalism, but which estranges it from the concrete forms of the life of the state and of civic life. The Stoic and the Epicurean wise man are in the last instance essentially alike: their world is the inner infinity of the self, their happiness their rest in this infinity.

5. The Skeptics and the Middle Academy.

The same practical goal that the dogmatic systems strove for through knowledge of the essence of things: freedom of mind, the subject's rest in itself through independence of the external, skepticism strives to reach through doubt, which cancels all certain objective knowledge and makes impossible any dogmatic assertion about the worth of the external. And while skepticism has the same goal as the contemporary dogmatic systems it combats, it shows indirectly by its arguments, by letting the certainty of knowledge fall with the certainty of sensation, that it is influenced by the same materialistic tendency as Stoicism and Epicureanism.

a. The *older skepticism*, which appears a little earlier than Stoicism and Epicureanism, is represented by *Pyrrho* of Elis (360–270), the founder of this tendency, and by his disciple *Timon* (c. 325–c. 235). *Pyrrho* seems to have been influenced most directly by

the Megarian philosophy and by Democritus's doctrine, whose distinction between the original properties of things and those arising through their relation to our sense organs may have given him the essential skeptical motive. He wrote nothing; his doctrine was brought into written form by Timon, but of the latter's writings we have only reports.

When happiness is striven for, the nearest question becomes how we are to comport ourselves toward things; but this leads back to another: how things are in and for them- [224] selves. To this last question, say the skeptics, we can give no answer, because the essence of things hides itself from us, and the phenomenon is changing and inconstant. Neither our senses nor our thinking can therefore decide anything certain about things. But when this is the case, we dare state no determination about them, and must not give our assent to any such statement. For it does not express something that is in reality (*ἀληθεία*, *φύσει*), but an opinion, which at most can rest on habit and convention. Every statement and its contradictory opposite have equally valid grounds on their side: neither of them, therefore, has justification. But when we [...] theoretical undecidedness (*ἀρρέψια*), [we come] to the practical goal: undisturbedness of mind (*ἀταραξία*), apathy, which like a shadow accompanies that withholding of judgment (*ἐποχή*, *ἀφασία*, *ἀκαταληψία*). Nothing external can disturb our tranquillity when we become conscious that we cannot know anything certain about its essence. It then becomes an *ἀδιάφορον* [indifferent thing]. Only the calm disposition of the mind acquires worth, and this disposition, which is one with virtue, includes happiness.

The skeptical statements about the uncertainty of knowledge, which are directed against dogmatism, are then at last, in order not to lead to a new, negative dogmatism, applied also to themselves, whereby every dogmatic assertion is to be removed and the theoretical suspension that the skeptics strove for carried through. Those statements are not to express an assertion but to state a condition of mind; they are not to be a *δόγμα*, but an *ἐξομολόγησις*, a confession.

The skeptical tendency founded by Pyrrho, whose adherents designated themselves as *σκεπτικοί*, *ζητητικοί*, *ἀπορητικοί*, or *ἐφεκτικοί* [inquirers, seekers, doubters, or suspenders of judgment], soon dies away again, and only after the lapse of several centuries is skepticism renewed in a more thoroughgoing form, partly with new motives grounded in the intervening development. In the interval between the older and the younger skeptical [225] school, the so-called "Middle Academy," in its polemic notably against the dogmatism of the Stoics, represents the skeptical tendency in philosophy, which gains strength from the deficient scientific grounding of the new dogmatic systems and from the opposition between their physical and ethical tenets.

b. The founder of the *Middle Academy*, *Arcesilaus* (315–241), was the successor of Crates as head of the Academic school. He combated the Stoic doctrine of *φαντασία καταληπτική* [cognitive impression] as the criterion of truth, maintaining that the false notion could have for the fool the same evidence and convincingness as the true one for the wise man. And with the certainty of sensation he lets the certainty of knowledge in general be canceled, since rational knowledge rests on the former. The result, then, is that there is no knowledge at all. Not even the fact that we know nothing can become an object of knowledge. One must therefore refrain from every decision (*ἐπέχειν*), not give one's assent (*συγκατάθεσις*) to any positive statement. The highest we can reach is the probable (*τὸ εὐλογον*), and this must become decisive for our practical conduct, in the choice between what we are to do or avoid.

Through *Carneades* (214–129) Academic skepticism received a more thoroughgoing form. His polemic was directed not only against the doctrine of the criterion held by the dogmatic systems, notably Stoicism, but with great acuteness against the tenets of the various philosophical systems. Since his dialectic canceled every criterion of truth, every positive decision became impossible, and dialectic gained the right and the latitude to defend, with respect to every object and with equal force, the contradictorily opposed views. The interest in the practical, in ethical action, which a thoroughgoing *ἐποχή* would [226] make impossible, led Carneades to develop more fully the doctrine of the surrogate of truth, *probability* (*πιθανότης*, *ἔμφασις*), and to determine its *degrees*. The lowest degree of probability belongs to the notion that makes an impression of truth but stands isolated (it is merely *πιθανή*); a higher degree to the one that stands in connection with others and is not contradicted by them (it is *πιθανή καὶ ἀπερίσπαστος*); the highest degree to the one that is not merely not contradicted, but is confirmed from all sides by the notions with which it hangs together and whose probability is already secured (it is *πιθανή καὶ ἀπερίσπαστος καὶ περιωδευμένη*). To these degrees of probability there correspond, since the relation of notions *to us* falls within our consciousness, the degrees of our conviction, and by these in turn our practical choice is determined. Only in what is indifferent can we content ourselves with the lowest degree of probability; in what is more important a higher one is required; in what is necessary, in what conditions happiness, the highest. This doctrine of probability is the essential theoretical mark of distinction between the Academics and the skeptics. In ethical respects the skeptical Academics departed from the skeptics proper in not, like these, setting *ataraxia* as the ethical goal. Carneades seems to have set as the ethical goal virtue in conjunction with the things that satisfy

the original natural drives. After Carneades the Academy returned to dogmatism and soon assumed, like the other contemporary systems with the exception of Epicureanism, an eclectic character. —

c. The *later Skepticism* is represented chiefly by the renewer of this tendency, *Aenesidemus* (1st cent. A.D.), by *Agrippa* and by *Sextus Empiricus*, whose writings (*Πυρρώνειοι ὑποτυπώσεις* and 11 books against the Dogmatists) are our most important sources for knowledge of ancient Skepticism.

Aenesidemus of Cnossus in Crete appeared as a teacher in Alexandria. From him derive the so-called 10 tropes (*τρόποι*), i.e. ways of grounding Skepticism and of demonstrating the impossibility of objective knowledge. The *first* emphasizes the dissimilarity between the various living beings, which conditions different impressions of the same objects; — the *second*, the mutual diversity of individual men in bodily and mental respects, which entails the same consequence; — the *third*, the diversity of our individual senses, their opposite reports about the same thing; — the *fourth*, the influence of our changing mental and bodily states on perception; — the *fifth*, the influence of distance and position on the way in which the object appears to us; — the *sixth*, the effect of the medium through which the thing is perceived; — the *seventh*, the influence of the object's condition, of the composition of its parts, of quantity, on the way in which it shows itself to us; — the *eighth*, the relativity in all the properties of the thing, which all express, not its essence, but a relation to another thing, and are at the same time changeable and accidental; — the *ninth*, the different perception of things according as they are new or strange to us, unaccustomed or accustomed; — the *tenth*, finally, the diversity in morals and customs, laws, religious notions, philosophical opinions and the like, which shows that a universally valid determination of the true and the right is not given. By these tropes, which are all meant to demonstrate that the same thing appears to us in opposite ways (*τάναντία περὶ τὸ αὐτὸ φαίνεσθαι*), *Aenesidemus* is said to have wished to pave the way for the Heraclitean doctrine that opposites are united in the same thing (*τάναντία περὶ τὸ αὐτὸ ὑπάρχειν*); his Skepticism would thus have been a polemical position in defense of a dogmatic view. [227]

By *Agrippa* the 10 tropes of *Aenesidemus* are reduced to more general points of view, and, since the attack was directed essentially at the possibility of *scientific* knowledge, 5 tropes were set up, among which the one that emphasized the diversity of opinions about the same objects was placed at the head. The *second* trope then emphasized the impossibility of proof, on the ground that this must go on to infinity, since every ground [228]

of proof must itself in turn be proved. The *third* accentuated relativity, the object's different appearance according to the peculiarity of the perceiver and according to its relation to other things. The *fourth* showed that the Dogmatists, in order to avoid going on into an infinity, stop at arbitrary presuppositions. The *fifth*, finally, pointed out the circle in their proof, in that what is used as a ground of proof and what is proved mutually presuppose one another (thus, notably, the truth of sensation and of thinking). These tropes are reduced by younger Skeptics, with the same aim at the impossibility of *scientific* knowledge, still further, to 2, of which the *first* emphasizes that the oppositions in views about everything sensible and thinkable show that nothing is certain by itself, i.e. without proof; the *second*, that such a proof cannot be carried out, since every ground of proof would itself have to be proved, which would lead either to a circular proof or to a regress to infinity.

Sextus Empiricus (first half of the third cent. A.D.) gathers up the whole skeptical tradition, and sets out the skeptical arguments both against the formal conditions of knowledge and against the material content of the sciences, with the same endeavor as in the earlier Skeptics to avoid a negative dogmatism. In him Skepticism is directed more against scientific knowledge and against the philosophical systems than against experience and the pronouncements of sound common sense. In the practical domain Sextus softens the standpoint of the older Skeptics. He concedes that through experience, which relies on τὸ φαινόμενον [what appears], one can find certain rules for practical procedure, and he concedes to habit and convention a certain significance in those cases where no judgment based on experience is possible. On the whole he recognizes 4 norms for our action: immediate sensation and the reflection arising from it, natural impulse and [229] need, law and convention, experience and art. Complete indifference toward the external cannot be maintained when one has to act; therefore the Skeptic is unavoidably led to seek such norms. And since the Skeptic must concede that he too cannot withdraw from agreeable or disagreeable impressions, in general from disturbances, the goal toward which he is to strive is no longer determined as complete apathy, but as a limitation of the excess of affect, a *metriopathy*, which is posited as conditioned by this: that the unavoidable is not made heavier by being determined as an evil, but that judgment about it is withheld. —

In ancient Skepticism the subject's withdrawal into itself, which characterized Stoicism and Epicureanism, emerges in its sharpest form. The Skeptic's ataraxia rests, not on knowledge of the essence of things, but on the abandonment of all knowledge, not on a positive conviction, but on indifference toward everything that stands as something

unknown. It is characteristic of ancient Skepticism that the abandonment of knowledge does not, as in the Skeptics of modern times, leave behind a painful sense of loss. But this very abandonment of knowledge is the sign of the exhaustion of Greek thought, of its distrust of itself. It feels itself powerless to reconcile the oppositions of existence, to find the truth independently; it therefore gives up all knowledge in Skepticism in order to save the subject's happiness, or, when the interest of action drives it to a theoretical judgment, it seeks a basis for this in a choice of what is most probable among the various views. In Eclecticism there appears a new symptom of the exhaustion of thought.

6. Eclecticism.

a. *General character of Eclecticism.* — Until toward the beginning of the first pre-Christian century the various philosophical tendencies proceed unmixed side by side; then there begins a fusion through attempts at mediation and union, from which only [230] Epicureanism keeps itself untouched. The consciousness of the defects of the individual systems, clarified by the mutual criticism of the various schools, leads, since philosophical productivity is exhausted, to an eclectic choosing of what is seemingly certain in the various systems, which the individual school then appropriates, while by an adaptation of its own doctrines it veils the difference from what is foreign. The skeptical tendency, too, was bound in the end to lead to Eclecticism, inasmuch as, after certain knowledge had been given up, the probable was, for the sake of action, given a significance which, where the practical need came still more decidedly to the fore, in turn let it take the place of the true, and inasmuch as this probable could not be sought by the skeptical consciousness in a single system, but, as the subjective need directed, had to be sought in the various systems, which for the Skeptic were equally justified. In particular, from the successors of Carneades in the Academy there issued an eclectic tendency, which relied on the necessity of definite views as a basis for practical life. A great influence on the spread of Eclecticism was exerted by the transfer of Greek philosophy to the *Romans*, for whom on the whole philosophy was not an end in itself, but a means to a training for practical life and to the grounding of a moral and religious view of life. Therefore the interest in systematic unity and strict consistency in philosophy receded before the interest in practical applicability.

Since Eclecticism demands that the individual select the true in the various systems for his own use, it in fact proceeds from the tacit presupposition that the individual, prior to the scientific decision, bears within himself a standard for distinguishing between the

true and the false. Eclecticism thus has as its background a faith in what is immediately given in the subject's self-consciousness. It has therein a motive to distinguish itself from the sensualism of the preceding systems, inasmuch as self-consciousness becomes [231] a peculiar, *original* source of knowledge. But Eclecticism can thereby at the same time pave the way for those forms of Greek philosophy which rely on the religious and on immediate divine revelations. What it finds in the mind as an "innate" content of truth is not comprehended in its origin from the active human mind, but perceived as a gift of a higher power, and there is then only one step to going back into self-consciousness merely in order to receive in it divine revelations, a communication of a truth which the human mind cannot itself find. On the other hand, Eclecticism can also lead to a *renewed Skepticism*, since in its choosing there always lurks a residue of doubt, which is held down only by the peremptory dictum of immediate consciousness, and since its piecing together of the diverse never avoids inconsistencies and contradictions. The renewed Skepticism did indeed take as its essential motive the opposition between the various systems. But this Skepticism then leads in turn, indirectly, to the same goal as Eclecticism's faith in the immediately given. When an eager need for knowledge of truth meets with doubt about the truth of all science, the mind is forced more strongly toward the direction in which the source of knowledge is sought outside thought and science, partly in the revelations of the Godhead within, partly in religious tradition.

b. *The appearance of Eclecticism within the individual schools.* — In the *Academic* school Eclecticism emerges in pronounced form in *Antiochus* of Ascalon, the founder of the so-called fifth Academy. He maintains that the Academics, the Peripatetics and the Stoics in reality agree, and differ from one another only in words, or at any rate in unessential points. But when he wishes to maintain this agreement in the domains of [232] the theory of knowledge, of metaphysics and of ethics, it is only by superficial minglings, by abandoning what is most essential in Platonic philosophy: its doctrine of Ideas, and by inconsistencies, as when in ethics he adopts the Stoics' doctrines about the wise man and about apathy, but abandons their doctrine of the equality of all vices, and in the concept of the highest good includes the goods of the body, which are supposed to have value in and for themselves and to belong to "the happiest life" (*vita beatissima*).

Among the Academics we may also name M. *Tullius Cicero* (106–43), insofar as he himself counts himself as belonging to this school, on whose skeptical foundation his Eclecticism rests. His Skepticism is, however, strongly limited, partly by his conceding great value to probability in general, partly by his almost entirely excluding doubt from

the ethical and religious domain, which essentially interests him, while the physical, which is more indifferent to him, is posited as the more uncertain. Doubt is for him to be, first of all, a preparation for a positive conviction which, even if it has only the probable as its basis, nevertheless satisfies in practical respects. For the discovery of the probable the decisive thing is the *immediate* testimony of the senses and of self-consciousness, especially of the latter. The immediate, *inner* certainty, the innate feeling for truth, Cicero strongly emphasizes. It is a knowledge which precedes all experience and science, and which, if it developed undisturbed, would make all science superfluous. Through it, which is like a commune judicium, we have consciousness of the fundamental concepts of right and morality (*notiones innatæ*), of the Godhead and of the immortality of the soul.

In the domain of ethics Cicero polemicizes sharply against Epicureanism. The Peripatetics and the Academics he regards as essentially in agreement; about the Stoics' relation to them he expresses himself waveringly, now positing a real difference, now only a difference in expressions. When he emphasizes the real difference, he often speaks with enthusiasm of the Stoics' severity and ideality, and has misgivings about the Peripatetics' milder conception of the affects and about their determination of external goods as belonging to happiness. But he is in turn frightened back from Stoicism by the [233] fact that its ideal does not fit into actual life, that its distinctions are too abstract, and that it does not take account of the *whole* human nature; and he is thereby led back again closer to the Peripatetics, and even designates himself as one of them. He is conscious of his uncertainty, but finds excuses for it. His ethics has no original content; in general he is everywhere dependent in his philosophy on his Greek predecessors. Cicero's great significance lies in the fact that his writings have been one of the most essential sources through which knowledge of Greek philosophy and interest in it were spread among the Romans and later, in the Middle Ages and modern times, among the peoples of the Occident. (The later Academics will be discussed in the next §.) In the *Peripatetic* school, in which philosophical productivity receded before a learned occupation with the older philosophy and a careful interpretation of the master's writings, Eclecticism emerges strongly in the treatise *περὶ κόσμου*, included among Aristotle's works, which was probably composed about the beginning of the Christian era. With the Aristotelian doctrine of the universe is combined the Stoic view of the diffusion of the divine power through the world as the world's governing law, and of the world's unity as a *συμπάθεια* [sympathy]. There are also some connections to Plato. — In *Aristocles* of Messene (end of the 2nd cent. A.D.) an approach to Stoicism takes place in the transformation of the

Aristotelian doctrine of νοῦς παθητικός and νοῦς ποιητικός [active mind], inasmuch as νοῦς παθητικός, the potential reason, is conceived as the bodily mixture which offers such an organ for the divine νοῦς active in all bodies that the activity of the divine νοῦς can come to light in a particular way, and an individual energy of thinking arise, through the potential reason's being raised to an actual one. The peculiarity of that [234] mixture is posited, in Stoic fashion, as conditioned by the preponderance of fire. — Even in Aristocles's pupil, the famous interpreter of Aristotle, *Alexander of Aphrodisias* (beg. of the 3rd cent.), Eclecticism is recognizable through an approach to the Stoics, which betrays itself partly in the determination of universal concepts as merely subjective abstractions from the real individual, partly in the conception, verging on materialism, of the soul's being conditioned by the body, partly in a tendency, despite the distinction between the divine νοῦς and the world being maintained, to transform the activity of the former into a natural process.

In the *Stoic* school an approach to the other philosophical systems shows itself in *Panaetius* (180—111 B.C.) and his pupil *Posidonius*. Panaetius appeals not only to the masters of his school, but also to Plato and Aristotle, and he strives to soften the harshness of Stoic ethics. Posidonius shows the same recognition of the great thinkers of the other schools, and has a tendency to emphasize the agreement of the various philosophical systems in essentials. In anthropology he departs from the doctrine of the Stoics, since he considers it self-contradictory that reason should be the origin of the irrational and passionate, and therefore, in Plato's manner, derives the affects from τὸ θυμοειδές [the spirited part] and τὸ ἐπιθυμητικόν [the appetitive part], which are supposed to be determined by the constitution of the body. An opposition is thereby posited between the rational and the irrational in the human being, and this *psychological dualism*, which gradually develops more sharply, acquires significance as one of the moments that prepare the last forms of Greek philosophy.

Also in the later Stoics, in *Seneca*, *Epictetus* and *Marcus Aurelius*, we find departures from the severity of Stoic doctrine; but what particularly emerges in them is that consciousness of man's lack of moral strength, and that dualistic conception of the human being, which prepare the disappearance of Stoicism into Neoplatonism.

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7. The Dualistic Systems.

a. *General character of the dualistic systems.* — When the exhaustion of thought and doubt about the power of human knowledge lead the mind to seek the source of the truth after which it strives outside thought and outside science, in an immediate communication from the Godhead, in a revelation, through the religions or in the inner being of the individual, this change in the direction of the mind entails a changed determination of the divine and of its relation to the world. Thought, which doubts itself, can seek determinations for the divine neither in itself nor in natural existence, which, as the correlate and opposite of thought, is something finite and therefore untrue. It must go beyond the oppositions, and intuit the divine as the absolutely simple, which in its pure otherworldliness, in its infinite exaltedness, is inaccessible to knowledge, but is nevertheless always held fast as something ideal. Only in such an absolute does the mind find the satisfaction for its need of happiness which neither pleasure nor Stoic apathy could give it. This divine, which excludes from itself the fundamental determination of the natural, gets matter as its opposite, and the dualistic distinction between the purely spiritual Godhead and matter is pronounced in principle. The human mind, which seeks its satisfaction in the divine, therefore flees matter, disdains the world of sense, and seeks, through ascetic liberation from everything that derives from what is opposed to the Godhead, to draw near to the Godhead. But since the Godhead stands as the transcendent, as unconditionally exalted above all contact with the world, intermediaries must be sought through which the connection can be brought about, and these are found in intermediate beings of divine kind, in divine emanations, in subordinate gods, in demons and the like. Through these the purified subject receives the revelation of the divine, and, having opened itself to this, it can be led to a contact with the Absolute itself [236] in enthusiasm, in which the self blissfully loses itself in the abstract divine. —

This peculiar turn in the development of Greek philosophy, which emerges at about the same time as the preponderance of Eclecticism, and constantly gains greater power, is represented chiefly by the Neopythagoreans and by Platonists who approach them, but also within the other systems, notably in Stoicism, we see its most essential distinguishing marks emerge. And in the philosophical phenomena which, under the influence of Greek philosophy, proceed from the religious foundation of Judaism, the same tendency is strongly pronounced, so that the Jew Philo, the most important of the Jewish-Alexandrian philosophers, becomes in general its most important representative and the one who most immediately prepares Neoplatonism.

Among the various peoples of antiquity there was present, at the time when that tendency appeared, the same feeling of the weakness of the human mind, the same long-

ing for divine assistance through a divine revelation. Similar philosophical phenomena could therefore arise independently of one another among the various nations. But the contact between the peoples among whom the spiritual movement was most vigorous was nevertheless so strong, notably in Alexandria, the real center for the friction and mixing of the Greek and the Oriental, that an influence of the foreign could not be avoided on either side. It was most to be expected, given the superiority of Greek culture, that the philosophy which arose among the Jews would show itself essentially influenced by Greek philosophy. And this is also the case with what we know of it. We see even in Philo, although he takes his starting point in the Jewish religion and only wishes to use philosophy as an auxiliary, that philosophy nevertheless entirely transforms the positively religious, and not only determines the scientific form of his system, but also furnishes by far the greatest part of the individual concepts and doctrines. Therefore we [237] may bring this Jewish philosophy under the Greek, just as we do with the philosophical attempts which derive from Romans. — But the Greek dualistic systems have, for their part, not remained without all influence from the East, notably the Jewish. We may indeed derive all their essential peculiarities from the development of the preceding Greek philosophy, but the spiritual direction onto which this led has evidently gained strength from the Jewish religion's notions of a spiritual God infinitely exalted above the world, of this God's revelations, of the angels and of prophecy and ecstasy, and from the ascetic tendency which we see appear among Jewish sects in Palestine and Egypt.

b. *The Neopythagoreans.* — Neopythagoreanism seems to have arisen in Alexandria at the beginning of the first pre-Christian century. Cicero names P. *Nigidius Figulus* (1st half of the 1st cent.) as the first who renewed the Pythagorean philosophy; yet this is uncertain, and in any case his significance seems to have been slight. Only later do we find more prominent representatives of this school, which spread especially widely in the Orient. Within it a distinction can be drawn between a more *practical-religious* tendency, which has its representative in *Apollonius* of Tyana (1st cent. A.D.), and a more *speculative* one, which is represented by *Moderatus* (contemporary with Apollonius) and *Nicomachus* (middle of the 2nd cent.); yet the difference between these two tendencies is only a difference of degree. The *practical-religious* tendency conceives philosophy primarily as purity of life and the right worship of God. Since all earthly things are seen as defiled by their material existence, the moral task is placed in asceticism, notably in abstention from the enjoyment of meat and wine and in celibacy, and in bodily purifications, and all sacrifices to the Godhead are rejected. Through asceticism man is to be freed from the

bonds of the body and attain to a supernatural power and knowledge. The *speculative* tendency has the same practical goal, but lays greater stress on knowledge. Taking its [238] theoretical foundation from older philosophical forms, notably from the Pythagorean doctrine of numbers as modified by Platonic elements, it transforms what it has taken over, but covers the discrepancy by the claim that it brings out the deeper meaning which the older thinkers deliberately concealed under sensible forms and signs. The doctrine of numbers is developed in a metaphysical-theological direction, but the development soon loses itself in arbitrary and empty fantasizing. Common to both tendencies is the determination of the principles. The divine is conceived as purely spiritual, as exalted above every contact with the world of sense, and as being an object of knowledge only through its works. As its opposite is posited matter, which is conceived more ethically than physically, and becomes the source of evil, while all good comes from the Godhead. The two principles are expressed by unity and the indefinite duality (*δὐὰς ἀόριστος*). The numbers or Ideas, according to which the world is ordered, are thought of as pre-existing in the divine understanding, and therefore not as inherent in things as their substance, but as archetypes for them. As intermediaries between the transcendent Godhead and finite existence stand subordinate gods (such as the star-spirits) and demons.

c. *Pythagoreanizing Platonists*. — Of these, *Plutarch* (c. 50–125 A.D.), *Maximus* (middle of the 2nd cent.) and *Numenius* (in the second half of the 2nd cent.) are the most important. The general tendency in them is essentially the same as in the Neopythagoreans. They seek to conceive the divine in the highest perfection, as raised above our knowledge, and designate it as pure mind, as the One, the existent, the good, as reason. Matter, or the evil world-soul, which becomes as it were a personification of the possibility of evil lying in matter, becomes the opposite of the Godhead, of the good. [239] Here too the absoluteness of the opposition prevents a direct action of God upon the world; therefore the star-spirits and the daemons become active intermediaries, and in Numenius a Demiurge, who essentially becomes identical with the world-soul in the Platonic sense, is distinguished from the supreme God as “second God.” Dualism penetrates into the conception of man’s essence, and Numenius ascribes to man a double soul: a rational and an irrational one, which lie constantly in conflict with each other. The highest task for man becomes to reach the state in which he can passively receive the revelations of the Godhead. This state is reached partly through the action of the good daemons, partly through the soul’s tranquility and its separation from the sensible. In

the inner revelation the soul is suddenly illuminated, touches as by a leap the immaterial primal being, and in this contact receives the initiation of truth.

d. In the *other philosophical schools* dualism and the spiritual tendency connected with it emerge especially in the *Stoics*. The ethical dualism in the Stoics between reason (virtue) and sensuousness gradually leads to an anthropological and metaphysical dualism. *Seneca* seeks the ground of moral weakness in the soul's connection with the body, which becomes as it were a prison for it, and he calls the released souls happy. *Epictetus* posits the body (σῶμα πῆλινον) and reason (λόγος) as the two constituents of the human being, sets the necessity to which the former is subject in opposition to the freedom of the will, and calls man a soul that carries a corpse. He says that the soul longs to leave the body and return to its divine origin. *Marcus Aurelius* stresses still more strongly the opposition between the mind (νοῦς καὶ δαίμων) and the body (γῆ καὶ λύθρος), and from the vital spirit (πνεῦμα) he distinguishes the incorporeal mind (νοῦς), which is our proper essence. In him as well as in *Epictetus* there also appear, even if the old doctrine is not [240] expressly abandoned, intimations of the metaphysical parallel to this anthropological dualism, when *Epictetus* makes God's essence consist in reason and knowledge and has the liberated souls return to him, and when *M. Aurelius* has God behold all souls without their bodily wrapping, inasmuch as his reason immediately touches its emanations.

Connected with dualism in these later Stoics is the consciousness of *man's moral impotence*, and the proud confidence of the old Stoicism in the power of thought and will gives way to a surrender to the Godhead, in whom the lacking insight and the lacking strength for the good are sought. The moral is traced back to the religious, and in the way in which, e.g. *M. Aurelius* depicts the soul's liberation by a withdrawal from everything external, through which the external wholly vanishes for it and every wish and every desire is cancelled, its surrender to the will of the Godhead, and its relation to the daemon within it, the concept of enthusiasm and ecstasy is already touched upon.

e. *Philo*. — As the representative of the Jewish-Alexandrian philosophy, which in its peculiar determinateness develops in Alexandria simultaneously with Greek Neopythagoreanism, we single out *Philo*, in whom this form of philosophy found its highest development, and the concluding form of Greek philosophy, Neoplatonism, its nearest preparation.

Philo (born 25 B.C., still living toward the middle of the 1st cent. A.D.) seeks in his philosophy to express the deeper content of the Jewish sacred scriptures, which he means to find through an *allegorical* interpretation that penetrates through the letter to the spiritual meaning hidden behind the wording. He is convinced that Scripture, on account of its divine origin, conceals all truth within itself, and that the truth in philosophy derives from the Greek thinkers' having known the Holy Scripture. In placing thoughts taken [241] from philosophy, especially from the Platonic and Stoic, into Scripture by allegorical interpretation, he is assured that he is not placing anything foreign into it, but only bringing out the deeper truth that the spiritual man, through a divine inspiration, finds beneath the garment of the letter.

In Philo's doctrine of *God* the Jewish religion's notion of a spiritual personality raised above everything natural forms the basis; but through the more precise determinations that are to secure the absoluteness of the divine, its elevation above all finite determinateness, this notion is converted into the most abstract, most universal concept. God is determined *negatively* by the removal of every property that belongs to the finite, not only of the properties that express its imperfection: its materiality, its divisibility and changeability, its boundedness and dependence; but also of those that express its perfection: virtue, knowledge, the good, the beautiful. Indeed, God is exalted even above these determinations taken in and for themselves, not as properties of something finite: he is higher than the very Idea of the good. His essence is incomprehensible to us: we know only *that* he is, not *what* he is, and the names we ascribe to him hold only in an improper sense. Only *being* is fit to be predicated of him: he is τὸ ὄν [that which is] or ὁ ὢν [he who is]. But the need to conceive God as the perfect actuality and as the author and governor of the world's existence nevertheless brings Philo to give God more positive determinations again, namely goodness and power, by which God is posited as the highest cause of being and of all perfection in the finite. God is present everywhere in the world with his power, but his essence is not in space, not in the corporeal, to which he himself has given room and place.

As a *purely spiritual* being God might not touch impure matter, which from the beginning stands as the opposite of the divine and according to its essence is the non-existent (μὴ ὄν), the passive, the formless, the disordered, the source of all imperfection [242] in existence and of evil. The formation of the world therefore takes place not immediately through God, but through the *Logos*, the highest divine power, which encloses within itself the individual divine powers, the individual λόγοι or Ideas. The Logos is with God as the divine thought, which is one with Wisdom and encompasses all the Ideas as the

τόπος [place] of the world of Ideas; it is diffused through the world as the world-forming divine reason, as the active λόγος σπερματικός [seminal reason], which encompasses the individual λόγοι, the active essences of things. The Logos thus becomes an intermediate being between God and the world; it is subordinate to the transcendent God, who does not step out of the unity of his essence or communicate himself with it to the world; it is not unoriginated like God, but neither has it originated in the same way as finite things, and in relation to us it is a God. It is the medium of God's revelation to the world and the world's representative and advocate with God. In the conception of the Logos and of the individual divine powers that the Logos comprehends there is an indeterminacy in Philo, inasmuch as now the notion of them as distinct personal beings, who surround the highest God as ministering angels, now the notion of them as divine properties and powers comes to the fore. Yet the conception, especially of the Logos, as an independent hypostasis predominates.

The dualism in existence is mirrored in the *human being* in the sharp opposition between the rational soul, akin to the Logos, (νοῦς and πνεῦμα) and the body together with the sensuousness that has its source in the material. The ethical task must then become chiefly this: ascetically to free oneself from all sensuousness, to root out all sensuous pleasure and all affects, to win unconditional apathy. But this ethical task nevertheless becomes only something provisional, and it receives conditions that point beyond the ethical. The ethical strength and the ethical insight must be given by God to the sinful human mind, defiled by matter, and just as the strength for action, so too the [243] norm for action must be sought in God; true virtue becomes: to imitate God; the wisdom that lies at the basis of virtue receives only one object: God, and the ground of wisdom is faith. Thus the way is pointed beyond the ethical to a religious relation, which culminates in immediate union with the divine. The whole practical life acquires significance only as a preparatory exercise; it ranks unconditionally below the contemplative; but within the latter, occupation with the encyclical sciences and with logic and physics in turn ranks below occupation with the science that concerns man's moral condition: ethics. Ethics leads us to self-knowledge, but in self-knowledge we become conscious of our nothingness and ignorance and give up every claim to knowledge, and precisely this giving up of ourselves, which is a surrender of our will and our thought to God, leads us to the Infinite. We are not content with the mediate, improper knowledge of God which science gives in considering his works; we strive away from this uncertain shadow-image to something higher, to immediate intuition, and despite the transcendence of the divine such a beholding becomes possible, by which the mind goes beyond the Ideas and the

Logos, intuites God in his pure unity, as the Logos intuites him, and becomes one with God. But this beholding is reached only through a divine revelation. Only when man, unconditionally without resistance, surrenders himself to the divine working, goes as it were out of himself, casts away the very consciousness of himself, and in ecstasy, in prophetic rapture, sinks himself into the depth of the embracing divine, does he find in union with the Absolute the highest bliss, indescribable in words, for which the human mind yearns and which nothing finite can give.

8. Neoplatonism.

The striving of the dualistic systems to conceive the divine in absolute transcendence, and precisely in such an Absolute, freed from all finitude of thought and of being, to [244] secure for the human mind, doubting itself, the source of the highest happiness, finds its most consistent execution in Neoplatonism; but the dualistic distinction in principle between God and matter is given up here, and the divine, in being seen as the source of all existence, is posited also as the author of matter, which becomes the last member in a quantitatively diminishing emanation of power. The metaphysical character of Neoplatonism is therefore that of monistic spiritualism, and it forms the conclusion of Greek philosophy in that it seizes the last of the possibilities that post-Aristotelian philosophy had at its disposal, and in seizing it strives beyond its limit as Greek thought and points toward a view of life that Greek thinking could approach but not carry through. While it appears as a renewal of the idealistic philosophy of the past, which, in its endeavor to restore it, it essentially transforms, it absorbs into itself the various philosophical systems, and becomes the representative of ancient thinking over against the new, victorious world-religion, against which it vainly seeks to maintain the faith of antiquity, sublimated by philosophy. In this struggle, in which Christianity is supported by the power of the state, Neoplatonism succumbs, but only after it has been spiritually exhausted and transformed into fantastic scholasticism. a. *History of Neoplatonism.* — The founder of the Neoplatonic school is *Ammonius* (Saccas), who lived in Alexandria at the beginning of the third century after Christ. He left no writings, and we do not know how much of the developed system that we find in Plotinus goes back to him. *Plotinus* (205–270) becomes the most important representative of Neoplatonism; his writings (collected by his disciple Porphyry in 6 Enneads) are our most essential source of knowledge of this tendency. Through him Neoplatonism was transferred to Rome, where it found wide diffusion, and where Plotinus's disciple *Porphyry* (233–304) also

[245] appeared as a teacher. After Porphyry the religious element gains the upper hand in Neoplatonism, notably through the Syrian *Iamblichus* (d. under Constantine), for whom philosophy essentially becomes a means to a speculative dogmatic grounding of polytheism. In Iamblichus's school the theoretical interest recedes entirely behind the religious, and philosophy becomes a guide to attaining, through purifications and cultic acts, a supernatural power that manifests itself in magic and theurgy. Only when Neoplatonism gets its center in Athens is the scientific striving awakened to new life, even though it now expresses itself only in renewed study and interpretation of the old philosophers or in formal elaboration of the system, and even though it cannot drive out the fantastic element. Among the representatives of Neoplatonism in Athens the Constantinopolitan *Proclus* (411–485) occupies the foremost place by his formal-dialectical skill and by his comprehensive knowledge of the older philosophy, which he seeks to work together into his system. It is chiefly through his and Plotinus's writings that Neoplatonism comes to exercise its great influence on Greek patristics, and on the thought of the Middle Ages and of the transitional period. After Proclus the school languishes; only in the interpretation of the great thinkers of the past does it still achieve anything significant, and when Justinian in 529 by a peremptory decree closed the schools of philosophy in Athens, the death sentence on Greek philosophy was only a sentence on what had wholly outlived itself. In its yearning to reach beyond the sphere of thought and to find something higher than thought, Neoplatonism had ended, in its last representatives, in imagination void of reality, and the dialectical virtuosity which forces the figures of imagination into artificial and empty schemata of thought without a foundation in reality loses itself, in seeking to reach the Absolute, in the emptiness of the indeterminate and ends in a *ὑπεράγνοια*, in which all knowledge is annihilated.

b. *Plotinus*. — In his doctrine of the divine primal being Plotinus carries the conception of it as absolutely raised above every determination of finitude through to its [246] final consequence. Whereas in the dualistic systems the divine had already been raised above the sphere of thought, and had retained only the determination of what is, which, through the opposition to matter, became equivalent to the determination of a spiritual existent, Plotinus raises it above the determination of being as well. — The absolute must be *absolute unity*, because such a unity is the presupposition of all multiplicity. Therefore its essence cannot be expressed by the concept that for Aristotle was the highest: by *νοῦς* [mind]; for in all thinking, even in the divine, there is a duality, a distinction between the thinking and the thought, which mutually presuppose and condition one another;

the divine must therefore be higher than νοῦς and τό νοητόν [the intelligible]. Nor can it be determined by will, life and activity, because these determinations include a relation to something other than itself. Indeed, even in the determination of being there is a plurality, since all being is *determinate* being, which points back to the pure unity of the absolute as to its presupposition and source. It is then beyond being (ἐπέκεινα τῆς οὐσίας) as it is ἐπέκεινα τῆς νοήσεως [beyond thinking]. The divine is thus raised above all positive predicates: it must be determined negatively as infinite, without quality, or rather: as raised above all quality. When it is determined by apparently positive predicates, such as the First, the One, the Good, then by the First is designated only a formal relation to what is derived, by unity only the exclusion of all plurality, by the Good a relation to the world, which has being through it and for which it is the Good, not a determination of the absolute itself, which cannot be the Good for itself because it cannot stand in need of itself. Only determinations of relation can be stated in positive form of the absolute as the origin of the world; and they are then to be understood thus, that they contain a statement about the world rather than about the primal being, which as producing power remains in itself and is untouched by the relation to what is produced. In this absolute absence of determination the absolute nevertheless shows [247] itself here too to be thought as something *spiritual*, both by the determinateness of the emanations (Noûς, the first emanation, is the image of the primal ground) and by the conditions for the union of the human mind with it.

The going-forth of the forms of existence from the divine One Plotinus thinks of as taking place through a necessary radiation of power from its infinite fullness, without any diminution or alteration of the primal being, which during the outflow of power remains self-enclosed, and does not communicate its *essence* to what has come to be. The One does not divide itself; for then it would cease to be the One; it is everywhere with its undivided power, which bears what has radiated forth, and yet it is not in any place. It is all only insofar as all stems from it as its effect. That a manifold can proceed from it without the unity originally containing a plurality is grounded in the superabundant perfection of the unity, which, as it overflows, can let something other, less perfect, come to be, which has not been as such in the unity.

The series of what is grounded in the unity opens with Noûς, which is the image of the unity, by its essence stands nearest to it and, though radiated forth, is in the *unity*, borne and encompassed by its power, as in general the lower is in the higher. The first radiated likeness becomes Noûς in that, following the impulse that lies in everything that has come to be, it turns towards the supersensible unity in order to grasp it, and is

filled by it. In *Noûs* the imperfection which the effect must have in comparison with its cause shows itself in this, that plurality and otherness (*ἑτερότης*) have already penetrated into it, since the knowing and the known form a duality, at least in concept. And this plurality receives its more determinate form in that the *world of Ideas* is enclosed in *Noûs*; the Ideas are its substantial organic members, whose multiplicity is absolutely pervaded by unity, and this unity of the Ideas is *Noûs* itself, since the difference between the intelligible world of the Ideas (*κόσμος νοητός*) and *Noûs* is only the conceptual difference [248] between the ideal existent as resting object of knowledge and as active knowing. *Noûs* thinks only the unity and itself, not what is lower. The Ideas are the true existent (*οὐσία*) and the truly living (*τὸ ὃ ἔστι ζῶον*), and *Noûs* is thus the unity of thinking and being. In the Ideas, as manifold and mutually different, there is already a matter (a *ύλη*), but a supersensible one (a *θεῖα ύλη* [divine matter]), which is unconditionally formed and ensouled by the higher.

From *Noûs* there proceeds, as its radiation, the *soul*, which stands to it in the same way as *Noûs* to the unity, and in which the unity is present through it. In the soul the distance from the perfection of the primal being comes forward more strongly; it is as it were a double being, which unites within itself an ideal and indivisible and a divisible element, and is drawn at once towards the two worlds, the intelligible and the sensible, yet so that it stands nearer to the former. It turns towards *Noûs* as its source and through it beholds the world of Ideas and the unity itself, but at the same time it is drawn towards the material, which proceeds from it. As it turns towards matter in order, as an active power, to communicate itself to it and to form it after the archetypes of the world of Ideas, the *sensible world* arises, which despite its imperfect reality shows itself, by its beauty and by the vital harmony of the whole, to be a *Κόσμος*, a likeness of the world of Ideas. The soul as unity is the *world-soul*: the individual souls proceed from it and are comprehended by it. According to their essence the souls are immaterial substances, separable from the body in *all* their functions. They pervade the body as light pervades the air; they are not in the body, but the body is in them. As active they have a presence in the body, are wholly in its whole and wholly in each of its parts. In and for itself the soul is indivisible; only in relation to bodies is it divided, inasmuch as these, being spatially determined, could not receive it undivided. The soul forms the limit of the intelligible world; beneath it lies that of the phenomenon.

[249] The last stage in existence is occupied by *matter*, which has proceeded from the soul in accordance with the active power that the soul has from its source. Matter is, in relation to the individual sensible things, the common substrate (*τὸ ὑποκείμενον*), which receives

all forms. In relation to the ideal, whose opposite it forms, it is the formless *ἄπειρον* [unlimited], the dark, the non-existent (*μὴ ὄν*), and although, as determinable by form, it becomes an intermediate being (*μέσον ἀγαθοῦ καὶ κακοῦ* [intermediate between good and evil]), it is, regarded in and for itself, an evil (*κακόν*), the source of all disturbance and imperfection in the *Κόσμος*, the source of the soul's defilement and finitude. Thus, through the *quantitative* decrease of perfection in the radiation of power, a *qualitative* opposite to the absolute is supposed to emerge, which by its negative working shows itself as something independent and underived, in *dualistic* opposition to that which was to be the principle of the unity of existence. This matter, which is the basis of the sensible world, also has only the most abstract determination in common with what in the world of the intelligible was called *ὑλη*. They meet only in being the substrate, but the *ὑλη* of the sensible is only a shadow-image of that of the intelligible, just as the sensible shape is of the Idea. The *ὑλη* of the intelligible is *οὐσία*, that of the sensible a non-existent. It receives only a relative being through the active powers that, as *λόγοι σπερματικοὶ* [seminal reasons], enter into it and form it.

The fundamental view of existence determines the conception of the *human being* and of the task of human life. In the state of pre-existence human souls had their home in the world of the intelligible and there beheld *Νοῦς* and the highest itself; but as they, in accordance with their double nature, were magically drawn downwards towards the corporeal in order to form it and be united with it, something lower attached itself to the higher in them, the memory of the divine was darkened in them, and as they wished to be independent, they sank ever deeper. The task must therefore be this: to turn away from the sensible, to free the soul so that it can again turn towards its divine origin [250] and after death live a life in the world of the intelligible, without falling prey to the transmigration of souls that awaits the souls not perfectly purified. Every human being has the possibility of accomplishing the task; for freedom is preserved, and the essence is not disturbed, even if it is as it were overgrown with sensuousness and guilt. The higher in us remains, even in life in time, in the intelligible, and only the lower soul, which through the soul's being drawn towards the body was attached to it, reaches down into the sensible world. The way to the goal is virtue, whose essence can be determined at once as an acting in accordance with our essence, as an obeying of reason, and as a striving after likeness to God. But in virtue there are different stages. The civic (ethical) virtues, *φρόνησις* [prudence], *ἀνδρία* [courage], *σωφροσύνη* [temperance] and *δικαιοσύνη* [justice], lead only to the right choice among what is in and for itself something lower; they do not yet free from dependence on the external, to which the

agent stands in relation. The purifying virtues free from all guilt through flight from sensuousness. The deifying virtues, finally, not only free from guilt but make us divine. Their essence is an acting in accordance with *Noûs*, a constant gazing towards *τὸ νοητόν* while the mind beholds itself, an immediate knowledge of the content of the world of Ideas. Yet there is a still higher goal: immediate contact with what stands above *Noûs* itself, with the divine undetermined unity. This can be reached only in an ecstatic elevation above thought, even above its highest form, for which the Ideas are the object; for even in this thinking there is still a duality and a motion. The soul has in itself a higher faculty, which is as it were its center, the expression of the unity in it, by which it has the possibility of union with the highest, as it is suddenly illuminated by this in self-absorption. This union is more than a knowledge, more than a beholding; it is a contact, a fusion with the divine unity itself, and in this contact the soul is freed from all multiplicity (it is a *ἀπλοῦν* [something simple]) and all motion; it is ecstatically [251] raised above self-consciousness and knowledge. In it the soul finds the highest rest and the highest bliss. But as long as we live, this state, which is reached by as it were leaping over the intermediate members between the Godhead and the human soul, the divine outflowings through which the way to the unity otherwise goes, can, even in the wisest and most virtuous, be only rare and only of short duration. The soul is as it were frightened back by the absence of determination in the absolute; in order to possess it, it strives to objectify it, and thus it steps out of the unity and turns again towards the finite. —

In Plotinus's system the distinctively formed Neoplatonic philosophy appears in its most original and most surveyable shape. In the series of stages, *Noûs*, the soul (the world-soul), the sensible world, matter, we have the familiar concepts from the systems in which Greek philosophy culminated; but these concepts are as it were metamorphosed, since the forms of existence they designate are conceived as effects of the absolute raised above all determinations of thought, which in its transcendence remains self-enclosed while through its radiation of power it produces and bears existence.

To Plotinus's system Plato's philosophy, which he believes he is reproducing in its genuine shape, furnishes the essential material; but the fundamental concepts of that philosophy are fused with Aristotle's, whose philosophy is conceived as essentially in agreement with Plato's, and the Aristotelian doctrine of the active forms is in turn brought close to that of Stoicism, with the removal of the latter's materialism. Of particular significance for the conception of the transcendence of the absolute have been the dualistic systems, especially those of Plutarch, Numenius and Philo. The last comes

nearest to Neoplatonism; yet he still differs from it in essential points: in that, with regard to the conception of the divine, he is still influenced by the Jewish religion's notion of the personality of God, and will not yet set God above the concept of being; in that he conceives matter in a dualistic opposition to the divine; and in that the communication [252] of the primal being to what has come to be, which in Neoplatonism is determined only dynamically, as a communication of power, becomes something more with him, since the intermediate beings seem to stand in a substantial relation of unity to the primal being. Through the carrying-through of transcendence and through its spiritualistic monism Neoplatonism acquires its distinctive character, and the material taken over from its predecessors is transformed and systematized from the independently conceived principle.

c. *The later Neoplatonists.* — It has already been emphasized above that with these the practical and religious tendency comes forward more strongly, and it is essentially this tendency, proceeding from an ever stronger feeling of human weakness and sinfulness, that leads to the simpler fundamental form of the Plotinian system being articulated more richly. For thereby one seeks to make room for all the innumerable divine figures of the popular religions, the intermediate members between man and the primal ground, which are ordered systematically and derived speculatively-dogmatically, and at the same time to remove the primal being, with which they are to bring us into connection, to a still greater height above thought and reality. In *Iamblichus*, above Plotinus's unity, which was still, in the sense indicated above, designated as the Good, there is placed a first unity which is higher than the Good, an "absolutely ineffable principle". *Noûs* divides into an intelligible (*νοητὸς*) and an intellectual (*νοερός*) world, each of which is again divided according to triads. The sphere of the soul is likewise expanded into a triad, and the forms of the psychical within the *Κόσμος* comprise a countless host of gods and demons, which are ordered fantastically according to Pythagorean mystical numbers, especially the number three and the number seven and their multiples. All these divine figures are posited as supra-rational, and are thereby raised above all objections of thought.

In *Proclus* the same striving comes forward to remove the primal being to an infinite distance from thought. It is to be exalted above all determinations, even above the determinations unity, the good and cause, to be absolutely unknowable, "more ineffable [253] than silence itself". The forms of existence are multiplied, not, as with *Iamblichus*, according to an arbitrary schematism of numbers, but according to a triadic fundamental form, which is supposed to be determined by the very law of the world-process, but

which in the execution nevertheless shows itself to be only a logical form, by which, without regard to the real, abstract presuppositions are spun out into their consequences and something traditionally given is ordered according to an often remote analogy with the moments of the concept. When a form of existence is produced, three moments, according to Proclus, are to be distinguished in its relation to its cause: *μονή* [remaining], *πρόοδος* [procession] and *ἐπιστροφή* [reversion]. That which proceeds from the source is at once like and unlike its origin, which in the producing remains in itself and preserves its distinctive character. In virtue of the likeness, what is produced remains in unity with its origin; in virtue of the unlikeness it separates itself from it, but only in order to turn back to it again. This motion repeats itself in all spheres, and the threefoldness in it determines, as the moments are hypostatized, the articulation of the forms of existence, whose perfection decreases with the distance from the first cause, as multiplicity asserts itself ever more strongly in relation to unity.

Nearest to the one primal being Proclus places, as its first effect, a *plurality of unities* (*ἐνάδες*), which, though standing nearer to or further from the primal being, are all absolutely simple, exalted above the determinations of being, of life and of reason, incomprehensible to everything lower, and despite their multiplicity form an undisturbed unity, since they are wholly in one another. They differ from the primal being in being *determinate* unities, and while the primal being is without any relation to the world, they exert an effect on the world: in them is providence. They are gods in the highest sense of the word. After the henads there then follows, as proceeding from them and filling the place that *Noûs* occupied in Plotinus, the triad of the intelligible (*τὸ νοητὸν*), the at once intelligible and intellectual (*τὸ νοητὸν ἅμα καὶ νοερὸν*) and the intellectual (*τὸ νοερόν*), [254] in which triad the unlimited becomes an element. The 3 members correspond to the concepts of being, life and thinking. The first two members are each again articulated into 3 triads, the third into 7 hebdomads, as the first two members of its triad are expanded into new triads, and each member of the hebdomad thus arising is once more expanded into hebdomads. Room is thereby made for the incorporation of a host of deities, which by allegorical interpretation are brought into connection with the conceptual schemes of the triads and hebdomads. The sphere of the psychical, too, is strongly articulated in order to make room for a hierarchy of divine, demonic and human souls. For these last, union with the primal being is to become possible through that faculty of the soul which surpasses thought, through the *supra-rational* unity in it, which is pervaded by the divine power.

In the Neoplatonists who close the school, such as *Damascius*, this supra-rational in

us is emphasized more and more at the expense of rational thought, and as the primal being in its infinite transcendence withdraws from every determination of thought, and yet is to be held fast by thought, it receives only determinations that are revoked in the same moment, since even the negative statements, as opposites of the positive ones, have a determinateness that makes them inapplicable. Complaint is therefore made of the inadequacy of human language to express the infinite, and thought, constantly destroying its own determinations skeptically, loses itself in the infinite emptiness, to which only imagination, in the intoxication of ecstasy, can give a deceptive fullness. But that which this emptiness conceals is posited as the highest reality, towards which the mind yearns; as thought despairs of grasping it, it despairs of itself, and destroys itself as philosophical thought. As it would go beyond itself, it sinks below itself and becomes imagination without reality.

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Chapter Five.

The Abiding Significance of Greek Philosophy; Its Relation to the Thought of Later Ages.

As Greek philosophy exhausts its possibilities and is dissolved as this determinate historical main form of philosophy, it leaves behind an *abiding* result, which is taken up into the further development of philosophical knowledge, and in that development keeps its life. In that Greek thinking, as free thought, bound only by its own laws, has, starting from the contemplation of nature and of the essence of the human spirit, realized philosophy as a universal science, articulated according to its essential main parts, and in that it has bent thought back upon itself, to the knowledge of its own activity, it has acquired an inalienable possession for the self-conscious human spirit and given the abiding foundation for the realization of the theoretical aims of spirit. And within each of the main parts of philosophy that Greek thinking has formed, it has acquired for the future a fund of fundamental concepts, indicated essential fundamental views, and posed or prepared the decisive problems. *Logic*, essentially as formal logic, was developed

by the Greeks in the form that it has kept right down to Kant, and in the doctrine of categories the first incentive was given to seek the fundamental determinations of thinking. In the domain of the *metaphysical* the concept of the Idea has been found: the concept that expresses the primacy of the spiritual, and asserts an eternal existent as governing what becomes. With keen dialectic the fundamental thoughts of being and becoming, of Idea and matter (of form and matter), of the active and the passive have been clarified, and a series of the most decisive problems brought forward. In the domain of the *physical* the view of an organic whole of nature has been won, and through the [256] concept of the teleological and of entelechy spirit is expressed as the immanent ensouling and active principle in the continuous succession of natural forms. In the domain of the *psychological* the soul has been conceived as the entelechy of the body, whereby the unity of the human being in its various forms of development has been pointed out, and through the theory of knowledge of Plato and Aristotle the self-active independence of the mind in relation to the object of knowledge has been asserted. In the domain of the *ethical*, despite the difference from modern ethics that comes strongly forward here, preparatory work has been done by the development of the fundamental ethical concepts, by the demonstration of the conditions of the ethical and of the ideal aim of action, by the conception of the individual's connection with the objective forms of human life, and, in the period after Aristotle, by leading man back to the infinity of self-consciousness, and through it to an ethical universalism, to a recognition of the humane as such. And still more deeply than by Greek philosophy proper, the concept of modern ethics of something unconditionally obligating, and of the free and conscious self-determination of the ethical subject, was prepared by Socrates. Finally, Greek philosophy, in Plato, Aristotle and the Neoplatonists, has made essential contributions to the doctrine of *the beautiful*, and in the doctrine of *the divine* the determinations of Plato and Aristotle touch on the conception of God as the infinite subjectivity and, ethically, as the one who is good.

In the historical development of philosophy the significance of Greek philosophy has shown itself in this, that all the *thought*-content on which Christian antiquity and the Middle Ages and the transitional period nourished themselves was drawn from it. And even if modern philosophy, as it broke its own path, turned away from the thinking of antiquity, it has nevertheless, in its unfolding, constantly returned to it in order to be strengthened and enriched. For all times Greek philosophy will stand as a model by the self-conscious freedom of its thought, by its clarity, its plastic determinateness and honest consistency, by its thinkers' unconditional devotion to objectivity and to the laws

of thought, and by the confidence in the power of spirit that is the distinguishing mark [257] of the most eminent among them. And as Greek philosophy lies before us, completed, it presents the picture of a lawful, undisturbed development, governed by one fundamental thought, and led by its inner law to the point where every possibility laid down in the original disposition has been unfolded. Nowhere does the law of the historical development of thinking come forward more clearly and purely.

The limitation of Greek philosophy has been shown by the critique of the systems through which it attained its highest unfolding, and by this critique it has become clear what Greek philosophy has realized of the moments lying in the concept of philosophy (cf. the Introduction), and what it has left as a task for the thinking of the subsequent age. It has realized the determination of universality insofar as it has, as free thought, encompassed reality, determined its highest principle and given it as a whole the form of ideality, and it has led thought to make itself, its essence and its fundamental relations its object. But, bound by its inner limit, it has left to posterity the unfolding of the world of thought from the principle, as demanded by the concept of philosophy, through a dialectic that not only distinguishes the opposites but unites them in a living unity, and the development of that method of knowledge, the method of experience, which relates itself to the real recognized in its self-validity. And in the determination of the relation of the fundamental opposites it has not, while it asserted the primacy of the ideal, been able to reach the conception of the concept of *spirit* as the ideal-real absolute subjectivity, and by this concept to secure the unity of existence against the dissolution into dualism that befell the Idea-determined immediate unity of the world-artwork. It was not capable of this, because its absolute, as the highest existent, even when it was conceived as *νόησις τῆς νοήσεως* [thinking of thinking], excluded negation, opposition, from itself, and therefore could not, through negation, close together with itself in the free infinity of absolute subjectivity, but stood self-enclosed in its resting being, in a separation proper to intuition, from the existence whose life-principle it was posited to [258] be, and from the human mind, which in its highest form of reality was determined as one in essence with it.

These tasks, which Greek philosophy leaves unsolved, the presentation of the subsequent main forms of philosophy will show to be, as it were, divided among those forms as their *essential* tasks.

Appendix.

Philosophy in Christian Antiquity and the Middle Ages.

In the survey of the main historical forms of philosophy (p. 7) it was indicated how the Christian world-view and view of life, through its abstract, natureless spiritualism, made impossible the development of a Christian philosophy, that is of a *whole of thought* independently unfolded from the principle of Christianity. We therefore do not speak of a Christian philosophy in antiquity and the Middle Ages, which, as a main historical form of philosophy, should stand beside Greek philosophy and the philosophy of modern times; but we speak of philosophy in Christian antiquity and the Middle Ages, since in this period we have a movement of thought influenced by Christianity, which, in calling forth the deepest movement in man's religious life, had also, in virtue of the unity of the human being, to set the life of thought in motion, however much the religious life it awakened turned away from thought. But this movement of thought fetched its forms of thought and its content of thought from the thinking of antiquity, and in the doctrinal edifices of Christian antiquity and the Middle Ages the philosophical element is a loan from the past, the properly philosophical movement only an echo of that of antiquity.

[259] The Christian natureless spirit lacked the capacity for an independent production of thought, and consistently the Christian consciousness could not even will to seek a real unfolding of thought, because its negative relation to the natural includes a negative relation to the natural capacities and powers of the human being, and so also to the thought that is borne by the natural and accords with nature, which it had to regard as lacking the possibility of the higher knowledge, which is that of faith, precisely because this thought must fall under the determinations of everything natural: nothingness and sinfulness. This negative relation to thought and to what is produced by thought had, however, since Christianity was to exist in the midst of the alien world, and in the struggle and the defense was not able to produce an independent content of thought out of its abstract negativity, to be transformed into a forced, factual recognition and adoption of what it denied in principle; and through the combination of the historically developed ancient forms of thought with the Christian there arose the phenomenon that has been designated as Christian philosophy.

That in this the philosophical element is a loan from the past is shown when we consider the movement of thought in the two divisions of time into which what has been

called Christian philosophy naturally divides itself: the time of the Church Fathers and that of the Scholastics.

The time of the Church Fathers is the time of the formation of dogma. In it the content of the Christian faith is unfolded into a circle of dogmas to which no essential member needed afterwards to be added; and in the course of polemic, first against what stood outside Christianity, then against what within Christianity was branded as heretical, the Fathers of the Church lay the foundation of a theological doctrinal edifice, and a systematizing of the circle of dogmas is begun on the basis of the main dogmas once fixed. The forms of thought used for the formation of the doctrine were taken, in the earliest time from the Stoics and the Alexandrian philosophy of religion, later from the renewed Platonism, whose spiritualistic tendency gave it so many points of contact with Christianity, and which towards the end of the time of the Church Fathers exercises an altogether overwhelming influence on Christian theology. Since the ancient [260] forms of thought were employed, a difficulty had to arise in bringing the doctrines peculiar to Christianity, such as the doctrine of the God-man, of creation and of evil, into the alien forms without distortion. For the immediate religious consciousness of the believing Christian, for religious feeling and notion, the difference between the pagan and the Christian stood out immediately, and a distinction was drawn, with greater or less determinateness, between the *content* of Christian faith and that of pagan knowledge. Yet the connection of the ancient Church with antiquity through nationality and language was so strong, and the men who, not only in the Eastern and Greek but also in the Western Church, represented the thought of Christian antiquity were, by their culture, by all the presuppositions of their mental life, so inwardly bound to the ancient, that a clear knowledge of the *principle* of the opposition did not become possible, and in consequence clarity as regards the boundary between the domains had to remain incomplete. Essentially, one arrived only at setting a difference of degree between the more complete truth of Christianity and the limitation of philosophical knowledge, or at stating a difference in the practical motive and the practical consequences, not at stating the principle of two heterogeneous kinds of knowledge; and since, while urging the limitation of philosophical knowledge, one distinguished between philosophy as such and the individual philosophical systems, there lay in this a recognition of thinking, which had its consequences in the conception of the gnosis that is to develop out of faith. But since the difference of principle is not clarified, and the boundaries between the domains of faith and of thought therefore cannot be sharply maintained, the heterogeneous is involuntarily mixed. Even the most peculiar Christian doctrines, by being brought into

the forms of ancient thought, were subjected to an alteration by which the peculiarity of
 [261] the content of faith was impaired. The Christian concept of God was now led back to the Aristotelian determination of *Noûς τέλειος* [perfect Mind], now the conception of the later philosophy had its effect in the notion of the corporeality of the divine. In the doctrine of creation the Greek view of an eternal world of Ideas and an eternal matter, or the Greek-Oriental view of an emanation of power, frequently asserted itself. In the doctrine of the God-man the ancient concept of the Logos forced its way in, as it had been developed by the Stoics and Philo, and especially in the Apologists we see the concepts of these thinkers applied immediately to the specifically Christian and transforming it into a speculative theorem about the divine reason immanent in the world. And even in the dogma of sin, despite the decisive divergence of the Christian religious consciousness from the ancient, the ancient metaphysical conception of evil as a non-being, as limitation and imperfection, has its effect, even in an Augustine.

During this unconscious metamorphosis of the Christian content of faith, the conscious relation to philosophy nevertheless remains this: that philosophy is posited as serving and subordinate to the supra-rational, revealed religious content. Taken as a whole, therefore, the doctrinal edifices of the Church Fathers, which essentially confine themselves to the religious problems and are poor in physical and ethical inquiries, are theological, not philosophical. There is not in them an unfolding of a total rational world-view and view of life, or a rational grounding of dogma. The world-view and view of life rest on suprarational presuppositions, and the rational grounding of dogma becomes illusory, since it is not the peculiarly Christian, the dogma in its specific form, that is maintained as a necessity of thought, but only the abstract metaphysical parallel to the dogma, such as the determination of the divine as the Absolute, as One and as Spirit, or the elements of thought taken over from the ancient, by which the Christian has been metamorphosed. Where the peculiarly Christian comes forward unaltered, it stands before thought either as something not comprehended, or as something formally
 [262] derived from what is not comprehended. This stands out especially clearly from the time when the Catholic Church has given the fundamental dogmas their fixed form, and thinking now relates itself to this form in its striving after rational grounding. Earlier, while the central points of the religious view of life still had the mobility of life, they afforded easier points of attachment for that illusory grounding in thought, since the ancient content, to which a development of thought could attach itself, more easily slipped in under the notion of faith. —

When in the *Christian Middle Ages* a philosophical movement begins among the

peoples of the West in Scholasticism, the dependence on antiquity that was grounded in the immediate connection of nationality has ceased, and new, vigorous races had replaced the nations of antiquity as bearers of the historical development. Among these new peoples the philosophical endeavor acquires a greater energy, and when the effort is made to give a Christian doctrinal edifice that comprehends the totality of faith and knowledge, and joins the content of faith and the content of thought into a whole, it is done with the clearer consciousness of the difference of principle that is the condition for a reconciliation, a real unity, being brought about. And yet here too we see the elements separate, the peculiarly Christian withdraw from knowledge, and the attempt to form a whole of thought miscarry.

If we designated the time of the Church Fathers as that of the formation of dogma, we may designate that of Scholasticism as the time of the working-up of dogma, of the formal appropriation of dogma. In the former division of time the Christian spirit had unfolded dogma into an essentially completed whole of objective truths; in the latter it has the unfolding of dogma behind it as a stage passed through, and the task now becomes this: to appropriate the objective truth for consciousness. As the means to this, philosophy is employed, which in this period too is taken over from antiquity, especially the philosophy of Plato and of Aristotle. Its forms are applied to the content of the Christian faith, which lay before it in the doctrine of the Church as an object of unshakable authority, and Scholasticism seeks, by the path of the reflecting and [263] syllogistically demonstrating understanding, to justify the dogmas of the ecclesiastical system to the thinking consciousness, so far as this could be attempted at all from this standpoint. For the task could not, since the truth of the Church's faith stood as an unshakable presupposition, become this: to place itself above the object in order to let thinking freely produce its content; but only to place itself over against it in order to find the right interpretation of dogma, in order to understand the connection of the dogmas, in order to let the analyzing understanding give itself an account, not of the ratio of the whole, but of the rationes of the individual dogmas, and in order, with regard to the whole, to maintain in negative form the content of faith as the not-impossible.

The beginning of Scholasticism must be placed where the attempt at such a rationalizing of dogma was made with a definite consciousness of the task, and with a clear result of this striving. This first happened with *Anselm of Canterbury* (1033–1109), who may therefore be regarded as the founder of this scholastic philosophizing. From him onwards the development of Scholasticism divides into 3 periods. The first seeks to determine the relation between faith and knowledge; it treats the main dogmas dialectically, and

in comprehending the material of the Church's doctrine it seeks, starting from those dogmas, to gain a survey of it. The second period (from the 13th cent. to the beginning of the 14th) is the culminating time of Scholasticism. In it the whole circle of the dogmas is brought into a richly articulated system, and philosophy and theology come in it into as close a connection as is at all possible. In the third period this connection begins to loosen, at the same time as the systematizing power is lost. And as knowledge and faith fall apart from one another, through nominalism, which gives the universal an existence only in our notion, thinking and being fall apart from one another, and Scholasticism dissolves.

If we wish to form a clear notion of the nature of the combination of philosophy [264] and dogma that we have in Scholasticism, this can be done partly by examining the successive development of the determination of the relation between the principles of the two spheres, knowledge and faith, partly by showing, through a consideration of the great scholastic systems, the relation between the heterogeneous components of these systems.

The determination of the relation between knowledge and faith shows a development that is essentially conditioned by the very endeavor to bring about a union, since this striving necessarily had to clarify consciousness about the relation.

In the important thinker who forms a transitional link between the time of the Church Fathers and Scholasticism, in *Johannes Scotus Erigena* (born c. 810, died c. 877), the question of the relation of faith and knowledge had been answered by a postulate of the harmony between the activities of mind that spring from the same source, faith and reason, a harmony in which reason was to be the overreaching and primitive element. With the same confidence in knowledge that was peculiar to the old ecclesiastical gnosis and to the systems, strongly influenced by Neoplatonism, of the closing period of patristics, Scotus Erigena posits true philosophy as equal to true religion. Reason and authority both have their origin in the divine wisdom. But reason is what is given with creation itself; authority has proceeded from reason, and therefore reason has a priority over authority. In the time of Scholasticism proper, on the other hand, the development goes in the direction of subordinating the knowledge of reason to the knowledge of faith; and as the difference posited by the subordination is sharpened more and more by being led back to the incongruence between the natural and the supernatural (natural thinking and supernatural revelation), one arrives at last at an abstract opposition between faith and knowledge, between the truth of religion and that of science, so that the difference, at first merely quantitative, not only becomes a

qualitative one but grows into an irreconcilable opposition; and as this development approaches its conclusion, one is no longer content to determine the relation between faith and knowledge as a relation between two forms of knowledge which in reality have [265] only the name in common, but one leads them back to different functions of mind, faith being supposed to have its origin in us from an act of will; and one then lets theology, which rests on faith and whose aim is in the first instance a practical one, blessedness, become not a speculative doctrine but a practical doctrine, which is to grip and determine our will.

In the first period of Scholasticism *Anselm*, with his *credo ut intelligam* [I believe in order that I may understand], posits faith as starting point and norm; but he demands a knowledge that takes the content of faith up into itself, and he ascribes to comprehended faith a higher worth than to uncomprehended faith. And *Abelard*, with his *intelligo ut credam* [I understand in order that I may believe], gives knowledge a still greater significance as grounding faith, while *Berengar* maintains reason as the higher than authority. In the great representatives of Scholasticism in its culminating time, *Thomas Aquinas* and *Duns Scotus*, a higher knowledge of faith is distinguished from the knowledge of reason not enlightened by grace; but Thomas maintains, alongside the necessity of faith, its agreement with reason, since reason too is a revelation of God; and Duns Scotus maintains, by his doctrine of the “proportionality” between opposites (e.g. between the acting and the suffering, form and matter), that what is supernaturally given is received naturally through self-active cooperation on the part of the rational subject, which possesses an infinite capacity for receptivity; yet he concedes that we cannot attain to comprehending faith, which he lets have its human origin in an *act of will*. In the third period of Scholasticism, finally, in consequence of the absolute separation made between the supernatural and the natural, the difference between the higher knowledge of theology, which is given through the faith produced by a spiritual creation, and natural knowledge is sharpened to such a degree that secular science, which does not reach beyond the sphere of experience, is not even to be able to give a pointer to the divine truth, a preparation for our higher end. It is now declared, e.g. by *William Occam*, [266] that something can be true in theology that is false in philosophy, and conversely; and herewith Scholasticism has itself pronounced its judgment on the union that was its essential task, and on which it has labored with mighty powers and an enormous energy; it has itself separated the two elements and the two principles that it attempted to twine together.

To the same result as through the consideration of the relation of the principles we

are led by the consideration of the most thoroughly worked-out scholastic systems, as they were formed in the flowering time of Scholasticism by men such as *Albertus Magnus* (1193–1280), *Thomas Aquinas* (1227–1274) and *Duns Scotus* († 1308). In these systems the philosophy of antiquity, especially that of Aristotle, is employed to the greatest extent, and the attempt to fuse it with Christianity is made with the greatest energy, and with an acuteness and a formal virtuosity of thought that is admirable. But even these powerful minds and incomparable master-builders of thought do not succeed in bringing the heterogeneous to unity, and they themselves pronounce the admission of this.

The task for these thinkers was to set up a Christian doctrinal edifice which in its systematic unity comprehended the totality of faith and knowledge. We now see the solution of this task attempted by them in the form that the ancient world-view, which was gathered up in the notion of the harmoniously ordered divine universe comprehending the whole of the forms, is, as it were, forced into the setting of the Christian. The intuition of the reality of the world in its fullness, which had to be taken from the philosophy for which the world was a reality, and which for antiquity was the whole, now becomes, joined with the Christian content of faith, a part, inserted into a larger whole whose beginning and end, which determine the character of the whole, belong to Christianity. Before the natural universe is set the nature-free, almighty, [267] creating, triune God; after it the Christian heaven, the supernatural kingdom of grace. But the beginning and the end were, by Scholasticism's own admission, something inaccessible to thought, something incomprehensible, hence in essence heterogeneous with what filled the interval between them. As regards creation, the production of the material world by the natureless, purely spiritual God, hence by a God in whose essence there is no point of attachment for the natural, is something that contradicts thought. What is posited as an effect of God is what is absolutely heterogeneous with his essence, and it is what, as opposed to his essence, would have to limit it, while, as the opposite of the spiritual, the only true, it would be something untrue whose existence was self-contradictory. An appeal to the divine omnipotence as the ground of explanation of creation is a help only for faith, but not for thought. In Scholasticism, as in our own time in the so-called speculative dogmatics, an attempt could be made to veil the incomprehensibility by attaching the content of nature more closely to God, e.g. by placing the ideas of nature in God's understanding, or by conceiving nature as having come to be through the communicability of God's essence in different degrees; but these hints, which would lead back to the view of antiquity, or at any rate away from the Christian view, since the notion of a communication of essence, which includes

a necessary and eternal relation, stands in the sharpest opposition to the notion of an arbitrary creation in time and out of nothing, are not carried through. And Albertus Magnus expressly lets matter be created by God through an *incomprehensible* act of will, just as Duns Scotus conceives the world as the product of the absolute, *arbitrary* divine will; but by the determination of creation as something arbitrary its comprehensibility is expressly denied. And Thomas Aquinas denies the comprehensibility of God's very essence, because he is the absolutely infinite and the absolutely simple, while the dogma of the triune God is, from the culminating time of Scholasticism on, declared by all the Scholastics to be inaccessible to philosophy. But since the starting point of the system is thus posited as inaccessible to thought, it is thereby settled that from this presupposition [268] no system could be developed that, as a whole of thought, bore the stamp of necessity determined by reason.

But what holds of the starting point of the systems holds also of their end point. The otherworldly kingdom of blessedness is the consummation of the kingdom of grace. But the working of grace is not a continuous unfolding of the natural capacities, but a miracle, by which these are in a supernatural way re-created, transformed into something new that is not even prepared for by natural development. Every working of grace therefore falls outside the sphere of thought, and the otherworldly heaven, in which the miracle of grace reveals itself, is posited as the absolutely incomprehensible. Thus, then, the beginning and the end of the systems, as objects of the "higher knowledge" of faith, which has only the name in common with the knowledge that belongs to knowing proper, withdraw from knowledge and show themselves heterogeneous with the material that was taken over from the world-view of antiquity, and the bringing about of a *whole of thought* out of the different elements shows itself to be impossible.

There could then still only be a question of a *homogeneous whole*, which might have been formed if what was taken over from antiquity had been so reshaped, and through the reshaping so *assimilated* by the Christian, that the unity of a spiritualistic view of life, determined by the principle of the Christian that is inaccessible to thought, had been brought about. We indicated above that the character of the whole had to be determined by the beginning and the end; and when we consider the scholastic systems more closely, it also turns out, as indeed lies in the nature of the case, that what forms their beginning and end does not stand passive and indifferent beside what is enclosed by it, but that this is reshaped through its relation to what encloses it. Since God is posited as creator, the universe, which is transformed from an eternal cosmos into something created, is posited as a product of will, i.e. as that which lacks necessity and has no essentiality,

[269] as that which in itself is a nothing and is borne up only by the divine omnipotence. In other words: with creation, which is the first all-comprehending miracle, the miracle is posited as the point of view for the conception of nature. At every moment and at every point the miracle then breaks through the connection of nature and the law of nature, and thereby cancels law as such, and the very persistence, unaltered for a time, of the natural is only its preservation through the repetition of the miracle of creation. That which alone acts in nature is, for the eye of faith, the divine omnipotence; the supernatural is, as Duns Scotus expresses it, the concept and ground of nature, nature's proper essence. And in this nature, essenceless in and for itself, the Christian spirit has no rest; it is in it only as in something alien, which, when it acts as nature, is seen as evil, and which constantly, merely as existing in its nothingness, is felt as a hampering barrier and is wished annihilated. The direction of the spirit follows the supernatural working that proceeds from the almighty will, in order, in this existence, as miraculous working to break through the barriers of nature, as working of grace to break through the natural conditions of human life, and by the former as by the latter to anticipate the consummation that is accomplished when the rays of the supernatural gather into one light, in the kingdom of blessedness. In the notion of this kingdom, nature, whose nothingness was in the past posited for the whole through creation, and in the present is posited for the individual through the miracle, is in a new form posited as that which is a nothing for the spirit, and which therefore one day, when history is concluded and God's counsel accomplished, shall again cease, become nothing because it is from nothing. In the otherworldly existence all the barriers of nature, which are felt only as hampering bonds, are annihilated, and the natureless spirit lives, in the enjoying contemplation of the purely spiritual divine, its infinite blessed life.

Thus the ancient world-view, and the content of reality that was taken from it, is transformed at its ground by subordination to the Christian. The whole conception of
 [270] the essence of nature, the whole theoretical and practical relation of the spirit to it, is altered in principle. Nature, as created, has lost its essentiality; its laws are dissolved by the miracle; it can no longer be an object for theory, for the spirit seeks in it only the supernatural; it cannot be the foundation of the moral life, for the spirit flees nature, which, when it asserts itself as nature, is seen as evil; it does not, as something valid in itself, limit the arbitrariness of the spirit, for through imagination the abstract, natureless subjectivity gives itself an infinity for which no barrier exists, and the spirit rules, to all appearance, with unlimited power over impotent nature. And yet, despite this metamorphosis, there shows itself, and must show itself, a resistance on the part of the

original ancient element, through which the apparently achieved unity becomes insecure and inconsistencies force their way in.

That a resistance and a reaction of the ancient element could not fail to appear lies already in this: that for man, who is a mental being only in being at the same time a natural being, the supranatural conception of existence always requires a naturalistic starting point; that the supernatural is supernatural only by rising above a natural that is presupposed, not explained by it; that man can live the purely spiritual life in its abstraction only by reaching it at every moment through turning away from the worldly, so that, where a spiritualistic standpoint is sought to be carried through, an independence must nevertheless indirectly be ascribed to the natural, as the opposite and condition of the supernatural. We accordingly find also in the Christian Middle Ages that the natural foundation by which the ancient view of life and world-view was borne asserts itself not only in the common consciousness but also in the philosophical. In the former it asserts itself in the demonic power that nature, denied and feared, continues, as an essential moment in the human, to exercise over consciousness. In the philosophical consciousness, in Scholasticism, its influence, through which the ancient world-view asserts itself, appears in the doctrine of the realization of form in the connection of nature, of the differences of degree in nature, and of the significance of the natural for the [271] development of human life in intellectual and ethical respects. In all these determinations an essentiality is conceded to the natural precisely through the concepts of development and stage of development; for only within the essential can a difference of degree and an unfolding be given, not in the essenceless; only a nature valid in its essence can acquire significance for the development of the spiritual. The denied natural thus forces its way forward unconsciously; only through it does thought gain a foothold and the world-view a content; therefore it is unavoidable that it asserts itself. And even if its significance is cut off again, since form is to be seen as realized in an existence posited by a creation, whose continuity and determinateness of essence are cancelled by the miracle, and in which God's omnipotence is what immediately acts and is essential; and since the whole natural life, including the whole natural moral conduct, the ethical virtues, which were determined as the necessary presupposition of the theological, is posited only as a means for something supernatural, which does not realize itself through natural development, is not present in it, but enters from without, by a new miracle of creation, as a higher order complete in itself, as an alien eternal world over against the temporal; — then it loses its significance only in order the next moment to wrest it back again. For only in the denial of the natural, in the flight from it, is the supranatural; and the denial of it and

the flight from it, which presuppose that it was posited as a reality, exist only in that it is constantly posited anew as such a reality, certainly in order to be denied again, pushed away again, but in order then nevertheless, in an eternal cycle, to come back as what is uncomprehended in its origin, and therefore independent in its being. —

[272] The final result with regard to the scholastic systems is then this: that they seek in vain to unite heterogeneous principles and heterogeneous elements. A whole of thought they could not form; for everything specifically Christian is, as the content of supernatural revelation, expressly posited as incongruent with natural thinking. Only in that element of the ancient which asserts itself against the metamorphosis does thought have a temporary point of attachment; but this ancient element stands in the theological system as a foreign fragment; from the whole in which it finds a place through an unavoidable inconsistency, comprehending thought is excluded. The principle of the whole is the miracle, but the miracle is the annihilation of thought. Of a “Christian philosophy” there can thus be no question here, but only of a theological doctrinal edifice, which is nevertheless prevented, by the foreign element it cannot assimilate, from forming itself into a homogeneous whole. —

It is true that in Scholasticism, since thought was taken into the service of the Church’s doctrine, an enormous virtuosity of reflection developed; but the unfree thinking of Scholasticism had to become formalistic and devoid of reality, and unfit to unfold an independent philosophical world-view. Scholasticism, as we have seen, took its forms of thought, just as fully as patristics did, from the philosophy of antiquity. But since it took over forms from a view of life that was alien to it, it had involuntarily to separate these forms from the ancient view of life and take them up merely *as* forms, in which it then moved by a reflection of the understanding that removed itself more and more from reality and its fullness of content. And since they were to be applied to the specifically Christian content, which stood above thought as an unshakable authority and proclaimed itself to be of a higher nature than thought, the nature of this content too had to prevent Scholasticism, in its use of them, from getting further than a formal thinking that had no hold in self-consciousness and in nature. The specifically Christian content is not dissolved in thought; for however long consequences of the incomprehensible presuppositions are spun out by means of the forms taken over, this still does not become a content of thought. Since the forms of thought become external and alien forms for the object of faith, the object cannot through them be appropriated by self-consciousness; [273] at the most there can be brought about by them a sort of external connection between consciousness and the object, not a union of them in a living unity. The understanding,

which reflectively uses the forms, which distinguishes, defines and proves syllogistically from commonly accepted presuppositions, does not comprehend; for only that is comprehended which has an attachment in self-consciousness and is assimilated by thought. Of a positive grounding of the content of faith by comprehending thought there is no question; it is only to be maintained negatively as the not-impossible.

Scholasticism is dissolved from within, as its heterogeneous elements separate from one another, each with its own truth, and theology itself leaves to philosophy the sphere of experience and of the natural. The thinking mind feels itself unsatisfied by its unfreedom (which remains in principle, even though the differences among the authorities and the unsettled shape of various dogmas give thought, as it were, some latitude), by its lack of a content of reality, by its alienness to self-consciousness. The religious spirit feels itself unsatisfied by its formalism of the understanding. And while in the religious domain mysticism gains strength through this feeling, there develops in the philosophical domain an independent philosophy, determined in its direction by the deficiencies of Scholasticism.

But the inner process of dissolution in Scholasticism and the development of a new thinking are essentially hastened by many influences coming from outside. Of essential significance in particular was the effect of the rise of the natural sciences, of the founding of new, freer universities, of the assertion of the nationalities, of the development of the vernacular literatures, of the unfolding of the forms of a secular moral life, of the beginning flowering of art, and finally of the revival of antiquity, which brought what was fermenting in the age to a powerful breakthrough. Through all the phenomena of the new movement of the spirit, which come forward at the same time as Scholasticism loses its support through the decline of the hierarchy during the schism of the papacy, there runs something common: the craving for freedom and the craving for reality, for an ideal fullness in the present. This craving led the spirit away from the authority [274] of the Church and from the natureless transcendent spiritual; it led towards nature as the real content of thought, as the rational existing in the form of objective reality, as the foundation for a true and full concrete unfolding of human life; and it led towards self-consciousness as a source of truth. The mind, which in Scholasticism had bowed unfreely beneath the uncomprehended authority of dogma, which had busied itself in an external and formal manner with borrowed forms of thought, now seeks within itself, as self-conscious mind, to find the laws of thought, in order to be able to know itself as free, the first condition of all philosophy, and in order to be able to find itself again in what is thought as determined by reason. — That the general direction of the age had to

be essentially strengthened by the revival of acquaintance with classical antiquity and by the enthusiastic study of it lay in this: that this study led back to the intuition of an ideal human life, borne by nature and rich through its harmony with it. In this life the liberated self-consciousness found itself again and found a satisfaction for its natural craving. — Through its altered direction the spirit had regained the condition for the development of a real philosophy (cf. p. 8); with the preponderance of this direction in thinking the dominion of Scholasticism ceases; with its carrying through in principle and consistently begins the independently formed *modern philosophy*.

Corrections.

[The leaf of *Rettelser* bound at the end of this part lists five corrections (pp. 15, 63, 144 [275] twice, 212); a further thirty for this part, headed *1ste Deel*, are printed on the *Trykfeil og Rettelser* leaf of the second part. Since they correct the Danish wording, they are not translated here; both lists are transcribed in the Danish editions. The English text above follows all of them at their sites, where the Danish edition keeps the printed reading.]